



BICI v0.90: Bayesian Individual-based Compartmental Inference

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1) Introduction

Compartmental models are a mathematical framework used to simulate how populations of individuals move between different states or "compartments". They have long been used as a means of understanding the collective dynamics of interacting agents, with notable applications in epidemiology, chemistry and ecology. The most well-known example is the so-called "SIR model", in which individuals are divided into either being susceptibility to disease (S), infected and infectious (I) or recovered/removed (R). Transition probabilities between these compartments capture the spread and recovery from disease (see §1.6 for further details).

1.1 BICI features

- **Arbitrary compartmental models** — A graphical interface allows for easy model specification and can accommodate an arbitrary number of compartments in multiple classifications (*e.g.* disease status, location and/or demographic grouping).
- **Markovian and non-Markovian transitions** — Allows for more realistic models (*e.g.* disease recovery can be modelled using a more adaptable gamma distribution instead of assuming a simple rate).
- **Multiple species** — Allows for multiple interacting species (*e.g.* predator-prey models, pathogen accumulation models or disease vectors).
- **Individual and population-based** — Individual-based models have a timeline for each individual in the system¹, whereas population-based models track the number of individuals within different compartments as a function of time. The former allows for individual-based data to be analysed, as well as providing the greatest flexibility in terms of transition distributions, but the latter is usually much faster (*e.g.* applicable to a very large population such as a region or a country). BICI allows for combining population and individual-based species together within the same model.
- **Individual variation** — Allows for variation (on top of compartmental stratification) by incorporating individual-based covariates, or individual effects (*e.g.* for quantitative genetics models).
- **Parallel** — A parallel implementation can be used to tackle big problems (*e.g.* on a Linux cluster).
- **Variation in time** — Allows for the possibility of model parameters to vary in time according to spline functions.
- **Scripted language** — Referred to as "BICI-script", this can be used to construct, store, and export complex models and allow for them to be run on HPC².

1.2 Modes of operation

- **Simulation** — A simulation samples system dynamics, otherwise referred to as the "state", from the model given a set of model parameters. The initial conditions can be set and the dynamic variation in the model can be graphically represented in a variety of ways.

¹ This timeline keeps track of which compartment an individual is in at any given time point.

² High-performance computing.

- **Inference** — This generates estimates for model parameters as well as underlying model dynamics based on data. BICI can take a variety of different individual and population-based data types (e.g. state data, population estimates, event times, disease diagnostic test results, individual covariates, genomic relationship matrix data, pathogen genetic data).
- **Posterior Simulation** — This simulates from the model using parameters estimated from inference. It can be used for future prediction, scenario analysis, counterfactual analysis and posterior predictive checking.

The focus of this manual is on the practicalities of running the BICI software tool (a description of the statistical models and Bayesian inference methodologies underlying this tool are available in the following papers [1–5], and a manuscript relating to many innovations implemented within BICI itself is currently in preparation).

1.3 Downloading

BICI is freely available under the GNU General Public License, and can be downloaded from the GitHub repository github.com/theITEAM/BICI.

Depending on your platform, the following instructions explain how BICI is run:

- **Windows** – Download the file “BICI_v0.90_windows.zip” and unzip. BICI is run by clicking on the “BICI.exe” icon (if the error message “Windows protected your PC” appears, click on “More info” and “Run”).
- **Linux** – Download the file “BICI_v0.90_linux.tar.gz”. This can be extracted by using the terminal command “tar -zxvf BICI_v0.90_linux.tar.gz”. The code is executed using “./BICI”.
- **Macintosh** – Download the file “BICI_v0.90_mac.zip” and unzip. BICI is run by clicking on the “BICI.app” icon (if the error message “BICI can’t be opened because it is from an unidentified developer...” appears, right click on “BICI.app” and select “Open” to give the option to run).

1.4 The user

Users of BICI may come from diverse backgrounds and various disciplines. We imagine that it will be used by different people in different ways. Here are some examples:

- **The casual user** – They might work entirely within the graphical interface. They could, for example, create and run simple SIR-type models. Inference could be done using time-series population infection data in ‘.csv’ format. BICI could be useful as a teaching aid to introduce concepts in epidemiological modelling.
- **The serious user** – Complex models can be loaded using input files or through BICI-script. The interface can generate executable files that can be run in parallel on a Linux cluster. The outputs from this can then be read back into the interface for visualisation.
- **The pipeline user** – BICI-script could be created by a user-coded program, run by the core code and the output files used for some other purpose, *i.e.* a seamless pipeline that doesn’t require the visual interface at all.

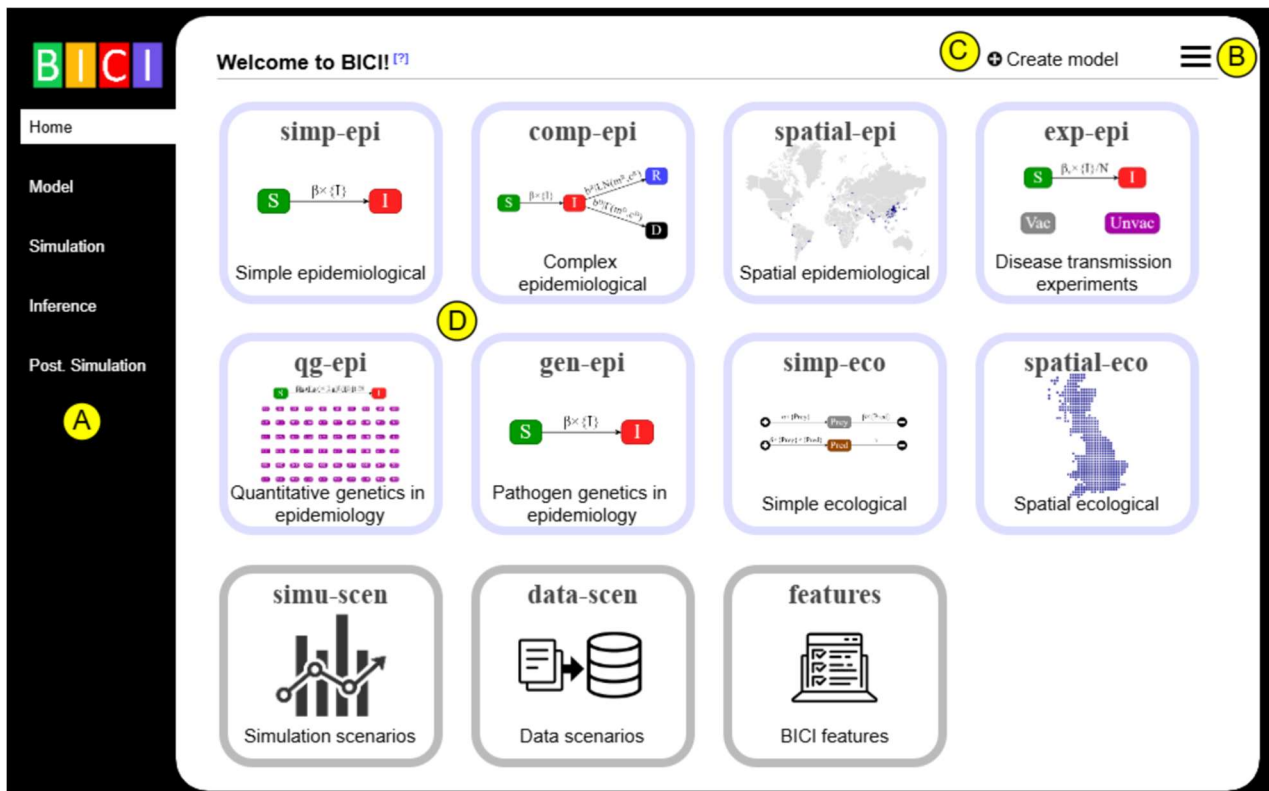


Figure 1 – The home page. A: The main menu (used for navigating between pages), B: The drop-down menu (for loading, saving and exporting, see §6.2), C: Create a new model, D: Examples (see §8).

1.5 Getting started

Figure 1 shows the home page displayed when BICI is first loaded. The main menu on the left (Fig. 1A) is used to navigate from page to page. Opening one page may open further submenus with different options. The structure of this manual broadly follows the tree structure of this menu.

Section 2 describes setting up a compartmental model, §3 deals with simulation from the model, §4 incorporates data to allow for Bayesian inference and, finally, §5 looks at posterior simulation (which can be used for future prediction and counterfactual analysis). Section 6 discusses input and outputs, §7 looks at BICI-script (with further details in Appendices A, B and C), and, finally, an extensive set of examples is provided in §8.

To start using BICI three options are available: a previous model/analysis can be loaded from the drop-down menu (Fig. 1B, see §6.2), a new model can be started (Fig. 1C) or one of the example applications can be investigated (Fig. 1D). These examples demonstrate a wide variety of different models and data scenarios that illustrate the capabilities of BICI in a variety of different situations (see §8). They can be modified in any way, and their default settings will be restored when reloaded from the home page (Fig. 1D).

New users are encouraged to try the examples first and spend some minutes exploring the software to get a feel for how BICI’s interface works. Alternatively, they can have a go at creating their own model by following the tutorial in the next section.

Whilst exploring the software, make use of the many [?] help buttons that provide much of the information outlined in this manual.

1.6 Tutorial

In this tutorial the user will learn how to:

- Construct a simple SIR model.
- Simulate from that model.
- Generate a simulated dataset.
- Do inference on that data to generate parameter and state estimates.
- Perform a counterfactual analysis.

1.6.1 Setting up a simple SIR model

Follow these steps:

- A new model can be started by navigating to the “Home” page (on the main menu on the left-hand side) and clicking the “+ Create model” button in the top right-hand corner.
- BICI allows for multiple interacting species to be added (for example, predator-prey models, or disease vector models). The example here focuses on just a single species. Let’s add one named “People” and select it to be population-based.
- Next, we add a classification. BICI allows for individuals to have multiple classifications. For example, they may be classified by their disease status, or their age, or their locations. For now, we will set up a single classification called “DS”, standing for “disease status” (don’t worry about all the other options).
- The next job is to add the compartments. This can be done by clicking “+ Compartment” on the lower menu bar. Let’s set up three compartments called ‘S’, ‘I’ and ‘R’ and give them different colours. The workspace should look something like this:



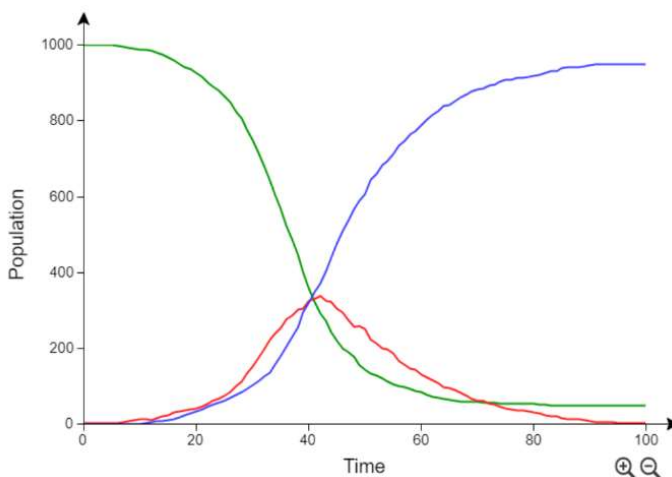
- Now let’s add some transitions. These allow individuals to change the compartment they are in. Select “+ Transition” from the lower menu bar and click first on ‘S’ and then on ‘I’. An arrow going from one to the other should appear. Attached to this is a panel with gives details of the transition. The “distribution” option determines the type of probability distribution that describes the time the individual resides in ‘S’ before moving to ‘I’. The “exp(rate)” option means that there is a certain defined rate with which the transition occurs (*i.e.* a Poisson process).
- Here we set that rate to $\beta \times \{I\} / N$ (note, Greek characters can be added by typing using Latex notation, *e.g.* ‘\beta’ automatically becomes ‘ β ’, and the ‘*’ character automatically becomes ‘ $\times$ ’). In BICI notation the curly brackets denote “the population of”, so ‘{I}’ represents the total number of infected individuals.
- Notice that there is no ‘S’ in this expression. This is because BICI uses individual rates of transition, not population-wide rates (as are sometimes shown).
- Add in a recovery rate γ and the model should look something like this:





1.6.2 Simulation

- Next, we add some individuals to the model. Click on the “Simulation→Setup” page and then “⊕ Init. Pop.”. Click “Next” to indicate that we are setting up a fixed initial population with the graphical interface.
- Click on the different compartments to select how many individuals start in each of them. Set them such that $S=1000$, $I=1$ and $R=0$ (i.e., we are going to look at the effect of a single infected individual entering an otherwise susceptible population) and click “Done”.
- On the “Simulation→Parameters” page set $N=1001$ (i.e., the total population size), $\beta=0.3$ and $\gamma=0.1$ (these correspond to an individual taking on average 10 days to recover from infection and a basic reproduction number³ of $R_0 = \beta/\gamma = 3$).
- We now set up the simulation on the “Simulation→Run” page. Select a start time of 0, an end time of 100 days and a time-step of 1 (note, longer time-steps speed up simulation/inference but can lead to discretisation errors⁴).
- Click on “Start” to see what happens...

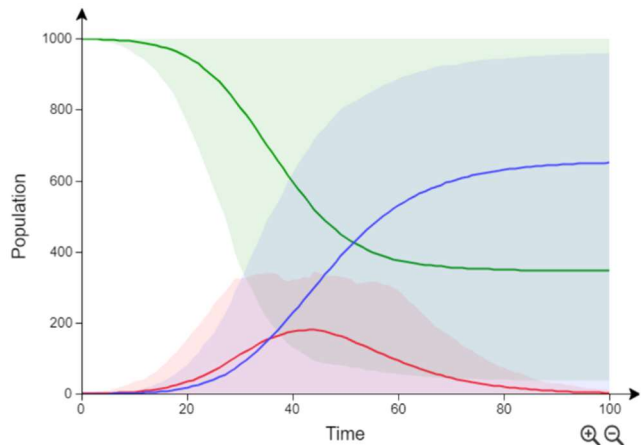


- The output should be something like this, which shows the population variation over time in the three compartments.
- Try looking at different visualisations on the “Simulation→Results” page.

³ R_0 is defined as the expected number of cases directly generated by one case in a population where all other individuals are susceptible to infection.

⁴ As a rough guide, provided the time-step is less than ~20% of the shortest mean transition time, the discretisation error should be relatively minor.

- Go back to “Simulation→Run” and set the simulation number to 100. This produces 100 simulations. The solid lines give the average behaviour, and the shading indicates the region that encompasses 95% of simulations.
- We find huge so-called “stochastic” variability⁵. Sometimes “epidemic extinction” occurs when, despite the fact the basic reproduction number is greater than one (*i.e.* $R_0 > 1$), the epidemic dies out for stochastic reasons.



1.6.3 Generating simulated data

We now generate some hypothetical data from the simulation results in the previous section:

- Go to the “Simulation→Generate Data” page and select “Init. Cond.” from the drop-down list in the bottom left-hand corner.
- Click on “+ Init. Pop.”. This shows data representing the initial population. Click “Done” twice to add to the list of generated data sources.
- Select “Population” from the drop-down list in the bottom left-hand corner and click on “+ Population”.
- We now tell BICI that we want to generate time series data that estimates the infected population at periodic time intervals. Click on “Comp.” and then select the ‘I’ checkbox (see right). The observation error is set to ‘Poisson’, which means that there is some inherent error in the observed values compared to the real values. We set a time-step of 10 days and click “Next” to generate the data.
- Click “Done” to add this data to our list.
- Finally, click on “Copy” and “OK” to copy the simulated data into the “Inference→Data” page so we can perform inference on it.

1.6.4 Inference

- The data sources should look like this:

Data ^[?]					
Name	Type	Details	Number	Spec.	Table
Initial population	Init. Pop.	-	1001	View	Edit ×
Pop. data	Population	I	10	View	Edit ×

- Now the data has been added, let’s consider the prior. Go to the “Inference→Prior” page.

⁵ Stochasticity is defined as having a random probability distribution or pattern that may be analysed statistically but not predicted precisely. Epidemics are stochastic because they result from random processes, such as random contacts within a large group of individuals.

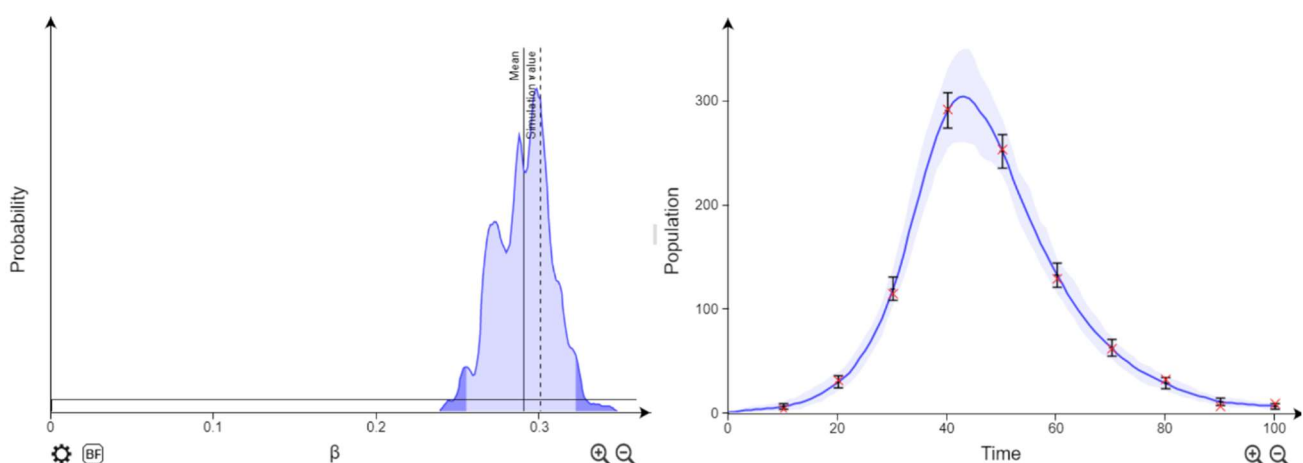
- The prior captures previous knowledge about the parameter values before the data is considered. For example, if we are very certain about a quantity, we could fix its value. If, on the other hand, we are very uncertain, we could use a wide probability distribution to represent a plausible range of values.
- Supposing we don't know much about the disease, here the prior is chosen to be wide and relatively uninformative: a uniform prior between zero and one for β and γ .
- N , the population number, is fixed to 1001.
- We start inference by going to the "Inference→Run" page and fill out a start time of 0, an end time of 100 and a timestep 1 (if they have not been automatically been filled in).
- BICI gives some different possibilities for the algorithm used to perform inference. Here we select the "DA-MCMC" option.
- The number of updates informs how long the algorithm takes to run. Running for longer may produce a better approximation to the posterior, but it can also be computationally wasteful. *A priori* it is difficult to know what this number should be, but the default value of 5000 is usually a good first guess. MCMC diagnostics can be used to determine if inference needs to be rerun using more updates (see §4.4.7 for details).
- MCMC "chains" run in parallel, so helping to speed up computation. Each chain runs on a separate CPU core. Since modern computers typically have 4-8 cores, the default number of chains is set to 3 (to avoid the computer slowing down too much). An additional advantage of running parallel chains is that it tells us something about the reliability of the results (see §4.4.7).
- Click on the "Start" button to begin the inference.
- This example should take just a few seconds to run...
- A variety of different visualisations of the posterior can be found on the "Inference→Results" page (see Appendices H-K).
- Here are some results that show: (1) the posterior distribution for the parameter β on the left (note, this distribution contains the value used to simulate the data, denoted by the vertical dashed line) and (2) the infected population as a function of time on the right (where the red crosses represent the observed data and the error bars provide uncertainty in those measurements):

Parameters^[?]

$N \sim \text{fix}(1001)$

$\beta \sim \text{uniform}(0,1)$

$\gamma \sim \text{uniform}(0,1)$



1.6.5 Posterior simulation

Posterior simulation can be used for future prediction and counterfactual analysis. Here we consider the effect of an intervention to reduce disease transmission mid-way through the epidemic.

- Go to the “Post. Simulation→Parameter Mult.” page and click on “+ Multiplier”. Select the parameter β .
- “Multipliers” act by multiplying the corresponding parameter by a potentially time varying factor.

Set the parameter multiplier as follows:

Parameter factor

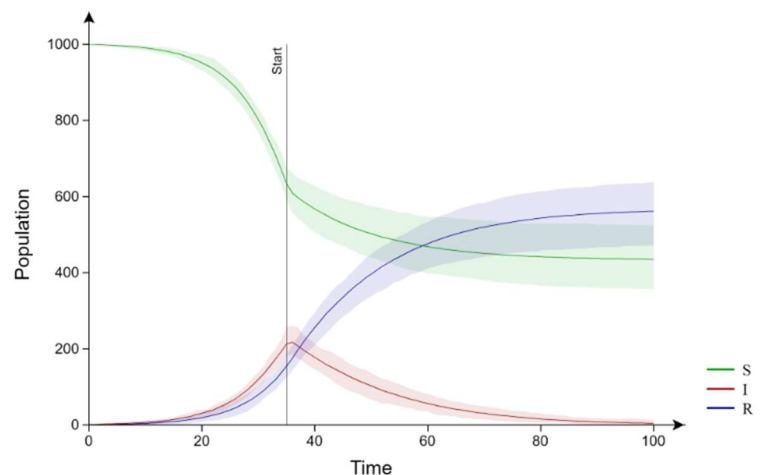
KNOTS: start,35

TYPE: ☐ Linear ☒ Square ☐ Cubic +ve ☐ Cubic

$f \sim \beta(t) = [1, 0.3]$

View ✕

- This defines a square spline (see §2.2.4 for different sorts of spline) that starts with a constant value of one until day $t_{\text{inter}}=35$, at which point it immediately falls to 0.3 for the remaining time (this can be visualised by clicking on the “View” button). This is equivalent to a disease intervention introduced at t_{inter} that reduces the transmission rate β to 30% its previous value (for example, this could be due to the introduction of mask wearing during the Covid-19 epidemic).
- Go to the “Post. Simulation→Run” page and set the start time to 35 and the end time to 100. This corresponds to the epidemic progressing as before until t_{inter} and subsequently predicting the effect of the intervention.
- Click “Start”.
- The graph on the right shows that the intervention drastically reduces the impact of the epidemic.



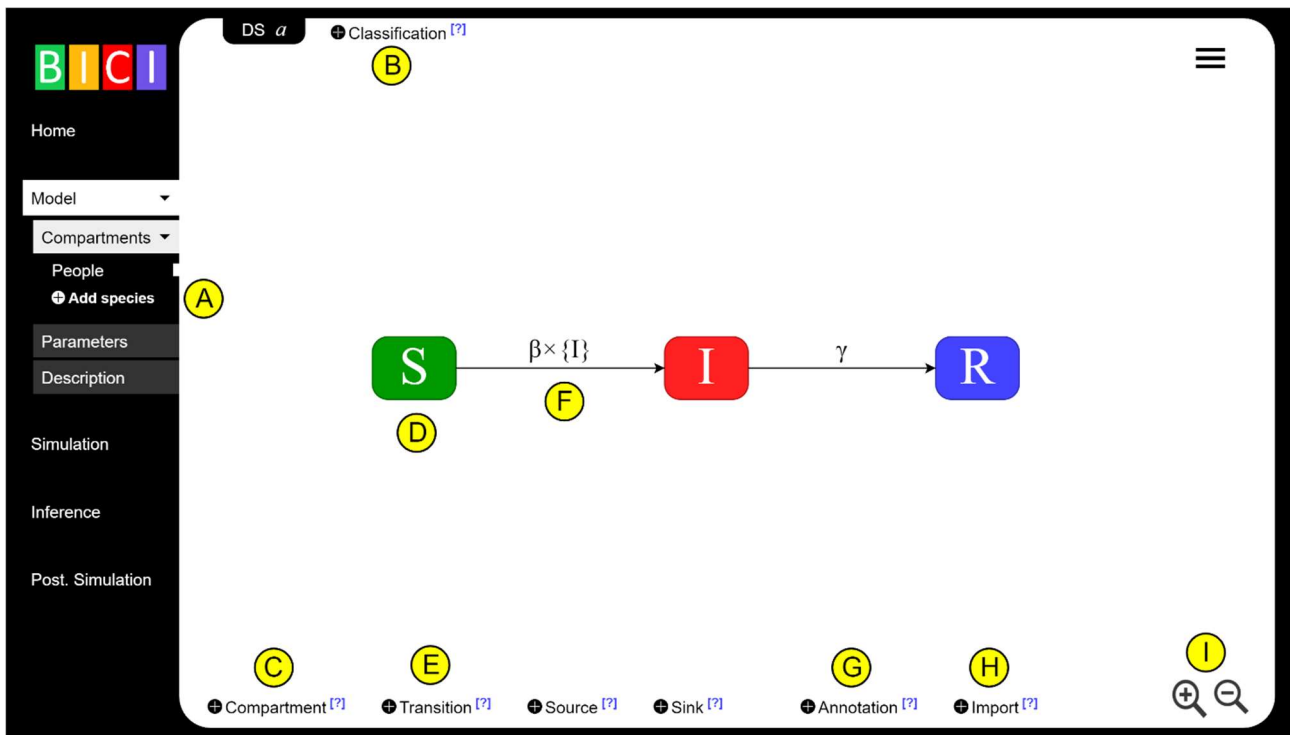


Figure 2 – The compartmental model. This shows an SIR compartmental model (the compartments represent ‘S’ susceptible, ‘I’ infected and ‘R’ recovered/removed). A: Add a species, B: Add a classification, C: Add a compartment, D: A compartment, E: Add a transition, F: A transition, G: Add an annotation, H: Import compartments and transitions, I: Zoom in and out of the model.

2) Model

This section describes model specification, which encompasses both compartmental structure and parameter definitions.

2.1 Compartmental model

The “Model→Compartments” page (Fig. 2) shows how a compartmental model is defined. Three layers of division are used to differentiate individuals within the system. These are discussed in the next three sections:

2.1.1 Species

Species group together individuals of the same type. In many cases only one species will be present, *e.g.* people. In other cases, however, different species can interact, *e.g.* predator-prey models, disease models with vectors, or models that account for the accumulation of pathogen in the environment (here the pathogen, itself, becomes a species).

A species can be added by clicking on “+ Add species” (Fig. 2A). Three types of species can be created:

Add species^[?]
×

Name:

Type:

☐ Population-based
☒ Individual-based
☐ Deterministic

☐ Calculate transmission tree

Add

- **Population-based** – The total numbers of individuals in different compartments are tracked as a function of time. Only population-level data can be used, and transitions are restricted to have either exponential or Erlang distributed waiting times.

- **Individual-based** – Here each individual in the system has its own timeline. This allows for individual-level data (as well as population-level data) to be utilised in inference, and enables the greatest flexibility to define transition distributions. Furthermore, the dynamics of individuals can vary (beyond their compartmental classification) thanks to so-called “individual” or “fixed” effects. Individual-based models, however, can become computationally slow when they contain many individuals.
- **Deterministic** – The same as population-based above, but with inherent stochasticity turned off. This is appropriate when population sizes are large, such that stochasticity is relatively unimportant. This approach runs the fastest.

Transmission tree – If the model is individual-based, a further checkbox allows the user to select if the transmission tree is calculated (this keeps track of who is infecting whom). This is of primary use in cases in which genetic information on the pathogen is available (otherwise it is generally turned off to help speed up computation). If selected, it is necessary to choose which classification relates to the infection process and then go on to select “infected” compartments in that classification (see §2.1.3).

See §2.1.12 for restrictions on the naming of species (along with other properties below).

2.1.2 Classifications

A classification is a discrete means of differentiating individuals. Examples of typical classifications include disease status, location or sex.

A classification can be added by clicking “+ Classification” (Fig. 2B) at the top of the page. It is usually given a short but meaningful name (such as ‘DS’ for “disease status”) and an index. This index is a single letter that can be used in mathematical equations to represent all the possible compartments within the classification.

A coordinate system is used to determine the location of compartments. Cartesian coordinates are used to represent the usual block style of compartmental models, as shown in Fig. 2 (*e.g.* the SIR model). In spatial models, an alternative is to use geographical coordinates (that use longitude and latitude information). These can represent a map-based distribution of points (*e.g.* farms) or regions⁶ (*e.g.* local authorities).

Cloning – “Cloning” a classification is used to copy compartments from one species to another (note, once cloned the two classifications must always share the same compartments, but may have different transitions). Cloning is useful when two or more species share the same classification (*e.g.* in disease transmission experiments the individuals and pathogen share the same set of closed contact groups).

⁶ Regional boundaries can be loaded up using GeoJSON/TopoJSON file formats.

2.1.3 Compartments

Compartments are possible states a classification can take. They are added by clicking “+ Compartment” (Fig. 2C), which allows the user to place them onto the workspace (Fig. 2D). A compartment name is usually chosen to be short (conventionally a single upper-case letter), *e.g.* ‘S’ to represent susceptible individuals. The colour of the compartment can be selected (by convention this is green for susceptible ‘S’ and red for infected ‘I’). These colours are used for plotting population graphs when results are generated. The position of the compartment can be fixed by selecting the checkbox, otherwise it can be dragged around the screen with the cursor.



When multiple exponential transitions leave a compartment, the “Add branching probability” checkbox allows the user to select whether branching probabilities are implemented. If branching does occur, the “Use branching factors” checkbox specifies so-called “branching factors” (see §2.1.6).

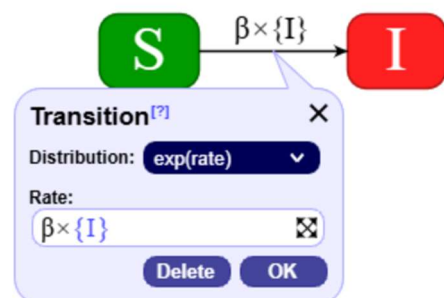
In cases in which the transmission tree is turned on (see §2.1.1), a further checkbox allows the user to select if the compartment corresponds to an “infected” state.

See §2.1.9 for importing compartments into the model from a file (useful if there are many of them, or they are made up of geographical boundaries).

2.1.4 Transitions

Transitions allow for individuals to move from one compartment (initial) to another (final). Clicking “+ Transition” (Fig. 2E) and then selecting the initial and final compartments adds a transition to the model. For example, when an individual becomes infected it moves from an initial susceptible ‘S’ compartment to a final infected ‘I’ compartment (Fig. 2F).

Note, intermediary points can also be added to map out a path instead of just a line, *e.g.* this could be used to add a non-straight arrow going from ‘R’ back to ‘S’ again in Fig. 2 to incorporate waning immunity.



Different possible probability distributions can be selected for the transition time⁷:

- **exp(rate)** – The exponential distribution is specified by a rate. Such transitions are known as “Markovian”, because they occur with a probability per unit time independent of when the individual entered the initial compartment. Such an approach is valid for random processes (*e.g.* contacts between different members of a population leading to the spread of infection).
- **exp(mean)** – As above, but specified through a mean.
- **gamma** – The gamma distribution is specified by a mean and coefficient of variation⁸. An example application of the gamma distribution is to model the incubation period (time duration between

⁷ Specifically, this is the time difference between when the individual enters the initial compartment to when it makes the change to the final compartment.

⁸ The coefficient of variation is equal to the standard deviation divided by the mean.

becoming infected and then becoming infectious) as used in an SEIR model. Such a transition is expected to be non-Markovian, because the time an individual becomes infectious (after becoming infected) depends on complex processes underlying immune system dynamics.

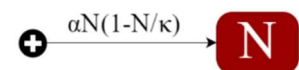
- **erlang** – The Erlang distribution is specified by a mean and a shape (where the shape must take a positive fixed integer value). This is a special case of the gamma distribution.
- **log-normal** – The log-normal distribution is specified by a mean and coefficient of variation.
- **weibull** – The Weibull distribution is specified by a scale and shape. It is somewhat like the gamma distribution, but is used in preference under certain circumstances.
- **period** – Here the event happens after a certain prescribed time. For example, this could be used to represent the predictable increase in age of an individual. The period must be specified as a positive number.

The defining quantities (means, shapes *etc.*) for these distributions are set via user-defined equations (see §2.1.10). Note, if a species is set to “population-based” or “deterministic”, only the “exp(rate)”, “exp(mean)” or “erlang” distributions can be selected from.

See §2.1.9 for importing transitions into the model from a file (useful if there are many of them).

2.1.5 Sources and sinks

A source transition allows for individuals to enter the system (*e.g.* because of births occurring). The probability per unit time (or rate) at which this occurs is determined by a user-defined equation that can contain model parameters, populations and be dependent on other classifications. Unlike normal transitions (which define *individual-based* transition probabilities), the equation for a source set the *overall* rate at which individuals enter the system. Note, if the equation is stratified by another classification, the rates entering each subpopulation are specified separately⁹.



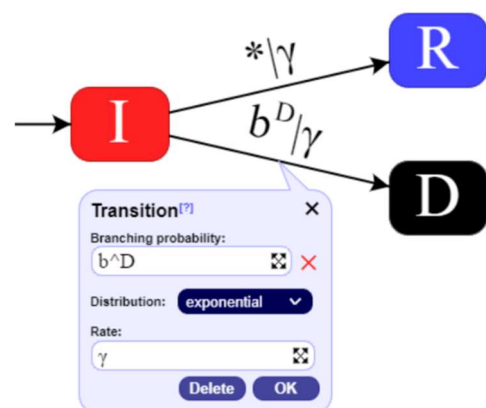
A sink allows for individuals to leave the system (*e.g.* because of deaths occurring). Sinks have the same options as for other transitions.



2.1.6 Branching

In cases in which multiple transitions leave an initial compartment, there are three possibilities:

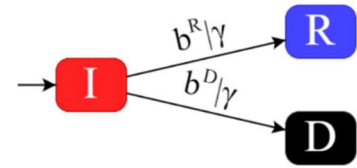
- **No branching probabilities** – In this case, all the transitions must be exponentially distributed (note, even here branching probabilities can explicitly be added by clicking on the “Add branching probability” checkbox when the initial compartment is selected).
- **Branching probabilities** – An equation on the transition is used to determine the probability an individual selects a particular branch when they enter the initial compartment. Note, one of the transitions has no



⁹ To give an example, suppose a model has a source entering the S compartment and a further classification “Sex”. If the source rate is defined as “ α ”, this means α individuals enter the system per unit time on average, with 50% male and 50% female (up to stochastic variation). If the source rate is defined as “ α_S ”, then a rate α_M enter as male and a rate α_F enter as female, *i.e.* the different possibilities add up.

probability associated with it because, by definition, the probabilities must add up to one (this is denoted by “*” in the workspace).

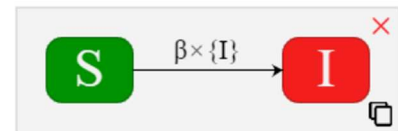
- **Branching factors** – This option is turned on by clicking on the initial compartment and selecting the “Use branching factors” checkbox. The branching factor equation is defined down each transition to denote the *relative* probability of going down that branch. Consequently, the branching probability is given by the branching factor divided by the sum of all branching factors leaving the initial compartment. In the example on the right the probability of dying (*i.e.* entering the D compartment) is given by $b^D / (b^D + b^R)$. Such a definition is useful because, unlike branching probabilities, branching factors are defined for any positive number making them suitable for incorporating fixed and/or individual effects.



2.1.7 Building up a compartmental model

Numerous compartments and transitions can be added to a classification. Compartments can be dragged across the workspace to move their location or edited to change their colour or name.

Multiple compartments can be selected by dragging a box with the right mouse button pressed down. These selected compartments can be moved, copied or deleted.

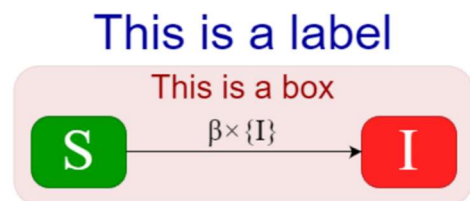


For large compartmental models (*e.g.* spatial models with many farms), it may be necessary to zoom in and out of the workspace. This can be done by clicking on the zoom buttons (Fig. 2I). Zooming in can, alternatively, be done by double clicking on the workspace.

2.1.8 Annotations

Although annotations play no part in how a model works, they can be used to clarify the meaning behind different elements. Different types of annotations can be added by clicking on the “+ Annotation” button (Fig. 2G):

- **Label** — These are user-defined text labels that can be positioned anywhere on the workspace.
- **Bounding box** — These are labelled boxes that bound selected compartments.
- **Map** – A map can be loaded in GeoJSON/TopoJSON format (note, this is only available when geographical coordinates are used), *e.g.* maps could be added as a visual reference for farm locations.



2.1.9 Importing

Creating large numbers of compartments and transitions would become laborious using the point-and-click interface. For this reason, BICI allows them to be imported using the “+ Import” button (Fig. 2H).

The following options are available:

- **Compartments** – Load multiple compartments from a file.
REQUIRES – A data table containing the column “Name”, which gives the compartment names to be added. Optionally, position data can also be included by columns “x” and “y”, giving the *x* and *y* position in the workspace (in Cartesian coordinates), or “Lat” latitude and “Long” longitude (in

geographical coordinates). Also, a column “Color” can be used to allocate colours to compartments (either in hexadecimal format, *e.g.* “#ff0000”, or RGB format, *e.g.* “rgb(255,0,0)”).

EXAMPLE – This shows an example of an input .csv file (viewed in Excel) which loads up ‘S’, ‘I’ and ‘R’ compartments at specified locations and with specified colours:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	Name	x	y	Color				
2	S	-10		0 #00ff00				
3	I	0		0 #ff0000				
4	R	10		0 #0000ff				

- **Comp. Map** – Load multiple compartments represented by geographical boundary data (in geographical coordinates only).

REQUIRES – A GeoJSON/TopoJSON file from which regions can be selected. This is a commonly used special file format that stores geographical boundary data (available from many websites and public repositories¹⁰)

- **Transitions** – Load multiple transitions from a file.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “From” gives the compartment from which the transition originates (‘+’ is used to represent a source), “To” gives the compartment to which the transition ends up (‘-’ is used to represent a sink) and “Value” specifies the transition distribution itself. This takes the following syntax:

- *exp(rate:[eq])* – An exponential distribution, where “[eq]” is replaced with an equation that determines the rate at which transitions occurs, *e.g.* ‘r’ or ‘ $\beta \times \{I\}$ ’.
- *exp(mean:[eq])* – An exponential distribution with an equation for the mean.
- *gamma(mean:[eq1],cv:[eq2])* – A gamma distribution with equations for mean and coefficient of variation.
- *erlang(mean:[eq],shape:[integer])* – An Erlang distribution with equation for the mean and a fixed positive integer shape.
- *log-normal(mean:[eq1],cv:[eq2])* – A log-normal distribution with equations for the mean and coefficient of variation.
- *weibull(scale:[eq1],shape:[eq2])* – A Weibull distribution with equations for the scale and shape.
- *period(time:[eq])* – For when the event happens after a certain prescribed time period.

EXAMPLE – This shows an example of an input .csv file that loads up transitions between ‘S’, ‘I’ and ‘R’ compartments:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	From	To	Value					
2	S	I	exp(rate:\beta*\{I\})					
3	I	R	gamma(mean:m,cv:c)					

¹⁰ A good repository of GeoJSON files can be found at exploratory.io/map.

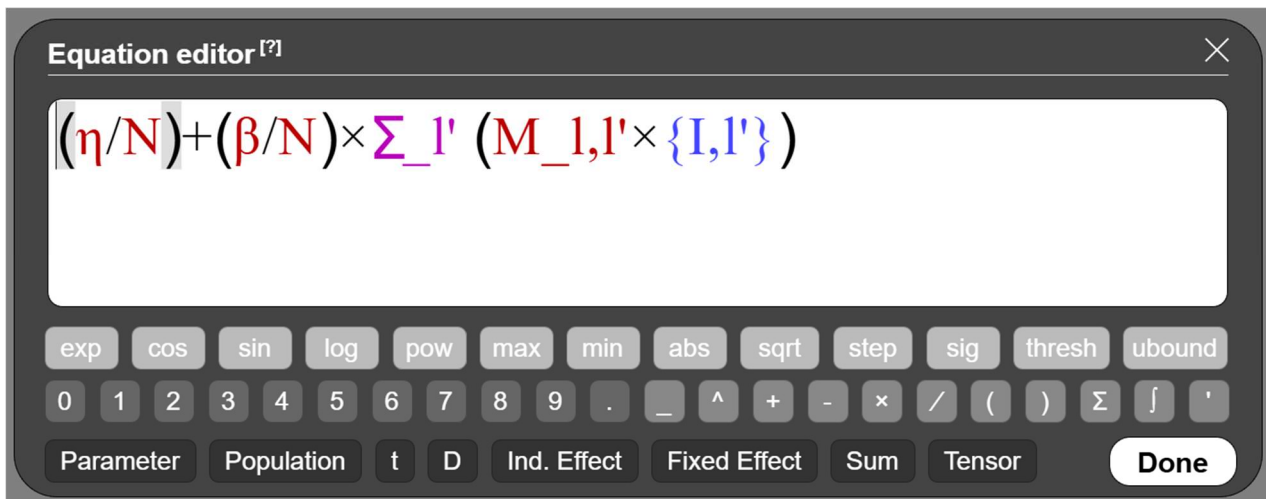


Figure 3 – The equation editor. Different options in this editor are described in §2.1.10. Parameters are shown in red, populations in blue, sums/integrals in purple, and grey shading indicates matching brackets.

2.1.10 Equations

Equations are used to represent different quantities in BICI. Examples include the rates at which individuals pass down transitions, coefficients of variation for distributions, branching probabilities, and parameters related to the observation model.

A textbox is provided to enter equations, and for simple expressions this is usually adequate. Sometimes, however, equations become complicated, and for this reason an editor is incorporated into the software. This can be opened by clicking on the '✎' icon.

Equations are potentially made up of the following elements:

- **Numbers** – Fixed numerical quantities. These can either be written as decimals (e.g. “10” or “2.34”) or using scientific notation (e.g. “1.24e3” for 1240).
- **Parameters** – These are usually represented by Greek letters (e.g. β) or a single letter (e.g. a), but can, in principle, be any text¹¹. Greek can be typed in Latex format that automatically gets converted to the equivalent character (e.g. `\alpha` changes to ' α ').

Parameters can depend upon classification indices by using an underscore (which makes a subscript when formatted). For example, ' β_a ' becomes " β_a " when formatted, which means that β is a vector that depends on a compartment indexed by a (where a could, e.g., represent different locations).

Superscripts can also be added, e.g. ' β^{Label} ' gets converted to β^{Label} . Note, superscript do not imply the parameter is being raised to a given power. They are, however, a useful way to differentiate parameters, e.g. such that β^A is treated differently to β^B . Indices and superscripts can both be used, but the superscript must always go first, e.g. ' β^{Label}_a ' is fine but ' β_a^{Label} ' is incorrect.

Parameter values must be set under model simulation, but can be estimated from data under inference (requiring prior definitions, see §4.2).

- **Populations** – These are denoted by curly brackets and represent the number of individuals within a sub-population (e.g. $\{I\}$ may represent the total number of infected individuals or $\{S,M\}$ may represent the number of susceptible males). Indexes can also be used in populations, e.g. $\{I,a\}$

¹¹ Note, they cannot contain a space or the following characters: “+-*/0123456789.<>{}()|Σf”.

could represent the local infected population in location indexed by a . The total number of individuals can be either represented by $\{\}$ or $\{\text{all}\}$.

Individual or fixed effects can also be incorporated into populations to incorporate individual variation (see §2.1.11).

- **Time** – The quantity ‘t’ is reserved to represent time. This can either be explicitly used within an equation (e.g. ‘a+b×cos(c×t)’), which is a trigonometric function involving time t), or to indicate a time-varying parameter represented by a spline (e.g. $\eta(t)$).
- **Populations at specified times** – These represent a population at a specified time point (for reparameterised splines and derived quantities only). For example, $\{I;t=20\}$ would be the number of infected individuals at time 20.
- **Operators** – Standard operators are used to combine quantities: ‘*’ for multiply (which gets converted to ‘x’), ‘/’ for divide, ‘+’ for addition and ‘-’ for subtraction.
- **Sums** – These can be used to add up over compartments within a classification. For this purpose, a “primed” index is used. For example the text input “\sum_a' (M_a,a' * {I,a'})” is interpreted as the mathematical expression $\sum_{a'} (M_{a,a'} \times \{I, a'\})$. Here the matrix $M_{a,a'}$ mediates interactions between different areas and the primed location index a' is summed over.

Sums have the format “\sum_index1',index2' (...)”, i.e. they can be over multiple indices, but the content must always be encapsulated by round brackets. If the indices are the same, double (or triple) primes can be used to differentiate, e.g. “\sum_index',index'' (...)”.

To facilitate computation on spatial models, it is possible to restrict the range of sums. For example, “\sum_a'[a,50] (M_a,a' * {I,a'})”, which gets converted to $\sum_{a'}^{d(a',a) < 50} (M_{a,a'} \times \{I, a'\})$, only sums over terms where location a' is less than 50km from location a . Note, this example assumes geographical coordinates. In Cartesian coordinates the Euclidean distance between compartments is instead restricted.

- **Time integral** – These can be used to integrate an expression over time (for derived quantities, see only §2.2.11). They have the format “\int dt (...)”, where the content goes in the round brackets. For example, the expression “\int dt (\beta * {I})” is mathematically represented by $\int \beta \{I\} dt$. By default, time is integrated over the entire system period, but limits can be placed (e.g. “\int[10,50] dt (\beta * {I})” becomes $\int_{10}^{50} \beta \{I\} dt$. Time integration can be used to estimate the relative contribution to different routes of transmission. For example, if the force of infection is given by $\beta \{I\} + \phi$ the derived quantity “\int dt ({S} * \phi) / \int dt ({S} * (\beta \{I\} + \phi))” (mathematically $\int \{S\} \phi dt / \int \{S\} (\beta \{I\} + \phi) dt$) gives the relative contribution of external infections).
- **Individual effects** – These are denoted by square brackets (e.g. $[g]$) and allow individual-based variation. Individual effects are log-normally distributed with a mean of one and a variance matrix that can be set or estimated. Additionally, they can be correlated between individuals (through some loadable relationship or genomic relationship matrix $\mathbf{A}$), which allows for quantitative genetics models to be incorporated, or correlated with other individual effects. See §2.2.2 for further details.
- **Fixed effects** – These are denoted by triangular brackets (e.g. $\langle w \rangle$) and allow for an individual property (e.g. weight) to be related to model transitions (e.g. it could be that lighter individuals become infected more quickly). To implement a fixed effect the covariate vector $\mathbf{X}$, which gives the property values for each individual in the system, must be loaded from a file. Fixed effects have a population mean of one and are strictly positive. A parameter (μ' with superscript given by the fixed effect name, so μ^w in this case) controls the strength of the fixed effect, which is either set or inferred. See §2.2.3 for further details.

- **Functions** – A selection of different functions can be added into equations:
 - $\exp(x)$ – The exponential function.
 - $\log(x)$ – The logarithm function.
 - $\sin(x)$ – The sine function.
 - $\cos(x)$ – The cosine function.
 - $\text{step}(x)$ – The step function (if $x > 0$ returns 1, else 0).
 - $\text{sig}(x)$ – The sigmoidal function $1/(1 + e^{-x})$.
 - $\text{pow}(x|y)$ – The power function x^y .
 - $\text{max}(x|y)$ – The maximum function (if $x > y$ returns x , else returns y).
 - $\text{min}(x|y)$ – The minimum function (if $x < y$ returns x , else returns y).
 - $\text{abs}(x)$ – The absolute function (if $x > 0$ returns x , else returns $-x$).
 - $\text{sqrt}(x)$ – The square root function $\sqrt{x}$.
 - $\text{thresh}(x|y)$ – The threshold function (if $x < y$ returns 0, else returns x).
 - $\text{ubound}(x,y)$ – An upper bounded function (if $x > y$ returns ∞ , else returns x).
- **Reserved parameters** – There are several special reserved parameters:
 - *Distance matrix* $D_{a,a'}$ – Defined as $D_{a,a'}$, this is set to the distance between compartments a and a' . In geographical coordinates this is given in kms and in Cartesian coordinates it represents the Euclidean distance between the coordinates of the two compartments.
 - *Identity matrix* $\delta_{a,a'}$ – Defined as $\delta_{a,a'}$, this takes the value 1 when $a = a'$, otherwise zero. This matrix is often used such that a given rate only applies to individuals in a given state. For example, ' $\beta \times \delta_{s,M} \times \{I\}$ ' would only apply when an individual's sex (indexed by s) is male (M).
 - *Density vector* DEN_a^d – Defined as DEN_a^d , this gives the compartmental density, as measured using Kernel Density Estimation (KDE). This relies on a normally distributed spatial kernel with a specified radius d . In Cartesian coordinates, this radius is given by the Euclidean distance and in geographical coordinates (latitude and longitude) it is measured in kilometres.
 - *Relative density vector* $RDEN_a^d$ – This is the same as DEN_a^d , but scaled such that the average across all compartments is one.
- **Derived functions** – BICI provides several standard derived quantities. For example, in the epidemiological setting these can be used to estimate the reproduction number or generation time using different approaches (see Appendix D for details).

Efficiency

Whilst BICI allows for a great deal of flexibility in term of specifying equations, it's worth bearing in mind that simulation and inference are substantially computationally faster when transitions rates (or means) depend linearly on populations¹². Fortunately, most spatial/demographic epidemiological models fall into this category.

2.1.11 Individual variation in populations

By default, populations in equations represent the number of individuals in a set of specified compartments. For example, $\{I\}$ represents the total number of individuals in the 'I' compartment. In some

¹² BICI makes use of this linearity to speed up many aspects of the algorithm.

instances, however, it is useful for individuals to differ in their contribution to this ‘population’. Supposing that the ‘I’ compartment represents infected individuals, it could be that some individuals are more infectious than others. Here we want the ‘population’ to represent the overall level of infectivity rather than just the number of infected individuals.

To incorporate this individual-level variation, it is possible to add individual and/or fixed effects into the population (note, this is possible for individual-based models only). The following syntax is used ‘{s ; v}’ where:

Compartmental specification s – Determines the group of individuals under study. It follows the same rules as for an ordinary population, for example it can take values ‘I’, ‘E|I’ or ‘I,g’ (where g is an index).

Individual variation v – Accounts for individual variation in contributions to the population. This consists of one or more fixed or individual effects multiplied together.

An example would be {I ; <f>}. This ‘population’ is mathematically equivalent to $\sum_{i \in I} \langle f \rangle_i$, where the sum i goes over all individuals in the ‘I’ compartment.

Note, because both individual and fixed effects are designed to have a population average of one, so the overall individual variation term v is expected to also be one on average¹³. This means that the sum would be expected to add to something like the raw population size. In other words, when variation across individuals is small $\{s ; v\} \approx \{s\}$.

2.1.12 Naming restrictions

To avoid misunderstanding, the following naming conventions must be followed:

Species and classification names – Cannot be more than 40 characters. Cannot contain the following characters “|” “*” “{” “<” “>” “}” “[]” “()” “=” “~” “’” “→” “;” “\$” “&” “#” “\” “Σ” “_” “^” or any spaces. Furthermore, the following reserved words cannot be used: “compartment”, “population”, “alpha”, “distribution” or “file”.

Compartment names – As above, but superscripts are allowed, e.g. ‘I^cow’ becomes I^{cow} , to differentiate between different compartments.

Parameters – As above, but superscripts and subscripts (for any dependent indices) are allowed, e.g. ‘\beta^cow_a’ becomes β_a^{cow} .

Classification index name – Can only be a single character from the lowercase alphabet (cannot be ‘t’, which is reserved to represent time variation or ‘z’, which is for indices on covariance matrices).

Individual and fixed effect names – As above, with no superscript or subscript allowed.

Individual names – There are no restriction on individual name, apart from the fact that they cannot contain spaces.

¹³ At least ignoring potential correlations.

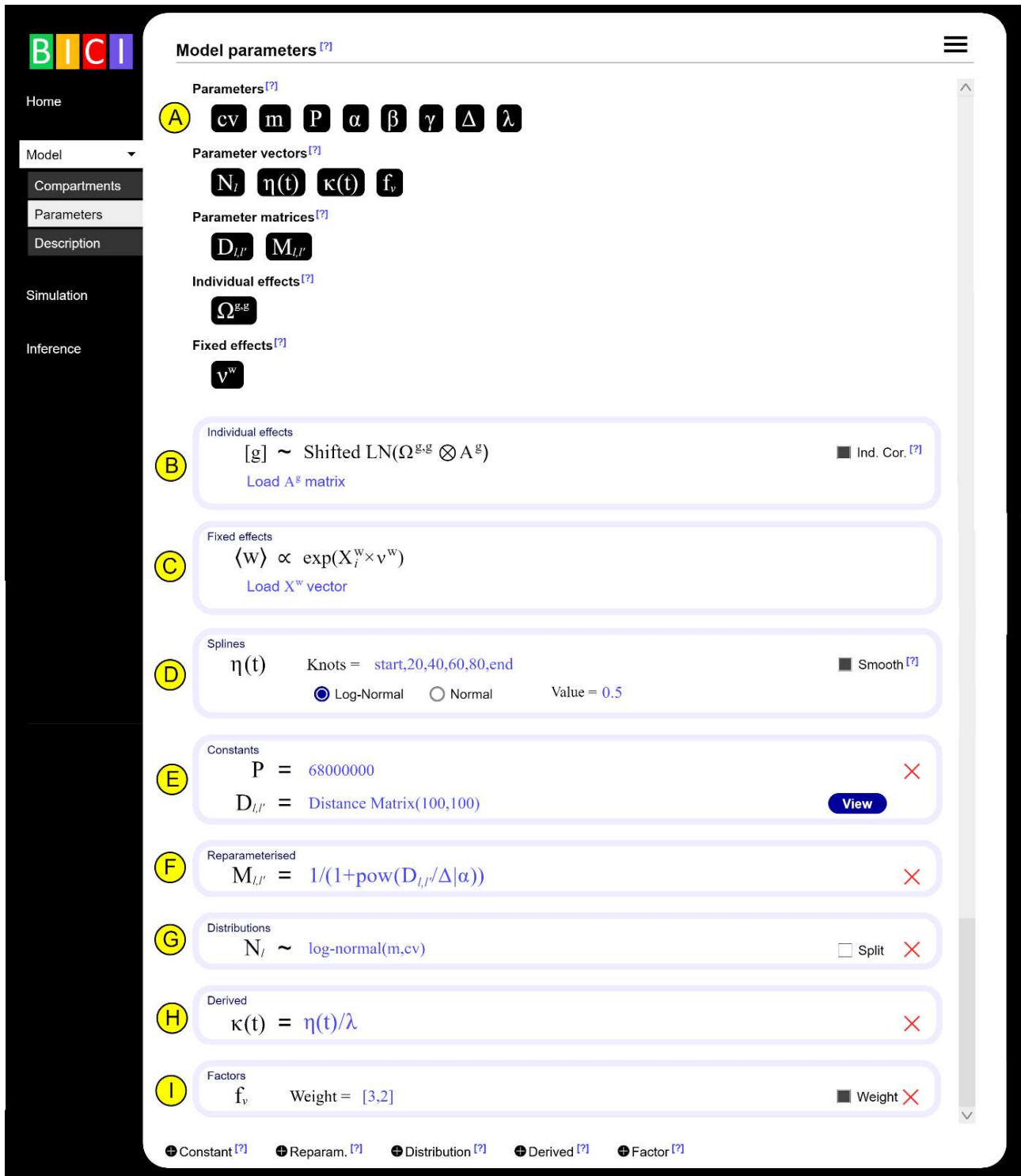


Figure 4 – Model parameters. This shows how different parameters are treated in the model. A: All model parameters, separated into categories. B: Individual effects, C: Fixed effects, D: Splines, E: Constants, F: Reparameterisations, G: Distributions, H: Derived, I: Factors.

2.2 Parameters

The “Model→Parameters” page in Fig. 4 summarises how parameters are treated in the model. The following sections describe different features of this page:

2.2.1 Parameter summary

Figure 4A shows a list of all model parameters, ordered by category. First there are univariate parameters, followed by vectors and matrices (and more generally tensors). Following this are parameters associated with variances and correlations for any individual effects in the model. Finally, parameters for fixed effects are shown. Clicking on these buttons gives a brief description of the parameter and allows for the user to jump to the part of the model in which the parameter appears.

2.2.2 Individual effects

In Fig. 4B we see that an individual effect $[g]$ has been added to the model. This represents a vector with a value for each individual in the system. Individual effects are assumed to be sampled from the following shifted log-normal distribution:

$$[g] = \text{Shifted LN}(\Omega^{\text{gen}} \otimes \mathbf{A}^{\text{gen}}) \quad (1)$$

Here the user-defined label “gen” refers to the fact that this individual effect comes from a genetic effect. The “shifted” notation corresponds to the mean on the log-scale deviating from zero to ensure that the population average of the individual effect is one (this makes sense because individual effects are used to investigate variation across individuals, not changes in the mean).

The covariance in Eq.(1) comes from the tensor product of two parts:

The first part relates to the covariance of the trait itself. In this case it is a scalar Ω^{gen} , but when more than one individual effect is included, it becomes a matrix¹⁴. BICI uses the convention whereby diagonal elements of Ω represent variances and the upper right-hand corner of the matrix stores correlations between individual effects¹⁵.

The second part comes from correlations in individual effects between individuals. These are optional, and included by selected the “Ind. Cor.” checkbox (Fig. 4B). Such correlations are a useful way to incorporate quantitative genetics into models (*i.e.* related individuals are more likely to share similar values for their individual effect¹⁶).

If selected, it is necessary to load an relationship/genomic relationship matrix $\mathbf{A}$. This can either be done directly, or from a pedigree or by loading the inverse of the $\mathbf{A}$ matrix:

A MATRIX REQUIRES – A data table with headings given by the individual IDs and a square matrix of elements that defines the relationships between these individuals (note, $\mathbf{A}$ can also include IDs of individuals who do not appear in the compartmental model itself, and individual effect estimates can be made for these). Such a matrix is commonly used in quantitative genetic analysis and can be derived either from pedigree information or genetic data. Typically, the $\mathbf{A}$ matrix will be 1 along its diagonal, 0.5 for a

¹⁴ *E.g.*, if we imagine two individual effects $[g]$ and $[f]$, a 2×2 covariance matrix Ω^{ge} would be defined.

¹⁵ Correlations, which go between -1 and 1, tend to be easier to interpret than covariances.

¹⁶ *E.g.*, if a parent is more susceptible than average, it might be likely that its offspring would also be more susceptible.

parent/sibling relationship, 0.5 for full-sibs, 0.25 for half-sibs, and become increasingly small for more distant relatives.

EXAMPLE – This shows an example of an input .csv file (viewed in Excel) which loads up the relationship matrix for 4 individuals (here ‘Ind-1’ is the parent of ‘Ind-2’ and ‘Ind-3’ and ‘Ind-4’ are half-sibs):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	Ind-1	Ind-2	Ind-3	Ind-4				
2	1	0.5	0	0				
3	0.5	1	0	0				
4	0	0	1	0.25				
5	0	0	0.25	1				

PEDIGREE REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, and “sire” and “dam” which give the names of the male and female parents (“.” is used if a parent is not in the dataset). As above, the pedigree can include IDs of individuals who do not appear in the compartmental model itself.

EXAMPLE – This shows a pedigree with 4 individuals (‘Ind-1’ and ‘Ind-2’ are parents of ‘Ind-3’ and ‘Ind-4’):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	sire	dam					
2	Ind-1	.	.					
3	Ind-2	.	.					
4	Ind-3	Ind-1	Ind-2					
5	Ind-4	Ind-1	Ind-2					

INVERSE A MATRIX REQUIRES – A data table with headings given by the individual IDs and a square matrix of elements that defines the inverse relationship matrix.

2.2.3 Fixed effects

Fixed effects allow for individual quantities to be incorporated into the model and act as covariates that can modify transition rates, means etc... Fixed effects are indicated in equations by triangular brackets, *e.g.* $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle$, which represents a vector of values for each individual in the system calculated according to:

$$\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle = ce^{\mathbf{X}^w \mu^w} \quad (2)$$

The constant of proportionality c is chosen such that $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle$ has a population-wide average of one. The vector $\mathbf{X}^w$ stores individual information (*e.g.* weight), which acts as a covariate. The strength of the interaction is governed by fixed effect parameter μ^w . If this is zero, it means that $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle$ is exactly one across all individuals (*i.e.* no variation). If it is non-zero, it means that $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle$ varies across individuals and so relates whatever equation $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle$ is in with the covariate.

Incorporating a fixed effect means that we must load the covariate vector $\mathbf{X}^w$. This is done by clicking on the “Load $\mathbf{X}^w$ vector” in Fig. 4C.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals and “Value”, which stores the individual covariate.

EXAMPLE – This example input .csv file contains the log of the weights of 4 individuals:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	Value						
2	Ind-1	0.5						
3	Ind-2	2.6						
4	Ind-3	-0.4						
5	Ind-4	0.9						

Note, logs of quantities (rather than the quantity itself) are often used for fixed effects. This is for three reasons: (1) They transform something which is positive into something that can potentially be positive or negative (and often has a closer resemblance to a normal distribution), (2) logs can tackle quantities which vary over a large range (*i.e.* many orders of magnitude), and (3) because of the log relationship $\mathbf{X}^w = \log(\mathbf{Q})$, so Eq.(2) become $\langle \mathbf{w} \rangle = c\mathbf{Q}^w$, *i.e.* the fixed effect has a simple power-law relationship with the quantity.

2.2.4 Splines

Splines are used to account for time variation in model parameters and are indicated by placing (t) after the parameter definition (Fig. 4D). The values of the spline are specified at a number of key time points, otherwise known as “knots”. Values at intermediate time points are interpolated (using a few different options, as discussed below).

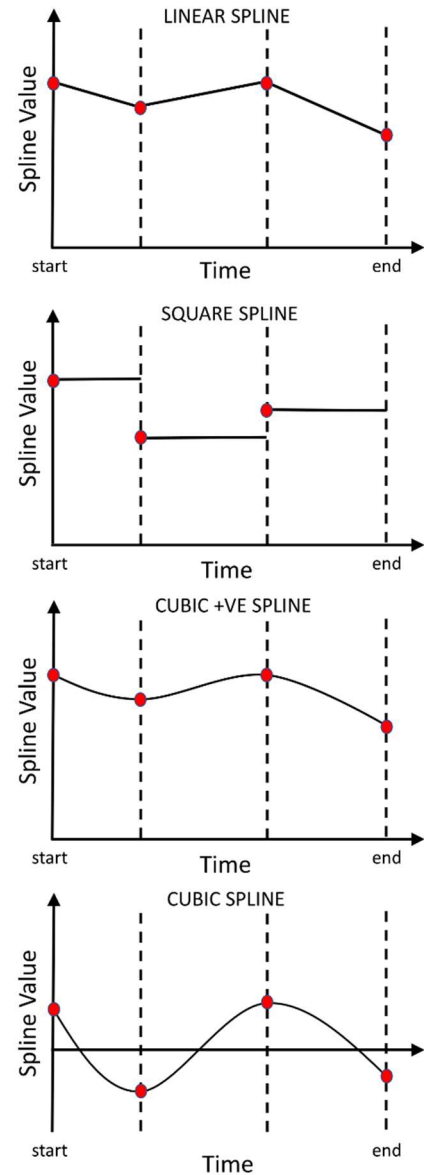
Splines can be used in three different contexts:

- (1) Time variation in a dynamic process (*e.g.*, a time-varying transmission rate $\beta(t)$).
- (2) Incorporating time-varying covariates (*e.g.*, to investigate how disease transmission depends on monthly temperature records $T(t)$). In this case the spline would comprise of constant data that would be loaded from a file.
- (3) Time variation in an underlying process that is defined through reparameterisation (see below). In this case the spline would comprise of equations for each knot time that would be loaded from a file.

Different spline types

Splines can be defined to have one of four types:

- **Linear** – All intermediate points are linearly extrapolated. This is otherwise known as “piecewise linear”. The diagram on the right shows four knots (red circles), with knot times indicated by the vertical dashed lines (one at the start, one at the end, with two intermediate time points). The solid black line shows the spline itself, which passes through the knot points.
- **Square** – This is flat between the knot times. The value is specified using the knot time at the start of each interval. Note, one fewer spline value is used to specify this type of spline.
- **Cubic +ve** – This fits a cubic spline to the log of the parameter value (hence this spline is guaranteed to be positive, provided the values at the knots times are positive).
- **Cubic** – This fits a cubic spline to the parameter values at the knot times (note, this spline is not guaranteed to be positive).



The two types of cubic spline fit piecewise polynomials (up to a cubic term) that interpolate between the knot times. They are defined to be continuous up to second derivative, so have a much smoother appearance than the linear spline. However, because a change in a single knot value changes the entire spline, performing inference using cubic splines is generally slower than for the linear or square counterparts.

The knot times can be arbitrarily set, although they must be monotonically increasing (sharp increases or decreases for a linear spline value can be accommodated by having a very short time period, *e.g.* a single time-step, between successive knots).

Clicking on the “Knots” value (Fig. 4D) opens a text box used to set the knot times (comma separated). Optionally, the special key words ‘start’ and ‘end’ can be used to represent the overall time range for simulation or inference. Intermediate points can be added, *e.g.* in the example in Fig. 4D the knots are set

to 'start,20,40,60,80,end' which means that values for the parameter are defined at the start, at times 20, 40, 60, 80 and then at the end.

Large number of spline values can be loaded from a file (see §2.2.12 for details). Furthermore, vector, matrix or tensor elements can also be splines (so $T_l(t)$ could store temperature variation at different locations l , or $M_{a,a'}(t)$ could describe a time-varying age-contact matrix).

Spline smoothing

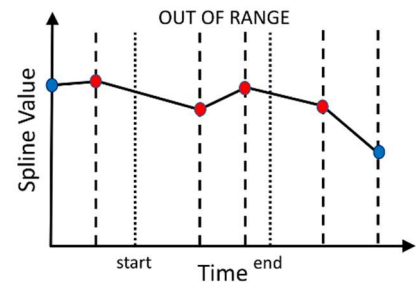
Smoothing can be added in cases in which the spline is being directly inferred (often done with linear splines, because they don't inherently incorporate smoothing). This is used to represent the fact that parameter values might not be expected to jump drastically between consecutive knots, but rather undergo smooth change. Smoothing can be applied in two possible ways:

- **Normal** – The expected distribution of the parameter value at one knot on the spline is expected to be normally distributed with respect to the value at the previous knot. This approach is appropriate when the parameter can be *negative as well as positive*.
- **log-normal** – The expected distribution in the log of the parameter value at one knot on the spline is expected to be normally distributed with respect to the log of the value at the previous knot. This approach is appropriate when the parameter is *strictly positive*.

In both cases, the "Value" can be set, which specifies the standard deviation in the normal (a smaller value implies more stringent smoothing).

Spline time range

Splines can be defined outside of the time range specified by simulation or inference. In the example on the right, the knot times span from before the simulation start time to after the simulation end time. In these instances, the spline knot immediately preceding the start time and those after the end time, along with any intermediate knots, are used to define the spline values (these knots are shown in red). Other knots are ignored (shown in blue).



Reparameterised splines

In some circumstances the time variation in a quantity is functionally dependant on other system properties. For example, one way to model a farm-based trading network is to introduce a spline that represents the probability a farm becomes infected on a daily basis. This probability is not directly known, but it is functionally related to movements of animals between farms (which are known) and the infection status of other farms (e.g., see Ex. F3.8). Such a model is achieved by reparametrizing the spline. This involves loading up equations that determine the spline values at the different time points from a file. If equations involve time varying quantities, such as populations or time-varying parameters, the spline must be defined to be square. For reparameterised square splines, populations at previous times can also be used in equations. For example, the equation ' $\alpha \times \{l; t=40\}$ ' can be used to represent the spline value between times 100 and 200 (note, the population time $t=40$ lies before the 100).

2.2.5 Constants

Parameters (including splines) can be set as constant by clicking "Constant". A constant takes that value regardless of whether simulation or inference is performed. If a parameter is only set for the purposes of simulation, this should be done under the "Simulation→Parameter" page. In the example in Fig. 4E, the parameter P (which represents a population) is set to a fixed value. The distance $D_{l,l'}$ and identity $\delta_{l,l'}$ matrices are, by definition, constant.

Constants with many elements can be loaded from a file (see §2.2.12 for details).

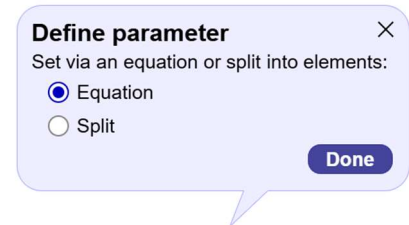
2.2.6 Definitions

A ‘definition’ allows for one parameter to be replaced with an expression. This can be done for two reasons: (1) as a way of reducing the overall number of parameters to be estimated¹⁷ and (2) to help reduce the complexity of large equations by splitting them into smaller more manageable pieces. Note, when BICI is run the original parameter is substituted out so doesn’t appear in any outputs.

Setting a parameter to be defined can be done by clicking “ Define”. Two options are available:

- **Equation** – Here the parameter is written in terms of a single equation.
- **Split** – In this case each element of the parameter is defined by a separate univariate equation. Such equations can be loaded from a file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing columns with headings given by the indices of the tensor and a final “Equation” column (see §2.1.10 for details on formatting equations and §2.2.12 for file formatting).



2.2.7 Reparameterisations

Like definitions, reparameterisation expresses one parameter (vector/matrix/tensor) in terms of expression(s) (with the same equation/split possibility). However, there are two key differences: (1) a reparameterised parameter is kept within the model and so generates outputs and (2) the way in which time is implemented is very different (definitions can contain time-varying equations, whereas reparameterisations require splines).

Note, although equation reparameterisation doesn’t typically increase code execution time¹⁸, it can substantially increase memory usage. If memory is a limiting factor, ‘defining’ an equation (see previous section), rather than reparameterising may be advisable¹⁹.

Furthermore, in the current version of BICI reparameterisation can only involve time-varying quantities (including splines, populations or explicit use of the time variable t) if square splines are used.

2.2.8 Distributions

Setting elements of a parameter vector / matrix / tensor to be sampled from a distribution is similar to specifying a prior (and uses the same set of possible probability distributions). Here, however, new parameters are introduced that characterise the distribution (*e.g.* a mean, a standard deviation *etc.*). These so-called “hyperparameters” go on to have their own prior, incorporating a hierarchical model. A classic example is that of a random effect, where for different groups a parameter value is assumed to be sampled from a normal distribution (whose standard deviations may be estimated from data).

¹⁷ An example is when a contact matrix $M_{l,l'}$ of interactions, which contains L^2 elements where there are L geographical locations, is reparameterised as a power-law spatial kernel, which only contains three parameters.

¹⁸ In many cases they make BICI run faster.

¹⁹ *E.g.*, in example SPE1.3 the spatial kernel matrix “ $1/(1+\text{pow}(D_{l,l'}/\Delta|\alpha))$ ” can be defined instead of reparameterised.

Distributions for parameters can be set by clicking “ Distribution”. The example in Fig. 4G shows that parameter vector N_l is sampled from a log-normal distribution with mean m and coefficient of variation cv .

A parameter could have one sampling distribution for all elements, or separate distributions for each element. In the latter case, the “Split” checkbox is selected (Fig. 4G). If there are many elements to set, it may be convenient to load them from a file (see §2.2.12 for details). This is done using the same format as for priors in §4.2.1, except that here the distribution quantities (means, standard deviations, *etc.*) can be set as parameters rather than numerical quantities.

2.2.9 Factors

A ‘factor’ is a parameter that depend on a classification but is constrained to have a mean value of exactly one.

For example, the expression βf_s could be used to represent the infection rate for two sexes, indexed by s . The normal transmission rate parameter β governs the overall rate of transmission and the factor f_s allow for the two sexes to have a different susceptibility (*e.g.* $f_M = 1.1$ for males and $f_F = 0.9$ for females, such that the average is one).

In some circumstances the accuracy with which different elements of a factor can be estimated may be different. Here a weight w_i can be assigned to each element i such that the weighted average for the factor is one:

$$\sum_i (f_i w_i) / \sum_i w_i = 1. \quad (3)$$

Factors have a special “mdir” prior, as outlined in Appendix F.

2.2.10 Dynamic parameters

A parameter can be set to be “dynamically” updated under simulation. This is often used to model disease intervention measures.

The parameter must represent a square time-varying spline (or tensor of time-varying splines), and as the simulation progresses the parameter’s value are calculated (depending on the current state). These values are either zero or one²⁰, *e.g.* to represent the implementation of a disease intervention or not. The following types of dynamic parameter update can be selected from:

- **bin-thresh** – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified population exceeds a threshold, otherwise zero (see §2.1.10 for a description on how populations are defined).
- **bin-min-max** – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified population exceeds a specified maximum, and returns to zero when the population is equal or less than a minimum.
- **bin-thresh-dist** – Equivalent to ‘bin-thresh’, but here a specified index relates to a special location classification (note this option is only applicable when the parameter contains one or more indices). Within this classification the population is summed over all locations within a certain distance (*e.g.* this can be used to implement ‘control zones’, where increased biosecurity is placed on farms within a certain radius of an infected premises).
- **bin-min-max-dist** – Like ‘bin-thresh-dist’ but uses maximum and minimum thresholds.

²⁰ Here ‘bin’ in the option represents the fact that the parameter takes a binary value.

- **bin-thresh-region** – Equivalent to ‘bin-thresh’, but here a specified index relates to a special location classification (note this option is only applicable when the parameter contains one or more indices). Within this classification the compartments are divided into regions (a file that associates each compartment with a region must be loaded). The population sums over all compartments within the same region (hence the parameter has the same value across a region).
- **bin-min-max-region** – Like ‘bin-thresh-region’ but uses maximum and minimum thresholds.
- **bin-thresh-eqn** – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified equation exceeds a threshold, otherwise zero.
- **bin-min-max-eqn** – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified equation exceeds a specified maximum, and returns to zero when the equation is equal or less than a minimum.

The “fraction” checkbox can be selected to use the population fraction rather than the population value itself, *e.g.* checking this box and setting the population to contain the I compartment would mean that the intervention measure turns on when the disease prevalence exceeds 10%.

2.2.11 Derived

A derived quantity is functionally related to other model parameters through an equation (Fig. 4H). Such a quantity usually has some physical meaning (*e.g.* the reproduction number R_0 in an epidemic model, which is related to the transmission and recovery rates).

The dependency of the derived quantity must be the same as that of the equation. For example, “ $f = M_a \times \{I\}$ ” would not be valid because M_a is a vector that depends on classification with index a and the population $\{I\}$ is time dependent. In this case the correct definition would be “ $f_a(t) = M_a \times \{I\}$ ”.

Derived quantities can involve time integration, and this can, for example, be a useful way to estimate the relative size of different routes of infection (see §2.1.10). Derived quantities can also involve populations at a specified time point, *e.g.* “ $g = 2 \times \{I; t=50\}$ ” would give twice the value of the infected population at time $t=50$.

2.2.12 Loading from files

If a parameter requires many elements to be specified this can be done using a file. This is usually for constant values from data (*e.g.* time series covariate data) but can also be done for the purposes of setting large numbers of distributions, priors or reparameterisation equations.

To load the elements of a parameter first select the blue expression (*e.g.* see Fig. 4) to open an editor and then click the “ Load” button in the bottom left-hand corner.

REQUIRES – A data table containing columns with headings given by the indices of the parameter (and ‘t’ if time-varying). When loading constants (or parameter values for simulation) the final column has heading “Value”. This column gives the numerical value of the vector element. Different rows relate to different elements in the parameter (and they can be provided in any order). Elements are assumed to have a value of zero if not specified in the table.

The final column has heading “Prior”, “Distribution” or “Equation” in the cases in which the prior, distribution or reparameterisation, respectively, are being specified separately for each parameter element.

VECTOR EXAMPLE – The values of a constant parameter x_a could be loaded with the following example (where the classification with index a contains the compartments 'A', 'B' and 'C'):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	a	Value						
2	A	1.2						
3	B	0.2						
4	C	-2.3						

SPLINE EXAMPLE – The values of a constant spline $x(t)$ could be loaded with the following (where the values of 't' must correspond to the knot times specified for the parameter spline):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	t	Value						
2	start	4.5						
3	40	6.1						
4	end	-9.8						

TIME-VARYING VECTOR EXAMPLE – The values of a constant vector spline $x_a(t)$ could be loaded with the following (where a classification with index a contains compartments 'A' and 'B' and the parameter has knot times 'start', '40' and 'end'):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	a	t	Value					
2	A	start	1.4					
3	A	40	2.6					
4	A	end	5.5					
5	B	start	0.5					
6	B	40	1.2					
7	B	end	1.5					

TENSOR EXAMPLE – The values of a constant tensor $x_{a,a',b}$ could be loaded with the following (where the classification with index a contains compartments 'A' and 'B' and the classification with index b contains compartments 'X' and 'Y'):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	a	a'	b	Value				
2	A	A	X	1.1				
3	A	A	Y	-0.4				
4	A	B	X	2.4				
5	A	B	Y	2.1				
6	B	A	X	2.2				
7	B	A	Y	1.3				
8	B	B	X	0.4				
9	B	B	Y	0.5				

Model 2.1: SIRD model with branching A

Objective

- Introduce branching in a population-based model.
- Here infected individuals can either recover or die.

Model

- A single population-based species 'People' is created.
- This contains a classification 'DS' which stands for 'disease status'.
- DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D. Together they are known as the "SIRD model".
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- A recovery rate γ determines the probability per unit time an infected individual recovers.
- A mortality rate κ determines the probability per unit time an infected individual dies.

Population

- This consists of 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

B
Edit

Figure 5 – Description. A: Text panel giving a description of the data, model, and analysis (this example is taken from CE1.1 in §8), B: Edit this description.

Simulation setup A

Name	Type	Details	Number	Spec.	Table
A Initial population	Init. Pop.	-	101	View	Edit ✕

B C

Init. Cond. + Init. Pop. + Add Pop. + Remove Pop.

Figure 6 – Setup. This page specifies the system of individuals/populations used for simulation. A: Table showing loaded data, B: A dropdown menu specifying the type of information to be added. C: Different types of data to add.

2.3 Description

Figure 5 shows the “Model→Description” page that allows users to provide a brief description of the model and any analysis performed. This is not only useful to keep track for personal use, but also makes it easier and more transparent for others to understand what has been done. The description can be edited by clicking on the “Edit” button. A markdown format is used that allows for the following concise formatting options: “# Title”, “## Subtitle”, “- Bullet point”, “*italic text*” and “**bold text**”. Parameters can be formatted by enclosing in dollar symbols, *e.g.* “\$a\$” or “\$b^{super_sub}\$”.

3) Simulation

Simulation relies on specification of model parameters, along with the initial conditions, and stochastically predicts the dynamics of the compartmental model over a period of time.

3.1 Setup

Figure 6 shows the page where initial conditions are loaded (as well as any individuals or populations externally added, moved or removed after the start time, or potential dynamic interventions). The table at Fig. 6A shows all currently loaded information, which can be viewed, edited or deleted.

The setup data comes in two different types, as selected using the drop-down list in the bottom left-hand corner (Fig. 6B):

- **Init. Cond.** (§3.1.1) – Provides information about the initial conditions, as well as any individuals that are added, removed or enforced to move compartment.
- **Dynamic Int.** (§3.1.2) – Potential dynamic interventions that are externally applied (*e.g.* test-and-cull).

3.1.1 Initial conditions data

The lower menu bar allows the user to add new data (Fig. 6C). Below we list the various possibilities (§3.1.1.1-3 related to population-based models and §3.1.1.4-6 individual-based models):

3.1.1.1 The initial population

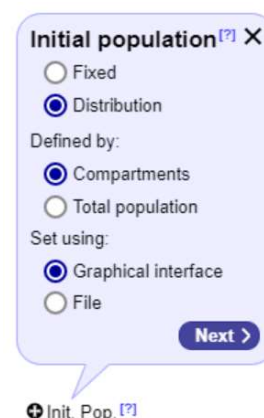
The initial population defines the number of individuals in different compartments at the start time. For population-based models, this must be specified (or if omitted it implies the initial population is zero). For individual-based models, an alternative is to leave the initial population unspecified and add known individuals at the start time (see §3.1.1.4).

Clicking “+ Init. Pop.” allows for the initial population to be specified. This can be defined in one of two different ways:

(1) Fixed – The populations in the initial state are defined and fixed.

When there is only one classification, each of the compartmental populations is simply set. However, when there is more than one classification, two possibilities exist:

- **Focal** – Here a “focal” classification is selected and populations in different compartments are defined for this. For other classifications the percentages of individuals in different compartments are given (note, one compartment is left unspecified because it is automatically calculated such



that the total adds up to 100%). This method is approximate in the sense that it relies on population distributions in different classifications being uncorrelated.

- *All* – The populations are specified for all possible combinations of compartments across all classifications. This method exactly specifies the initial population.

The population specification made with:

- *Graphical interface* – Here the point-and-click interface is used to specify populations and/or percentages in the text boxes provided.
- *File* – A file specifying the initial populations:
FOCAL REQUIRES – A data table containing columns “Compartment” and “Population”. The “Compartment” column must go through all compartments in the focal classification and all but one for the other classifications (the remaining is automatically calculated such that percentages/fractions add up to 100%). In the case of the focal classification, the “Population” column gives the number of individuals in each compartment. Other classifications are represented by percentages.

EXAMPLE – For a model containing disease status (focal) and sex classifications, this file loads up a population of 100 individuals into the ‘S’ compartment, 1 into the ‘I’ compartment and none into the ‘R’ compartment. 49% of individuals are taken to be male (and 51% female, which is automatically calculated).

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	Compartment	Population						
2	S	100						
3	I	1						
4	R	0						
5	M	49%						

ALL REQUIRES – A data table containing columns with headings given by the classification names along with “Population”, which gives the initial number of individuals within each compartmental combination.

EXAMPLE – For the model above, this sets populations individually:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
2	S	M	49					
3	S	F	51					
4	I	M	1					
5	I	F	0					
6	R	M	0					
7	R	F	0					

(2) Distribution – The initial population is assumed to be sampled from a distribution. This is set in the following way:

- *Focal* – A population distribution is specified for each compartment in the “focal” classification. For other classifications a Dirichlet distribution is set to give the probability of being in different compartments (this is defined by alpha values α_c for each compartment c such that the probability of being in c is $\alpha_c / \sum_d \alpha_d$).

- *All* – A population distribution is placed on the overall initial population N^{total} , and a Dirichlet distribution is specified for all possible combinations of compartments across all classifications.

The distribution specification made with:

- *Graphical interface* – The point-and-click interface is used to specify distributions and α values in the text boxes provided.
- *File* – A file specifying the initial distribution:

FOCAL REQUIRES – A data table containing columns “Compartment” and “Distribution”. The “Compartment” column must go through all compartment in the model. In the case of the focal classification, the “Distribution” column gives the distribution the population number is sampled from, e.g. “uniform(10,20)” (see below for formatting). Other classifications are represented by α values used to define the Dirichlet distributions.

EXAMPLE – Sex-based SIR model with disease status being the focal classification (note, the Dirichlet prior on sex implies that there are twice as many males as females):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G
1	Compartment	Distribution					
2	S	uniform(100,200)					
3	I	exp(10)					
4	R	fix(0)					
5	M		2				
6	F		1				

ALL REQUIRES – A data table containing columns for each classification and a final column with “Alpha”. This column defines a Dirichlet distribution across all possible compartment combinations. The distribution for the overall population number must be set once the file is loaded.

EXAMPLE – Sex-based SIR model with a specified Dirichlet distribution. Here the probability of being a susceptible male is $10/(10 + 15 + 1 + 1 + 0.1 + 0.1) = 37\%$. This is used in conjunction with an overall distribution in the total number of individuals, e.g. $N^{total} \sim \text{uniform}(100,300)$:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	DS	Sex	Alpha					
2	S	M	10					
3	S	F	15					
4	I	M	1					
5	I	F	1					
6	R	M	0.1					
7	R	F	0.1					

Since population distributions must be a strictly positive, they can be selected from the following four possibilities:

- “uniform(min,max)” – A flat prior distribution between a minimum and maximum value.
- “exp(mean)” – An exponential distribution with a specified mean.
- “gamma(mean,cv)” – A gamma distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation.

- “log-normal(mean,cv)” – A log-normal distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation.

3.1.1.2 Adding populations to the system

Clicking “+ Add Pop.” allows for data on any additional populations that are added to the system after the start time. Note, this is for population-based models only.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “t” the time the individuals are added, columns for each classification to denote into which compartment the individuals enter the system and “Population”, which gives the number of individuals added.

EXAMPLE – In this example 10 susceptible males are added at time 10, 20 susceptible females at time 20 and 2 infected males and females are added at time 30:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	t	DS	Sex	Population				
2	10	S	M	10				
3	20	S	F	20				
4	30	I	M	2				
5	30	I	F	2				

3.1.1.3 Removing populations from the system

Clicking “+ Remove Pop.” allows for data on any populations that are removed from the system after the start time. Note, this is for population-based models only.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “t” the time the individuals are removed, columns for each classification to denote from which compartment the individuals leave the system and “Population”, which gives the number of individuals removed.

EXAMPLE – Here individuals are removed at times 40 and 100:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	t	DS	Sex	Population				
2	40	S	M	15				
3	40	S	F	15				
4	100	I	M	10				
5	100	I	F	2				

3.1.1.4 Adding individuals

Clicking “+ Add Ind.” allows for data on any individuals added to the system. Two options can be selected:

- **Individuals can be loaded from a file** – They can either be added at the start or at any later time. REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the time individuals are added, and columns for each classification to denote into which compartment they enter the system. These compartmental specifications can be exact, *e.g.* ‘S’, or reflect potential uncertainty (see §4.1.2.1 for details on how this is implemented).

EXAMPLE – This adds five individuals to the system at different time points ('Ind-3' has an equal probability of being in the 'I' or 'R' compartments, 'Ind-4' has a 40%/60% probability of being in 'I' or 'R', respectively, and 'Ind-5' has compartmental probabilities parameterised by a):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	DS	Sex				
2	Ind-1	0	S	M				
3	Ind-2	0	S	M				
4	Ind-3	10	I R	F				
5	Ind-4	100	I:0.4 R:0.6	F				
6	Ind-5	100	I:a R:1-a	F				

The table above illustrates a case when there is uncertainty in the initial state of individuals. An alternative for an individual-based model is to specify a population distribution for the initial conditions and leave the initial state of the individuals unspecified (denoted by '.'). This is illustrated in example S2.3 in §8.

- **Single individual created per compartment** – This is useful when creating farm-based model (where the individual is used to represent the disease status of the location). A classification is selected that determines how individuals are placed (typically this classification indicates spatial location). The compartments for other classifications (that define the default initial value for individuals entering the system) are specified, *e.g.* disease status would normally be set to S for susceptible. A prefix is defined that adds to the compartment name to generate the individual name (*e.g.* location 'Loc1' with prefix 'Ind' has individual name 'Ind-Loc1').

3.1.1.5 Removing individuals

Clicking “+ Remove Ind.” allows for data on any individuals removed from the system.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals and “t” the times individuals are removed.

EXAMPLE – This removes five individuals from system at different time points:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t						
2	Ind-1	200						
3	Ind-2	250						
4	Ind-3	150						
5	Ind-4	200						
6	Ind-5	200						

Figure 7 – Simulation parameter values. This page is used to specify parameter values before simulation can be performed. A: Univariate parameters, B: Distributions, C: Vectors, D: Splines, E: Matrices, F: Individual effect parameters, G: Fixed effect parameters, H: Generate values from posterior mean, I: View the parameter definition.

3.1.1.6 Moving individuals

This moves individuals to specified compartments in a specified classification at specified times (note, this movement is enforced, and not because of an induced change, as would be modelled by a transition). For example, this could be used to represent the physical movement of animals within a disease transmission experiment from one location to another.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the time individuals are moved and the name of the classification in which the individuals are moved (this column gives the destination compartment).

EXAMPLE – In this example the movement is made in classification ‘Location’. At time 100 three individuals are move to location ‘B’ and then at time 200 they are move to location ‘A’.

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	Location					
2	Ind-1	100	B					
3	Ind-2	100	B					
4	Ind-3	100	B					
5	Ind-1	200	A					
6	Ind-2	200	A					
7	Ind-3	200	A					

Currently individual move data cannot be used on classifications that contain non-Markovian transitions.

3.1.1.7 Set individual effects

If a model contains individual effects (see §2.2.2), these effects are usually sampled from a multivariate normal distribution. This data type allows for individual effects to be set to specific values.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals and “Value” that contains the individual effect values.

3.1.2 Dynamic interventions

These possibilities allow for the dynamics of the of the system to be externally altered (typically management strategies used to reduce the impact of infectious diseases).

3.1.2.1 Test-and-cull

Clicking “ Test-and-cull” adds a dynamic test-and-culling protocol. Often a practical way to reduce the impact of disease is to cull animals if they give a positive diagnostic test result. This option specifies a procedure that tests and culls individuals as the simulation progresses (where details of the testing follow those in §4.1.2.3). The test results themselves can be accessed on the 'Simulation→Generate Data' page by clicking on ' Test-and-cull'.

3.2 Parameters

Figure 7 illustrates the “Simulation→Parameters” page. This shows all parameters that need to be specified before the model can be simulated. They fall into a variety of different categories:

- **Univariate** (Fig. 7A) – Clicking on the blue values opens a text box that can be edited.
- **Distributions** (Fig. 7B) – If a parameter has been defined as coming from a distribution (on the “Model→Parameters” page), the “Sample” checkbox allows the user to select whether to directly set the parameter values, or sample as part of the simulation procedure.
- **Vectors** (Fig. 7C) – Elements of a vector depend on different compartments within a classification (the subscript on the vector corresponds to the classification index). Clicking on the blue value opens an editor. Values for large vectors can be loaded from a file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing a column heading given by the index of the vector and “Value”, giving numerical values for the vector elements (see §2.2.12 for details).

- **Splines** (Fig. 7D) – These are treated like vectors, but here elements correspond to the knot times specified on the “Model→Parameters” page. Values for splines with many knots can be loaded from a file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing column headings “t” and “Value”. The “t” column contains a list of the knot time, *e.g.* ‘start’, 20, ..., ‘end’ (see §2.2.12 for details).

- **Matrices** (Fig. 7E) – These are quantities that depend on compartments in two classifications (which could be the same, as here, or different). Values for large matrices can be loaded from a file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing column headings given by the indexes of the matrix and “Value” (see §2.2.12 for details).

- **Individual effect covariance matrices** (Fig. 7F) – Here variances and correlations are specified that determine the variation in individual effect across the population (see §2.2.2 for details). The

matrix that specifies these is given by “ Ω ” with user-defined superscript²¹. For a single individual effect, Ω represents the variance. For multiple individual effects, the diagonals give variances and the upper right-hand corner of the matrix gives correlations between the individual effects.

- **Fixed effect parameters** (Fig. 7G) – The strength of a fixed effect is determined by a parameter with name μ and superscript given by the fixed effect name, w in this case (see §2.2.3 for details).

Alternatively, parameter values can be set using the posterior means generated under inference (Fig. 7H). Generating simulated data from a posterior fit is sometime useful when assessing how well the model fits the true data.

Once parameters have been specified, several different visualisations can be made by clicking on the “View” buttons (Fig. 7H).

Figure 8 – *Running a simulation*. This page is used to set up a simulation. A: Time range, B: Time-step, C: Number of simulations to be performed, D: Where the simulation is done, E: Click to start, F: Further options available.

3.3 Run

Figure 8 shows the “Simulation→Run” page, which allows the user to set various options before starting a simulation:

- **Time range** (Fig. 8A) – Sets the period over which the simulation is performed.
- **Time-step** (Fig. 8B) – A finite time-step is used to approximate the governing equations (see next section).
- **Number** (Fig. 8C) – Sets how many simulations are performed. Because simulations are stochastic, so each will provide a different potential realisation from the system. Visualising the overall

²¹ Set on the “Model→Parameters” page.

envelope of many simulations can be a useful way to predict probability distributions for likely future behaviour.

- **Run on local machine** (Fig. 8D) – BICI can either be run on the local machine (for small jobs) or on a Linux cluster (for big jobs, see §6.4). Because simulation is generally computationally much faster than inference, most jobs can be run locally.

Clicking on the “Start” button (Fig. 8E) gets a simulation under way. Once complete, the user is directed to the “Results” page (see §3.4).

3.3.1 How to set the time-step

The time-step Δt should be chosen to be sufficiently long to allow the algorithm to be fast, but sufficiently short for accuracy. Assessing this balance depends on the model type:

Population-based – Populations are updated with the approximate τ -leaping algorithm using Δt . This approximation starts to break down when the fastest transition rates exceed around $0.2/\Delta t$.

Deterministic – Populations are updated based on mean distribution rates using a simple Euler method with timestep Δt for solving the ordinary differential equations. As above, the longest possible time-step is determined by the fastest transition rates.

Individual-based – Individual transitions happen on a continuous timeline, so the timestep doesn’t limit the rate at which events occur (as it does with the population-based models above). Rather, the time-step determines how often equation values are updated²². Consequently, the finite timestep approximation starts to break down when Δt exceeds the timescale over which the underlying dynamic equations change substantially.

BICI allows for a potential mixture of population and individual-based species in the same model. Such mixing, however, cannot be done in the case of deterministic models²³.

Under the population-based and deterministic options, it is possible for populations to become negative (because of finite-size time discretisation)²⁴. If this happens occasionally it is usually not a problem. If it is systematic, however, it is advisable to reduce the time-step.

A run-time warning is generated if the time-step is either chosen to be too large (leading to discretisation errors) or too small (becoming computationally inefficient). Note this is solely a user guide and can be ignored (see Appendix G).

3.3.2 Further options

Additional features can be specified by clicking on “Further options” (Fig. 8F):

²² To take an example, suppose an initial time $t=0$, a time step is $\Delta t=2$ and the force of infection $\lambda(t)=\beta \times \{I\}$. The algorithm first calculates $\lambda(t=0)$ and simulates any transitions events up to time $t=2$. The value for the force of infection is then updated (*i.e.* $\lambda(t=2)$ is calculated) and transitions are simulated up to time $t=4$. This process is repeated over and over until the file time is reached. Note, any transitions that are time-independent are entirely unaffected by the finite timestep Δt .

²³ This is largely due to the computational difficulties of creating efficient MCMC proposals, because here a very small local change in an individual-based model creates a global change in a deterministic model.

²⁴ To avoid numerical stability issues, under these circumstances the population value used in any equation is truncated to zero.

- **Set random seed** – Simulation and inference rely on pseudorandom number generators. These start with an initial value called a “seed”. If turned off (as by default), this seed is randomly generated by the BICI interface (in which case different results are generated each time it is run). If the seed is set, however, BICI will consistently give the same results, despite being stochastic. The seed can take any value between 0 and 10,000.

Clicking “Advanced features” reveals more possibilities, as described in §4.3.3.

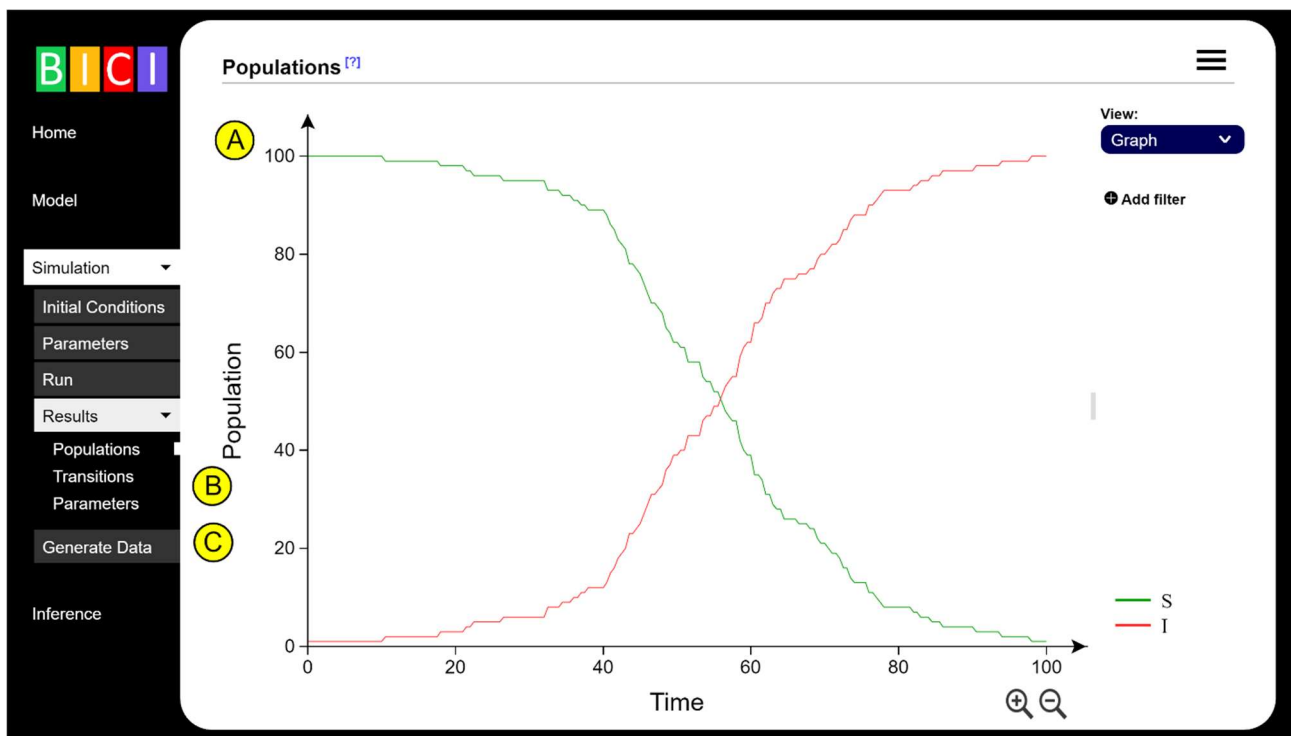


Figure 9 – Results from a simulation. A: This shows the time variation in the populations within the S and I compartments (taken from SE1.1 in §8), B: Click on different menu options for visualisations of populations, transition or parameters, C: Click to generate simulated data.

3.4 Results

The “Simulation→Results” page shows outputs from a simulation. The illustrative example in Fig. 9A gives a plot of the population in different model compartments as a function of time. Here there are initially 100 susceptible individuals (S compartment, denoted by the green line) and just a single infected (I compartment, denoted by the red line). Due to disease transmission, the susceptible individuals increasingly make the transition to becoming infected.

Different sections on the main menu allow for a variety of visualisations (Fig. 9B) focusing on “Populations”, “Transitions” and “Parameters” (and “Individuals” in the case of individual-based models). Further details for these are provided in §4.4 and Appendices H-K.

A description of various potential warning messages provided after code execution is given in Appendix G.

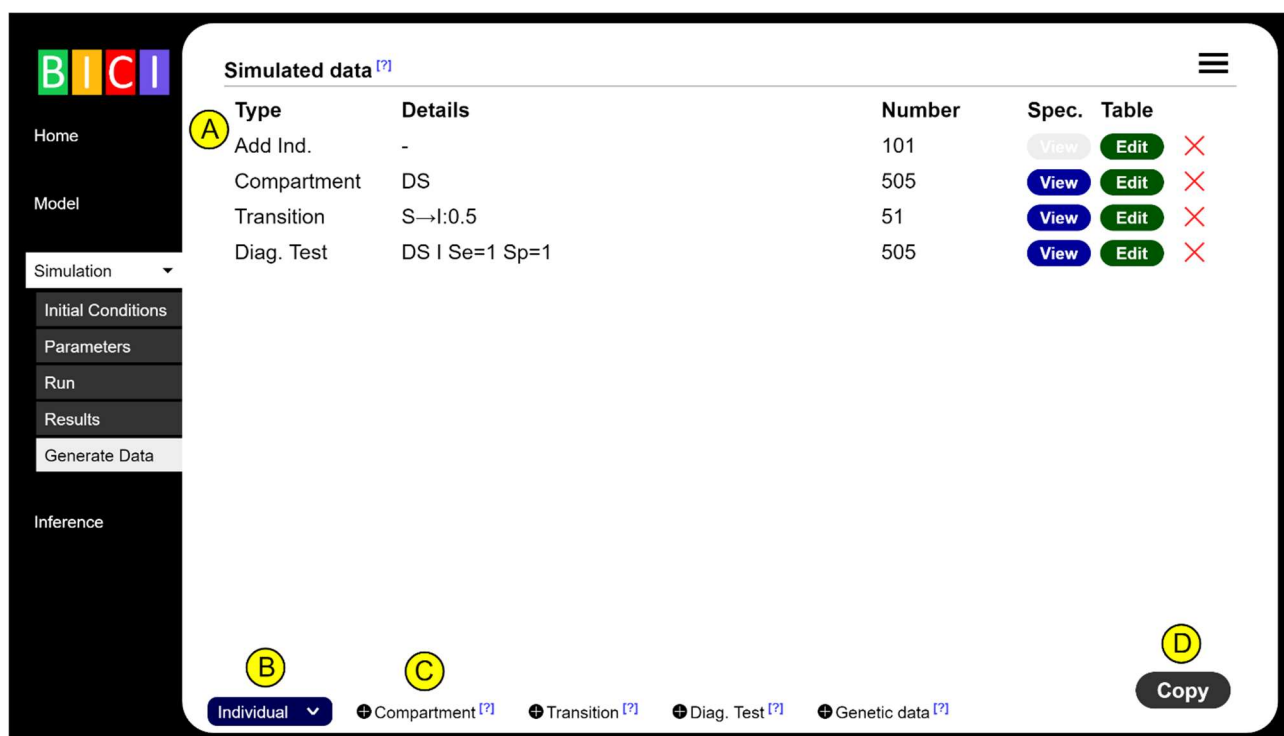


Figure 10 – *Generating simulated data*. A: A table of simulated data sources, B: Choose data type, C: Select data source to be simulated, D: Click to copy simulated data to the inference page.

3.5 Generating data

The “Simulation→Generate Data” page on Fig. 10 can be used to create data based on simulated results. These hypothetical datasets can then be used as inputs for performing inference. This not only provides a good test to show that inference is able to successfully recover model parameters, but it is also an invaluable tool in experimental design, because it allows the user to estimate the likely power of a given setup²⁵.

The drop-down list (Fig. 10B) allows for different data types to be selected: “Init. Cond.”, “Individual”, “Population” and “Additional”. These are examined in the following sections. In cases in which multiple simulations have been performed, a second dropdown is used to specify which of those simulations is actually used to generate the data.

3.5.1 Simulated setup data

Clicking these options essentially recreates any data that was entered on the “Simulation→Setup” page.

3.5.1.1 Init. Pop

Click “+ Init. Pop.” to generate data that represents the initial population from the simulation. Selecting “Done” adds this data to the list in Fig. 10A (as it does for all the other options below).

3.5.1.2 Adding populations to the system

Click “+ Add Pop.” to generate data for any populations added after the start time.

²⁵ In particular, it allows for an estimation of model parameter uncertainties, which are often key to understanding whether a given experiment would be sufficiently informative to answer the scientific questions under study.

3.5.1.3 Removing populations from the system

Click “+ Remove Pop.” to generate data for any populations removed after the start time.

3.5.1.4 Adding individuals

Click “+ Add Ind.” to generate data for individuals added in the simulation.

3.5.1.5 Removing individuals

Click “+ Remove Ind.” to generate data for individuals removed in the simulation.

3.5.1.6 Moving individuals

Click “+ Move Ind.” to generate data for individuals moved in the simulation.

3.5.2 Simulated individual-level data

3.5.2.1 Compartment data

Click “+ Compartment” (Fig. 10C) to generate compartmental data.

The classification on which compartments are measured is selected from the drop-down list (see right). The fraction observed can be set (by default 1, but a lower value, *e.g.* 0.5, would result in only a fraction of observations being made). The timings of the compartmental observations can either be made at periodic intervals, or at specified time points.

The observations can be chosen to be exact (which will generate results like ‘S’ or ‘I’) or noisy. In the latter case, a specified value represents the probability p of observing the correct compartment. The remaining probability $1-p$ is equally distributed across all other compartments. For example, in an SIR model if $p=0.9$ and the true compartment is I, the simulated output would be ‘S:0.05|I:0.9|R:0.05’ (see §4.1.2.1 for formatting compartmental uncertainties).

Compartmental data ⓘ ×

Select the classification on which measurements are made.

Classification: **DS** ▾

Fraction observed:

Times of observations:

☒ Periodic ☐ Specified

Time-step:

Observations:

☒ Exact ☐ Noisy

Next >

+ Compartment ⓘ

3.5.2.2 Transition data

Click “+ Transition” to generate transition data. Please refer to §4.1.2.2 for further details.

3.5.2.3 Diagnostic test data

Click “+ Diag. Test” to generate disease diagnostic test data. The fraction observed can be set (by default 1, but a lower value, *e.g.* 0.5, would result in only a fraction of observations being made). The option to either measure periodically or at specified time points is given. Please refer to §4.1.2.3 for further details.

3.5.2.4 Genetic data

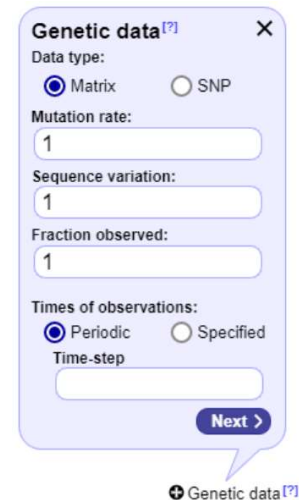
Click “ Genetic data” to generate genetic data.

The nature of this data depends on type:

- **Matrix** – For a given set of pathogen genetic measurements, this generates a matrix of SNP differences between those measurements.
- **SNP** – For a given set of pathogen genetic measurements, this option outputs simulated SNP data. If selected, it is necessary to specify a text “root” used for SNP names, along with the number of SNP base pairs to be simulated.

Other options are as follows:

- **Mutation rate** – Sets the rate at which the pathogen genome mutates (in base-pair mutations across the whole genome per unit time).
- **Sequence variation** – This allows for variation in sequences for pathogens entering the system. The number of changes compared to a consensus sequence is drawn from a Poisson distribution with this specified mean.
- **Fraction observed** – Gives the proportion of infected individuals observed at a given time point (in real datasets this fraction is often quite low).
- **Times of observations** – The times at which individuals are observed. This can either be set as periodic or at specified time points.



3.5.3 Simulated population-level data

3.5.3.1 Population data

Click “ Population” to generate population data. Measurements can either be made periodically, or at specified time points. Please refer to §4.1.3.1 for further details.

3.5.3.2 Population-level transition data

Click “ Pop. Transition” to generate population-level transition data. Measurements can either be made between periodically defined intervals (*e.g.* weekly), or at specified time points (note, here the observed number of transitions are measured between these time points²⁶). Please refer to §4.1.3.2 for further details.

3.5.4 Simulated additional data

3.5.4.1 Individual effect data

Click “ Ind. Effect” to generate individual effect data. Select the individual effect required from the drop-down list, and the data source generated will contain the simulated values for the individual effect. When performing inference this is useful because it allows for prediction accuracy to be estimated (a metric that determines how well inference is able to recover true individual effect values).

²⁶ Consequently, the number of observations is one less than the number of time points provided.

3.5.4.2 Individual group data

Click “+ Ind. Group” to specify groups of individuals in the simulated population. This can be useful when estimating prediction accuracies for specified groups. Please refer to §4.1.4.2 for further details.

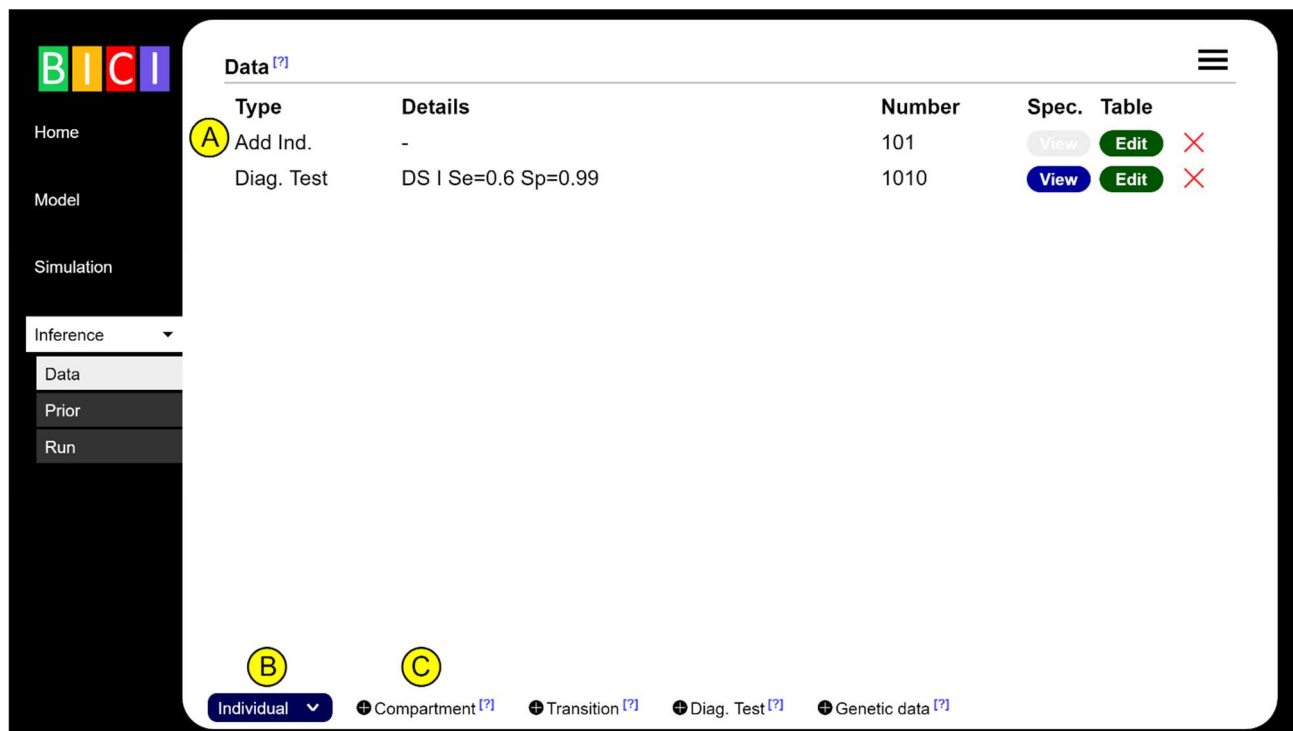


Figure 11 – Loading data. A: Table of data sources, B: Choose data type, C: Select data source to be added.

4) Inference

Bayesian inference is the process of combining data (which can take a variety of forms and may be inherently noisy) with previous knowledge regarding model parameters (the prior) to generate the best available estimates for model parameters and system dynamics (the posterior).

4.1 Data

Rather than loading data all at once, the user loads different sources one at a time (in any order). As illustrated in Fig. 11A, the “Inference→Data” page shows the data sources currently loaded²⁷.

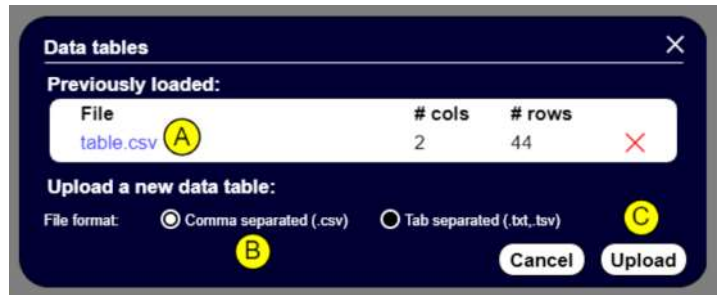
The data comes in different types, as selected using the drop-down list in the bottom left-hand corner (Fig. 11B):

- **Init. Cond.** (§4.1.1) – Provides information about the initial conditions, as well as any individuals that are added, removed or enforced to move compartment.
- **Individual** (§4.1.2) – Individual-level data, such as the times at which individuals undergo a given transition, when they are in a given compartment or disease diagnostic test results. Genetic sequence data for the pathogen can also be added, if available.

²⁷ This example is taken from example D3.4 in §8 and shows two sources related to adding individuals at the start time and disease diagnostic test results.

- **Population** (§4.1.3) – Population-level data, such as time-series compartmental population measurements, or time-series population-level transition numbers.
- **Additional** (§4.1.4) – This provides additional information, not used for inference. Here true values for individual effects can be loaded (such that prediction accuracies can be calculated) or individual groups can be specified (*e.g.* sires and progeny in a quantitative genetics model).

Data is loaded into a BICI using a dialogue box (see right). A: If a data table has previously been loaded (*e.g.* for another data source) it can be directly selected from the list, B: Two formats for data tables are supported, either columns are comma separated (‘.csv’ files) or tab separated (‘.txt’/‘.tsv’ files), C: Clicking “Upload” allows the user to upload a new file.



4.1.1 Initial conditions data

This uses the same set of possibilities as for simulation, so the reader is referred to §3.1.1.

4.1.2 Individual-level data

4.1.2.1 Compartment data

Click “+ Compartment” (Fig. 11C) to add compartmental data. This provides information about the compartment individuals are in at specified time points, *e.g.* it could be used to denote the fact that individual “Ind-1” is observed to be in the infected I compartment at time $t=3.45$ and “Ind.2” is in the recovered R compartment at time $t=9.21$.



REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns:

“ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the measurement times and the classification on which the measurements are made, *e.g.* “DS”.

The last column contains compartmental specifications that can be made in several different ways to reflect any potential uncertainty:

- **Precisely** – The known compartment is exactly specified, *e.g.* ‘S’ would mean that the individual is in the S compartment at the measurement time.
- **Multiple choices** – Different possibilities are given, separated by the ‘|’ character, *e.g.* ‘S|I’ would mean an equal probability of being in S or I.
- **Probabilities** – The probabilities of being in any potential compartments are explicitly specified, *e.g.* ‘S:0.7|I:0.3’ would mean a 70% probability of being in S and a 30% probability of being in I. Such an expression could also contain parameters, *e.g.* ‘S:p|I:1-p’, that could be estimated during inference.
- **Unspecified** – This is denoted by ‘.’ and indicates missing data.

If an individual is not in the system when a compartmental observation is made, this can be indicated by the ‘!’ character.

EXAMPLE – Here compartmental observations on disease status classification ‘DS’ are made on three individuals at different times: ‘Ind-1’ is in compartment ‘S’ at time 20 and ‘I’ at time 30, ‘Ind-3’ is in ‘I’ or ‘R’ at time 10 but with a 60%/40% probability at time 100, and for ‘Ind-4’ the observation probability is parameterised by b :

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	DS					
2	Ind-1	20	S					
3	Ind-1	30	I					
4	Ind-3	10	I R					
5	Ind-3	100	I:0.6 R:0.4					
6	Ind-4	100	I:b R:1-b					

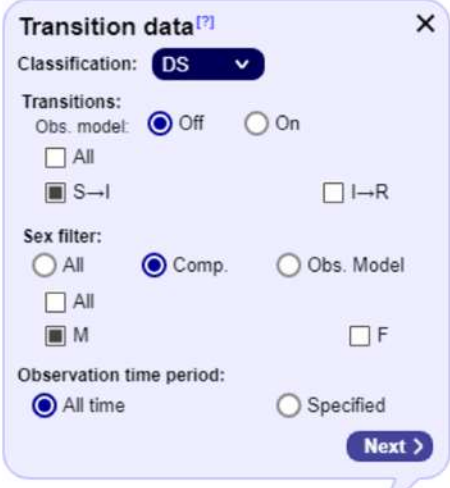
4.1.2.2 Transition data

Click “ Transition” to add transition data. This provides information about the timings of individual transitions, *e.g.* it could be used to store the precise infection times for a group of individuals.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals²⁸ and “t” the times individuals undergo the transition.

When loading transition data, the following options are available:

- **Classification** – Specifies the classification within which the transition observations are made.
- **Transitions** – Checkboxes can be used to select the transition (or transitions) under observation. Alternatively, an observation model can be specified that gives the probability of observing a given transition, *e.g.* ‘ $P(S \rightarrow I) = 0.3$ ’ would mean a 30% probability of observing an infection transition. Note, parameters can be placed into the observation model (*e.g.* ‘ $P(S \rightarrow I) = p$ ’ or ‘ $P(S \rightarrow I) = \eta(t)$ ’ to incorporate time variation) whose parameters can then be estimated during inference.
- **Compartmental filter** – When there is more than one classification, the compartments in the other classifications can be used to filter which individuals are observed. Three possibilities exist:
 - *All* – All compartments are observed.
 - *Comp.* – Uses checkboxes to indicate observed compartments.
 - *Obs. Model* – Allows for specification of an observation model (again, this can involve parameters with potential time variation).
- **Observation time period** – Two options exist:



The screenshot shows a 'Transition data' dialog box with the following settings:

- Classification:** DS (selected from a dropdown)
- Transitions:** Obs. model: Off (selected), On (unselected)
- Sex filter:** All (unselected), Comp. (selected), Obs. Model (unselected)
- Observation time period:** All time (selected), Specified (unselected)
- A 'Next >' button is located at the bottom right.

²⁸ Note, if no ID is associated with the observations, one can arbitrarily be made up, *e.g.* if only recovery times are known from an epidemic then the first recovered individual can be called “Ind-1”, the second “Ind-2”, and so on and so forth.

- *All time* – Goes over the entire inference period.
- *Specified* – Allows for a time window to be set.

EXAMPLE – This shows data for infection times (note ‘Ind-4’ did not become infected, so it’s not included in this data table):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t						
2	Ind-1	13.32						
3	Ind-2	14.32						
4	Ind-3	1.23						
5	Ind-5	54.34						

4.1.2.3 Diagnostic test data

Click “+ Diag. Test” to add disease diagnostic test data. This provides a (noisy) way to assess if individuals are infected or not, *e.g.* such data could be used to denote the fact that individual “Ind-1” was tested at time $t=34.5$ and gave a positive result, whereas “Ind-2” was tested at time $t=14.0$ and was found to be negative.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the times individuals are tested, and “Result”, which provides the binary results of the tests (see below for what values this can take).

When loading diagnostic test data, the following options are available:

- **Classification** – Specifies the classification within which the observations are made.
- **Test positive compartment(s)** – Checkboxes are used to denote which compartments the test aims to give a positive result for. For each of these a sensitivity (Se) is defined that represents the probability of obtaining a positive result (this would likely be lower shortly after an individual becomes infected than later). The sensitivity can be a parameter estimated under inference.
- **Specificity** – If not in one of the test positive compartments identified above, the specificity (Sp) gives the probability of obtaining a negative result. The specificity can be a parameter estimated under inference.
- **Text values** – These are used to represent positive and negative test results in the data file (*e.g.* ‘0’/‘1’ or ‘+ve’/‘-ve’).

Diagnostic tests [?] X

Classification: **DS** v

Test positive compartment(s):

☐ S

☒ I Se=0.5

☐ R

Specificity: X

Positive text: Negative text:

Culling:

☐ Cull after +ve test

Next >

EXAMPLE – This shows diagnostic test data for five individuals at various time points:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	Result					
2	Ind-1	10	-					
3	Ind-2	10	+					
4	Ind-3	15	+					
5	Ind-4	20	-					
6	Ind-5	20	-					

4.1.2.4 Genetic data

Click “+ Genetic data” to incorporate pathogen genetic sequence data. Such data can help inform how a pathogen moves between individuals, *e.g.* if a genetic sequence for the pathogen is observed in individual “Ind-1” at $t=10.5$ and a closely related (or identical) genetic sequence is observed in “Ind.2” at time $t=15.6$, it is evidence that the pathogen may have been directly transmitted from “Ind-1” to “Ind-2”. Pathogen genetic data can be particularly good at estimating rates of transmission between groups (*e.g.* different species) or geographical spread.

Two types of data can be loaded:

- **Matrix** – A matrix of SNP differences between a set of pathogen genetic measurements.
- **SNP** – Raw SNP data for a set of pathogen genetic measurements.

The following options must be set:

- **Mutation rate** – A parameter giving the rate at which the pathogen genome mutates (in base-pair changes across the whole genome per unit time).
- **Sequence variation** – A parameter that allows for variation in sequences for infections entering the system. The number of changes compared to a consensus sequence is drawn from a Poisson distribution with this specified mean.
- **SNP root** – Gives the root name for SNP columns in the file (for SNP data).

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “ID” gives a unique name for each individual, “t” gives the time of the observation. The following columns depend on the type of observation:

- **Matrix** – A column “Obs” provides a unique name for each genetic observation. Elements down this column must also be column headings in the table that represent a square matrix giving base-pair differences between the observations.

EXAMPLE – Here pathogen genetic observations are made on five individuals at different time points (note the matrix of base-pair differences must be symmetric):

Genetic data [?]

Data type:

☐ Matrix ☒ SNP

Mutation rate:

m

Sequence variation:

v

SNP root:

SNP

Next >

+ Genetic data [?]

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	Obs	Obs-1	Obs-2	Obs-3	Obs-4	Obs-5
2	Ind-1	43	Obs-1	0	12	34	23	56
3	Ind-2	45	Obs-2	12	0	34	23	99
4	Ind-3	23	Obs-3	34	34	0	34	67
5	Ind-4	10	Obs-4	23	23	34	0	34
6	Ind-5	34	Obs-5	56	99	67	34	0

- **SNP** – The data table has a series of columns giving sequence data that have ‘SNP root’ at the beginning of their column name. Elements of these columns are expected to contain two characters denoting the version of the SNP, *e.g.* ‘AA’, ‘AB’, ‘BA’, or ‘BB’.

EXAMPLE – Here pathogen genetic SNP data²⁹ are defined for five individuals at different time points (in this case ‘SNP root’ is ‘SNP’):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	t	SNP1	SNP2	SNP3	SNP4	SNP5	
2	Ind-1	43	AA	AB	BB	AA	AA	
3	Ind-2	45	AB	AB	AB	AA	BB	
4	Ind-3	23	BB	BB	BB	AA	BA	
5	Ind-4	10	AA	AB	AA	AB	AB	
6	Ind-5	34	AA	AB	BB	AA	AA	

4.1.3 Population-level data

4.1.3.1 Population data

Click “Population” to add population data. This informs how many individuals are in specified compartments at different time points. For regularly spaced time measurements this would be so-called “time series” data.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “t” the time at which population measurements are made and “Population”, which gives the estimated number of individuals.

The population under study can be filtered for each of the classifications using the following options:

- **All** – All individuals within the classification are counted.
- **Comp.** – Selected checkboxes are used to choose certain compartments (*e.g.* only infected individuals in compartment ‘I’).
- **Obs. Model** – An observation model can be specified that gives the fraction of individuals observed in one or more compartments, *e.g.* ‘P(S)=0.3’ would mean that only a 30% fraction of individuals

Population data [?]

DS filter:

☐ All ☒ Comp. ☐ Obs. Model ☐ Stratify

☐ All ☐ S ☒ I ☐ R

Sex filter:

☐ All ☐ Comp. ☐ Obs. Model ☒ Stratify

Observation error:

☐ Poisson ☒ Normal ☐ Negative binomial

Normal definition:

☒ Percentage ☐ SD ☐ SD in file

10

Next >

Population [?]

²⁹ Note here only 5 SNPs are shown but in reality, this number would typically be many thousand. Interestingly the speed of the algorithm doesn’t depend strongly on the number of SNPs.

are observed in the S compartment (note, fractions can be larger than one, corresponding to cases in which the observed data is proportional to the population, *e.g.* a measurement of pathogen level would be expected to be proportional to the number of infected individuals). Parameters can be placed into the observation model (*e.g.* ' $P(S)=p$ ' or ' $P(S)=\eta(t)$ ' to incorporate time variation) that can be estimated during inference.

- **Stratify** – The data file contains an additional column (with heading given by the classification name) that specifies the compartment corresponding to that observation. Multiple possible compartments are separated by '|' (*e.g.* 'E|I' would include exposed and infected individuals). Furthermore, an observation model can be incorporated (*e.g.* 'S:0.3|I:0.7' or 'S:p|I:q').

The observation error captures noise in the measurement process itself. This assumes that the observed value is drawn from a distribution with mean given by the underlying value.

Three possible distributions can be selected from:

- **Poisson** – This has a variance equal to the mean.
- **Normal** – This can be chosen to have a variance less than the Poisson distribution. The standard deviation can be defined in one of three different ways:
 - *Percentage* – The standard deviation is set to a percentage of the mean.
 - *SD* – The standard deviation is explicitly fixed.
 - *SD in file* – The data table contains an additional column "SD" that specifies the standard deviation.
- **Negative binomial** – This distribution is overdispersed with respect to the Poisson distribution. Specifically, the variance is given by the mean divided by a probability p . This probability can be defined to one of two ways:
 - *Value of p* – The probability p is explicitly fixed.
 - *p in file* – The data table contains an additional column " p " which specifies its value.

EXAMPLE – This shows the estimated number of infected individuals at different time points. A normally distributed observation model has been selected with the standard deviation specified in the table (reflecting uncertainty in the observations):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	t	Population	SD					
2	10	67	15					
3	20	102	20					
4	30	203	40					
5	40	502	102					
6	50	1023	302					

4.1.3.2 Population-level transition data

Click “ Pop. Transition” to add aggregated population-level transition data. Here the observation period is sliced into divisions (usually of equal size, although this is not a requirement) and the overall number of transitions of a specified type is counted within these divisions, *e.g.* such data could represent the number of population-wide cases per week during an epidemic. The size of divisions would usually be chosen to be sufficiently large such that a reasonable number of events would be expected to occur³⁰, but sufficiently small to retain temporal resolution.

Note, if data on individual timings of transitions exist, it is usually best to incorporate these as individual transition data, as described in §4.1.2.2.

REQUIRES – A data table containing at least the following columns: “Start” and “End” that give the start and end time of the periods over which transitions are counted (note, the end time of one period would normally be the same as the start time for the next) and “Number” which gives the observed number of transitions.

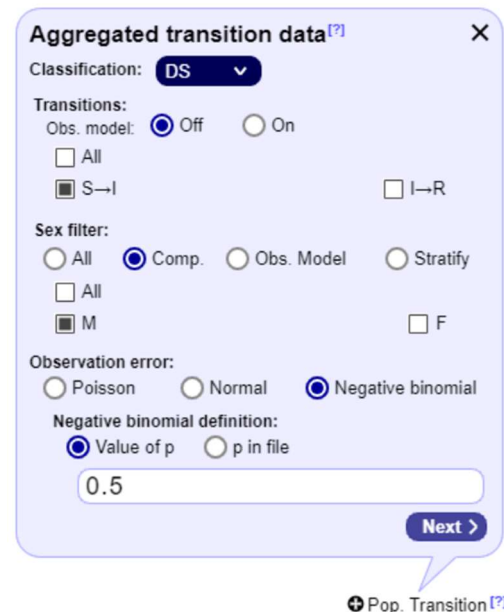
Either one or multiple transitions can be selected within a given classification. Alternatively, an observation model can be specified that denotes the fraction of transitions observed (*e.g.* ‘ $P(S \rightarrow I)=0.5$ ’ would correspond to only 50% of infection transitions being observed).

If, rather than time series data, only the overall number of transitions is known, this can be incorporated by setting the start and end times to encompass the entire time period, *e.g.* this could be used when only the total number of recoveries is known at the end of an epidemic (as estimated from a serological test).

See §4.1.2 for further details on classification filters and the observation error.

EXAMPLE – This shows the number infections during weekly intervals (here a Poisson distributed observation error is used):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	Start	End	Number					
2	0	7	20					
3	7	14	34					
4	14	21	64					
5	21	28	234					
6	28	35	345					



³⁰ Say more than five during the peak of an epidemic outbreak, such that stochastic noise from the Poisson process does not dominate.

4.1.4 Additional data

4.1.4.1 Individual effect data

Click “ Ind. Effect” to load up true values for individual effects (to compare against estimated values from inference). Note, these true values are usually generated from simulated data (see §3.5.4.1). This data type has no influence on inference.

REQUIRES – A data table containing the column “ID” a unique identifier for individuals and “Value”, which gives the true individual effect values.

EXAMPLE – This example shows individual effect values loaded for five individuals:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID	Value						
2	Ind-1	1.243						
3	Ind-2	0.834						
4	Ind-3	2.345						
5	Ind-4	0.034						
6	Ind-5	0.934						

4.1.4.2 Individual group data

Click “ Ind. Group” to load up groupings of individuals. Note, this is used for visualisation (*e.g.* to view individual effects for parents) and has no bearing on inference. The group must be given a name (*e.g.* “sires”) and individuals within the group can either be specified in the interface (using checkboxes) or from a file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing the column “ID” a unique identifier for individuals belonging to the group.

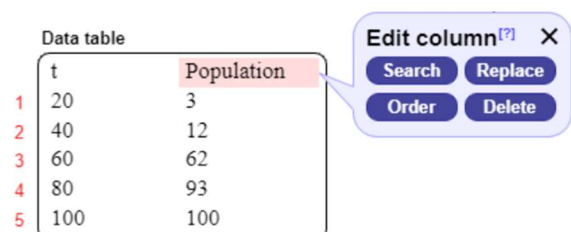
EXAMPLE – This loads up a group of five individuals:

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	ID							
2	Ind-1							
3	Ind-2							
4	Ind-3							
5	Ind-4							
6	Ind-5							

4.1.5 Table editing

When loading or editing data tables, BICI provides some simple tools that can be accessed by either clicking on the table headings or row numbers:

- **Search** – Find rows containing a specified string. If multiple results are returned, these can be iterated through. A wildcard ‘*’ can be used to



The screenshot shows a 'Data table' with two columns: 't' and 'Population'. The 'Population' column is highlighted in pink. To the right of the table is a menu titled 'Edit column' with a close button 'X'. The menu contains four buttons: 'Search', 'Replace', 'Order', and 'Delete'. The table data is as follows:

	t	Population
1	20	3
2	40	12
3	60	62
4	80	93
5	100	100

represent any ignored text (e.g. “S*” would find all entries beginning with ‘S’, or “*ind*” would return all entries containing ‘ind’).

- **Replace** – Replace one text string with another along a column. Wildcards ‘*’ can be used in this replacement. For example, searching for “S*” and replacing it with “R*” would replace all entries beginning with ‘S’ to corresponding entries beginning with ‘R’. Note, the same number of wildcards must be used in both the search and replace text boxes.
- **Delete** – Delete rows for which a given column value corresponds to a specified string. A wildcard ‘*’ can be used to represent text that is ignored (e.g. “S*” would delete all entries beginning with ‘S’, or “*ind*” would delete all entries containing ‘ind’)
- **Order** - Order rows based on elements along a column. This ordering can either be performed numerically or alphabetically.

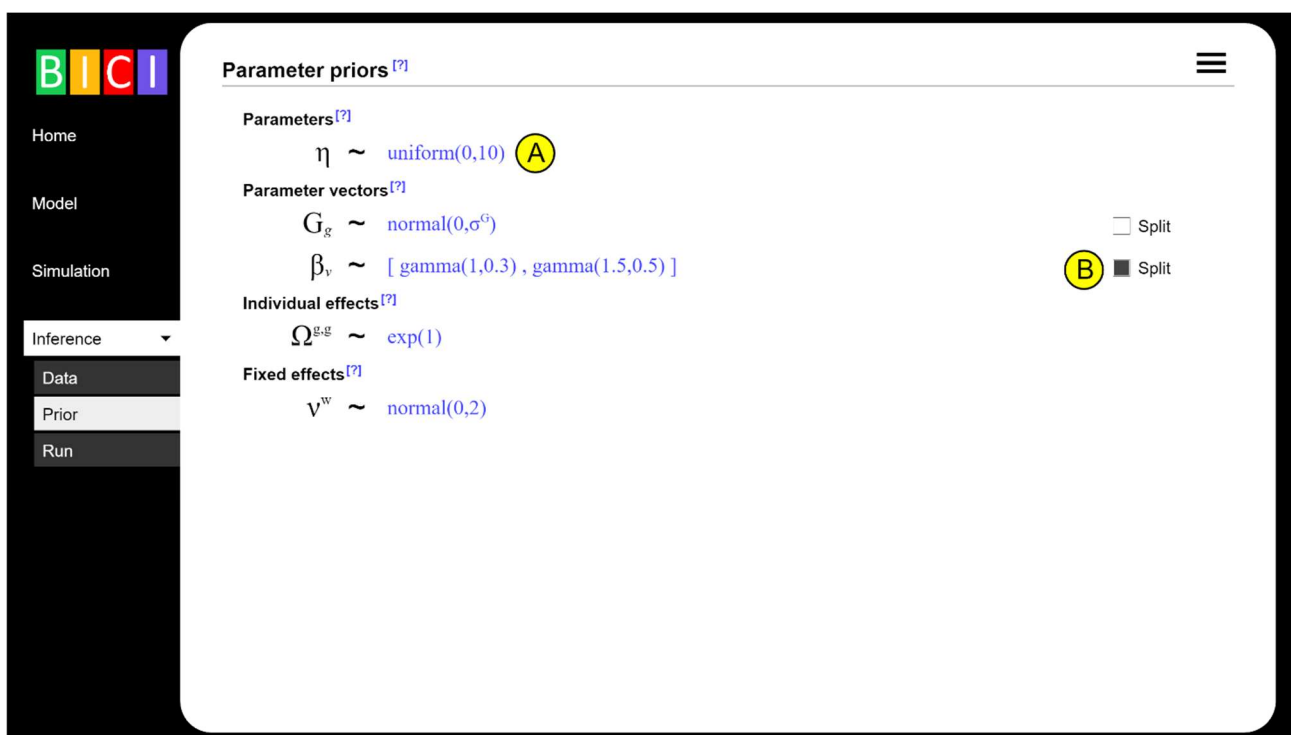


Figure 12 – *The prior*. A: A list of all parameters requiring priors, B: Selecting this checkbox allows for the prior to be specified for different elements of the parameter.

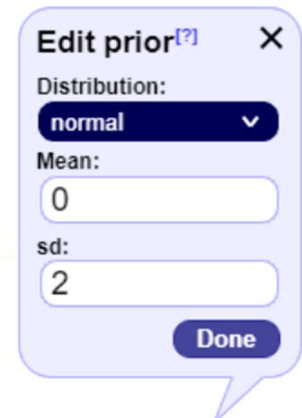
4.2 Prior

The “Inference→Prior” page on Fig. 12 allows for prior distributions to be assigned to model parameters (note, this list doesn’t include constants, distributions or derived parameters).

When Bayesian inference is performed, priors are used to encapsulate any previous knowledge about model parameters. One common approach is to identify a range of plausible values a given parameter is likely to take (based on expert judgment) and use this to inform a uniform distribution.

A commonly used alternative approach for providing an uninformative prior is the Jeffreys prior (see Appendix F). Unlike the uniform prior, this has the advantage of remaining the same under reparameterisation³¹. This option is recommended in most cases.

Clicking on the prior definitions (Fig. 12A) allows for them to be edited. For most parameters, prior distributions can be selected from the following nine different possibilities:



- **inverse** – An inverse distribution truncated to lie between a specified minimum and maximum. Note, this only applies to positive quantities. It is a commonly used distribution because it represents the Jeffreys prior for means and rates.
- **uniform** – A flat prior distribution between minimum and maximum values.
- **power** – A polynomial distribution truncated to lie between a specified minimum and maximum and with a specified power. This can be used for non-inverse Jeffreys priors (*e.g.* the coefficient of variation has a Jeffreys prior cv^{-2} for the gamma distribution).
- **exp** – An exponential distribution with a specified mean (only appropriate if the parameter is strictly positive).
- **normal** – A normal distribution with a specified mean and standard deviation.
- **gamma** – A gamma distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- **log-normal** – A log-normal distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- **beta** – A beta distribution with specified α and β values (for parameters that go between 0 and 1 only). Note, the distribution mean is given by $\alpha/(\alpha + \beta)$.
- **bernoulli** – A Bernoulli distribution with a specified mean (for binary parameters that can take the values 0 or 1).
- **fix** – Fixes a parameter to a particular value.

For parameter factors, a special type of prior is used:

³¹ For example, the Jeffrey prior for a Markovian transition with rate r is given by $\pi(r) \propto 1/r$ and a Markovian transition with mean m is given by $\pi(m) \propto 1/m$. Importantly, both of these options represent the same prior (*i.e.* the results from inference would be independent of whether the transition is represented by a rate or mean within the model). This contrasts with uniform priors, which would give different results.

- **mdir** – The modified Dirichlet distribution with a specified sigma (which determines the fractional variation in parameter factor elements). See Appendix F for details.

For covariance matrices associated with individual effects, two special types of prior can be selected from (see Appendix F for details):

- **covar-default** – This is the recommended uninformative prior. It consists of a half-normal distribution with $\sigma = 2$ for variances and a LKJ(1.2) distribution for correlations (see below).
- **covar-normal-lkj** – A half-normal distribution with specified standard deviation σ for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- **covar-uniform-lkj** – A uniform distribution for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- **covar-inv-wishart** – An inverse Wishart distribution with scale given by S times the identity matrix and ν degrees of freedom (an integer that must be greater than the number of dimensions of the matrix plus one).

4.2.1 Split

If the “Split” checkbox is selected (Fig. 12B), it means that a prior specification is made separately for each element of the parameter. If many such specifications are required, these can be loaded from a data file:

REQUIRES – A data table containing columns with headings given by the indices of the tensor and a final “Prior” column. See below for the text format used in this last column (§2.2.12 provides details on file formatting).

4.2.2 Text representation for a prior or distribution

When written in text format, priors (or distributions) are expressed in the following way, dependent on distribution:

- **"inverse(min,max)"** – An inverse distribution between a specified minimum and maximum, *e.g.* "inverse(0.01,1)".
- **"uniform(min,max)"** – A uniform distribution with specified minimum and maximum, *e.g.* "uniform(4,5)".
- **"exp(mean)"** – An exponential distribution with specified mean (only appropriate if the parameter is strictly positive).
- **"normal(mean,sd)"** – A normal distribution with a specified mean and standard deviation.
- **"gamma(mean,cv)"** – A gamma distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- **"log-normal(mean,cv)"** – A log-normal distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- **"beta(α,β)"** – A beta distribution with specified alpha and beta values.
- **"bernoulli(mean)"** – A Bernoulli distribution with a specified mean (for binary parameters that can take the values 0 or 1).
- **"fix(value)"** – Fixes a parameter to a particular value.
- **"mdir(σ)"** – The modified Dirichlet distribution, where σ controls the fractional variation in parameter factor elements.

For individual effect covariance matrices, the following options are possible (see Appendix F for details):

- **“covar-default()”** – This is the recommended uninformative prior. It consists of a half-normal distribution with $\sigma = 2$ for variances and a LKJ(1.2) distribution for correlations.
- **“covar-normal-lkj(σ, η)”** – A half-normal distribution with specified standard deviation σ for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- **“covar-uniform-lkj(min, max, η)”** – A uniform distribution for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- **“covar-inv-wishart(S, ν)”** – An inverse Wishart distribution with scale given by S times the identity matrix and ν degrees of freedom (an integer that must be greater than the number of dimensions of the matrix plus one).

4.2.3 Constant prior under inference

If a parameter is set as constant on the “Model→Parameter” page, it will automatically be constant under inference. In other circumstances, clicking on the “⊕ Const. Prior” button in the bottom left-hand corner allows the user to set a constant prior for the parameter, overriding any other definition used under simulation (such as reparameterisation).

This is sometimes useful when aspects of external intervention are incorporated into the parameter under simulation, for example when using dynamic parameters in §2.2.10, but these are represented by constant data under inference.

4.2.4 Guide to choosing a prior

In situations in which nothing is apparently known about parameters, it is often tempting for users to provide very uninformative priors (*e.g.* uniform across a wide range). This, however, can result in very long execution times. Methods like MCMC rely on generating an initial state by sampling from the prior and simulating from the system. If this state is very different from the posterior it can take a long time for the algorithm to get from one to the other (a period known as burn-in). Worst still, it may be that entirely unphysical solutions exist within parameter space into which the system can become stuck. Consequently, a careful examination of the prior is recommended in cases in which the burn-in phase is taking a long time.

Example – Suppose we consider an SIR model with an infection rate³² of $(\beta I/N) + \phi$ (where β is the transmission rate, I is the number of infected individuals, N is the total number of individuals in the system and ϕ is an external rate of infection) and recovery rate γ . Since we don’t know anything about the disease or the external infections entering the system, it is tempting to put large priors on all the parameters (say $\beta \sim \text{uniform}(0, 100)$, $\gamma \sim \text{uniform}(0, 100)$, $\phi \sim \text{uniform}(0, 100)$). However just based on some simple reasoning this can be considerably restricted:

- Biologically it might be implausible to expect that an individual would recover in less than one day or be infected for more than 100 days on average. This would yield the prior $\gamma \sim \text{uniform}(0.01, 1)$.
- How about β ? The basic reproduction number R_0 is the expected number of cases directly generated by one case in a population where all individuals are susceptible to infection. It is mathematically expressed as $R_0 = \beta/\gamma$. The values for R_0 vary from disease to disease, but numbers above 20 are unrealistic (for human diseases at least). Since we know that γ cannot be larger than 1, this places an upper bound on β of $R_0^{\max} \gamma^{\max} = 20$. As the disease is known to

³² A “rate” here is a probability of the event per unit time.

propagate, so R_0 must be larger than one. This gives a lower bound of $R_0^{\min} \gamma^{\min} = 0.01$. Therefore, this implies the prior $\beta \sim \text{uniform}(0.01, 20)$.

- How about ϕ ? We perhaps know that it must, in some sense, be “small”, as most infections are expected to occur between individuals rather than from this external source of infections. Suppose our period of study is $T=100$ days. Realistically ϕ must be below $1/T$, otherwise most individuals in the system would become externally infected during this period. This places an upper bound on the prior, hence the selection $\phi \sim \text{uniform}(0, 0.01)$ would be sensible.

It's important to note that our final prior specification ($\beta \sim \text{uniform}(0.01, 20)$, $\gamma \sim \text{uniform}(0.01, 1)$, $\phi \sim \text{uniform}(0, 0.01)$) is still extremely broad. We have made no real assumptions, apart for arguing what is realistic. But the crucial point is that it is more that 5 million times smaller than our initial guess above! This can really help MCMC to be initialised with something sensible from which posterior predictions can be made.

4.2.5 Requirements on choosing priors

Distributions appear in both priors and the system dynamics (*e.g.* determining transition times). The parameters for these distributions (means, standard deviations etc...) must be constrained to appropriate bounds for reasons of numerical accuracy, or such that they do not become ill-defined (*e.g.* a negative standard deviation is invalid).

BICI requires the following constraints (otherwise an error message is generated):

- **inverse(min,max)** – ‘min’ and ‘max’ must both be positive and ‘min’ must be smaller than ‘max’.
- **uniform(min,max)** – ‘min’ must be smaller than ‘max’.
- **power(min,max)** – ‘min’ and ‘max’ must both be positive and ‘min’ must be smaller than ‘max’.
- **exp(mean)** – ‘mean’ must be larger than 10^{-9} .
- **exp(rate)** – ‘rate’ must be larger than 10^{-9} .
- **normal(mean,sd)** – ‘mean’ must be in the range $-10^9 - 10^9$, ‘sd’ must be in the range $10^{-9} - 10^9$.
- **gamma(mean,cv)** – ‘mean’ must be in the range $10^{-14} - 10^9$, ‘cv’ must be in the range $0.01 - 10$.
- **log-normal(mean,cv)** – ‘mean’ must be in the range $10^{-14} - 10^9$, ‘cv’ must be in the range $0.01 - 10$.
- **beta(α, β)** – ‘ α ’ and ‘ β ’ must be in the range $0.01 - 100$.
- **bernoulli(mean)** – ‘mean’ must be in the range $0 - 1$ (inclusive).
- **weibull(scale,shape)** – ‘scale’ must be in the range $10^{-9} - 10^9$, ‘shape’ must be in the range $0.1 - 100$.
- **Poisson(mean)** – ‘mean’ must be in the range $0 - 10^9$.
- **dirichlet(α)** – ‘ α ’ must be in the range $0.01 - 100$.
- **period(time)** – ‘time’ must be greater than 10^{-9} .
- **mdir(σ)** – ‘ σ ’ must be in the positive.

For priors associated with individual effect covariance matrices (see Appendix F for details):

- **covar-default()** – This has no tuneable parameters

- **covar-normal-lkj(σ, η)** – Standard deviation σ must be greater than 10^{-4} and less than 3. Correlation parameter η must be greater than or equal to 1 and less than 100.
- **covar-uniform-lkj(min, max, η)** – ‘min’ must be smaller than ‘max’. ‘min’ must be greater than 10^{-4} and ‘max’ must be less than 5. Correlation parameter η must be greater than or equal to 1 and less than 100.
- **covar-inv-wishart(S, ν)** – S must be positive and ν must be an integer that is greater than the number of dimensions of the matrix plus one).

Note, while most of these ranges are very broad, some are restricted for reasons of numerical accuracy (in particular, coefficients of variation and shape parameters). For these, it makes sense to use uniform distributions with bounds chosen to be within those permitted above.

For example, if the model contains transitions taken from the $\text{gamma}(\text{mean}, \text{cv})$ distribution, the coefficient of variation parameter ‘cv’ could have priors “ $\text{uniform}(0.01, 2)$ ” or “ $\text{uniform}(0.1, 5)$ ”, but “ $\text{uniform}(0, 10)$ ” would likely cause an error as it would allow for ‘cv’ to stray outside the valid region.

Figure 13 – Running inference. This page is used to set up inference. A: Time range, B: Time-step, C: Algorithm, D: Number of MCMC “updates”, E: Number of MCMC chains, F: Where to run, G: Click to start, H: Further options available.

4.3 Run

The “Inference→Run” page allows the user to set various options before starting inference:

- **Time range** (Fig. 13A) – Sets the period over which inference is performed.
- **Time-step** (Fig. 13B) – For approximate methods it is often necessary to specify a time-step. A discussion on how this time-step should be chosen is given in §3.3.1.

- **Algorithm** (Fig. 13C) – Different algorithms can be used to perform inference (see next section).
- **Run on local machine** (Fig. 13F) – BICI can either be run on the local machine (for small jobs) or on a Linux cluster (for big jobs, see §6.4).

Inference is run by clicking on the “Start” button at Fig.13G. Once complete, the user is directed to the “Results” page (see §4.4).

4.3.1 Inference algorithms

Many different inference algorithms exist within the literature, of which a few have been implemented into BICI. Some are exact, some are approximate, and some require communications between interacting processes (requiring them to be run on a Linux cluster).

4.3.1.1 DA-MCMC

Data augmentation MCMC is the standard approach to Bayesian inference (although it can be slow for systems containing many individuals). This option requires further specifications:

- **Updates** (Fig. 13D) – An “update” constitutes a whole series of “proposals” that make changes to different aspects of the model (*i.e.* different parameters and/or parts of the state) in a range of ways. The number of updates informs how long MCMC takes to run. Running with more updates may produce a better approximation to the posterior, but it can also become computationally wasteful. *A priori* it is difficult to know what this number should be, but the default value of 5000 is usually a good first guess. MCMC diagnostics can be used to determine if inference needs to be rerun using more updates (see §4.4.7 for details).
- **Chains** (Fig. 13E) – MCMC “chains” are run in parallel, so helping to speed up computation. Each chain runs on a separate CPU core. Since modern computers typically have 4-8 cores, the default number of chains is set to 3 (to avoid the computer slowing down too much). An additional advantage of running parallel chains is that it tells us something about the reliability of the results through the so-called “Gelman-Rubin” statistic (see §4.4.7).

4.3.1.2 PAS-MCMC

This generates a power posterior approximation that get successively closer to the true posterior over a series of generations. A “particle” denotes a combination of a parameter set and a system state. MCMC updates act on particles to change their state. In “particle annealed sampling” (PAS), particles initially map out the prior. Over successive generations (where particles are duplicated or culled) the algorithm passes from the prior to the posterior. Once this is complete, a sampling phase generates posterior samples in the same way as DA-MCMC. Requires:

- **Updates** – The same as DA-MCMC above.
- **Particles** – Sets the number of particles run in parallel. These help to stop the system getting stuck in metastable states in the burn-in phase. Particles become chains after burn-in.
- **Update per generation** – This sets how many MCMC updates are performed per generation during the burn-in phase (expressed as a percentage of the number used when sampling). Larger values imply slower annealing, with a lower probability of becoming trapped in metastable states, but take longer.

4.3.1.3 ABC

Approximate Bayesian Computation. Estimates the posterior by simulating from the model and comparing the output with the data (population-based data only). Only those samples that are sufficiently close (as

measured by an error function) are used for the posterior approximation. For simplicity the error function is defined as minus the log of the observation probability. Requires:

- **Samples** – Sets the number of posterior samples to be generated.
- **Acceptance** – This gives the fraction of simulated samples retained as posterior samples (must be between zero and one). Smaller values yield better results but take computationally longer.

4.3.1.4 ABC-SMC

Approximate Bayesian Computation using Sequential Monte Carlo (ABC-SMC) is a version of ABC that improves posterior estimates over a series of generations (population-based data only). Requires:

- **Samples** – Sets the number of posterior samples to be generated.
- **Generations** – This gives the number of generations over which the posterior estimate is improved (typically between 5 and 10).

4.3.1.5 PMCMC

Particle MCMC targets the true posterior and makes use of multiple “particles” (stochastic simulations from the model) run in parallel.

4.3.1.6 Emulation

Here an emulator is used to approximate the posterior surface. This can be much faster than other approaches, provided the number of model parameters is not too large.

4.3.2 Further options

Additional features can be specified by clicking on “Further options” (Fig. 13H):

- **Output parameter samples** (DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC) – Because MCMC samples are correlated, it makes sense to thin the results (to limit computational processing and memory requirements). BICI works by specifying a certain number of output parameter samples to be generated, which are drawn equally along the MCMC chain(s). Consequently, increasing the number of MCMC updates does not change the number of output parameter samples generated, but it does reduce any potential correlations between those samples. By default, 1000 parameter samples are generated. Selecting a higher value yields smoother posterior distribution plots but requires more memory and CPU processing.
- **Output state samples** (DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC) – As above, but for state samples. By default, 200 state samples are generated (note, this is significantly lower than the default number of parameter samples due to the larger memory requirement needed to represent each state). Selecting a higher value yields less noisy plots for populations, transitions and individuals, but requires more memory and CPU processing.
- **Chain initialisation** (DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC) – This sets the number of simulations performed when generating the initial chain state (by default set to 20). A higher value means the chain is more likely to start closer to the posterior (and this could lead to a much faster burn-in period) but initialisation takes computationally longer. Parameters for the simulations are generated using Latin hypercube sampling, with the best state selected based on a metric³³.

³³ For models with individual-based data, this metric uses the fraction of transition events that are within the 90% CI of the model sampling distribution (*e.g.* states in which individuals remain in a compartment, despite the fact that the model would suggest they should transition out of it, are penalised against). For population-based model the observation likelihood is used as the metric (this penalises against states with a poor agreement with the observations).

- **Burn-in** (DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC) – The burn-in phase in MCMC is the initial period that moves from the starting states to a sample representative of the posterior. This period is usually specified as a percentage of the overall number of MCMC updates (by default, 20% is used).
Annealing - This is an approach that can help to stop MCMC becoming stuck in metastable states during the burn-in phase. This introduces an “inverse temperature” parameter ϕ that determines to what extent the data is incorporated into the analysis. When $\phi=0$, MCMC maps out the prior and when $\phi=1$, the normal posterior is generated.
Annealing works by gradually varying ϕ from 0 to 1 (at which point the posterior is then sampled). Precisely how this is done can be selected from the following options:
 - *none* – No annealing is performed and $\phi=1$ is used during burn-in.
 - *scan* – ϕ is optimally scanned using a specified ‘rate’. Note, here the burn-in period depends on this rate (with smaller values yielding more gradual annealing, but taking computationally longer), rather than a percentage.
 - *log-auto* – An automatic logarithm model is applied to ϕ .
 - *power-auto* – An automatic power-law model is applied to ϕ .
 - *power* – A power law model is applied to ϕ (here the ‘power’ property must be set).
- **Acceptance fraction** (ABC-SMC) – In ABC-SMC, first samples are generated and then a cut-off in the error function is automatically chosen such that a specified fraction of samples make up the next generation. Smaller values take computationally longer, but with fewer generations required.
- **Kernel size** (ABC-SMC) – Within ABC-SMC particles are selected from the previous generation with their parameter values perturbed by a kernel. Here the kernel is set to be a multivariate-normal approximation of the posterior, scaled by a selected size. A size of 0.5 works well in most cases.
- **Set random seed** – Simulation and inference rely on pseudorandom number generators. These start with an initial value called a “seed”. If the option is turned off (as it is by default), this seed is randomly generated by the BICI interface (in which case BICI will produce different results each time it is run). If the seed is set, however, BICI will consistently give the same results, despite being stochastic. The seed can take any value between 0 and 10,000.

4.3.3 Advanced options

Even more options can be selected by clicking on “Advanced options” on the further options page (for the most part these have default value that will not need to be changed):

- **Individual max** – When one or more species use an individual-based model, this sets the maximum number of individuals allowed (exceeding this limit results in an error message). Such a threshold is introduced to stop BICI running out of memory when the individual number diverges. By default, this is set to 20,000 individuals. The text box can be used to make this limit higher, if required.
- **Parameter output** – If the number of elements in a tensor exceeds this value, results are not output. This limit is introduced to stop very large output files when the tensor is not of direct interest (for example it might avoid the distance matrix being output every MCMC iteration). By default, this is set to 1000, but this threshold can be changed in the text box.
- **Proposal synchronisation** – Set if proposal synchronisation is used. This can take the values "off" or "on" (by default set to "on"). MCMC chains can either be run entirely separately, or information can be used across chains to improve the adaptation of proposals (in which case each chain uses the same synchronised set of proposals). Note, synchronisation will only be implemented if it is

possible, *e.g.* it is not possible when BICI is running locally on more than one core (since local threads can't communicate).

- **Optimisation** – This determines how the underlying core code is run. Three options are available:
 - *Memory* – Memory usage is reduced as much as possible (with some sacrifice in algorithm speed).
 - *Speed* – Algorithm speed is as fast as possible (with potentially more memory usage).
 - *Auto* (default) – This is automatically set. For smaller systems computational speed is prioritised, whereas for larger systems memory is reduced as much as possible.
- **Compression** – Using the LZW algorithm, this reduces the memory size of BICI files that are output from the core code (parameter samples, state samples, etc...). Three options are available:
 - *Always* – Output files are always compressed.
 - *Never* – Output files are never compressed.
 - *Auto* (default) – Output files are compressed if they are large (more than 1MB).

Note, compressed files can be decompressed at a later date.

4.3.4 Running time

Every effort has been taken to optimise the speed of BICI (*e.g.* (a) carefully calculating the change in likelihood as a result of a given MCMC proposal³⁴, (b) automatic simplification of equations, (c) using sequential memory access for the most computationally intensive parts of the algorithm, (d) adapting MCMC proposals to help optimise them, and (e) pooling the common parts of equations to avoid calculating quantities multiple times). However, the time it takes for BICI to run can be fast or slow, dependent on numerous factors. Here we provide some general features which determine running speed:

- Population-based models are generally faster than individual-based model.
- The time-step plays a crucial role, with longer time-steps running faster but potentially introducing discretisation errors (see §3.3.1).
- When transition rates depend linearly on populations, run time can be substantially faster (this is because BICI makes use of this linearity to speed up many types of MCMC proposals). Fortunately, most spatial/demographic epidemiological models fall into this category.
- The speed of BICI has a complicated relationship with the amount of data. Having more data increases the computation per update, but also the size of the posterior in parameter/event space is shrunk, so leading to short mixing times.
- Partial confounding of model parameters can lead to much longer mixing times.
- Multimodality in the posterior. If many different parameter combinations yield dynamics with good agreement to the data, MCMC can struggle (*e.g.* becoming stuck in locally optimal solutions). Approaches like annealing and PAS-MCMC are aimed at mitigating against this, but some problems are still very challenging.

³⁴ Such that the entire likelihood isn't calculate under each proposal, which would be computationally very slow.

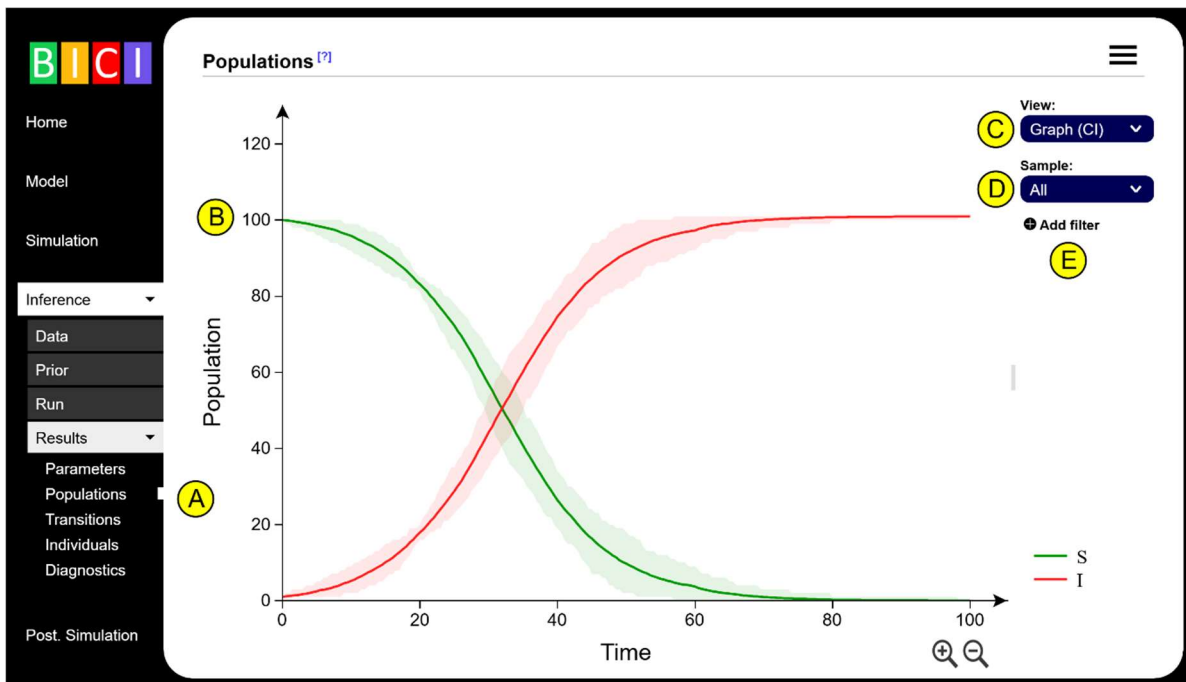


Figure 14 – Results from inference. A: Different types of output can be selected on the main menu, B: This shows an example of a posterior population distribution, C: Different ways to view the posterior can be selected, D: Individual samples can be selected, E: Filters can be added.

4.4 Results

Based on the data entered in §4.1 and prior knowledge from §4.2, it is generally not possible to identify model parameters with perfect precision (or transition events for that matter, unless they are specified by the data). Rather, there exists a distribution in these quantities known as the “posterior”, which expresses both a best guess for parameters (*i.e.* posterior means) and range in values consistent with the data (*i.e.* credible intervals).

A description of various potential warning messages provided after code execution is given in Appendix G.

The “Inference→Results” page (Fig. 14) shows outputs to visualise this posterior (see Appendices H-K for examples). The menu bar (Fig. 14A) lists different possible features of the posterior to investigate, and these are discussed in the following sections:

4.4.1 Parameters

These plots provide visualisations and statistics for the parameter samples. Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** – This list is divided into a few different possibilities:
 - *Parameter* – These show results for all univariate parameters in the model.
 - *Multivariate* – Any parameters represented by vectors, matrices or tensors are given a separate section that can be viewed.
 - *Initial population* – In cases in which the initial state is uncertain, parameters associated with this can be viewed (*e.g.* populations/fractions in different compartments).
 - *Scatter* – Shows scatter plots of one parameter against another.

- *Correlation* – Shows a matrix of correlation coefficients between different model parameters.
- *Likelihoods* – Shows different likelihoods and the prior (all log transformed) which add up to give the posterior probability.
- **Graph** – Provides alternative ways to view the selected parameter:
 - *Trace* – Shows consecutive parameter samples drawn from an MCMC chain.
 - *Sample* – Provides raw samples for ABC approaches.
 - *Distribution* – Shows an estimated posterior distribution for a given parameter. This can either be viewed through binning or using kernel density estimation (KDE) [6] (selected using the settings button in the bottom left-hand corner). Under inference the Bayes factor can be calculated by clicking on the “BF” button (see §4.4.6) [7].
 - *Statistics* – For each parameter provides the posterior mean, 95% credible interval as well as the effective sample size (ESS) and the Gelman-Rubin statistics (GR) (see §4.4.7 for details).

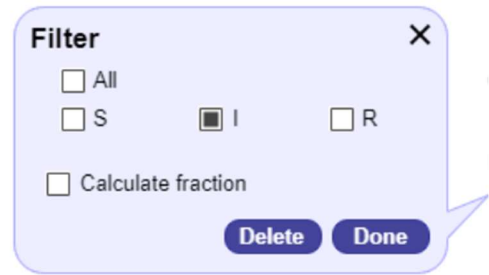
4.4.2 Populations

An example is shown in Fig. 14B, which shows the posterior distribution for the populations in different compartments for a selected classification as a function of time (means are shown by the solid lines and the shading represents 95% credible intervals).

Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** (Fig. 13C) – Determines how the results are plotted:
 - *Graph (CI)* – Gives the population means, with shaded regions providing 95% credible intervals.
 - *Graph (line)* – Plots lines for each sample.
 - *Slice* – Provides posterior distributions at a specified time.
 - *Compartment* – Plots the compartmental model, with colours representing the populations in different compartments (*e.g.* useful for looking at the spatial spread of disease).
 - *Density* – Like ‘Compartment’ but expands the shading using Voronoi tessellation (*e.g.* good when plotting geographical points).
 - *Data* – Allows for inferred populations to be compared to measured population data.
- **Sample** (Fig. 13D) – Allows for individual MCMC samples to be viewed.
- **Time** – Specifies the time used with the ‘Slice’ option.
- **Classification** – Select the classification being viewed.
- **Chain** – Select to filter results for a specific MCMC chain.

Population filters – The “+ Add filter” option (Fig. 14E) allows for filters to be added (e.g. to focus on individuals in a given disease state or at a specific location). Once a classification has been chosen, the checkboxes allow the user to specify only certain compartments (e.g. in the example on the right, only the infected ‘I’ individuals are selected).



Clicking on the “Calculate fraction” checkbox means results are shown as a fraction given by the ratio of the population in the select compartment(s) compared to the population in all of them (this is particularly useful for plotting quantities such as the disease prevalence).

4.4.3 Transitions

These plots show how the rates in different transitions vary as a function of time.

Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** – Determines how the results are plotted:
 - *Graph (CI)* – Gives the rate means, with shaded regions providing 95% credible intervals.
 - *Graph (line)* – Plots lines for each sample.
 - *Data* – Allows for the inferred transition rate to be compared to measured population-level transition data.
- **Sample** – Allows for individual samples to be viewed.
- **Classification** – Select the classification being viewed.
- **Time-step** – Selects the time-step over which rates are estimated (larger values generate smoother graphs but sacrifice temporal accuracy).
- **Chain** – Select to filter results for a specific MCMC chain.

The “+ Add filter” option allows for population filters to be added (see previous section).

4.4.4 Individuals

Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** – Determines how the results are plotted:
 - *Timeline* – Gives timelines for each individual in the system. These plots show how the compartmental status of different individuals in the system change as a function of time. The colours on the timelines correspond to those used for the compartments in the model. Individuals can be filtered using the “Add filter” button or by focusing on a specific set of individuals using the “Ind. Group” dropdown menu.
 - *Ind. Eff.* – In cases in which the model uses individual effects, several different types of plots can be made (see Graph below).
 - *Table* – Provides information about each individual (such as individual-level data, covariates for fixed effect or posterior estimates for individual effects).
 - *Statistics* – When there are individual effects in the system, this provides information about the means of those effects (and the mean of the log of the individual effects).

- *Phylo. Tree* – Shows a phylogenetic tree (available only when genetic data is added to the analysis).
- *Trans. Tree* – Shows a transmission tree (available only when transmission tree is turned on within the species). See §2.1.1 for details.
- *First Inf. Time* – Shows the posterior probability distribution for the first infection time (when transmission tree).
- *First Inf. Ind.* – Shows the distribution for the first infected individual (when transmission tree).
- *First Inf. Comp.* – Shows the distribution in compartment for the first infection (when transmission tree).
- **Graph** – This shows possible different visualisations for individual effects:
 - *Pred. Acc* – In cases in which known individual effects have been loaded up, this shows how well the inferred individual effects agree with the true values. This is summarised with a prediction accuracy, which is a Pearson correlation between the logs of the individual effects and their true values.
 - *Dist. (log)* – This provides the distribution in the mean of the log of individual effects.
 - *Dist. (norm)* – This provides the distribution in the mean of individual effects.
 - *Scatter* – In cases in which there are more than one individual effect, this can be used to see how different effects are related.
- **Classification** – Select the classification being viewed.
- **Sample** – Allows for individual samples to be viewed.
- **Chain** – Select to filter results for a specific MCMC chain.
- **Ind. Group** – In cases in which specific groups have been identified (see §4.1.4.2) this allows the user to select which group to view.
- **Sort** – In the case of individual effects, table entries can be sorted either from low-high or high-low. For example, this can be used to reveal which individual are most susceptible or least infectious.
- **Colour** – In the case of scatter plots for individual effects, different colouring on points can be usefully used to identify potential issues with the model (*e.g.* if different groups cluster instead of being random draws from the overall distribution).

Individual posterior plots – Under the ‘timeline’ view, clicking on one of the ID names on the left-hand side allows for plots looking at that specified individual’s posterior. These show time variation in the posterior probability of being in different compartments. Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** – This is divided into a few different possibilities:
 - *Graph* – Gives the mean posterior probability, with shaded regions providing 95% credible intervals.

- *Compartment* – Plots the mean posterior probability using the compartmental model (here colour is used to represent compartments with high probability).
- *Density* – Like ‘Compartment’ but expands the shading using Voronoi tessellation.
- **Sample** – Allows for individual samples to be viewed.
- **Classification** – Select the classification being viewed.
- **Chain** – Select to filter results for a specific MCMC chain.

4.4.5 Diagnostics

This provides a variety of visualisations to determine how well the model is fitting the data.

Various options can be selected on the right-hand menu (depending on the situation):

- **View** – Determines what is plotted:
 - *Trans. (exp.)* – Shows how transition rates in the posterior compare to rates estimated from the model. Systematic differences can help to pinpoint misspecification in the model.
 - *Trans. (dist.)* – Shows the cumulative probability distribution (see below) for a given transition. If the model is entirely correct, this distribution should be uniform between zero and one. Deviation from uniform indicates misspecification in the model. If the distribution is skewed to the right-hand-side it indicates that transitions have a faster rate (or shorter duration) compared to what would be expected from the model, and *vice-versa*.
 - *Trans. (bias)* – Shows the degree of skewness in the cumulative probability distribution, as measured by the first moment. A positive value implies that the transition rate in the posterior is more than the rate predicted by the model, and *vice-versa*.
 - *Trans. (p-val)* – Deviations from uniform for the cumulative probability distribution can indicate model misspecification. Such deviations do not necessarily affect the skewness (e.g. fitting an exponential distribution which in reality is gamma distributed) and so an alternative measure is provided. Here the distribution is split into 10 equal divisions, and a p-value is calculated using Pearson's chi-squared test. This plot shows the posterior distribution in $-\log(p\text{-value})$, where large values indicate significant deviation from the model (the dashed line represents a notional p-value of 0.05).
 - *Proposals* – Provided information about MCMC proposals and other diagnostic information.
- **Sample** – Allows for individual samples to be viewed.
- **Time-step** – Selects the time-step over which rates are estimated (larger values generate smoother graphs but sacrifice temporal accuracy).
- **Classification** – Select the classification being viewed.
- **Chain** – Select to filter results for a specific MCMC chain.

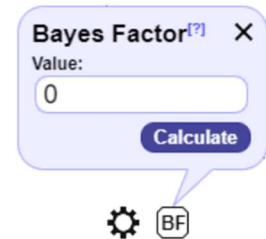
The “+ Add filter” option allows for population filters to be added (see §4.4.2).

Cumulative probability – The calculation of this quantity depends on the type of model:

- **Individual-based** – Here each individual transition is sampled from a distribution. The cumulative probability represents the probability of sampling a time later than the realised transition time.
- **Population-based** – The realised number of transitions within a timestep is sampled from a Poisson distribution with a given mean. In this case, the cumulative probability is the probability of obtaining this realised number or fewer.

4.4.6 Estimating the Bayes factor

A Bayes factor (BF) is the ratio of the likelihood for one hypothesis to the likelihood for another [7]. The BF comparing the full model to one in which a particular parameter is fixed (usually to zero, such that the parameter is effectively removed from the model) can be calculated using the “BF” button under a posterior parameter distribution (see §4.4.1). This is one way to determine which parameters in the model are redundant, so allowing for the model to be simplified in a stepwise fashion. A BF between 3 and 10 represents moderate evidence for one model over another, and exceeding 10 is considered strong [8].



4.4.7 MCMC diagnostics

Diagnostics provide an objective way of determining if enough MCMC updates have been iterated to reliably trust the results (if this is not the case, the number of updates in Fig. 13D must be increased and the analysis re-run). Two different measures are shown on the parameter statistics page (see §4.4.1):

- **Effective sample size (ESS)** – This takes into account the fact that successive MCMC samples are correlated, and provided an estimate for the effective number of independent draws from the posterior. An ESS exceeding 200 is considered indicative of good mixing. Note, the ESS is not guaranteed to monotonically increase as the number of MCMC updates goes up (in fact if it is less than 100 it often fluctuates wildly).
- **The Gelman-Rubin statistic $\hat{R}$** – On top of poor mixing, another difficulty faced by MCMC is multimodality. This characterises a situation in which one MCMC chain ends up in one posterior mode (and perhaps mixes well), but another goes to a completely different mode. One way to check for this problem is to calculate the Gelman–Rubin convergence diagnostic $\hat{R}$ (otherwise known as the “potential scale reduction factor”) [9]. This is defined as the ratio of the overall pooled variance (*i.e.* calculated using samples taken from all chains combined) to the mean variance within each chain. Since MCMC is initialised randomly in parameters space, $\hat{R}$ starts large and is expected to approach one after many MCMC updates. Values less than 1.05 are indicative of convergence. If, however, $\hat{R}$ is larger than this threshold (even after a very large number of updates) it points to the existence of multimodality. Under these circumstances the results from BIC cannot be trusted. Note, $\hat{R}$ relies on comparing independent MCMC chains, and so cannot be calculated for a single chain.

For easy identification, statistics which are not converged are shown in orange (close to convergence) and red (poor convergence).

4.4.8 Extending inference

Often when performing inference using MCMC it is found that diagnostics (from previous section) tell us it has not converged. How frustrating! However, all is not lost (at least for the DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC algorithms). Rather than starting the inference from the scratch, the user can extend the inference to give more MCMC updates until (hopefully) convergence is achieved. This can either be expressed as a new

(higher) number of updates, or as a percentage, *e.g.* 200% means that twice as many MCMC updates are generated (*i.e.* the existing ones plus the same number again). Corresponding to the additional updates, the number of parameter and state samples taken from the posterior are also increased.

Having the opportunity to extend MCMC makes it tempting to start with a very small number of updates and incrementally extend until convergence is achieved. Such an approach, however, is not advised. This is because BICI uses the initial burn-in period to optimise MCMC proposals. If this period is too short, the proposals may be inefficiently optimised (resulting in a much larger number of updates overall). Visual inspection of the trace plots can be a way to assess if burn-in has been successful.

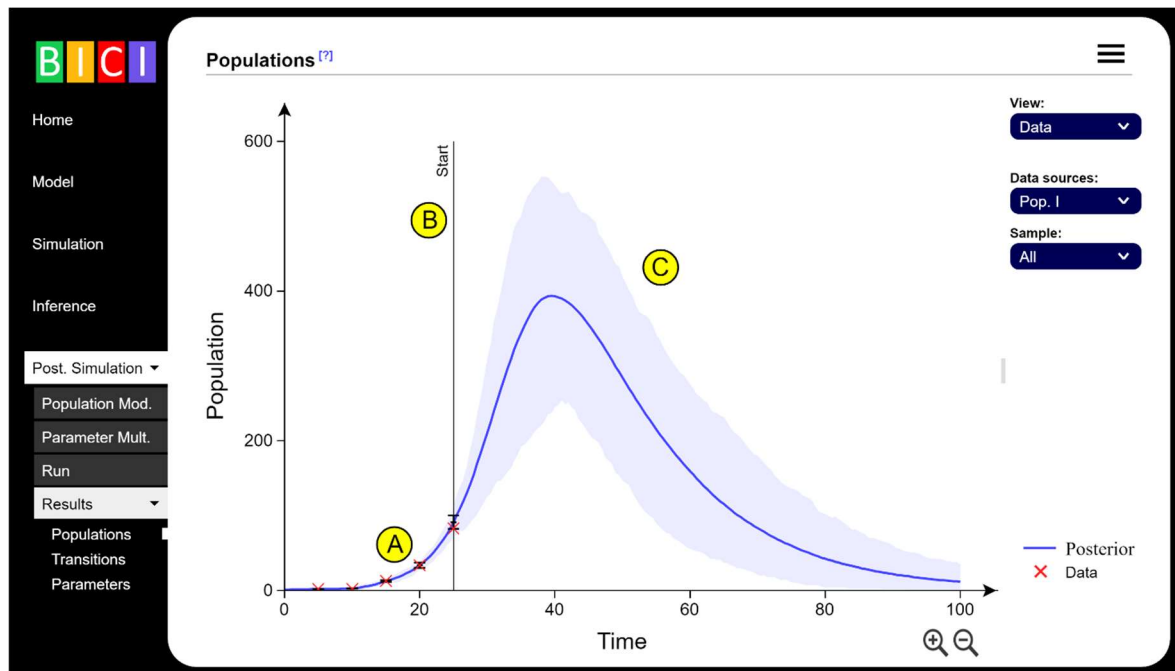


Figure 15 – Posterior simulation. This example shows future predictions. A: The red crosses represent hypothetical data from mid-way through an epidemic (this data gives the estimated number of infected individuals in the population), B: This vertical line represent the present time, C: This represents the predicted future dynamics of the epidemic (solid line represents mean and the shading represents a 95% probability region).

5) Posterior simulation

So-called “posterior simulations”, simulate from the model whilst making use of the parameter and state samples generated under inference. They can be used in four different contexts:

- **Posterior predictive check** – This is used to check if the model is replicating the dynamics of the real system. It’s not a formal model fit diagnostic, but rather more of a sanity check to make sure the model is reasonable. Here the model is simulated using the posterior parameter samples and the output is compared against the data used for inference. If this data lies within the 95% probability region, it is indicative the model is a good one. If not, an alternative model may be sought.
- **Future prediction** – As above, but here the end time is extended such that future behaviour is estimated based on current data. An example of this is given in Fig. 15.

- **Scenario analysis** – As above, but with future parameters modified to see what effect this has on system dynamics.
- **Counterfactual analysis** – This takes all the data (e.g. after an epidemic) and asks the question, how would things have turned out differently if certain interventions had been made?

5.1 Population modification

The “Post. Simulation→Population Mod.” page allows for addition, removal and enforced movement of individuals on top of that used for the inference model (see §3.1.1 for details).

5.2 Parameter multipliers

The “Post. Simulation→Parameter Mult.” page allows for parameter “multipliers” to be added. A multiplier is a (potentially) time-varying factor that multiplies a specified parameter within the model. They are defined in the same way as splines (see §1.4.5 for an example).

5.3 Run

The “Post. Simulation→Run” page allows the user to set various options before starting a posterior simulation:

- **Time range** – Sets the period over which the posterior simulation is performed. How this is chosen is dependent on the analysis being performed:
 - *Posterior predictive check* – This time range would be the same as for inference (this is the default setting).
 - *Future prediction and scenario analysis* – The start time is set to the end time of inference, and the end time is extended to a time point in the future.
 - *Counterfactual analysis* – The start time is set to the time of a proposed intervention, and the end time would be the same as for inference.
- **Simulation number** – This sets how many posterior simulations are performed. Because simulations are stochastic, so each will provide a different set of results (by default, 200 are generated).
- **Model and state** – Two options exist:
 - *Inference model* – This is the usual option, whereby posterior simulations are generated using posterior parameter and state samples from inference (this allows for posterior predictive checks, future prediction, scenario analysis and counterfactual analysis, as mentioned above).
 - *Simulation model* – Here just the posterior parameter samples are used to simulate using the model as specified in the ‘Model’ tab with initial conditions taken from the ‘Simulation’ tab. Under this option allows for the flexibility to change the underlying model (provided it uses the same set of parameters as under inference).
- **Parameter samples** – Three options exist:
 - *Posterior samples* – Simulations are generated using posterior parameter samples (recommended in most cases).

- *Posterior mean* – Simulations are generated using the fixed posterior mean (calculated over all posterior samples).
- *Posterior median* – Simulations are generated using the fixed posterior median (calculated over all posterior samples).

5.4 Results

The “Post. Simulation→Results” page shows results from posterior simulation. The outputs are essentially the same as for inference, so please refer to §4.4 for details (and see Appendices H-K for examples).

A description of various potential warning messages provided after code execution is given in Appendix G.

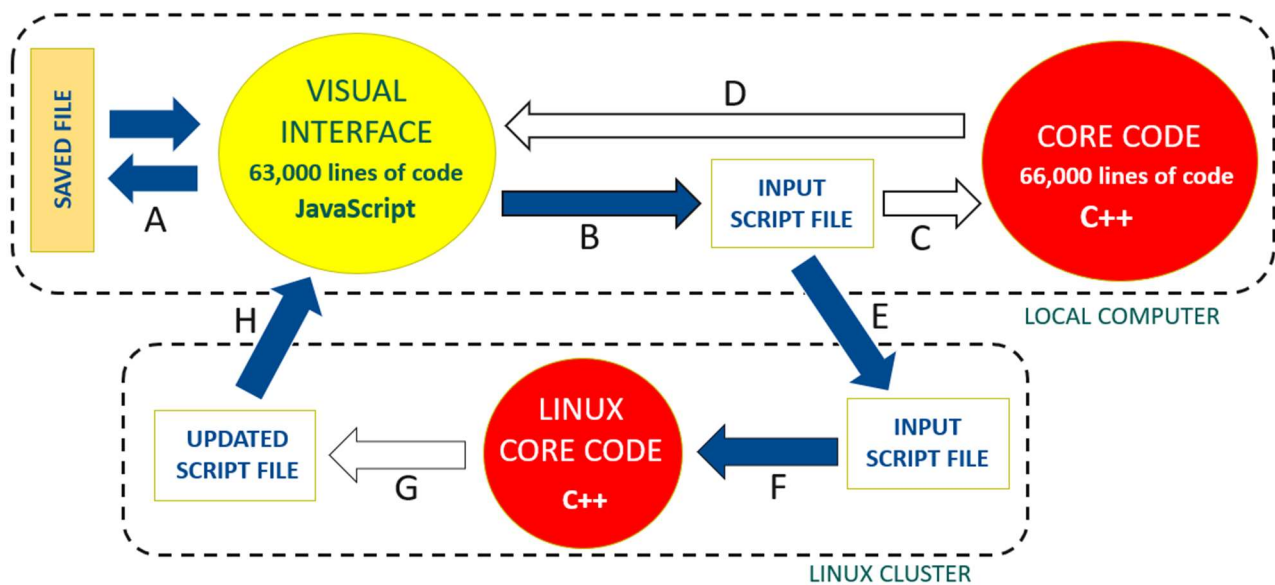


Figure 16 – BICI architecture. This diagram represents how BICI works. Arrows show interactions between different elements (solid/empty correspond to user initiated or not). A: Files can be loaded and saved from the interface in ‘.bici’ format, B: When the “Start” button is pressed the interface creates an input BICI-script file, C: When running on the local machine, this file gets loaded by the core code, which performs the analysis, D: The core code seamlessly passes the results back to the interface for visualisation, E: If the code is to be run on a Linux cluster, the script file is copied to the cluster, F: Execution is initiated using a terminal command (see §6.4), G: The core code is run and the results are embedded into the script file, H: The script file is copied back to the local machine and loaded into the interface for visualisation.

6) Inputs and outputs

6.1 BICI architecture

The diagram in Fig. 16 shows how BICI works. The code is split in two:

- **Visual interface** – This is written in JavaScript and runs on the desktop by means of NW.js.
- **The core code** – Performs analysis when BICI is executed (*i.e.*, by clicking on the “Start” button). This is written in highly efficient C++ code.

The various arrows in the diagram show routes by which the different elements interact.

6.2 Loading and saving BICI files

Loading and saving is done from the drop-down menu in the top right-hand corner of the page. The following file options are available:

- **Load** – This can be used to load a model/analysis in ‘.bici’ format.
- **Save** – Saves the model and data in ‘.bici’ format using the current path (note, this doesn't save any results, so the file size is relatively small).
- **Save As...** – Saves the model and data in ‘.bici’ format using a specified path. This can either be done as a single BICI-script file (convenient for storing and sending) or with a separate data directory (convenient when directly working with BICI-script).
- **Save Simulation** – Saves simulation results (*i.e.* any parameter and state samples), along with the model/data used to generate them.
- **Save Inference** – Saves inference results, along with the model/data used to generate them (note, these files can be large because they store many samples of the model state).
- **Save Post. Sim.** – Saves posterior simulation results, along with the model/data used to generate them and inference samples.
- **View Code** – Used to view the code for the currently loaded model.



6.3 Exporting

Exporting from BICI is done from the drop-down menu in the top right-hand corner.

The following export options are available:

- **Print** – Prints the graph/plot/table currently being viewed.
- **Image** – Creates an image file for the graph/plot/table currently being viewed (in ‘.png’ format).
- **Video** – Creates a video file for the animation currently being viewed (in ‘.mp4’ format).
- **Table** – Creates a file for a table or graph currently being viewed (in ‘.csv’ format).
- **Params** – Exports posterior parameter samples.
- **States** – Exports posterior state samples.

6.4 Running on a Linux cluster

On the “Simulation→Run”, “Inference→Run” and “Post. Simulation→Run” pages there is the option to “Run on local machine”. If this is selected as “No” it is assumed BICI is to be run on a Linux cluster.

To run BICI in this way, the following steps must be followed:

- **Create BICI file** – Click on the “Start” button (Fig. 13G) to create and save the BICI-script file. Copy this to the cluster where BICI is going to be run.

- **Executable** – The executable “bici-para” must also be copied from the BICI main folder to the cluster (*e.g.* this could be in the same directory as the BICI file).

- **Run** – BICI is run using:

```
mpirun -n [core] ./bici-para [file.bici] [run]
```

where:

- [core] is replaced with the number of CPU cores (this is typically the number of MCMC chains or PAS particles, but may be different if, *e.g.*, more than one chain is run per core).
- [file.bici] is replaced by the name of the BICI file that was created.
- [run] is replaced with “sim”, “inf” or “post-sim”, depending on what is being run.

Note, if the error “mpirun: command not found...” is encountered, MPI can be loaded with the terminal command “*module load mpi/openmpi-x86_64*”.

If the time bars do not update as BICI is executed, running with “mpirun --output :raw” may solve the problem.

- **Visualise** – Once BICI has run, it embeds the results into [file.bici]. Copy this back to your local computer and load using the BICI interface.

6.5 Loading large models into the interface

One potential issue when working with large models (*e.g.* > 10k compartments³⁵) is that it becomes impossible to load inference results into the interface due to memory restrictions on the software (a strict limit of 4GB).

To help mitigate this (and avoid the interface simply crashing), three simplifications are made in order of necessity:

- (1) States are stored in a marginalised format, which means that some filtering options cannot be implemented when visualising populations and transitions.
- (2) If above is insufficient, a “low memory” mode is implemented. In this diagnostic information is unavailable and the ability to save results from the interface is curtailed.
- (3) If above is still insufficient, the number of state samples loaded into the interface is reduced (parameter samples are still all loaded, as these are usually much less memory-hungry).

³⁵ The total number of compartments is given by multiplying together the number of compartments in each classification.

```
##### DATA DIRECTORY #####
data-dir folder="EX_M1-1-data-files"

##### DESCRIPTION #####
description text="description.txt"

##### DETAILS #####
simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5
inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 nchain=3
post-sim start=0 end=100

##### DEFINE MODEL AND DATA FOR SPECIES PEOPLE #####
species name="People" type="population"

# SPECIES MODEL
class name="DS" index="a"

comp name="S" color="#009900" x=-10 y=0
comp name="I" color="#ff2222" x=10 y=0

trans name="S->I" value="exp(rate: $\beta \times \{I\}$ )"

# SIMULATION INITIAL CONDITIONS
init-pop-sim type="fixed" focal="DS" file="init-pop-sim-People.csv"

##### PARAMETERS #####
param name=" $\beta$ " value="0.001" prior="uniform(0,0.01)"
```

Figure 17 – *Example of BICI-script*. This example is taken from SE1.1 in §8. See §7.1 for a description of the various commands (note, details on all BICI commands are given in Appendices A, B and C).

7) BICI-script

BICI-script is the means by which models and analyses are stored and processed. A typical script contains commands which set up the compartmental model structure, add model parameters and priors and incorporate any available data. When run using the core BICI code, the results are added into the script itself (overwriting any previous results) such that they can be read back into the visual interface.

Appendix A provides a comprehensive list of BICI commands, ordered by section. Appendix B gives an alphabetically ordered index of commands for easy reference. Appendix C provides some illustrative examples.

Inspecting the BICI-script files in the ‘Examples’ directory can be a good way to help understand setting up different types of model (see §8).

7.1 A simple example

Figure 17 shows a simple BICI-script taken from SE1.1 in §8. Different commands inform different parts of the model. This sets up a population-based species ‘People’ and within this creates a classification ‘DS’ (short for ‘disease status’). It adds compartments S and I into ‘DS’, and a transition going between the two with rate $\beta \times \{I\}$.

A brief description of the various commands in Fig. 17 is as follows:

data-dir – Informs the location of the data directory, which stores any data files (note, the path for this directory can either be specified relative to the BICI-script or using a full path name³⁶). The ‘data-dir’ command can be omitted when all data is embedded within the script (see §7.2).

description – Provides a text description of the analysis (optional). Here this is provided within the file ‘description.txt’:

```
# Model 1.1: Simple SI model

## Objective
- Introduce the simplest possible population-based epidemiological model.

## Model
- A single population-based species 'People' is created.
- This contains a classification 'DS' which stands for 'disease status'.
- DS contains two compartments: susceptible  $S$  and infected  $I$ . Together they are known as the "SI model".
- A transmission rate  $\beta$  determines the rate at which individuals become infected.

## Population
- This consists of 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.
```

A markdown format is used when displayed in the visual interface (this allows for the following concise formatting: “# Title”, “## Subtitle”, “- Bullet point”, “*italic text*” and “**bold text**”). Additionally, parameters can be added by enclosing within dollar symbols, e.g. “ S ” or “ $b^{\text{super_sub}}$ ”.

simulation – This informs the time range and time-step used under simulation. Note, to actually perform simulation it is necessary to use “sim” when executing the BICI core code (see §7.3).

inference – This informs the time range and time-step used under inference. To perform this, it is necessary to use “inf” when executing the BICI core code.

post-sim – This informs the time range used under posterior simulation (here the time-step is automatically set to that under inference). To perform this, it is necessary to use “post-sim” when executing the BICI core code.

species – Determines the name and type (population or individual-based) for a new species (see §2.1.1).

class – Determines the name and index³⁷ for a new classification (see §2.1.2).

³⁶ In this example the data folder is called “EX_1-1-data-files”, which is stored in the same “Examples” directory as the BICI-script file.

³⁷ A single letter used in mathematical expressions to represent compartments within the classification.

comp – Determines the name of a new compartment within the classification (see §2.1.3). The colour and position information used by the visual interface are optional³⁸.

trans – Determines a new transition between two compartments (see §2.1.4).

init-pop-sim – Contains information about the initial population under simulation, as stored in the file ‘init-pop-sim-People.csv’ (see §3.1.1.1):

```
"Compartment", "Population"  
"S", 100  
"I", 1
```

This states that the S and I compartments start with 100 and 1 individuals, respectively.

param – Provides information about a model parameter. Here ‘value’ would be used under simulation and ‘prior’ under inference (note, posterior simulation uses parameter samples generated under inference, hence values don’t need to be specified).

Note, many of the commands above rely on default settings that can be changed. For example, the default setting under inference uses the DA-MCMC algorithm, but other methods are available. See Appendix C for a collection of BICI-script examples that help to illustrate many of the different possibilities.

For the most part, BICI commands can be declared in any order. A notable exception is when the command relates to a specific species or classification. For example, “comp” and “trans” add compartments and transitions to a specific classification and so rely on that classification being declared earlier in the BICI-script³⁹.

7.2 Formatting

In terms of formatting, BICI-script can be written in Unicode or plain ASCII (which allows for simplicity of typing and editing if working directly with the script). For the latter, Greek characters can be added by using Latex notation, *e.g.* ‘\beta’ becomes ‘ β ’ when loaded into BICI. Furthermore, the ‘*’ character can be used instead of ‘x’ and left ‘<’ and right ‘>’ triangular brackets (used for fixed effects) can be substituted by the greater and less than symbols ‘<’ and ‘>’. See §2.1.12 for naming restrictions on species, compartments *etc...*

In the example in Fig. 17, a data directory is specified in which data files are separated from the BICI-script itself. This is usually the best way to directly work with BICI-script when using the command line instead of the visual interface (because the script is relatively concise). It’s worth mentioning, however, that loading and saving BICI files from the interface is done using just a single ‘.bici’ file. This is achieved by embedding any additional data files within the script itself (by surrounding the file text using “[...]” quotes). Selecting to export ‘Script’ from the main menu in the interface (instead of ‘Save As’) generates BICI-script with a corresponding data directory, which can subsequently be worked on from the terminal.

7.3 Directly running BICI core code

Whilst running BICI is very easy using the interface, there may be instances when the user might want to run BICI-script directly using the core code, *i.e.* bypassing the interface entirely. For example, BICI could be

³⁸ Note, position information is required if the distance matrix is used in the model.

³⁹ Note, the “set” command can be used to shift focus to a particular species or classification at any point in the script.

used as part of a pipeline in which the script is generated, run using the BICI core code, and the outputs used for further processing.

The core code can be run using the following command:

```
./bici-core.exe [file.bici] [run]
```

where:

- [file.bici] is the name of the BICI file.
- [run] is replaced with “sim”, “inf” or “post-sim”, depending on whether simulation, inference or posterior simulation are being run. The “ext” option can be used to extend inference for more updates (see below).

Once run, the outputs get incorporated into the ‘.bici file’. For example, if the script in Fig. 17 is run using:

```
./bici-core.exe example.bici sim
```

the following text will be added to the end of the file ‘example.bici’:

```
# OUTPUT

sim-param file="Sample/param_0.csv"

sim-state file="Sample/state_0.csv"
```

The command “param-sim” and “state-sim” store the parameters and states generated by the simulation (see §7.4.1 and §7.4.3 for formatting information). Because the ‘data-dir’ command is defined in Fig.17, so BICI creates a directory “Sample” into which the parameter and state samples are saved. Otherwise, they are embedded directly into the BIC-script (see §7.2).

Note, running a new simulation deletes any existing “param-sim” and “state-sim” commands (and similarly for inference and posterior simulation).

In the case of inference, a further command “param-stats-inf” stores posterior summary statistics for the parameters (see §7.4.2).

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H	I	J	K
1	State	β	L ^{markov}	L ^{non-markov}	L ^{ie}	L ^{dist}	L ^{obs}	L ^{genetic-proc}	L ^{genetic-obs}	L ^{init}	Prior
2	0	0.00622167	-47.5336	0	0	0	-7583.64	0	0	0	4.60517
3	16	0.000963481	-168.288	0	0	0	-14.2494	0	0	0	4.60517
4	31	0.000670784	-164.802	0	0	0	-13.6196	0	0	0	4.60517
5	46	0.00102211	-162.565	0	0	0	-14.8831	0	0	0	4.60517
6	61	0.000986288	-166.84	0	0	0	-13.4952	0	0	0	4.60517
7	76	0.000842911	-156.489	0	0	0	-12.1035	0	0	0	4.60517
8	91	0.000911668	-155.954	0	0	0	-12.7896	0	0	0	4.60517
9	106	0.000994754	-148.155	0	0	0	-11.767	0	0	0	4.60517
10	121	0.000951873	-149.254	0	0	0	-12.0442	0	0	0	4.60517

Figure 18 – Parameter output file. This is an extract from of a parameter output file generated using example B1 (.csv file viewed in Excel). The column “State” gives the MCMC update number from which the sample is taken (note, because of thinning this number goes up in steps of 5). Different rows give different posterior samples, for example parameter β has different sampled values going down the second column. Other columns related to log-likelihoods and the log of the prior probability (see §7.4.1 for details)

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H	I	J	K	L
1	name	mean	sd	CI min	CI max	ESS	GR					
2	\beta_M	0.62292	0.0157	0.59358	0.65519	394	1.00834					
3	\beta_F	0.39761	0.01041	0.37696	0.41777	515	1.00735					
4	\gamma_M	0.09855	0.00289	0.0929	0.10421	530	1.00125					
5	\gamma_F	0.20277	0.01006	0.18547	0.22357	400	1.00379					

Figure 19 – *Parameter statistics file*. This shows the parameter posterior statistics file, as obtained by performing inference on example B3 (.csv file viewed in Excel).

7.3.1 Extending inference

See §4.4.8 for a description of how extending inference can be used to ensure MCMC convergence. This is implemented by running BICI-script using the ‘ext’ option (or ‘extend’).

For example, the following command:

```
./bici-core.exe example.bici inf
```

could be used to perform inference (which generates 5000 updates) and then:

```
./bici-core.exe example.bici ext 10000
```

would extend that inference up to 10000 updates (*i.e.* double).

Alternatively, the extension could be expressed as a percentage. Here the equivalent command would be:

```
./bici-core.exe example.bici ext 200%
```

Once run, the number of updates in the ‘inference’ command gets automatically changed within the BICI-script (so the initial value ‘update=5000’ becomes ‘update=10000’). Similarly, ‘param-output’ and ‘state-output’ are increased to double their previous value.

7.4 BICI-script outputs

7.4.1 Parameter samples

These are stored in the BICI-script using the commands “param-sim”, “param-inf” or “param-post-sim” (depending on whether simulation, inference or posterior simulation have been performed).

Figure 18 shows an example taken from inference using B1 in §8. Here the first few posterior parameter samples generated are displayed (typically, the data table will contain 1000 rows in all).

7.4.2 Parameter statistics

These are generated under inference and stored in the BICI-script using the command “param-stats-inf”.

Figure 19 shows an example taken from inference using example B3 in §8.

The columns give the parameter name (with any Greek letters replaced with Latex equivalents), posterior mean, standard deviation and 95% credible interval. The effective sample size (ESS) and Gelman-Rubin statistic (GR) are diagnostics used to determine if the posterior has been estimated accurately or not (see §4.4.7).

```

{
  timepoint 0:0.5:100
}

<<STATE 1000>>

<PARAMETERS>
"β",0.00104521
L^markov,-144.692
L^non-markov,0
L^ie,0
L^dist,0
L^obs,-31.4348
L^init,0
Prior,2.30259

<SPECIES "People">

<INITIAL POPULATION>
compartment,population
S,100
I,1

<TRANSITIONS>
S->I:Z10,1,Z18,1,Z9,1,Z8,1,Z14,1,Z3,1,Z3,1,Z1,1,Z5,1,1,Z1,2,Z3,1,1,Z1,1,3,1,2,Z1,2,1,1,1,Z2,1,1,2...

```

Figure 20 – *State output file (population-based)*. This is an extract from of a state output file. The curly brackets at the top denote header information (applicable to all samples) and the various tags specify different aspects of the state sample (see §7.4.3 for details).

```

{
  # Time divisions
  timepoint 0:0.5:100
  # Individual index
  0:Sim-People-Ind-1
  1:Sim-People-Ind-2
  2:Sim-People-Ind-3
  :      :      :
}

<<STATE 1>>

<PARAMETERS>
"β",0.001
L^markov,-419.935
L^non-markov,0
L^ie,0
L^dist,0
L^obs,0
L^init,0
Prior,0

<SPECIES "People">

<INDIVIDUALS>
index,source,events
0,no,S:0 S->I:59.4155
1,no,S:0 S->I:66.0036
2,no,S:0 S->I:48.9163
:      :      :

```

Figure 21 – *State output file (individual-based)*. This is an extract from of a state output file. The curly brackets at the top denote header information (applicable to all samples) and the various tags specify different aspects of the state sample (see §7.4.3 for details).

7.4.3 State samples

These are stored in the BICI-script using the commands “state-sim”, “state-inf” or “state-post-sim” (depending on whether simulation, inference or posterior simulation have been performed).

The formatting for the state sample depends on whether it has been derived from a population or individual-based species:

Population-based sample – Figure 20 shows an example taken from inference using SE1.1 in §8. The curly brackets at the top denote header information (which applies to all state samples). “timepoint” here indicates that the inference time goes from 0 to 100 in steps of 0.5.

“<<STATE 1000>>” is used to denote the fact the sample was taken after 1000 MCMC updates.

The various tags in Fig. 20 provides information about the sample:

- <PARAMETERS> – This stores the parameter’s value.
- <SPECIES> – Indicates which species is being referred to.
- <INITIAL POPULATION> – The initial population in different model compartments.
- <TRANSITIONS> – For each transition, this stores the number of individuals passing down the transition for each time-step. Note, this uses concise formatting, where the “Z” character followed by a number indicates the number zeros represented (such an approach drastically reduces file size when transitions are sparse).

Individual-based sample – Figure 21 shows an example taken from inference using SE1.2 in §8. The header provides a “dictionary” that relates individual names to index numbers used in the state samples (this is done to reduce file size). The example shows that individual ‘Sim-People-Ind-1’ has an index 0.

Many of the tags are the same as above. However, rather than transition information being stored, here the dynamics of individuals are represented:

- <INDIVIDUALS> – This table provides information about the individual state. The first column “index” refers to the individual index, as referenced in the header information. The second column “source” determines if the individual originates from a source transition. The final column “events” gives the individual’s initial compartment and any subsequent events they undergo.

As can be seen, storing the system state typically requires a much larger files size than storing the model parameters. For this reason, state sample are usually thinned more than parameter samples.

In other circumstances, further tags can provide additional information:

- <POPULATION CHANGE> – Stores population changes from adding or removing populations
- <TRANSDISTPROB> – Stores information about cumulative probability distributions (used when displaying diagnostics).
- <DERIVED> – Information about time-varying derived variables.
- <TRANSTREE> – Stores the transmission tree (if pathogen genetic data has been added to the analysis this also captures the phylogenetic tree).
- <TEST-AND_CULL> – Information about diagnostic test results for test-and-cull protocol.

7.4.4 Prediction accuracy

The prediction accuracy is the Pearson correlation between the logs of the individual effects and their true values. In cases in which the model contains individual effects and individual effect data (see §4.1.4.1), the prediction accuracy is stored in the BICI-script using the command “pred-acc-inf”. This prediction accuracy is calculated for the entire population, or for specific specified groups (see §4.1.4.2).

7.5 Data simulation and manipulation

A number of BICI command line operations can be used to create, delete or overwrite data, as well as perform other data manipulation. These are described in the following table:

Operation	Description
data-sim	Creates simulated data from a previously generated simulated state (<i>i.e.</i> arising from running BICI with ‘sim’)⁴⁰, <i>e.g.</i>: <pre>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'comp-data name="comp. obs." dt="10" class="DS"'</pre> A description of the data to be created is contained within single quotation marks following ‘data-sim’. In this example, compartmental data is created with a time-step of 10 on classification ‘DS’. This specification follows the same formatting as for the equivalent command in BICI-script. Some additional tags are used specifically for simulation (<i>e.g.</i> the ‘dt’ tag here). All tag options for simulating data are described in Appendix L. The following commands relate to observations: ‘comp-data’, ‘trans-data’, ‘test-data’, ‘genetic-data’, ‘pop-data’, ‘pop-trans-data’, ‘ind-effect-data’, ‘ind-group-data’ The following commands relate to the initial conditions: ‘init-pop-inf’, ‘add-pop-inf’, ‘remove-pop-inf’, ‘add-ind-inf’, ‘remove-ind-inf’, ‘move-ind-inf’ An additional command ‘ic’ is used to transfer all initial condition data from simulation to inference, <i>e.g.</i> <pre>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim ic</pre> Multiple simulated data sources – These can be created by putting extra expressions after ‘data-sim’, <i>e.g.</i>: <pre>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim ic 'comp-data name="comp. obs." dt="10" class="DS"'</pre> Selecting simulation – In cases in which multiple simulations have been performed, the one used to actually generate the simulated data is specified using the ‘sim/simulation’ tag (by default the first simulation is used), <i>e.g.</i> <pre>./bici-core.exe file.bici -sim=3 data-sim 'comp-data name="co. obs." dt="10" class="DS"'</pre>
data-show	Shows a list of all data sources within the BICI-script, <i>e.g.</i>: <pre>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-show</pre> An output might look something like this: SIMULATION DATA (1) Initial population (command: init-pop-sim, number:101)

⁴⁰ Note, if multiple simulations have been performed, just the first is used to generate the data.

	INFERENCE DATA (2) Initial population (command: init-pop-inf, number:101) (3) Pop. data (command: pop-data, details: DS=I, number:5)
data-del	Deletes a data source, <i>e.g.</i> <i>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-del 2</i> The source to be deleted can be referenced in several ways: • Remove all inference data with no specification or ‘all’. • The data source number, as shown in the ‘data-show’ command, <i>e.g.</i> ‘2’. • The data source name, <i>e.g.</i> ‘Pop. data’. • The beginning of the source name, ‘P’. Note, this must uniquely specify the source. • For a specific species, <i>e.g.</i> ‘Cattle:Pop. data’.
clear	Used to remove any state/parameter results, <i>e.g.</i>: <i>./bici-core.exe file.bici clear sim</i> A number of different options can be chosen from: • <i>sim</i> – Removes any simulated information (from ‘param-sim’ and ‘state-sim’ commands). • <i>inf</i> – Removes any inference information (from ‘param-inf’ and ‘state-inf’ commands⁴¹). • <i>post-sim</i> – Removes any posterior simulation information (from ‘param-post-sim’ and ‘state-post-sim’ commands). • <i>all</i> or no specification – Removes all parameter and sample information.
compress / comp	Compresses any uncompressed BICI output files, <i>e.g.</i>: <i>./bici-core.exe file.bici comp</i>
decompress / decomp	Decompresses any compressed BICI output files, <i>e.g.</i>: <i>./bici-core.exe file.bici decomp</i>

BICI DATA OPERATIONS – A list of data-related operations when running BICI-script.

Many of these operations explicitly ask the user to verify whether they want to perform the task (*e.g.* ‘Do you really want to delete?’). To switch off these questions (useful when running in batch mode) the ‘-no-question’ tag can be added, *e.g.* *./bici-core file.bici -no-question data-del ‘Pop. data’*

7.6 Validation and simulation studies

BICI provides some simple tools that can be used when validating the algorithm or performing simulation studies (specifically, creation of tornado plots and parameter scanning). See Appendix M for further details.

8) Examples

Example applications can be selected on the main page (see Fig. 1D). These demonstrate the versatility of BICI applied to a wide variety of different models and data scenarios. They can be altered or experimented with in any way, and new users are encouraged to try different possibilities to familiarise themselves with the BICI interface (note, reloading examples from the main page returns them to their default settings). The source BICI-scripts for these examples can be found in the “Examples” directory.

⁴¹ Also other inference-specific commands, such as ‘diagnostics-inf’ and ‘warning-inf’

The first six sections look at epidemiological systems:

- **simp-epi** – Examples of simple epidemiological models, illustrating both individual and population-based approaches.
- **comp-epi** – Additional features, such as branching, reverse transitions and stratification.
- **spatial-epi** – Models incorporating spatial stratification in different ways.
- **exp-epi** – Examples looking at disease transmission experiments.
- **qg-epi** – Different ways in which quantitative genetics can be incorporated into epidemiological models.
- **gen-epi** – Adds pathogen genetic information to analyses.

The next two sections relate to ecological systems:

- **simp-eco** – Some simple examples from ecology.
- **spatial-eco** – Spatial models used in ecology.

The final three sections relate to different BICI features:

- **sim-scen** – Various simulation features and ways to implement initial conditions.
- **data-scen** – Different types of data that can be used in analysis.
- **features** – Different model features such as time variation, individual variation and parameterisation.

All examples above can be simulated to see their dynamic behaviour (using different visualisations). Simulated data can be generated on the “Simulation→Generate Data” page (see §3.5), from which inference can then be performed. The ‘data-scen’ section contains presimulated data, so inference can be performed straight away.

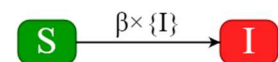
Below is a detailed description of all the example models.

SE) Simple epidemiological models (simp-epi)

This section gives some examples of simple epidemiological models, illustrating both individual and population-based approaches.

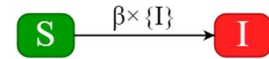
SE1.1: SI population-based model (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the simplest possible population-based epidemiological model.
 - This type of model keeps track of how the populations in the different compartments change over time.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I. Together they are known as the “SI model”.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.



SE1.2: SI individual-based model (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the simplest possible individual-based epidemiological model.
 - Under simulation or inference, we see timelines for each of the individuals in the system.



- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for 'disease status'.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

SE1.3: SIR model (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the SIR epidemiological model.



- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for 'disease status'.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R. Together they are known as the “SIR model”.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected

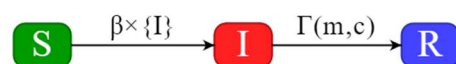
SE1.4: SIR model with Erlang distribution (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the Erlang distribution.
 - In population-based models, transitions are normally required to be exponentially distributed.
 - The Erlang distribution is a gamma distribution with a specified integer shape parameter.
 - This can be used to more realistically model disease progression within individuals.
 - Note, Erlang transitions must be unbranching.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery duration m determines how long it takes for individuals to recover on average.
 - The shape parameter is fixed to $k=3$.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.



SE1.5: SIR model with gamma distribution (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce non-Markovian (NM) transitions.
 - In individual-based models there is greater flexibility to specify the probability distribution over which transitions occur.
 - This example uses a gamma distributed infectious period with a mean and coefficient of variation (which is a dimensionless number that specifies the standard deviation divided by the mean).
 - Other possibilities include: Erlang, log-normal, Weibull, and fixed period.

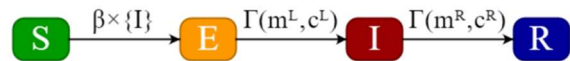


- NM transitions can be used to more realistically model disease progression within individuals.

- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery duration m determines how long it takes for individuals to recover on average.
 - A coefficient of variation parameter c determines the variation about the mean m .
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

SE1.6: SEIR model with exposed period (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a model with a so-called “exposed” compartment.
 - This new compartment allows for a period after an individual becomes infected but before they are infectious.



- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, exposed E and recovered R. Together they are known as the “SEIR model”.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A latent duration m^L (with coefficient of variation c^L) determines how long, on average, individuals remain in the exposed state.
 - An infectious duration m^I (with coefficient of variation c^I) determines how long, on average, individuals can pass on their infection to others.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

CE) Complex epidemiological models (comp-epi)

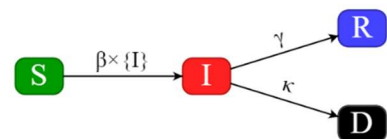
These examples look at some additional features, such as branching, reverse transitions and stratification.

1) Branching points

These can be used to differentiate the long-term behaviour of individuals.

CE1.1: SIRD model with branching using transition rates (PBM)

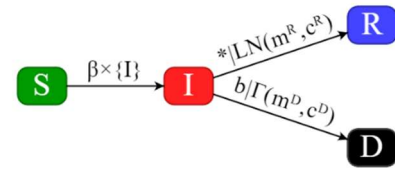
- Purpose:**
- Introduce branching in a population-based model.
 - Here infected individuals can either recover or die.



- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D. Together they are known as the “SIRD model”.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the probability per unit time an infected individual recovers.
 - A mortality rate κ determines the probability per unit time an infected individual dies
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

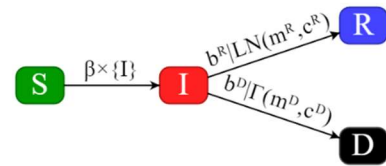
CE1.2: SIRD model with branching probability (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce branching in an individual-based model.
 - Here infected individuals can either recover or die.
 - A branching probability is used to determine if an individual dies.
 - Note, one of the branches had probability “*” because it is derived from others (such that the total adds to one).
 - In this example the transition distributions down the branches are different (one being log-normal and the other gamma distributed).
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - Branching probability b determines the probability of dying.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.
 - Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.



CE1.3: SIRD model with branching factors (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce branching factors in an individual-based model.
 - Here infected individuals can either recover or die.
 - Unlike branching probabilities, branching factors specify the *relative* probability of going down a branch (note, their sum does not need to add to one).
 - They are implemented by clicking on the I compartment and selecting 'Use branching factors'.
 - Branching factors are useful, *e.g.*, for models in which time-varying covariates affect branching probabilities.
 - The transition distributions down the branches are different (one being log-normal and the other gamma distributed).
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - Branching factors b^D and b^R determine the *relative* probability of dying or recovering.
 - The probability of dying is $b^D / (b^D + b^R)$.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.
 - Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

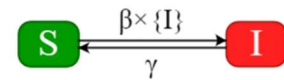


2) Waning immunity

Reverse transitions allow for individuals to become reinfected due to waning immunity.

CE2.1: SIS model (PBM)

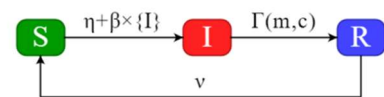
- Purpose:**
- Introduce a model that allows individuals to be infected multiple times.
 - This can lead to endemic diseases.



- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - The backward transition to the I state means that this model is known as the “SIS model”.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individual return to being susceptible.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

CE2.2: SIRS model with waning immunity (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the concept of waning immunity.
 - For many diseases recovery is not permanent.
 - Due to mutations in the pathogen, an individual can become reinfected at a later date.
 - This waning immunity is incorporated into the standard SIR model by a backward transition from R to S.



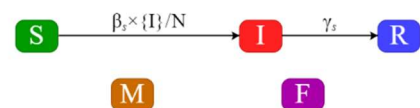
- Model:**
- Such a model can generate multiple epidemics.
 - A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - An external force of infection parameter η provides a small proportion of infections from outside the system.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery duration m (and coefficient of variation c) determines how long, on average, it takes for individuals to recover.
 - A waning immunity coefficient ν determines the rate at which individuals become susceptible again.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

3) Demographic stratification

This splits the population into subgroups based on shared characteristics like age and/or gender.

CE3.1: SIR model with demographic stratification (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce an example of stratification into the SIR epidemiological model.
 - Here the population is divided into males and females.

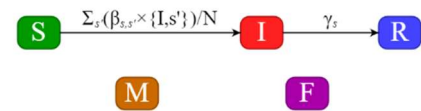


- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

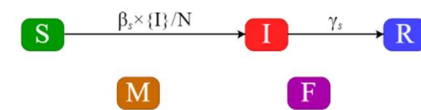
CE3.2: SIR model with differential infectivity and demographic stratification (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce differences in infectivity in a stratified SIR epidemiological model.
 - Here the population is divided into males and females.
 - A 2x2 transmission matrix is used to describe transmission between these two demographic groups.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate $\beta_{s,s'}$ determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected from individuals with sex s' .
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.



CE3.3: SIR model with demographic stratification (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- The same as CE3.2, but this uses an individual-based model.
 - Introduce an example of stratification into the SIR epidemiological model.
 - Here the population is divided into males and females.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.



4) Covid-19 models

These examples look at a variety of different models aimed at understanding a real-world epidemic outbreak.

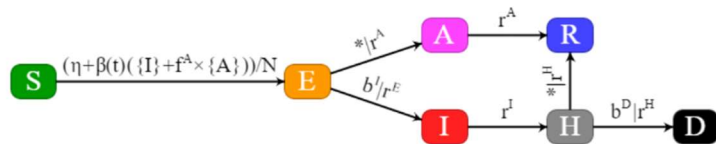
CE4.1: Simple (PBM)

Purpose: • Show a possible model of Covid-19.

• Here additional compartments are used to not only more accurately model the disease, but such that the model aligns with publicly available data.

Model: • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains seven compartments: susceptible S, exposed E, infected I, recovered R, asymptomatic A, hospitalised H and dead D.
 • An external force of infection is controlled by parameter η (this could be a spline estimated from raw case data and flight information).
 • The transmission rate $\beta(t)$ is time varying to capture the influence of lockdown measures and vaccination.
 • Parameter f^A determines the relative infectiousness of asymptomatic A individuals (compared with infected I individuals).

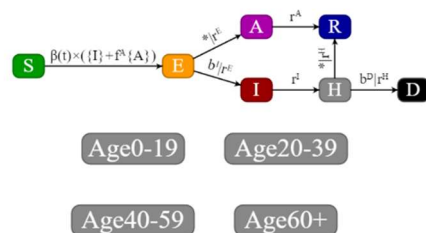
System: • The UK population, which is initially susceptible.



CE4.2: Age-structured model (PBM)

Purpose: • This adds age stratification into model CE4.1.

Model: • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Age”.
 • “DS” contains seven compartments: susceptible S, exposed E, infected I, recovered R, asymptomatic A, hospitalised H and dead D.
 • “Age” contains 4 age classifications: 0-19, 20-39, 40-59 and 60+.
 • An external force of infection is controlled by parameter η (this could be a spline estimated from raw case data and flight information).
 • The transmission rate $\beta(t)$ is time varying to capture the influence of lockdown measures and vaccination.
 • An age mixing $M_{a,a'}$ captures the relative contact rate between different age groups.



System: • The UK population, which is initially susceptible.

Disease transmission experiments – Such experiments can be used to identify factors affecting the passing of infection from one individual to another. These can either be fixed categorical effects, such as vaccination status, covariates, such as weight, or quantitative genetic traits (the latter are investigated in the eq-epi section below).

SPE) Spatial epidemiological models (spatial-epi)

These models incorporate spatial stratification in different ways.

1) Metapopulation models

Metapopulation models partition a population into discrete sub-populations, or “patches” (such as cities or households), connected by movement or contact. Unlike simple compartmental models that assume

everyone interacts equally, metapopulation models capture spatial heterogeneity and the role of mobility in spreading disease.

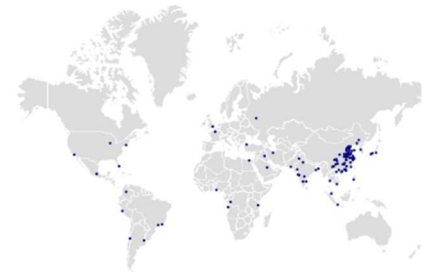
SPE1.1: Metapopulation model using geographical regions (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a spatial epidemiological model that uses regions (these are bounded areas on a map).
 - These boundaries are loaded using GeoJSON format (a commonly used format, often available to download for geographical, political and administrative boundaries).
 - Here Scotland is divided into 32 local authorities.
 - A constant matrix of interactions is derived from census commuting data.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Location” contains 32 regions.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals transmit disease.
 - A constant matrix of interactions $M_{l,l'}$ is proportional to the contact rate between individuals in the same and different regions (this can be estimated from census commuting data).
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
 - An external force of infection η is used to initiate an epidemic.
- System:**
- Initially susceptible individuals, with regional populations taken from census data.



SPE1.2: Metapopulation model using geographical points (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a spatial epidemiological model that uses geographical points (these have a defined longitude and latitude).
 - The 100 largest cities in the world are incorporated into the model.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Location” contains compartments for 100 world cities.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals transmit disease within a city.
 - Parameter λ controls the spread of disease between cities.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
 - Constant matrix $M_{l,l'}$ is proportional to the interactions between cities (e.g., this can be obtained from movement data).
 - N_l is the population of city l .
 - P is the global population.
- System:**
- Initially susceptible individuals, with city populations taken from census data.
 - Two infected individuals start in Tokyo.



SPE1.3: Metapopulation model using a distance kernel (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce spatial kernels.
 - A kernel is a specified function that gives the probability the disease is transmitted a certain distance.
 - Typically, they have a high value at close distance, but decay away to zero in the large distance limit.
 - This example uses a so-called “power-law” spatial kernel.
 - To increase computational speed, the kernel is truncated to a maximum distance of 200km.
 - The 100 largest cities in the UK are incorporated into the model.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Location” contains 100 geographical points.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals transmit disease within a city.
 - The parameter λ determines the rate at which individuals transmit disease between cities.
 - η is an external force of infection.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how fast individuals recover.
 - A matrix $M_{l,l'}$ gives the transmission between cities. This is reparameterised as a power-law distribution, where Δ gives the range over which transmission occurs and α is the exponent (larger values imply a quicker decay with distance).
 - N_l is the population in city l .
 - P is the UK population.
- System:**
- Initially susceptible individuals, with city populations taken from census data.

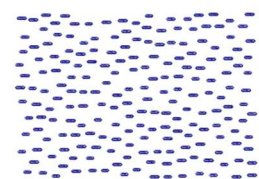


2) Farm-based models

These models work at the level of the epidemiological status of the farm being the fundamental unit.

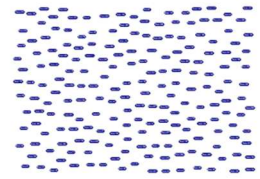
SPE2.1: Farm-based model using a distance kernel (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce farm-based models.
 - Farms are represented as geographical points (either as compartments with x,y positions, or using longitudes and latitudes).
 - Each farm contains a single “individual” that is used to denote the disease status of that farm.
 - A spatial kernel allows for spread of disease between farms.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Farm” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible farm S, infected farm I and recovered farm R.
 - “Location” contains 200 farm positions.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which susceptible farms become infected due to surrounding infected farms.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
- System:**
- A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible except for one infected.



SPE2.2: Farm-based model with density dependency (IBM)

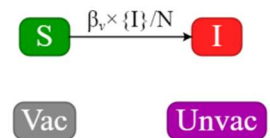
- Purpose:**
- Introduce density dependency in farm-based models.
 - Farms are represented as geographical points (either as compartments with x,y positions, or using longitudes and latitudes).
 - Each farm contains a single “individual” that is used to denote the disease status of that farm.
 - A spatial kernel allows for spread of disease between farms.
 - A density-dependent susceptibility is employed. This is implemented using the 'RDEN' vector, which given the relative density of farms (this has an average of one and is calculated using KDE with a radius of 30km).
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Farm” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible farm S, infected farm I and recovered farm R.
 - “Location” contains 800 farm positions (a sub-sample of poultry farms across the UK).
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which susceptible farms become infected due to surrounding infected farms.
 - A rate η determines infections from outside the system.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
- System:**
- A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible.



EE) Disease transmission experiments (exp-epi)

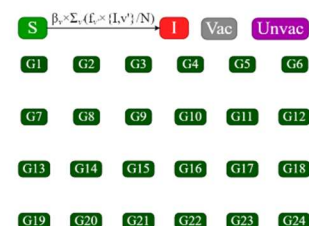
EE1.1: Single contact group, investigating susceptibility (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the concept of a disease transmission experiment.
 - These are used to identify factors which affects how readily disease transmits between individuals.
 - This example considers the effect of vaccination on susceptibility to disease.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Vaccination”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - “Vaccination” contains two compartments: “Vac” and “Unvac”, which represent vaccinated and unvaccinated individuals.
 - A transmission rate β_v determines the rate at which individuals with vaccination status v become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.



EE1.2: Multiple contact groups, investigating infectivity (IBM)

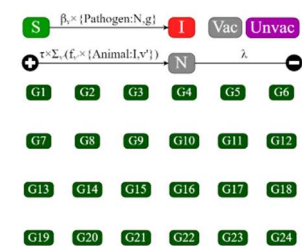
- Purpose:**
- Introduce disease transmission experiment for quantifying differences in infectivity.
 - For this it is necessary to combine information from multiple contact groups.
 - In this example we consider the effect of vaccination on susceptibility and infectivity.



- Model:**
- A single individual-based species 'Animal' is created.
 - This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", "Vaccination" and "Group".
 - "DS" contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - "Vaccination" contains two compartments: "Vac" and "Unvac", which represent vaccinated and unvaccinated individuals.
 - "Group" contains 24 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β_v determines the susceptibility of individuals with vaccination status v .
 - A factor f_v determines the relative infectiousness of individuals with vaccination status v .
- System:**
- Each group consists of 10 individuals, half of which are initially infected.
 - The vaccination status of the infected and susceptibility individuals is permuted to create blocks of 4 that are replicated 6 times (to make 24 groups in total).

EE1.3: Environmental pathogen accumulation model (IBM/PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Rather than modelling direct transmission of disease between individuals, here we assume that pathogen accumulates in the environment.
 - A disease transmission experiment with multiple contact groups is assumed.



- Model:**
- An individual-based species "Animal" is created.
 - This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", "Vaccination" and "Group".
 - "DS" contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - "Vaccination" contains two compartments: "Vac" and "Unvac", which represent vaccinated and unvaccinated individuals.
 - "Group" contains 24 contact groups.
 - A population-based species "Pathogen" models the environmental accumulation.
 - This contains classifications "Population", which stores the amount of pathogen, and "Group", which is cloned from 'Animal'.
 - A transmission rate β_v determines the susceptibility of individuals with vaccination status v .
 - A factor f_v determines the relative infectiousness of individuals with vaccination status v .
 - τ determines the pathogen shedding rate from infected individuals.
 - λ determines the decay of the pathogen in the environment.
- System:**
- Each group consists of 10 individuals, half of which are initially infected.
 - The vaccination status of the infected and susceptibility individuals is permuted to create blocks of 4 that are replicated 6 times (to make 24 groups in total).

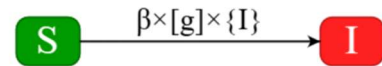
QGE) Quantitative genetics in epidemiology (qg-epi)

1) Applications for individual effects

These examples look at different ways in which individual effects can be incorporated into models.

QGE1.1: Individual effect applied to a transition (IBM)

Purpose: • Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.



Model:

- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
- This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
- DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- An individual effect [g] allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
- The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .

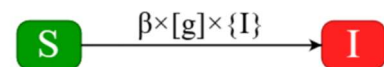
System:

- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

QGE1.2: Correlated individual effect applied to a transition (IBM)

Purpose:

- Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.
- Unlike QGE1.1, the individual effect between individuals is correlated through an A relationship matrix.



Model:

- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
- This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
- DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- An individual effect [g] allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
- The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .
- An A relationship matrix determines correlations in individual effect.

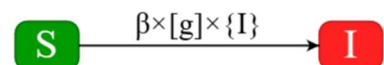
System:

- This consists of 60 groups each with 10 half-sib individuals.
- 598 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

QGE1.3: Correlated individual effect applied to a transition with pedigree (IBM)

Purpose:

- Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.
- The individual effects between individuals are correlated through an A relationship matrix. Unlike QGE1.2, this relationship is defined through a pedigree.



Model:

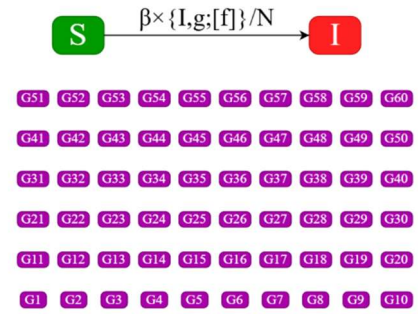
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
- This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
- DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- An individual effect [g] allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
- The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .
- An A relationship matrix determines correlations in individual effect.

System:

- 60 sires and dams in the base population, with each couple having 10 progeny.
- Only the 600 progeny are incorporated into the compartmental model, with 598 initially susceptible individuals and two infected (note, individual effects for sires and dam not in the system are also estimated).

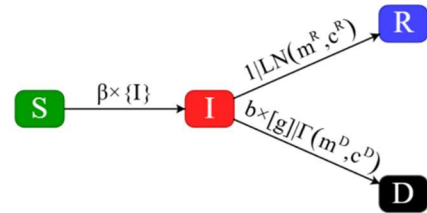
QGE1.4: Correlated individual effect applied to a population (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce an individual effect applied to vary the infectiousness of individuals.
 - In the SI model the infected population $\{I\}$ determines how quickly other individual become infected.
 - The term $\{I[f]\}$ sums over infected individuals, but rather than each individual having a unit contribution it is modified by an individual effect factor $[f]$ (this factor has a population average of 1 but allows for individual variation).
 - The individual effect is correlated through a relationship matrix.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS” and “Group”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - “Group” contains 60 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β determines how fast individuals become infected.
 - $[f]$ give individual effects for infectivity.
 - Ω^{ff} give the genetic variance in infectivity.
- System:**
- Each contact group consists of 10 individuals, two of which have been randomly infected.
 - 60 sires who each have 10 progeny. These 600 progeny are randomly allocated across the contact groups.



QGE1.5: Individual effect applied to a branching probability (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce individual-variation in branching probability through an individual effect.
 - Branching factors are used.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - The *relative* probability of dying is given by $b[g]$.
 - The *relative* probability of recovering is given by 1.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.
 - Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
 - The variance of the individual effect is determined by Ω^{gg} .
 - Individual effects are correlated through a relationship matrix $\mathbf{A}$.
- System:**
- 60 sires each have 10 progeny. These 600 progeny are used in the system (of which 2 are initial infected).

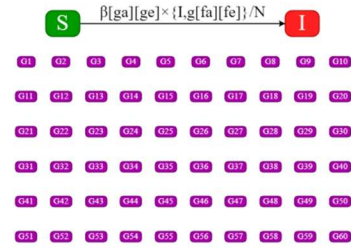


2) Complete models

These examples incorporate multiple individual/fixed effects, as would typically be done in a real analysis.

QGE2.1: Quantitative genetics model for susceptibility/infectivity (IBM)

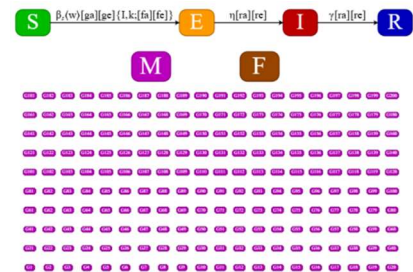
- Purpose:**
- Introduce disease transmission experiment for estimating quantitative genetic contributions to susceptibility and infectivity.
 - A population of full-sib families is randomly allocated into contact groups.



- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS” and “Group”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - “Group” contains 60 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β determines how fast individuals become infected.
 - Individual effects [ga] (for genetic contribution) and [ge] (for environmental contribution) characterise individual variation in susceptibility.
 - Individual effects [fa] (for genetic contribution) and [fe] (for environmental contribution) characterise individual variation in infectivity.
 - Ω^{gen} gives the genetic variances and correlations.
 - Ω^{env} gives the environmental variances and correlations.
- System:**
- Each contact group consists of 10 individuals, two of which have been randomly infected.
 - The population is made up of 60 sires who each have 10 progeny. The 600 progeny overall are randomly allocated across the contact groups.

QGE2.2: Quantitative genetics model for susceptibility/infectivity/recoverability with demographic stratification (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce disease transmission experiment for estimating quantitative genetic contributions to susceptibility, infectivity and recoverability.
 - A population of half-sib progeny is randomly allocated into contact groups.



- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, “Group” and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains four compartments: susceptible S, exposed E, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Group” contains 200 contact groups.
 - “Sex” contains ‘M’ and ‘F’.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines how fast individuals become infected in each sex.
 - Individual effects [ga] (for genetic contribution) and [ge] (for environmental contribution) characterise individual variation in susceptibility.
 - Individual effects [fa] (for genetic contribution) and [fe] (for environmental contribution) characterise individual variation in infectivity.
 - Individual effects [ra] (for genetic contribution) and [re] (for environmental contribution) characterise individual variation in recoverability.
 - A fixed effect $\langle w \rangle$ multiplies susceptibility.
 - Ω^{gen} gives the genetic variances and correlations.
 - Ω^{env} gives the environmental variances and correlations.
- System:**
- Each contact group consists of 10 individuals, two of which have been randomly infected.

- The population is made up of 60 sires who each have 10 progeny. The 600 progeny overall are randomly allocated across the contact groups.

GE) Pathogen genetics in epidemiology (gen-epi)

GE1.1: Matrix of genetic differences (IBM, SE1.2)

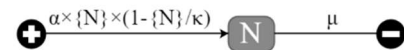
- Purpose:** • Genetic observations on the pathogen allow for the transmission tree to be estimated.
- Data:** • Known event times.
• Genetic observations are taken every 20 time units on all individuals in the system.
• A matrix of genetic differences between the observations is used to inform inference.
- Model:** • A single individual-based species “People” is created.
• This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
• DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
• A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:** • 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

SEC) Simple ecological models (simp-eco)

Compartmental models are often applied to epidemiological applications, but they can equally be used in other settings. Here we look at some examples from ecology.

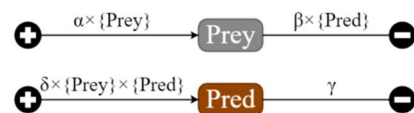
SEC1.1: Logistic growth population model (IBM)

- Purpose:** • Introduce a simple model to represent the dynamics of population in a wildlife setting.
• This uses a logistic growth model.
• Initially the rate at which individuals are born is proportional to the number of individuals currently present.
• Finite resources limit the size of the population through a carrying capacity κ .
- Model:** • A single population-based species “Animal” is created.
• This contains a classification “Population”.
• Population contains a compartment N, which represents the number of individuals.
• A birth rate α determines how fast individuals are born.
• A mortality rate μ determines how fast individuals die.
- System:** • The initial state starts with just a single individual.



SEC1.2: A predator-prey model (PBM)

- Purpose:** • Introduce a simple model to demonstrate predator-prey dynamics.
• This uses the well-known Lotka-Volterra equations.
• The birth rate of prey is proportional to their population.
• Prey die at a rate proportional to the number of predators.
• The birth rate of predators is proportional to their population as well as the population of prey (because predators rely on prey for food).
• Predators die at a constant rate.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “Animal” is created.
• This contains a classification “Population”.



- Population contains two compartments: “Prey” and “Pred”.
- A birth rate α determines how fast prey are born.
- A mortality rate β determines how fast prey die.
- A birth rate φ determines how fast predators are born.
- A mortality rate γ determines how fast predators die.

System: • This initial state starts with 100 predators and 100 prey.

SEC1.3: Logistic growth model with age dependent mortality (IBM)

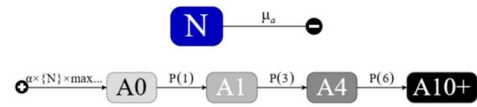
Purpose: • This uses a logistic growth model for a wildlife population.

- Age is stratified into 4 different groups: 0-1, 1-4, 4-10, 10+.

- Mortality is age-dependant.

Model:

- A single population-based species “Animal” is created.
- This contains classifications 'Alive' and 'Age'.
- 'Alive' contains a compartment N , which represents the number of individuals.
- 'Age' contains compartments A0, A1, A4, A10+.



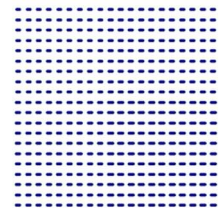
- A birth rate α determines how fast individuals are born.
- A mortality rate μ_a determines how fast individuals die in age category a .
- Finite resources limit the size of the population through a carrying capacity $\$k\$$.

System: • The initial state starts with just a single individual.

SPEC) Spatial ecological models (spatial-eco)

SPEC1.1 A spatial diffusion model (IBM)

Purpose: • Introduce a model in which a landscape is divided into a grid of cells.
• Individuals move across this landscape by randomly hopping from one grid cell to a neighbouring grid cell.



Model: • A single individual-based species 'Animal' is created.
• This contains a classification “Location”.
• “Location” contains a 20x20 grid of cells represented by compartments.
• A hopping rate ω determines the rate at which individuals move between cells.

System: • 100 individuals initially in cell G10-10.

SPEC1.2: A species presence/absence distribution model (IBM)

Purpose: • Introduce a simple presence/absence model for an invasive plant species.
• A map of the UK is split into a grid of 25km squares.
• A covariate is used that affects the probability the species will invade a given square (e.g. it could represent some environmental variable such as altitude or mean temperature).



Model: • A single individual-based species “Plant” is created.
• This contains classifications “Presence” and “Location”.

- “Presence” contains two compartments: “No” and “Yes”.
- “Location” contains compartments representing the grid cells (559 in total).
- Each grid cell contains a single individual that represents the cell's status.
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which cells start growing the plant.
- A fixed effect (g) is used to add a covariate affecting plant spread.
- A spatial power-law transmission kernel is used to model the geographical spread of the plant.

System: • Initially, a single grid cell is set to contain the invasive plant species.

S) Simulation and initial condition scenarios (sim-scen)

These examples look at various simulation features and ways for specifying the initial conditions.

1) Stochastic behaviour

The underlying equations are inherently stochastic.

S1.1: Multiple simulations (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- On the “Simulation→Run” page the number of simulations is set to 100 (instead of the usual 1).
 - When run, the simulated outputs exhibit a range of system dynamics reflecting inherent stochasticity within the system.
- Model:**
- Shaded regions in the population plots show the envelope containing 95% of simulations.
 - A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

2) Uncertainty in initial conditions

Usually the initial populations are entirely fixed, but BICI allow for uncertainty in these quantities.

S2.1: Uncertain initial conditions for PBM — single classification (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce uncertainty in the initial population for a population-based model.
 - This considers the case of a model with just a single classification.
 - On the 'Simulation→Setup' page the initial population is set as a distribution (rather than fixed).
 - 100 simulations are performed to see stochastic variation.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- The initial population in the S compartment is sampled uniformly in the range between 900 and 1100.
 - The initial population in the I compartment is sampled uniformly in the range between 0 and 50.

S2.2: Uncertain initial conditions for PBM — multiple classifications — focal selected (PBM, CE3.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce specification of uncertainty in the initial population population-based model when there is more than one classification.

- The initial population is given on the “Simulation→Setup” page.
- Here the disease status is a specified “focal” classification.
- Distributions for the initial populations in focal compartments are set (in this case chosen to be uniform distributions).
- For the other classification (“Sex”) a Dirichlet distribution is used to sample the *fraction* of individuals in each compartment.

Model:

- 100 simulations are performed to see stochastic variation.
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
- This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and a classification “Sex”.
- “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
- “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
- A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
- A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
- N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

System:

- This consists of initially S uniformly sampled between 9000 and 11000, I uniformly sampled between 0 and 100 and R uniformly sampled between 0 and 100.
- There is a 30/70 split between males and females, as determined from the Dirichlet distribution.

S2.3: Uncertain initial conditions for PBM — multiple classifications — total population selected (PBM, CE3.1)

Purpose:

- Introduce specification of uncertainty in the initial population population-based model when there is more than one classification.
- The initial population is given on the 'Simulation→Setup' page.
- In this case a prior is placed on the total population.
- A Dirichlet distribution is placed on all compartmental combinations.
- 100 simulations are performed to see stochastic variation.

Model:

- A single population-based species “People” is created.
- This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
- “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
- “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
- A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
- A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
- N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

System:

- The initial population is sampled from a uniform distribution between 9000 and 11000.
- A Dirichlet distribution is used to sample the compartmental composition of the initial state (with most individuals in the S compartment).

S2.4: Uncertain initial conditions for IBM using individual state (IBM, SE1.2)

Purpose:

- Introduce uncertainty in the initial population for an individual-based model.
- On the 'Simulation→Setup' page the individuals added to system have uncertainty regarding their initial state.
- 100 simulations are performed to see stochastic variation.

Model:

- A single population-based species “People” is created.
- This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
- DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.

- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
 - The initial population consists of 1000 individuals added at the start time $t=0$.
 - The initial compartmental specification for these individuals is given by "S:0.98|I:0.02".
 - This means that there is a 98% probability of being in the S compartment and a 2% probability of being in the I compartment.

S2.5: Uncertain initial conditions for IBM using population distribution (IBM, SE1.2)

- Purpose:**
 - Introduce uncertainty in the initial population for an individual-based model.
 - On the 'Simulation→Setup' page a population distribution is specified as an initial condition.
 - Compared to example A5, this allows for greater flexibility.
 - 100 simulations are performed to see stochastic variation.
- Model:**
 - A single population-based species "People" is created.
 - This contains a classification "DS", which stands for "disease status".
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
 - A population distribution fixes a total population of 1000 individuals.
 - A Dirichlet distribution sets the susceptible and infected populations.
 - $\alpha^S=10$ and $\alpha^I=0.2$ implies that there is a $10/(10+0.2)=98\%$ mean probability of being in the S compartment and a 2% probability of being in the I compartment initially.
 - Compared to example A5, the distribution for the number of infected individuals is much broader.
 - Increasing α^S and α^I by a factor keeps the percentages the same but reduce the uncertainty in the distributions.
 - The initial population consists of 1000 individuals added at the start time $t=0$.
 - They have an unspecified initial state (denoted by '.', which is equivalent to an equal probability of being in either state 'S|I').
 - Note, if a population distribution is specified, individual added at the start time must have an unspecified initial state.

3) Enforced movements

Here enforce movement of individuals/populations are considered.

S3.1: Add / remove individuals (PBM, CE3.1)

- Purpose:**
 - Introduce adding and/or removing populations after the initial conditions are set.
 - Relevant for a population-based model.
 - The 'Simulation→Setup' page show how the additions and removals are defined.
- Model:**
 - A single population-based species "People" is created.
 - This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", and "Sex".
 - "DS" contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - "Sex" contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
 - 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

S3.2: Add / move / remove individuals (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- To show how individuals can be added, moved and removed from the system.
 - Relevant for an individual-based model.
 - 100 susceptible individuals are added at time $t=0$.
 - Here we have an SIR model within two fish tanks: T1 and T2.
 - 10 infected individuals are added to tank T1.
 - At time $t=100$, 10 specified individuals are moved from to tank T2. This then initiates an epidemic in tank T2.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species "People" is created.
 - This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", and "Tank".
 - "DS" contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - "Tank" contains two fish tank compartments: T1 and T2.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

4) Dynamic interventions

Different types of dynamic intervention into the system behaviour are considered (usually with a view to reducing the effect of infectious diseases).

S4.1: Test-and-cull (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce the test-and-cull protocol used to reduce disease prevalence.
 - This is a method in which the disease status of individuals is periodically checked with a disease diagnostic test, and positive individuals are removed from the population.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species 'People' is created.
 - This contains a classification 'DS' which stands for 'disease status'.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R. Together they are known as the "SIR model".
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
 - The disease diagnostic test has a sensitivity $Se=0.5$ and specificity $Sp=0.99$.
 - Checks are periodically taken every 10 time units but only 50% of individuals are tested.
 - Individuals are removed 1 time unit after a positive test.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

S4.2: Dynamic parameter for disease intervention (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a simple example of a dynamic parameter under simulation.
 - Here a square spline determines if a disease intervention measure is implemented or not (it takes the value of zero or one).
 - If the population metric (disease prevalence in this case) goes above a threshold, the spline is set to one, else zero.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species 'People' is created.
 - This contains a classification 'DS', which stands for 'disease status'.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R. Together they are known as the "SIR model".
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A dynamic parameter $f(t)$ tracks if the disease intervention is implemented or not. The knot times determine when the intervention is decided upon (*e.g.* this could be weekly or daily) and in this example they are every 10 time units.
 - The effectiveness of the intervention is captured by parameter φ .

- N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

System: • This consists of 10000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.

S4.3: Dynamic parameter with maximum and minimum thresholds (PBM)

Purpose:

- Introduce different thresholds using of a dynamic parameter under simulation.
- Here a square spline determines if a disease intervention measure is implemented or not (it takes the value of zero or one).
- If the population metric (disease prevalence in this case) goes above the maximum threshold, the spline is set to one.
- It only returns to zero when the metric becomes equal or less than the minimum threshold.

Model:

- A single population-based species 'People' is created.
- This contains a classification 'DS', which stands for 'disease status'.
- DS contains three compartments: susceptible S , infected I and recovered R . Together they are known as the "SIR model".
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- A dynamic parameter $f(t)$ tracks if the disease intervention is implemented or not. The knot times determine when the intervention is decided upon (*e.g.* this could be weekly or daily) and in this example they are every 10 time units.
- The maximum threshold on the disease prevalence is 0.05 and the minimum is 0.01.
- The effectiveness of the intervention is captured by parameter φ .
- N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

System: • This consists of 10000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.

S4.4: Dynamic parameter with distance effect (IBM, SPE3.1)

Purpose:

- Introduce a dynamic parameter that has a distance effect within a farm-based model.
- This is here used to account for increased biosecurity within a certain radius of an infected farm.
- A vector of square splines (at each location) determines if a disease intervention measure is implemented or not (they take the value of zero or one).
- If the population metric (number of infected locations within a specified radius of a given farm) is greater than zero, the spline is set to one.

Model:

- Farms are represented as geographical points (either as compartments with x,y positions, or using longitudes and latitudes).
- Each farm contains a single "individual" that is used to denote the disease status of that farm.
- A spatial kernel allows for spread of disease between farms.
- A single individual-based species "Farm" is created.
- This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", and "Location".
- "DS" contains three compartments: susceptible farm S , infected farm I and recovered farm R .
- "Location" contains 200 farm positions.
- A transmission rate β determines the rate at which susceptible farms become infected due to surrounding infected farms.
- A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
- A dynamic parameter $f_i(t)$ tracks if the disease intervention is implemented or not.
- The knot times determine when the intervention is decided upon (*e.g.* this could be weekly or daily) and in this example they are every 10 time units.

- The threshold is 0 and distance is 30 spatial units.
 - The effectiveness of the intervention is captured by parameter φ .
- System:**
- A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible except for one infected.

S4.5: Dynamic parameter with region effect (IBM, SPE3.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a dynamic parameter that has a region effect within a farm-based model.
 - This is here used to account for disease intervention measure which happen on a regional level.
 - A region file is loaded that determines which region each farm belongs to.
 - A vector of square splines (at each location) determines if a disease intervention measure is implemented or not (they take the value of zero or one).
 - If the population metric (disease prevalence within a region) is greater than a threshold, the spline is set to one, otherwise zero.
- Model:**
- Farms are represented as geographical points (either as compartments with x,y positions, or using longitudes and latitudes).
 - Each farm contains a single “individual” that is used to denote the disease status of that farm.
 - A spatial kernel allows for spread of disease between farms.
 - A single individual-based species “Farm” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible farm S, infected farm I and recovered farm R.
 - “Location” contains 200 farm positions.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which susceptible farms become infected due to surrounding infected farms.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
 - A dynamic parameter $f_i(t)$ tracks if the disease intervention is implemented or not.
 - The knot times determine when the intervention is decided upon (e.g. this could be weekly or daily) and in this example they are every 10 time units.
 - The threshold prevalence is 0.05.
 - The effectiveness of the intervention is captured by parameter φ .
- System:**
- A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible except for one infected.

D) Data scenarios (data-scen)

The following illustrate different types of data that can be incorporated into an analysis:

1) No data

This first example looks at what happens when there is no data.

D1.1: Time series population observations (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- This demonstrates the simplest possible data scenario, that in which only the initial conditions are specified. It is observed that the parameter follows the prior and the state maps out the same distribution as if directly simulating from the model (albeit in a much less computationally efficient way due to correlations inherent in MCMC).
- Data:**
- None. Only the initial conditions are specified.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.

- DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

2) Population-level data types

These examples look at different types of population-level data.

D2.1: Time series population observations (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Inference is done using time-series population data.
- Data:**
- On the 'Inference→Data' page, data is added that gives a time-series estimate for the number of individuals in the I compartment.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D2.2: Time series population-level transition observations (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Inference is done using time-series population-level transition data.
- Data:**
- On the 'Inference→Data' page, population-level transition data is added.
 - This gives time-series estimates for the number infection transitions at periodic intervals with timestep $\Delta t=7$.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D2.3: Stratified time series population observations (PBM, CE3.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce inference on stratified population data.
- Data:**
- On the “Inference→Data” page, data is added which gives time series estimates for the populations in each the compartmental combinations.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for males and females.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

D2.4: Stratified population observations from multiple compartments (PBM, CE3.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce inference on multiple population time series that target different combinations of compartments.
- Data:**
- Stratified population data is added on the 'Inference→Data' page.

- One time series provides stratified observations on the infected population.
 - A second time series provides overall observations for individuals in *either* compartments I or R. For example, this could represent a serological test.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for males and females.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

D2.5: Combined population-based data sources in a Covid-19 model (PBM, CE4.1)

- Purpose:**
- Show how multiple population-based data can be used to inform a Covid-19 model.
 - Using this data, it is possible to estimate branching probabilities and the time variation in the transmission rate $\beta(t)$.
 - However, this sort of data will not estimate transition rates once infected, so informative priors have been used for these.
- Data:**
- Population-level transition data is available for $E \rightarrow I$ (cases), $I \rightarrow H$ (hospitalisations) and $H \rightarrow D$ (hospital deaths).
 - Population data for the combined population in E, I and A (survey PCR data).
 - Population data for the combined population in E, I, A and R (seroprevalence data).
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains seven compartments: susceptible S, exposed E, infected I, recovered R, asymptomatic A, hospitalised H and dead D.
 - An external force of infection is controlled by parameter η (this could be time-varying and estimated from raw case data and flight information).
 - The time-varying spline $\beta(t)$ captures transmission between individuals.
- System:**
- The UK population, which is initially susceptible.

D2.6: Time series population observations (IBM, SE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce population-based data incorporated into an IBMs.
- Data:**
- On the 'Inference→Data' page population data is added.
 - This gives time-series estimates for the number of individuals in the infected I compartment.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

3) Individual-level data types

These examples look at different types of individual-level data.

D3.1: Known transition events — infection and recovery (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- Shows an inference example where all transition events are known.

- Data:** • Known infection and recovery times for all individuals in an SIR model.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 • A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 • A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:** • 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.2: Incomplete transition events - recovery only (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:** • Show an inference example where only recovery transition events are known.
 • We see that it is still possible to infer β and γ , albeit with more uncertainty.
- Data:** • Recovery times for individuals in an SIR model.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 • A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 • A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:** • 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.3: Compartmental observations (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:** • Illustrate compartmental observations.
- Data:** • The disease status of every individual is measured with a 20 time unit interval.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 • A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 • A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:** • 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.4: Disease diagnostic test results (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:** • Show an inference example where disease diagnostic tests are used.
- Data:** • Tests are made on individuals every 10 time units.
 • The test has a sensitivity of 0.6 and a specificity of 0.99.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 • A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 • A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:** • 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.5: A partially observed transition (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:** • Show an inference example where some transitions are partially observed.
- Data:** • Here the data collected assumes that all recovery events are observed, but infections are only observed with a $f=50\%$ probability.
- Model:** • A single population-based species “People” is created.
 • This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 • DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 • A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.

- A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.6: A transition observed over a time window (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- Shows an inference example where a transition is only observed over a specified time window.
- Data:**
- All recovery events are observed.
 - Infection events are only observed between times $t=5$ and $t=15$.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

D3.7: A transition observed in a demographic category (IBM, CE3.3)

- Purpose:**
- This example looks at when some transitions are only observed within a subpopulation.
- Data:**
- All recovery transitions are observed.
 - Infections are only observed in males.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate β_s determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

D3.8: Uncertain compartmental observations (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- This example allows for uncertainty in compartmental observation.
 - Here fixed probabilities are used, but the observation model can also include parameters that can be estimated during inference.
- Data:**
- Periodic uncertain compartmental observations are made every 20 time units.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F) BICI features (features)

1) Time variation

These examples look at different ways in which time variation can be added into the model.

F1.1: Time variation in transmission rate (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a model with time variation in disease transmission.
 - The transmission rate $\beta(t)$ is taken to be a piecewise linear spline with knots taken at 6 time points.
- Data:**
- Time series estimates of the infected population.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate $\beta(t)$ determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F1.2: Time variation in transmission rate using a trigonometric function (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- In this example the transmission rate is taken to have a time-varying profile using a cosine curve.
- Data:**
- Time series population estimates.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - The transmission rate is taken to be $\beta(1+\Delta \times \cos(\alpha \times t))$.
- System:**
- 1,000 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F1.3: Time variation in transmission rate through a covariate (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce time-varying covariate into transmission rate.
 - The covariate is exponentiated (to ensure it is positive) and modulates the transmission rate through a strength parameter Δ .
- Data:**
- Time series population data is used to inform inference.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - The transmission rate is given by $\beta \times \exp(\Delta \times f(t))$, where $f(t)$ is a time-varying covariate.
- System:**
- 1,000 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F1.4: Time variation in population-level transition observation probability (PBM, SE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Incorporate time variation in observing population transitions.
 - The probability is taken to have the functional form $a+b \times \cos(0.06 \times t)$.
 - To simulate the data $a=0.6$ and $b=0.3$ were used. These values can be inferred from the data.
- Data:**
- Partially observed population-level transition data.
 - Time series population data.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 1,000 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F1.5: Time variation in individual transition observation probability (PBM, SE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Incorporate time variation in the probability of observing individual transitions.

- Like F1.4 but with an IBM and individual-level data.
 - The probability of observing transitions is given the functional form $a+b\times\cos(0.03\times t)$.
 - The values $a=0.5$ and $b=0.3$ were used to simulate the data.
 - Parameters a and b can be inferred from inference.
- Data:**
- Partially observed transitions.
 - Periodic compartmental observations.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I .
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F1.6: Time variation in population observation probability (PBM)

- Purpose:**
- Incorporate time variation in observing the number of individuals in a population.
 - Here population observations only detect a fraction f of the true population.
 - This, for example, could represent the number of individuals captured during a series of capture campaigns.
 - Because capturing individuals is often seasonally dependent, we apply a trigonometric function $f=a\times\exp(b\times\cos(0.06\times t))$.
- Data:**
- Time series population estimates.
 - Simulated data used $a=0.1$ and $b=0.3$.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains a classification “Area” with a single compartment “P”.
 - “P” represents the animal population.
- System:**
- 1000 individuals.

F1.7: Time variation in branching probability (PBM, CE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Illustrate time variation in branching probability for a population-based model.
- Data:**
- Time series population measurements.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S , infected I , recovered R and dead D .
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A spline $b(t)$ is used to represent the branching probability of dying.
 - Parameter γ specifies the recovery/death rate.
- System:**
- 1000 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

F1.8: Time-varying covariate affecting branching probability (IBM, CE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce time variation in a covariate that affects branching probability.
 - This is implemented using 'branching factors'.
- Data:**
- Known event times are used to inform inference.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S , infected I , recovered R and dead D .
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - The *relative* probability of dying is given by branching factor $a\times\exp(b\times\cos(0.06\times t))$.
 - The *relative* probability of recovery is given by branching factor 1.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.

- Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

F1.9: Time-varying disease intervention measure (PBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a simple implementation of disease intervention.
 - Under simulation a time varying reparameterised parameter is used to represent if a disease intervention is being implemented or not (it takes the values 1/0 depending on whether the disease prevalence is above or below a 5% threshold).
 - Under inference this reparameterised parameter is converted to a fixed vector (using the “Const. Prior” option on the “Inference→Prior” page). This is because disease intervention times would usually be known.
- Data:**
- Time series population estimates.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A square spline $f(t)$ (with knot times at 14 day intervals) characterises disease intervention. Under simulation it is modelled as $f(t) = \text{step}(\{I\}/N - 0.05)$.
 - Parameter α characterises the strength of the disease intervention.
 - Recovery rate γ .
- System:**
- 10000 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

2) Individual-based variation

These examples look at how individual-based variation can be incorporated into the model.

F2.1: Individual fixed effect applied to a transition (IBM, SE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce individual fixed effect applied to the infection transition.
- Data:**
- Infection event times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A fixed effect $\{g\}$ varies the susceptibilities of individuals based on a covariate.
 - A parameter μ^g governs the strength of the fixed effect.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F2.2: Individual fixed effect applied to a population (IBM)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce adding a fixed effect into a population.
 - In the SI model the infected population $\{I\}$ determines how quickly other individual become infected.
 - Individual variation in infectivity can incorporated through an individual fixed effect.
 - The term $\{I\{f\}\}$ sums over infected individuals, but rather than each individual having a unit contribution it is modified by a fixed effect factor $\{f\}$.
- Data:**
- Infection times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Group”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - “Group” contains 24 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.

- Fixed effect parameter μ^f determines the strength of the fixed effect.
- System:**
- Each of the 24 groups consist of 10 individuals, two of which are infected.

F2.3: Individual effect applied to a transition (IBM, QGE1.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.
- Data:**
- Infection event times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - An individual effect [g] allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
 - The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F2.4: Correlated individual effect applied to a transition (IBM, QGE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.
 - Unlike F2.3, the individual effect between individuals is correlated through an **A** relationship matrix.
- Data:**
- Infection event times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - An individual effect [g] allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
 - The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .
 - An **A** relationship matrix determines correlations in individual effect.
- System:**
- This consists of 60 groups each with 10 half-sib individuals.
 - 598 initially susceptible individuals and two infected.

F2.5: Correlated individual effect applied to a population (IBM, QGE1.4)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce an individual effect applied to vary the infectiousness of individuals.
 - In the SI model the infected population $\{I\}$ determines how quickly other individual become infected.
 - The term $\{I[f]\}$ sums over infected individuals, but rather than each individual having a unit contribution it is modified by an individual effect factor [f] (this factor has a population average of 1 but allows for individual variation).
 - The individual effect is correlated through a relationship matrix.
- Data:**
- Known infection times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS” and “Group”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - “Group” contains 60 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β determines how fast individuals become infected.
 - [f] give individual effects for infectivity.
 - Ω^{ff} give the genetic variance in infectivity.
- System:**
- Each contact group consists of 10 individuals, two of which have been randomly infected.
 - 60 sires who each have 10 progeny. These 600 progeny are randomly allocated across the contact groups.

F2.6: Fixed effect applied to a branching probability (IBM, CE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce individual variation in branching probability through a fixed effect.
 - Branching factors are used.
- Data:**
- Periodic compartmental observations.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - The *relative* probability of dying is given by $b(g)$.
 - The *relative* probability of recovering is given by 1.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.
 - Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
 - The strength of the fixed effect is determined through parameter μ^g .
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals of which two are infected.

F2.7: Individual effect applied to a branching probability (IBM, QGE1.5)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce individual variation in branching probability through an individual effect.
 - Branching factors are used.
- Data:**
- Known event times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains four compartments: susceptible S, infected I, recovered R and dead D.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - The *relative* probability of dying is given by $b[g]$.
 - The *relative* probability of recovering is given by 1.
 - Mean m^R and coefficient of variation c^R specify the log-normally distributed period to recovery.
 - Mean m^D and coefficient of variation c^D specify the gamma distributed period to death.
 - The variance of the individual effect is determined by Ω^{gg} .
 - Individual effects are correlated through a relationship matrix $\mathbf{A}$.
- System:**
- 60 sires each have 10 progeny. These 600 progeny are used in the system (of which 2 are initial infected).

F2.8: Correlated individual effect applied to a transition with pedigree (IBM, QGE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce a random individual effect affecting the susceptibility of individuals.
 - The individual effects between individuals are correlated through an $\mathbf{A}$ relationship matrix. Unlike F2.4, this relationship is defined through a pedigree.
- Data:**
- Infection event times.
 - True values for individual effect $[g]$ obtained from simulation (this allows for the prediction accuracies to be estimated).
 - Three groups are defined: 'sire', 'dam' and 'prod'. These denote the sires and dams in the base population and the progeny.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - An individual effect $[g]$ allows for susceptibility variation across individuals.
 - The strength of this variation is determined through variance Ω^{gg} .

- An **A** relationship matrix determines correlations in individual effect.
- System:**
 - 60 sires and dams in the base population, with each couple having 10 progeny.
 - Only the 600 progeny are incorporated into the compartmental model, with 598 initially susceptible individuals and two infected (note, individual effects for sires and dam not in the system are also estimated).

3) Parameter definitions

These examples look at how parameters can be reparameterised, set to distributions or derived from other quantities.

F3.1: Parameter reparameterisation by equation (IBM, SPE2.1)

- Purpose:**
 - Introduce a farm-based model with reparameterisation.
 - A matrix of interactions $M_{l,l'}$ represents transmission of infection between farms.
 - It is reparameterised as a power-law distribution kernel $1/\left(1 + \left(\frac{D_{l,l'}}{\Delta}\right)^\alpha\right)$.
 - $D_{l,l'}$ is a reserved parameter in BICI which gives the distance between locations.
 - A maximum interaction distance is set, which is used to significantly speed up the algorithm (because distant interactions of negligible effect are removed).
- Data:**
 - Event times known.
- Model:**
 - A single population-based species “Farm” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Location”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible farm S, infected farm I and recovered farm R.
 - “Location” contains farm positions.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which infected farms transmit disease to surrounding farms.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
- System:**
 - A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible except for one infected.

F3.2: Parameter reparameterisation by element (PBM, CE3.2)

- Purpose:**
 - Introduce a toy example, which features a reparameterisation in the transmission matrix between males and females.
 - This can be used to ensure this matrix is symmetric.
- Model:**
 - A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate $\beta_{s,s'}$ determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected from individuals with sex s' .
 - This is reparameterised into a symmetric matrix with β^{MM} and β^{FF} along the diagonal and β^{FM} off diagonal.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
 - 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

F3.3: Parameter definition by equation (IBM, CE3.3)

- Purpose:**
- Introduce parameter definition specified through an equation.
 - This is the same as model CE3.3, but here the quantity $\lambda_s(t)$ is defined by the force of infection.
 - This can be a useful way to avoid unnecessarily long algebraic expressions shown on the model.
 - Unlike reparameterisation, defined quantities can depend on time varying quantities such as populations, and don't use splines.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A force of infection $\lambda_s(t)$ specifies the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - This is defined in terms of a transmission rate β_s that determines the rate at which individuals with sex s become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

F3.4: Parameter definition by element (PBM, CE3.1)

- Purpose:**
- Introduces the concept of stratifying parameter definitions.
 - In this toy example, different elements of the force of infection act different on males and females.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - The defined parameter λ_s provides the force of infection.
 - For males this involves a transmission rate β^M .
 - For females this is a seasonal external term parameterised by η , Δ and ϕ .
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).
- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

F3.5: Parameter distribution (IBM, EE1.2)

- Purpose:**
- In some instances, it is useful for a parameter to be sampled from a distribution.
 - An example is a random effect in a mixed model.
 - This is illustrated here with a disease transmission experiment.
- Data:**
- Known transition times.
- Model:**
- A single individual-based species “Animal” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, “Vaccination” and “Group”.
 - “DS” contains two compartments: susceptible S and infected I.

- “Vaccination” contains two compartments: “Vac” and “Unvac”, which represent vaccinated and unvaccinated individuals.
 - “Group” contains 24 contact groups.
 - A transmission rate β_v determines the susceptibility of individuals with vaccination status v become infected.
 - A factor f_v determines the relative infectiousness of individuals with vaccination status v .
 - The rate of transmission in different groups is modulated by a group-specific factor G_g .
 - The elements in parameter vector G_g are assumed to be drawn from a normal distribution with mean zero and standard deviation σ^G .
- System:**
- Each group consists of 10 individuals, half of which are infected.
 - The vaccination status of the infected and susceptibility individuals is permuted to create blocks of 4 which are replicated 6 times (to make 24 groups in total).

F3.6: Derived quantities (IBM, SE1.3)

- Purpose:**
- Derived quantities are functionally dependent on model parameters or populations but are not themselves within the model.
 - In this example the basic reproduction number R_0 is calculated.
- Data:**
- Known event times.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains a classification “DS”, which stands for “disease status”.
 - DS contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A recovery rate γ determines the rate at which individuals recover.
 - This example shows different derived expressions:
 1. The basic reproduction number R_0 is derived by user-defined equation $N\beta/\gamma$, where N is the number of individuals.
 2. The time-varying reproduction number is calculated using the function $RN(\dots)$, where the infected states are placed within the brackets (see Appendix D for details).
 3. The effective reproduction number is calculated using the function $RNE(\dots)$.
 4. The generation time is calculated using the function $GT(\dots)$.
 5. The estimated number of infections NI is found by integrating over the force of infection multiplied by the number of susceptible.
 6. The estimated number of recoveries NR in the first 20 time units is derived.
- System:**
- 100 initially susceptible individuals and one infected.

F3.7: Factor (PBM, CE2.1)

- Purpose:**
- This is the same model as CE3.1, but here the difference is disease transmission between sexes is implemented as a factor.
- Data:**
- Initial population in each compartment.
 - Time-series measurements on infected population, stratified by sex.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species “People” is created.
 - This contains classifications “DS”, which stands for “disease status”, and “Sex”.
 - “DS” contains three compartments: susceptible S, infected I and recovered R.
 - “Sex” contains the compartments M and F for male and female.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which individuals become infected.
 - A factor f_s allows for differences in susceptibility between the sexes.
 - A recovery rate γ_s determines the rate at which individuals recover with sex s .
 - N is the total number of individuals (this model assumes frequency dependent transmission).

- System:**
- 10,000 initially susceptible individuals and 2 infected.
 - A 50/50 split between males and females.

F3.8: Spline reparameterisation (IBM, SPE2.1)

- Purpose:**
- Provide an example of when splines are reparameterised.
 - In the special case in which the spline is square, values can depend on populations at the knot time points.
 - This is used here to incorporate the effect of disease transmission through marketplaces in a farm-based model.
 - Farms are represented as geographical points (either as compartments with x/y positions or using longitudes and latitudes).
 - Each farm contains a single "individual" that is used to denote the disease status of that farm.
- Data:**
- Event times known.
- Model:**
- A single population-based species "Farm" is created.
 - This contains classifications "DS", which stands for "disease status", and "Location".
 - "DS" contains three compartments: susceptible farm S, infected farm I and recovered farm R.
 - "Location" contains farm positions.
 - A transmission rate β determines the rate at which susceptible farms become infected due to infection coming from markets.
 - Square spline $f_i(t)$ represent the disease risk of acquiring infection from one of the other farms which have been at market. It has knot times at daily intervals.
 - A recovery rate γ determines how quickly farms recover.
- System:**
- A single individual is added to each farm location. All farms are initially susceptible except for one infected.

9) License and warranty

BICI is free software under the terms of the GNU General Public License version 3

www.gnu.org/licenses/gpl-3.0.en.html. This allows users to redistribute and/or modify BICI. The program is distributed in the hope that it will be useful, but WITHOUT ANY WARRANTY.

10) Citing BICI

We kindly request that those who do use BICI analysis in their publications cite this tool:

Pooley CM, Henderson G, Doeschl-Wilson AB, Marion G., *BICI – A flexible tool for simulation, inference and posterior simulation from compartmental models*. To be submitted (2026)

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Appendix A: BICI-script commands ordered by section

BICI-script contains 68 possible commands that can define models, load data, specify analyses, and store outputs. This appendix orders these commands following the menu tree structure. A brief description is given, along with a reference to the section in the manual where more details can be found. Appendix B orders commands alphabetically and provides further implementation details. Appendix C provides illustrative examples of BIC commands.

Model	Command	Description
→ <i>Compartments</i>	species (see §2.1.1)	Adds a species to the model.
	classification / class (see §2.1.2)	Adds a classification to a species.
	compartment / comp (see §2.1.3)	Adds a compartment to a classification.

	compartment-all / comp-all	Adds a list of compartments to a classification, as specified in a data file.
	transition / trans (see §2.1.4)	Adds a transition to a classification.
	transition-all / trans-all	Adds a list of transitions to a classification, as specified in a data file.
	set (see §7.1)	In the BICI-script this sets the current species and/or classification being focused on.
→ Parameters	parameter / param (see §2.2)	Sets details of a parameter.
	fixed-effect (see §2.2.3)	Provides information about the covariate vector X used for a fixed effect.
	ind-effect (see §2.2.2)	Provides information about a single (or multiple if correlated) individual effect.
	derived / der (see §2.2.11)	Sets a derived quantity in the model that is functionally related to other model parameters.
→ Annotations	box (see §2.1.8)	Adds a box around a specified set of compartments in the workspace.
	label (see §2.1.8)	Adds a label to the model.
	map (see §2.1.8)	Adds a map to the workspace (only in 'latlng' coordinates).
→ Miscellaneous	description / desc (see §2.3)	Adds a description about the model.
	view	Sets how the classification is viewed in the BICI interface.
	data-dir (see §7.1)	Sets the directory where data is stored. This is either relative to the .bici file or using a path.

Simulation	Command	Description
→ Setup	init-pop-sim (see §3.1.1.1)	Sets the initial population.
	add-ind-sim (see §3.1.1.4)	Adds individuals to the system at specified times and into specified compartments.
	remove-ind-sim (see §3.1.1.5)	Removes individuals from the system at specified times.
	move-ind-sim (see §3.1.1.6)	Moves individuals to specified compartments at specified times.
	add-pop-sim (see §3.1.1.2)	Adds populations of individuals into specified compartments at specified times.
	remove-pop-sim (see §3.1.1.3)	Removes populations of individuals at specified times from specified compartments

	set-ind-effect-sim (see §3.1.1.7)	Sets an individual effect for a particular value (rather than being sampled).
	test-and-cull-sim (see §3.1.2.1)	Instigates a test-and-cull dynamic intervention.
→ <i>Parameters</i>	parameter / param (see §3.2)	Sets parameter values.
→ <i>Run</i>	simulation / sim (see §3.3)	Specifies simulation details.
→ <i>Output</i>	param-sim (see §7.4.1)	Command created by the BICI core code to store parameter samples generated by simulation.
	state-sim (see §7.4.3)	Command created by the BICI core code to store state samples generated by simulation.
	warning-sim (see Appendix G)	Stores a run-time simulation warning.

Inference	Command	Description
→ <i>Data Init. Conds.</i>	init-pop-inf (see §3.1.1.1)	Sets the initial population.
	add-ind-inf (see §3.1.1.4)	Adds individuals to the system at specified times and into specified compartments.
	remove-ind-inf (see §3.1.1.5)	Removes individuals from the system at specified times.
	move-ind-inf (see §3.1.1.6)	Moves individuals to specified compartments at specified times.
	add-pop-inf (see §3.1.1.2)	Adds populations of individuals into specified compartments at specified times.
	remove-pop-inf (see §3.1.1.3)	Removes populations of individuals at specified times from specified compartments.
→ <i>Data Individual</i>	comp-data (see §4.1.2.1)	Provides information about the compartment individuals are in at specified time points.
	trans-data (see §4.1.2.2)	Provides information about the timings of individual transitions.
	test-data (see §4.1.2.3)	Adds disease diagnostic test data.
	genetic-data (see §4.1.2.4)	Incorporates genetic sequence data.
→ <i>Data Population</i>	pop-data (see §4.1.3.1)	Adds population data.
	pop-trans-data (see §4.1.3.2)	Adds aggregated population-level transition data (e.g. number of cases per week).
→ <i>Data Additional</i>	ind-effect-data (see §4.1.4.1)	Adds individual effect data.
	ind-group-data (see §4.1.4.2)	Defines grouping of individuals.

→ <i>Prior</i>	parameter / param (see §4.2)	Sets parameter prior.
→ <i>Run</i>	inference / inf (see §4.3)	Specifies inference details.
→ <i>Output</i>	param-inf (see §7.4.1)	Command created by the BICI core code to store parameter samples generated by inference.
	param-stats-inf (see §7.4.2)	Command created by the BICI core code to provide parameter statistics from inference
	state-inf (see §7.4.3)	Command created by the BICI core code to store state samples generated by inference.
	pred-acc-inf (see §7.4.4)	Command created by the BICI core code to provide prediction accuracy information.
	diagnostics-inf	Outputs diagnostic information about MCMC samplers used in DA-MCMC or PAS-MCMC.
	generation-inf	Stores information about different generations under PAS-MCMC and ABC-SMC algorithms.
	trans-diag-inf	Provides diagnostic information about transitions.
	proposal-inf	Stores information about optimised proposals (used if 'ext' extends inference updates).
	warning-inf (see Appendix G)	Stores a run-time inference warning.
Posterior Simulation	Command	Description
→ <i>Pop. Modification</i>	add-ind-post-sim (see §3.1.1.4)	Adds additional individuals (on top of those already defined by the posterior) to the system at specified times and into specified compartments.
	remove-ind-post-sim (see §3.1.1.5)	Removes additional individuals from the system at specified times.
	move-ind-post-sim (see §3.1.1.6)	Moves additional individuals to specified compartments at specified times.
	add-pop-post-sim (see §3.1.1.2)	Adds additional populations of individuals into specified compartments at specified times
	remove-pop-post-sim (see §3.1.1.3)	Removes additional populations of individuals at specified times from specified compartments.
→ <i>Parameter Modification</i>	param-mult (see §5.2)	Sets up time varying factor that multiplies a model parameter.
→ <i>Run</i>	posterior-simulation / post-sim (see §5.3)	Specifies posterior simulation details.
→ <i>Output</i>	param-post-sim (see §7.4.1)	Command created by the BICI core code to store parameter samples generated by posterior sim.
	state-post-sim (see §7.4.3)	Command created by the BICI core code to store state samples generated by posterior sim.
	warning-post-sim (see Appendix G)	Stores a run-time posterior simulation warning.

Appendix B: BICI-script commands alphabetically ordered

This appendix provides an alphabetical list of commands used in BICI-script.

Note, all data commands that contain ‘file’ also allow for the optional ‘cols’ specification – This can be used to set alternative column headings, e.g. if the headings “ID” and “t” are expected then cols="Name,Time" would use “Name” in place of “ID” and “Time” in place of “t”. This would allow, for example, for one data table to contain all the information about a set of individuals, and for different commands to reference different columns in that table.

Command	Description
add-ind-sim / add-ind-inf / add-ind-post-sim (see §3.1.1.4)	Adds individuals to the system at specified times and into specified compartments (‘add-ind-sim’ is for simulation and ‘add-ind-inf’ is for inference). In the case of posterior simulation, ‘add-ind-post-sim’ adds individuals on top of those already defined in the posterior (and so for a posterior-predictive checks, this command is not required). Note, these commands are used for individual-based models only. <i>E.g.</i> add-ind-sim name="Individuals" file="add-ind-data.csv" <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Added individuals"). <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the times at which the individuals are added, and columns for each classification to denote into which state the individuals enter. See §3.1.1.4 for a description of how uncertainty in compartmental state is implemented.
add-pop-sim / add-pop-inf / add-pop-post-sim (see §3.1.1.2)	Adds populations of individuals into specified compartments at specified times (‘add-pop-sim’ is for simulation and ‘add-pop-inf’ is for inference). In the case of posterior simulation, ‘add-pop-post-sim’ adds populations on top of those already defined in the posterior. <i>E.g.</i> add-pop-sim name="Added pop." file="add-pop-data.csv" <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Added populations"). <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “t” the times at which the populations are added, columns for each of the classifications to denote into which compartment the individuals enter the system, and “Population”, which gives the number of individuals entering.
box (see §2.1.8)	In the workspace this adds a labelled box around a specified set of compartments. <i>E.g.</i> box text="This is a bounding box" comps="S,I" <i>text</i> – Provides the text at the top of the bounding box. <i>comps</i> – Lists the compartments (comma separated). <i>text-size</i> (optional) – Positive integer that sets the size of the text (10 by default). <i>color</i> (optional) – Sets the colour of the box (in hexadecimal or RGB format).

classification / class	Adds a classification to the species. <i>E.g.</i> classification name="DS" index="d" (see §2.1.2) <i>name</i> – The name of the classification (note, this must be unique and not the same as any species or compartment). <i>index</i> – This is a single lower-case letter used as a mathematical index that represents compartments in the classification. Each classification must have a unique index (note, 't' cannot be used as that is reserved to represent time or 'z', which is reserved for indices on covariance matrices). <i>coord</i> (optional) – Sets the coordinate system (set to "cartesian" by default). • "cartesian" – Positions of compartments made on an x,y grid. • "latlng" – Positions of compartments made using latitude and longitude. <i>map</i> (optional) – Loads a default world map (only if using "lnglat" coordinates) • "load" – Load the map. Cloning – A classification can be cloned from another species. In this case it adopts the same set of compartments (although its transitions may be defined differently). For cloning the syntax is given by: <i>E.g.</i> classification name="DS" clone="People" <i>name</i> – The name of the classification. <i>clone</i> – The name of the species from which the classification is cloned.
compartment / comp	This adds a compartment to a classification. <i>E.g.</i> compartment name="S" x=0 y=1 color="#ff0000" (see §2.1.3) <i>name</i> – The name of the compartment. <i>color</i> – The colour, as specified in hexadecimal or RGB format. <i>x,y</i> (optional) – The position in the model (in "cartesian" coordinates). If these values are not set, BICI will automatically generate the position (this, however, can sometimes lead to confusing compartmental diagrams). <i>lat,lng</i> (optional) – Latitude and longitude (in "latlng" coordinates). Must be set if the longitude and latitude are being used for the classification. <i>boundary</i> (optional) – Instead of a location, this sets a file with boundary data in GeoJSON/TopoJSON format (in 'latlng' coordinates). <i>fix</i> (optional) – Fixes the position of the compartment (<i>i.e.</i>, so it cannot be dragged by the mouse in the workspace). This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false"). <i>branch-prob</i> (optional) – If all transitions leaving a compartment are exponentially distributed, setting this option to "true" ensures that branching probabilities are used. This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false"). <i>infected</i> (optional) – When 'trans-tree' is set for the species, this option specifies that the compartment is associated with the "infected" state. This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false").
compartment-all / comp-all	Adds a list of compartments to a classification, as specified in a data file (if there are numerous compartments this is more concise than using many

'compartment' commands). Note, this option cannot be used with boundary data.

E.g. comp-all color="#00ff00" file="comp-all-data.csv"

file – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "name", which provides the name of the compartment, and "x" and "y" (in "cartesian" coordinates) or "lat" and "lng" (in "latlng" coordinates). Other columns in this table can have headings given by any of the properties below (such that they can be individually specified for each compartment).

color (optional) – The colour as specified in hexadecimal or RGB format.

fix (optional) – Fixes the position of the compartment (*i.e.* so it cannot be dragged by the mouse in the workspace). This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false").

branch-prob (optional) – If all transitions leaving a compartment are exponentially distributed, setting this option to "true" ensures that branching probabilities are used. This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false").

infected (optional) – When 'trans-tree' is set for the species, this option specifies that the compartment is associated with the "infected" state. This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default set to "false").

comp-data	Provides information about the compartment individuals are in at specified time points.
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(see §4.1.2.1)

E.g. comp-data name="DS observations" class="DS" file="comp-data.csv"

name – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings.

class – The name of the classification on which compartmental information is taken (not required if only one classification).

file – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "ID" a unique identifier for individuals, "t" the measurement times, and the name of the classification on which the state measurement is made. The last column contains entries such as 'S' to denote the individual is susceptible at a given time point. See §4.1.2.1 for details on how uncertainty is implemented.

data-dir	Sets the directory where data is stored. This is either relative to the .bici file or using a path.
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(see §7.1)

E.g. data-dir folder="data-files"

folder – The directory path.

define / param	Sets a parameter definition. A 'definition' allows for a parameter to be replaced with an expression. Note, when BICI is run the original parameter is substituted out so doesn't appear in any outputs.
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(see §2.2.6)

E.g. define name=" $\beta_I(t)$ " value=" $v_I * a(t)$ "

name – The name of the parameter. If it depends on one or more classification, its name is followed by an underscore '_' followed by a comma separated list of

	any classification indices on which the parameter depends. If the parameter has a time dependency it ends with '(t)'. <i>value</i> – Sets the definition for the parameter. Here there are two possibilities. - Equation – The parameter is reparameterised in terms of an equation. - Split – Here 'value' is set to a file. This file has columns with headings given by indices for each of parameter dependences followed by a column with the heading "Value" (note, unlike reparameterisation, any time dependency is placed within the elements and not in a separate "t" column). Any elements not specified in the rows of the table are set to zero by default.
derived / der (see §2.2.11)	Sets a derived quantity in the model that is functionally related to other model parameters through an equation. Such a quantity usually has some physical meaning (<i>e.g.</i> the reproduction number R_0 in an epidemic model, which is related to the transmission and recovery rates). <i>E.g.</i> derived name="R0" eqn="β/γ" <i>name</i> – The name of the new parameter. <i>eqn</i> – The equation that relates it to other parameters in the model.
description / desc (see §2.3)	This adds a description about the model. <i>E.g.</i> description text="file.txt " <i>text</i> – A text file provides a description of the model and analysis. A markdown format is used, <i>i.e.</i> this allows for the following concise formatting: "# Title", "## Subtitle", "- Bullet point", "*italic text*" and "***bold text***". Parameters can be added by enclosing in dollar symbols, <i>e.g.</i> "\$a\$" or "\$b^super_sub\$".
diagnostics-inf	Outputs MCMC diagnostic information for the DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC algorithms. <i>E.g.</i> diagnostics-inf chain=1 file="diagnostics0.txt" <i>chain</i> (optional) – The MCMC chain number. <i>file</i> – The name of the file providing diagnostic information. <i>compress</i> (optional) – See 'param-sim'.
fixed-effect (see §2.2.3)	Provides information about a covariate vector $\mathbf{X}$ used for a fixed effect. <i>E.g.</i> fixed-effect name="m" X="X-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the fixed effect. <i>X</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table giving information on the covariate vector. This table must contain at least the following columns: "ID" a unique name for each individual and "Value" giving the value of the covariate. <i>cols</i> – Instead of headings "ID" and "Value" alternative headings can be used, <i>e.g.</i> cols="Name,Xval". This is useful when all individual information is stored in a single .csv file.
generation-inf	This command is created by the BICI core code and stores information about different generations when using the PAS-MCMC or ABC-SMC algorithms. <i>E.g.</i> generation-inf file="generation-data.txt"

	<i>file</i> – Store information. <i>compress</i> (optional) – See ‘param-sim’.
genetic-data (see §4.1.2.4)	Incorporates genetic sequence data into the analysis. <i>E.g.</i> genetic-data name="Genetic data" type="snp" mut-rate="m" seq-var="v" root="SNP" file="genetic-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>type</i> – Provides the type of genetic data. There are two possibilities: • "matrix" – This makes use of a matrix of base-pair differences for a set of pathogen genetic observations. • "snp" – This makes use of raw SNP data for a set of pathogen genetic observations. <i>root</i> (optional) – Gives the root name for the SNP in the file. Must be specified if ‘type’ is set to "snp". <i>mut-rate</i> – Defines a parameter that sets the mutation rate along the entire pathogen genome. <i>seq-var</i> – Defines a parameter that sets the variation in SNP difference for pathogen strains entering the system. <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “ID” a unique name for each individual, “t” giving the time of the observation. The following columns depend on the type of observation: • "matrix" – A column “Obs” provides a unique name for each genetic observation. Elements down this column must also be columns in the table that represent a square matrix giving base-pair differences between the observations. • "snp" – The data table has a series of columns giving sequence data which have ‘root’ at the beginning of their column name. Elements of these columns are expected to contain two characters denoting the version of the SNP, <i>e.g.</i> ‘AA’, ‘AB’, ‘BA’, or ‘BB’.
ind-effect (see §2.2.2)	Provides information about a single or multiple (if correlated) individual effects. <i>E.g.</i> ind-effect name="gen" ie="f,g" A="A-matrix-data.csv" <i>name</i> – A short descriptive name (<i>e.g.</i> “gen” for genetic effect or “env for environmental effect”). <i>ie</i> – The individual effects are listed (comma separated). <i>A</i> (optional) – When individual effects are correlated across individuals (<i>e.g.</i> genetically) it is necessary to set up an A relationship matrix (that could be pedigree-based or represent a genomic relationship matrix). This is loaded by means of a file that has the individuals in the population in the column headers and a square matrix represented in the table. A can also include IDs of individuals who do not appear in the compartmental model itself, and individual effect estimates can be made for these (this also applies to other methods for loading A below). <i>pedigree</i> (optional) – An alternative to ‘A’ in which the parents of each individual are specified. This requires a data table containing at least the following columns:

	"ID" a unique identifier for individuals, and "sire" and "dam" which give the names of the male and female parents ("." is used if a parent is not in the dataset). <i>Ainv</i> (optional) – This loads up the inverse of the relationship matrix by means of a file that has the individuals in the population in the column headers and a square matrix represented in the table. <i>A-sparse</i> (optional) – An alternative to 'A' and used for a sparse representation of the matrix. This table must have three columns: "x" and "y" giving the x and y coordinates in the matrix and then "Value". The matrix is assumed to be symmetric, so only values in the upper triangular part of the matrix need to be specified. The order of individuals is provided by 'ind-list' (note, zero indexing is used, such that a value of zero in columns "x" or "y" corresponds to the first individual on the list). Any unspecified elements are assumed to be zero. <i>ind-list</i> (optional) – Loads a table with heading "Individual", which gives the order of individuals used for 'A-sparse'.
ind-effect-data (see §4.1.4.1)	Adds individual effect data (note, such information is usually unknown and typically only available when the data is generated through simulation). <i>E.g.</i> ind-effect-data name="True ind. eff." ie="g" file="ind-effect-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, used for when generating errors or warnings. <i>ie</i> – The name of the individual effect <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "ID" a unique identified for individuals and "Value", which gives values for the individual effect.
ind-group-data (see §4.1.4.2)	Defines a grouping of individuals. Note, this is not used in simulation or inference but rather allows for visualisation of specified groupings of individuals (<i>e.g.</i> sires, progeny) in the interface, as well as estimates of prediction accuracy for individual effects. <i>E.g.</i> ind-group-data name="Progeny" file="ind-group-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain an "ID" column, a unique identifier for individuals.
inference / inf (see §4.3)	Specifies inference details. <i>E.g.</i> inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.1 update=1000 algorithm="DA-MCMC" <i>start</i> – The start time for inference. <i>end</i> – The end time for inference. <i>timestep</i> – Sets a finite time-step used to approximate the governing equations. A smaller value provides more accurate results but takes computationally longer. Typically setting this to around 20% of the shortest expected transition period gives fast, accurate results.

algorithm (optional) – The algorithm used to perform inference (by default set to "DA-MCMC"). It can take the following possibilities:

- "DA-MCMC" – Data augmentation MCMC provides the most accurate inference (although it can be slow for many individuals).
- "PAS-MCMC" – Particle annealed sampling (PAS) generates a power posterior approximation that get successively closer to the true posterior over a series of generations. After annealing, PAS-MCMC gathers parameter and state samples in the same way as DA-MCMC. PAS-MCMC cannot be run on the local machine.
- "ABC" – Approximate Bayesian Computation. Estimates the posterior by simulating from the model and comparing the output with the data (population-based data only). Only those samples which are sufficiently close (as measured by an error function) are used for the posterior approximation.
- "ABC-SMC" – Approximate Bayesian Computation using Sequential Monte Carlo. A version of ABC that improves posterior estimates over a series of generations (population-based data only).
- "PMCMC" – Particle MCMC targets the true posterior and makes use of multiple "particles" (stochastic simulations from the model) run in parallel.
- "MFA" – Stands for mean field approximation. Here an emulator is used to approximate the posterior surface. This can be much faster than other approaches, provided the number of model parameters is not too large.

update (optional, for DA-MCMC or PAS-MCMC) – Sets the number of updates MCMC is iterated for (by default set to 5000). A higher value takes longer to run but may improve the results (because output samples become less correlated).

nchain (optional, for DA-MCMC) – The number of MCMC chains to run (by default set to 3).

chain-per-core (optional, for DA-MCMC) – The number of MCMC chains run per core (by default set to 1). The number of chains must be a multiple of this value.

npart (optional, for PAS-MCMC) – Sets the number of particles used (by default set to 3).

part-per-core (optional, for PAS-MCMC) – The number of particles run per core (by default set to 1). The number of particles must be a multiple of this value.

gen-percent (optional, for PAS-MCMC) – Sets the number of MCMC updates used per generation in the annealing phase as a percentage of the number using in sampling phase, as defined by 'update' (by default set to 1, hence 100 generation would yield approximately equal CPU time spent on annealing and sampling phases).

param-output (optional, for DA-MCMC or PAS-MCMC) – Sets the number of parameter samples generated in the output (by default set to 1000). Note, this is distributed across all chains or particles⁴² and includes the burn-in period⁴³. A larger value yields smoother parameter distribution plots but consumes more memory and CPU processing when visualised.

⁴² This is done as equally as possible, e.g. if there are 3 chains then 333 parameter samples will be taken from each.

⁴³ Note, this does not include the annealing phase under PAS-MCMC. Information about annealing comes from the 'generation-inf' command.

state-output (optional, for DA-MCMC or PAS-MCMC) – Sets the number of state samples generated in the output (by default set to 200). A larger value yields smoother population, transition and individual plots, but consumes more memory and CPU processing when visualised.

sample (optional, for ABC) – Sets the number of samples generated (by default set to 1000).

acc-frac (optional, for ABC) – Sets the fraction of simulated samples accepted to be posterior samples (by default set to 0.1). Making smaller improves the posterior estimate but takes longer to run.

sample (optional, for ABC-SMC) – Sets the number of samples generated (by default set to 1000).

acc-frac (optional, for ABC-SMC) – Sets the fraction of simulated samples accepted to be posterior samples (by default set to 0.5).

gen (optional, for ABC-SMC) – Sets the number of generations (by default set to 5).

kernel-size (optional, for ABC-SMC) – Sets the size of the proposal kernel (by default set to 0.5). This size scales the current MVN approximation to the posterior.

burnin-percent (optional, for DA-MCMC or PAS-MCMC) – The percentage of the chain in which burn-in is performed (by default set to 20). Must be in the range 1-90.

anneal (optional, for DA-MCMC) – Type of annealing performed during the burn-in phase (by default "none"). It can take the following possibilities:

- "none" – The inverse temperature is fixed to one during burn-in.
- "scan" – The inverse temperature is scanned from zero to one during burn-in. The 'rate' property must be set.
- "log-auto" – An automatic logarithm model is applied to the inverse temperature.
- "power-auto" – An automatic power-law model is applied to the inverse temperature.
- "power" – A power law model is applied. The 'power' property must be set.

rate (optional, for DA-MCMC) – When 'anneal' is set to "scan", this sets how fast burn-in takes place (under this option the overall time for burn-in is *a priori* unknown). By default, set to "0.01".

power (optional, for DA-MCMC) – When 'anneal' is set to "power", this sets the power which controls how the inverse temperature is changed. By default, set to "4".

ind-max (optional) – Sets the maximum number of individuals allowed (by default set to 20000). If exceeded, an error message is generated.

param-output-max (optional) – Sets the maximum size of tensors which can be output (by default set to 1000). This avoids very large output files.

seed (optional) – An integer between 0 and 10,000 that sets the computational seed for the pseudorandom number generator (by default set to a fixed value). Changing this value alters the stochastic realisation of the output.

diagnostics (optional) – Determines if MCMC diagnostics are output (these are used in DA-MCMC and PAS-MCMC to determine how well proposals are working). Can take the values "off" or "on" (by default set to "off"). If "on" the 'diagnostics-inf' command is generated when inference is run.

sync (optional) – Set if proposal synchronisation is used. Can take the values "off" or "on" (by default set to "on"). MCMC chains can either be run entirely separately, or information can be used across chains to improve the adaptation of proposals (in which case each chain uses the same synchronised set of proposals). Note, synchronisation will only be implemented if it is possible, e.g. it is not possible when BICI is running locally on more than one core (since local threads can't communicate).

num-sim-init (optional) – Sets the number of simulations performed when generating the initial chain state (by default set to 20). Parameters for these simulations are generated using Latin hypercube sampling, with the best selected based on a defined metric (see §4.3.2).

optimise (optional) – This determines how the underlying core code is run. Three options are available:

- **memory** – Memory usage is reduced as much as possible (with some sacrifice in algorithm speed).
- **speed** – Algorithm speed is as fast as possible (with potentially more memory usage).
- **auto** (default) – This is automatically set. For smaller systems computational speed is prioritised, whereas for larger systems memory is reduced as much as possible.

compress (optional) – Using the LZW algorithm, this reduces the memory size of BICI files that are output from the core code (parameter samples, state samples, etc...). Three options are available:

- **always** – Output files are always compressed.
- **never** – Output files are never compressed.
- **auto (default)** – Output files are compressed if they are large (>1MB).

**init-pop-sim /
init-pop-inf**

(see §3.1.1,1)

Sets the initial population (init-pop-sim is for simulation and init-pop-inf is for inference).

E.g. `init-pop-sim type="fixed" focal="DS" file="init-pop-data.csv"`

name (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Initial population").

file – The file used to load the data table (see below for details on required columns in this table).

focal (optional) – Set to a classification name. If this is set, it means that a focal classification is used to specify the population/distribution (see below).

type (optional) – Determines how the initial population is defined (by default set to "fixed"):

- "fixed" – The initial population is exactly defined.

If 'focal' is set – The file must contain two columns with titles "Compartment" and "Population". The "Compartment" column must go through all compartments in the focal classification and all but one for all other classifications (the remaining is automatically calculated such that percentages/fractions add up to 100%). In the case of the focal

	classification, the “Population” column gives the number of individuals in each compartment. Other classifications are represented by percentages. If ‘focal’ not set – The file must contain columns for each classification and a final column “Population”. This last column gives the number of initial individuals. • “dist” – The initial population is sampled from a distribution. If ‘focal’ is set – The file must contain two columns with titles “Compartment” and “Distribution”. The “Compartment” column must go through all compartments in the model. In the case of the focal classification, the “Distribution” column gives the distribution in population number sampled from, <i>e.g.</i> “uniform(10,20)”. Other classifications are represented by α values used to defined Dirichlet priors. If ‘focal’ not set – The file must contain columns for each classification and a final column “Alpha”. This column defines a Dirichlet prior across all possible compartment combinations. For this option a prior for the overall population number must be set using the ‘prior’ property. <i>prior</i> (optional) – When ‘type’ is set to “dist” and ‘focal’ is unset, this defines the prior for the overall population number, <i>e.g.</i> “gamma(1000,0.5)” (see §4.2.1 for prior options).
label (see §2.1.8)	Adds a label to the model workspace. <i>E.g.</i> label text="This is some text" x=13 y=16 color="#ff2222" text-size=20 <i>text</i> – The text to be displayed. <i>x,y</i> (optional) – The position in the workspace (in “cartesian” coordinates). <i>lat,lng</i> (optional) – Latitude and longitude (in ‘latlng’ coordinates). <i>color</i> (optional) – The colour of the text (black by default). <i>text-size</i> (optional) – The size of the text (set to 10 by default).
map (see §2.1.8)	Adds a map to the workspace (only in ‘latlng’ coordinates). <i>E.g.</i> map file="UK-boundary.geojson" <i>file</i> – The name of the map file (currently only GeoJSON/TopoJSON formats accepted).
move-ind-sim / move-ind-inf / move-ind-post-sim (see §3.1.1.6)	Moves individuals to specified compartments at specified times (‘move-ind-sim’ is for simulation and ‘move-ind-inf’ is for inference). In the case of posterior simulation, ‘move-ind-post-sim’ moves individuals on top of those already defined in the posterior (and so for a posterior-predictive checks, this command is not required). Note, these commands are used for individual-based models only. <i>E.g.</i> move-ind-sim name="Movements" class="DS" file="move-ind-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>class</i> – The name of the classification in which the compartmental movement is made (not required if only one classification). <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identifier for individuals, “t” the times

	at which the individuals are moved, and “To”, which gives the compartment to which the individuals are moved.
parameter / param (see §2.2 / §3.2 / §4.2)	Sets details of a parameter. <i>E.g.</i> param name="β_I(t)" value="value-data.csv" knot-times="start,10,end" smooth="normal(0.2)" value <i>name</i> – The name of the parameter. If it depends on one or more classification, its name is followed by an underscore ‘_’ followed by a comma separated list of any classification indices on which the parameter depends. If the parameter has a time dependency it ends with ‘(t)’. <i>value</i> (optional) – Sets the value for the parameter under simulation. If the parameter is multivariate (<i>i.e.</i> it has a classification or time dependency), the name of a specification file is used. This file has columns with headings given by indices for each of the dependences (with “t” being using in the case of a time dependency) followed by a column with the heading “Value”. Any elements not specified in the rows of the table are set to zero by default. <i>const</i> (optional) – Like ‘value’ but sets the parameter to a constant (<i>i.e.</i> it takes the same fixed value for simulation, inference or posterior inference). <i>reparam</i> (optional) – Sets the reparameterisation for the parameter. Here there are two possibilities. • Equation – The parameter is reparameterised in terms of an equation. • Split – Here ‘reparam’ is set to a file. This file has columns with headings given by indices for each of parameter dependences (with “t” being using in the case of a time dependency) followed by a column with the heading “Value”. Any elements not specified in the rows of the table are set to zero by default. <i>dynamic-sim</i> (optional) – Sets the parameter to be dynamically updated under simulation (this can be used to model disease intervention measures). The parameter must represent a square time-varying spline (or tensor of time-varying splines), and as the simulation progresses the values for the parameter are calculated dynamically in time (depending on the current state). These values are either zero or one⁴⁴, <i>e.g.</i> to represent the implementation of a disease intervention or not. The following possibilities can be selected from: • "bin-thresh({I}, thresh:10)" – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified population ({I} in this example) exceeds a threshold, otherwise zero (see §2.1.10 for a description on how populations are defined). • "bin-min-max({I}, min:3, max:10)" – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified population exceeds a specified maximum. It returns to zero when the population is equal or less than a minimum. • "bin-thresh-dist({I}, index:a, dist:10, thresh:10)" – Equivalent to "bin-thresh", but here a specified index relates to a special location classification (note this option is only applicable when the parameter contains one or more indices). Within this classification the population is summed over all locations within a certain distance (<i>e.g.</i> this can be used to implement ‘control zones’, there increased biosecurity is place on farms within a certain radius of an infected premises).

⁴⁴ Here ‘bin’ in the option represents the fact that the parameter takes a binary value.

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- "bin-min-max-dist({I}, index:a, dist:10, min:3, max:10)" – Like "bin-thresh-dist", but uses maximum and minimum thresholds.
 - "bin-thresh-region({I}, index:a, thresh:10)" – Equivalent to "bin-thresh", but here a specified index relates to a special location classification (note this option is only applicable when the parameter contains one or more indices). Within this classification the compartments are divided into regions (the 'region' tag must provide a file that associates a region with each compartment). The population sums over all compartments within the same region as a given compartment (hence the parameter has the same value across a region).
 - "bin-min-max-region({I}, index:a, min:3, max:10)" – Like "bin-thresh-region", but uses maximum and minimum thresholds.
 - "bin-thresh-eqn(0.3*{I}, thresh:10)" – Sets the parameter to one whenever the specified equation (0.3*{I} in this example) exceeds a threshold, otherwise zero.
 - "bin-min-max-eqn(0.3*{I}, min:3, max:10)" – Sets the parameter to one whenever a specified equation exceeds a specified maximum. It returns to zero when the equation is equal or less than a minimum.

The 'frac' option can be added to use the population fraction rather than the population value itself, *e.g.* "bin-thresh({I},frac,thresh:0.1)" would mean that when the disease prevalence exceeds 10%, the parameter has a value one, otherwise zero.

As normal with populations, for multiple species the specific species is specified as "bin-thresh({species-name:I}, thresh:10)".

region (optional) – When 'dynamic-sim' is regional, this file is used to determine which region each compartment is in. The file must have a column with heading "Compartment", which gives the compartment names, and "Region", which contains a string identifier for each region (here there are no restriction on format, provided each compartment within a given region has the same value).

knot-times (optional) – When the parameter is represented by a spline (*i.e.* it has a '(t)') this sets the times of the spline knots, comma separated. The key words 'start' and 'end' are used to denote the start and end times of the simulation/inference.

smooth (optional) – When the parameter is represented by a spline (*i.e.* it has a '(t)') this sets a smoothing condition on the spline. It can take the following values (where the standard deviation SD determines the strength of the smoothing):

- "normal(SD)" – Used for parameters that can become negative or positive.
- "log-normal(SD)" – Used for parameters that are strictly positive.

spline-type (optional) – When the parameter is represented by a spline (*i.e.* it has a '(t)') this sets the type of spline (linear by default). Possibilities are:

- "linear" – Piecewise linear. Here the values of the spline are specified at the knot times. All intermediate points are linearly extrapolated.
 - "square" – These splines are flat between the knot times. The value is specified using the knot time at the start of each interval.
 - "cubic +ve" – This fits a cubic spline to the log of the parameter value (hence this spline is guaranteed to be positive).
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- "cubic" – This fits a cubic spline to the parameter values at the knot times (this spline is not guaranteed to be positive).

prior (optional) – Sets the prior for the parameter. The prior for most variables can take any of the following options:

- "inverse(min,max)" – An inverse distribution truncated to lie between a specified minimum and maximum, *e.g.* "inverse(0.01,1)". Note, this only applies to positive quantities. It is a commonly used distribution because it represents the Jeffreys prior for means and rates.
- "uniform(min,max)" – A uniform distribution with specified minimum and maximum, *e.g.* "uniform(4,5)".
- "exp(mean)" – An exponential distribution with specified mean (only appropriate if the parameter is strictly positive).
- "normal(mean,sd)" – A normal distribution with a specified mean and standard deviation.
- "gamma(mean,cv)" – A gamma distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- "log-normal(mean,cv)" – A log-normal distribution with a specified mean and coefficient of variation (for positive parameters only).
- "beta(α,β)" – A beta distribution with specified alpha and beta values (for parameters that go between 0 and 1 only). Note, the distribution mean is given by $\alpha/(\alpha+\beta)$.
- "bernoulli(mean)" – A Bernoulli distribution with a specified mean (for binary parameters that can take the values 0 or 1). The mean must be between 0 and 1.
- "fix(value)" – Fixes the parameter to a particular value.

The prior when 'factor' is set to "true" can only take one option:

- "mdir(sigma)" – The modified Dirichlet distribution (see Appendix F and §2.2.9)

The priors when the parameter represents an individual effect covariance matrix must be (see Appendix F for details):

- "covar-default()" – This is the recommend uninformative prior. It consists of a half-normal distribution with $\sigma = 2$ for variances and a LKJ(1.2) distribution for correlations.
- "covar-normal-lkj(σ,η)" – A half-normal distribution with specified standard deviation σ for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- "covar-uniform-lkj(min,max, η)" – A uniform distribution for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- "covar-inv-wishart(S,ν)" – An inverse Wishart distribution with scale given by S times the identity matrix and ν degrees of freedom (an integer that must be greater than the number of dimensions of the matrix plus one).

prior-split (optional) – In cases in which the parameter has dependencies, it may be useful to set the prior differently for each element. This option is set to a file name giving a table of prior definitions. That file has columns for each of the dependences follow by a column with the heading "Prior". The last column uses the same formatting as for 'prior' above.

prior-const (optional) – Sets the value(s) of the prior to constant, overriding any other definitions such as reparameterizations (see §4.2.3 for details). This uses the same formatting as for ‘value’.

dist (optional) – Sets a distribution for the parameter. This is like ‘prior’ (and has the same set of options), but here the distribution contains new parameters, e.g. "normal(m,s)", where ‘m’ and ‘s’ would go on to have their own priors. So instead of becoming part of the prior the distribution forms part of a so-called ‘hierarchical’ model. For example, random effects have an assumed normal distribution with a standard deviation that is estimated.

dist-split (optional) – In cases in which the parameter has dependencies, it may be useful to set the distribution differently for each element. This option is set to a file that contains a table of distribution definitions. That file has columns for each of the dependences follow by a column with the heading “Prior”. The last column uses the same formatting as for ‘dist’ above.

sim-sample (optional) – In the case in which a distribution is set (via the "dist" option), setting ‘sim-sample’ to "true" ensures what when the model is simulated, the parameter is sampled from the specified distribution (rather than specified directly by the user). It can take the values "true" or "false" (the value "true" is used by default).

factor (optional) – Set to "true" if the parameter is set to be a factor (see §2.2.9).

factor-weight (optional) – Sets the weight associated with different factor elements (see §2.2.9).

param-mult

(see §5.2)

Sets up a spline factor that multiplies a parameter when posterior simulation is performed.

param name="β" constant="factor-data.csv" knot-times="start,10,end"

name – The name of a parameter within the model.

value – Sets the constant values for the parameter factor along the spline. This file has columns with headings given by indices for each of the dependences in the parameter, “t” which gives the spline knot times, followed by a column with the heading “Value”. Any elements not specified in the rows of the table are set to zero by default.

knot-times – This sets the times of the spline knots, comma separated. The key words ‘start’ and ‘end’ are used to denote the start and end times of the inference.

spline-type (optional) – This sets the type of spline (linear by default). Possibilities are:

- "linear" – Piecewise linear. Here the values of the spline are specified at the knot times. All intermediate points are linearly extrapolated.
- "square" – These splines are flat between the knot times. The value is specified using the knot time at the start of each interval.
- "cubic +ve" – This fits a cubic spline to the log of the parameter value (hence this spline is guaranteed to be positive).
- "cubic" – This fits a cubic spline to the parameter values at the knot times (this spline is not guaranteed to be positive).

**param-sim /
param-inf /**

These commands are created by the BICI core code and store parameter samples generated under simulation, inference or posterior simulation.

param-post-sim (see §7.4.1)	<i>E.g.</i> param-inf file="parameter-sample-data.csv" <i>file</i> – The data file which contains parameter samples generated from inference. The first column “State” stores the posterior simulation number. Other columns contain parameter information as well as log-likelihoods and the prior. <i>compress</i> (optional) – Determines if the file is compressed (to reduce file size). This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default "false"). Whether or not the file is compressed is determined using the ‘compress’ option in the ‘simulation’, ‘inference’, or ‘post-sim’ commands.
param-stats-inf (see §7.4.2)	Outputs statistics for each parameter: mean, standard deviation (sd), 95% credible interval (CI min and max), effective sample size (ESS) and Gelman-Rubin statistics (GR) (see §4.4.7 for details). <i>E.g.</i> param-stats-inf file="param-stats-inf.csv" <i>file</i> – The name of file which contains the table of parameter statistics.
pop-data (see §4.1.3.1)	Adds population data to the analysis. <i>E.g.</i> pop-data name="Infected population" filter="DS=I" error="normal:10%" file="pop-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “t” the times at which the population measurements are made, columns which specify any filters applied to specify the sub-population under observation (see ‘filter’ below), and “Population”, which gives the estimated population size. In the case in which ‘error’ is set to "normal:file", a final column “SD” is used to specify the standard deviation in the observation error. If ‘error’ is set to "neg-binomial:file", a final column “p” is used to specify the probability p in the negative binomial distribution. <i>filter</i> (optional) – Filters subpopulation. In the example above, the measured sub-population contains only individuals in the ‘I’ compartment in classification ‘DS’. Multiple compartments are separated using the ‘ ’ character, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=E I" would mean that the subpopulation includes those in either the E or I states. The fraction of individual observed can also be set, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=E:0.4 I:0.9" means that 40% of E individuals and 90% of I individuals are observed. Note, fractions can be larger than one because observations could represent something proportional to the number of infected individual (<i>e.g.</i> environmental pathogen concentration). Equations can be used to represent fractions, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=E:p I:$\eta(t)$" where the parameter p and spline $\eta(t)$ could be estimated during inference. Filtering can be done on more than one classification by comma separating, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=I, Sex=M" would mean that only male individual in the infected I state are observed. A filter can be placed into the data file using the ‘file’ keyword, <i>e.g.</i> "Location=file". In this case the file would contain a column with heading “Location” containing the filter. <i>error</i> (optional) – The observation error captures noise in the measurement process itself. This assumes that the observed value is drawn from a distribution with mean given by the true underlying value. There are three possibilities for this distribution:

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- **Poisson** – ‘error’ is set by "poisson". This has a variance equal to the mean.
 - **Normal** – This distribution can be chosen to have a variance less than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of three different ways: 1) As a percentage, *e.g.* "normal:10%" implies the standard deviation (SD) is 10% the mean, 2) As a SD, *e.g.* "normal:2.5" implies a fixed SD of 2.5, or 3) Defined by column “SD” in the file, *e.g.* "normal:file".
 - **Negative binomial** – This distribution has a variance greater than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of two different ways: 1) With a fixed *p* value, *e.g.* "neg-binomial:0.5" has *p*=0.5 or 2) Defined by a column “*p*” in the file, *e.g.* "neg-binomial:file".
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pop-trans-data

(see §4.1.3.2)

Adds aggregated population-level transition data to the analysis (*e.g.* the number of cases per week).

E.g. pop-trans-data name="Male infections" trans="S->I" filter="M" file="pop-trans-data.csv"

name – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings.

trans – The name of the transition. Multiple transitions can be specified in the same classification, *e.g.* "E->A|E->I" would mean that both ‘E→A’ and ‘E→I’ transition would both be counted in the observation. The fraction of observed transitions can also be applied, *e.g.* "S->I:0.5" would imply that only 50% of transitions are observed. Such fractions can be parameterised *e.g.* "S->I:p" or "S->I: $\eta(t)$ ".

file – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “Start” and “End” giving the period over which transitions are counted, any filters applied to specify the sub-population under observation (see ‘filter’), and “Number” which gives the estimated number of transitions. In the case in which ‘error’ is set to "normal:file", a final column “SD” is used to specify the standard deviation in the observation model. If ‘error’ is set to "neg-binomial:file", a final column “*p*” is used to specify the probability *p* in the negative binomial distribution.

filter (optional) – Filters subpopulation. This uses the same specification as ‘filter’ for ‘pop-data’. Note, filtering cannot be performed on the classification in which the transition occurs.

error (optional) – The observation error captures noise in the measurement process itself. This assumes that the observed value is drawn from a distribution with mean given by the underlying value. There are three possibilities for this distribution:

- **Poisson** – ‘error’ is set by "poisson". This has a variance equal to the mean.
 - **Normal** – This distribution can be chosen to have a variance less than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of three different ways: 1) As a percentage, *e.g.* "normal:10%" implies the standard deviation (SD) is 10% the mean, 2) As a SD, *e.g.* "normal:2.5" implies a fixed SD of 2.5, or 3) Defined by column “SD” in the file, *e.g.* "normal:file".
 - **Negative binomial** – This distribution has a variance greater than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of two different ways: 1) With a fixed *p*
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	value, e.g. "neg-binomial:0.5" has $p=0.5$ or 2) Defined by a column "p" in the file, e.g. "neg-binomial:file".
posterior-simulation / post-sim (see §5.3)	Specifies posterior simulation details. Note posterior simulation requires that inference has first been performed. <i>E.g.</i> post-sim start=0 end=100 number=10 <i>start</i> (optional) – The start time for the posterior simulation (by default set to the inference start time). <i>end</i> (optional) – The end time for the posterior simulation (by default set to the inference end time). <i>number</i> (optional) – The number of posterior simulations to be run (by default set to 200). <i>param-only</i> (optional) – This can be "true" or "false" (by default "false"). Setting this means that posterior simulations are performed using only the inferred parameter values and not the inferred states. This means that the model and initial conditions can be different to that used for inference (provided the model parameters are the same). <i>ind-max</i> (optional) – Sets the maximum number of individuals allowed (by default set to 20000). If exceeded, an error message is generated. <i>param-output-max</i> (optional) – Sets the maximum size of tensors which can be output (by default set to 1000). This avoids very large output files. <i>resample</i> – Determines if distributions are resampled or taken directly from the posterior. Should be set to a comma separate list of parameter names that need resampling. Individual effects can also be resampled. If multiple individuals are grouped together, the names of the individual events should be separated by the '-' sign. For example, if the model contains individual effects [a] and [b], resample="a-b" would specify that these are resampled during posterior simulation. <i>param-sample</i> – Determines the parameters used for posterior simulation: • sample (default) – Posterior parameter samples (recommended in most cases). • mean – The fixed posterior mean (calculated over all posterior samples). • median – The fixed posterior median (calculated over all posterior samples). <i>seed</i> (optional) – An integer between 0 and 10,000 that sets the computational seed for the pseudorandom number generator (by default set to a fixed value). Changing this value alters the stochastic realisation of the output. <i>optimise</i> (optional) – This determines how the underlying core code is run. Three options are available: • memory – Memory usage is reduced as much as possible (with some sacrifice in algorithm speed). • speed – Algorithm speed is as fast as possible (with potentially more memory usage). • auto (default) – This is automatically set. For smaller systems computational speed is prioritised, whereas for larger systems memory is reduced as much as possible.

	<i>compress</i> (optional) – Using the LZW algorithm, this reduces the memory size of BICI files that are output from the core code (parameter samples, state samples, etc...). Three options are available: • always – Output files are always compressed. • never – Output files are never compressed. • auto (default) – Output files are compressed if they are large (>1MB).
pred-acc-inf (see §7.4.4)	Outputs prediction accuracies. Note, these are only generated when there is individual effect data (see §4.1.4.1). This prediction accuracy is calculated for the entire population, or for specific specified groups (see §4.1.4.2). <i>E.g.</i> pred-acc-inf file="pred-acc.csv" <i>file</i> – The name of file which contains the table giving prediction accuracies.
proposal-inf	Stores information about optimised proposals (used if 'ext' extends the number of inference updates). <i>E.g.</i> proposal-inf file="prop-info.txt" <i>file</i> – Store information. <i>compress</i> (optional) – See 'param-sim'.
remove-pop-sim / remove-pop-inf / remove-pop-post-sim (see §3.1.1.3)	Removes populations of individuals from specified compartments at specified times ('remove-pop-sim' is for simulation and 'remove-pop-inf' is for inference). In the case of posterior simulation, 'remove-pop-post-sim' removes populations on top of those already defined in the posterior. <i>E.g.</i> remove-pop-sim name="Removed" file="remove-pop-data.csv" <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Removed populations"). <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "t" the times at which populations are removed, columns for each of the classifications to denote from which compartment the individuals leave the system, and "Population", which gives the number of individuals leaving.
set (see §7.1)	Sets the current species and/or classification, such that all subsequent commands act on that species/classification. <i>E.g.</i> set species="People" <i>species</i> – The name of the species. <i>classification</i> – The name of the classification.
set-ind-effect-sim (see §4.1.4.1)	Individual effects are usually sampled from a specified multivariate normal distribution. This option allows for individual effects to be set to a specific set of values. <i>E.g.</i> set-ind-effect-sim name="IE data" ie="g" file="ie-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, used for when generating errors or warnings. <i>ie</i> – The name of the individual effect.

	<i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: “ID” a unique identified for individuals and “Value”, which gives values for the individual effect.
simulation / sim (see §3.3)	Specifies simulation details. <i>E.g.</i> simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 number=10 <i>start</i> – The start time for the simulation. <i>end</i> – The end time for the simulation. <i>timestep</i> – Sets a finite time-step used to approximate the governing equations. A smaller value provides more accurate results but takes computationally longer. Typically setting this to around 20% of the shortest expected transition period gives fast, accurate results. <i>number</i> (optional) – The number of simulations to run (by default set to 1). <i>ind-max</i> (optional) – Sets the maximum number of individuals allowed (by default set to 20000). If exceeded, an error message is generated. <i>param-output-max</i> (optional) – Sets the maximum size of tensors which can be output (by default set to 1000). This avoids very large output files. <i>seed</i> (optional) – An integer between 0 and 10,000 that sets the computational seed for the pseudorandom number generator (by default set to a fixed value). Changing this value alters the stochastic realisation of the output. <i>optimise</i> (optional) – This determines how the underlying core code is run. Three options are available: • memory – Memory usage is reduced as much as possible (with some sacrifice in algorithm speed). • speed – Algorithm speed is as fast as possible (with potentially more memory usage). • auto (default) – This is automatically set. For smaller systems computational speed is prioritised, whereas for larger systems memory is reduced as much as possible. <i>compress</i> (optional) – Using the LZW algorithm, this reduces the memory size of BICI files that are output from the core code (parameter samples, state samples, etc...). Three options are available: • always – Output files are always compressed. • never – Output files are never compressed. • auto (default) – Output files are compressed if they are large (>1MB).
species (see §2.1.1)	Adds a species to the model. <i>E.g.</i> species name="People" type="individual" <i>name</i> – The name of the species. <i>type</i> – The type of model. This can take one of the following possibilities: • "individual" – An individual-based model (<i>i.e.</i> each individual in the system has a timeline). This allows for individual-based data as well as non-Markovian transitions. • "population" – A population-based model (here the populations in different compartments are tracked as a function of time). The

	transitions in the model must be Markovian, and data must be population-based. • "deterministic" – The same as "population", but with inherent stochasticity turned off. This is appropriate when population sizes are large, such that stochasticity is relatively unimportant. This approach runs the fastest. <i>trans-tree</i> (optional) – Sets if the transmission tree is turned on (<i>i.e.</i>, information about who acquires infection from whom is stored). This can take the values "on" or "off" (set to "off" by default).
state-sim / state-inf / state-post-sim (see §7.4.3)	These commands are created by the BICI core code and store state samples generated by simulation, inference or posterior simulation. <i>E.g.</i> state-inf chain=1 file="state-sample-data.txt" <i>chain</i> (optional) – Denotes the MCMC chain from which the samples were generated. <i>file</i> – The data file which contains state samples generated from inference. See §7.4.3 for format details. <i>compress</i> (optional) – Determines if the file is compressed (to reduce file size). This can take the values "true" or "false" (by default "false"). Whether or not the file is compressed is determined using the 'compress' option in the 'simulation', 'inference', or 'post-sim' commands.
test-data (see §4.1.2.3)	Adds disease diagnostic test data. <i>E.g.</i> test-data name="Elisa" comp="E[Se:0.3], I[Se:0.6]" Sp="0.99" pos="+" neg="-" file="test-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>comp</i> – Sets the compartment(s), comma separated, the test is sensitive to. After each compartment the test sensitivity is given in square brackets (this can either be a number between 0 and 1 or a parameter). <i>Sp</i> – The specificity of the test. This can either be a number between 0 and 1 or a parameter. <i>pos/neg</i> (optional) – Sets the text value in the data file used to represent a positive/negative test result (1/0 by default). <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "ID" a unique identifier for individuals, "t" the times at which the individuals are tested and "Result" which provides the test results.
trans-data (see §4.1.2.2)	Provides information about the timings of observed individual transitions. <i>E.g.</i> trans-data name="Male infections" trans="S->I" filter="Sex=M" obsrange="all" file="trans-data.csv" <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>trans</i> – The name of the transition being observed, which is made up of the initial compartment name, followed by '->' and the final compartment name. Source transitions use the '+' character, <i>e.g.</i> "+->S". Sink transition use the '-' character,

e.g. "R->-". Multiple transitions can be observed, *e.g.* "E->A|E->I" would imply that the observed transition would be one of these two possibilities. A probability can be assigned to observing the transitions, *e.g.* "S->I:0.3" would mean only a 30% probability of observing S→I transitions. This observation probability can be parameterised, *e.g.* "S->I:p" or "S->I:η(t)", where the parameters can be estimated during inference.

filter (optional) – Filters the population being observed (this can apply to any classification apart from the one in which the transition occurs). In the example above, the measured sub-population contains only individuals in the ‘M’ compartment in classification ‘Sex’. Multiple compartments are separated using the ‘|’ character, *e.g.* "Location=A|C" would mean that the subpopulation includes those in either the A or C locations. The probability of observing the transition can also be given a factor, *e.g.* "Sex=M:0.4" means that the S→I transitions in M individuals are only observed with a 40% probability. Equations can be used to represent probabilities, *e.g.* "Sex=M:η(t)" where the observation probability spline η(t) could be estimated during inference. Filtering can be done on more than one classification by comma separating, *e.g.* "Location=A, Sex=M" would mean that only transitions on male individual at location A are observed.

obsrange (optional) – Determines how the observation period for the transition is specified (‘all’ by default). It can take the following possibilities:

- "all" – This means that the transition is observed over the entire inference period.
- "specify" – The start and end of the observation period are specified (see below).

start/end (optional) – Used to specify the observation period when ‘obsrange’ is set to "specify".

file – The name of the file that contains the data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "ID" a unique identifier for individuals and "t" the times at which individuals undergo transitions.

transition / trans

This adds a transition to a classification.

E.g. transition name="S->E" value="exp(rate:β*{I})"

(see §2.1.4)

name – Identifies the transition, with the initial compartment name followed by "->" and the final compartment name. Source transitions use "+", *e.g.* "+->S". Sink transitions use "-", *e.g.*, "R->-".

value – Sets the transition distribution. This can take one of the following possibilities:

- "exp(rate:[eq])" – An exponential distribution, where "[eq]" is replaced with an equation that determines the rate at which transitions occurs, *e.g.* "exp(rate:r)" or "exp(rate:β*{I})".
- "exp(mean:[eq])" – An exponential distribution with an equation that determines the mean.
- "gamma(mean:[eq1],cv:[eq2])" – A gamma distribution with equations for mean and coefficient of variation.
- "erlang(mean:[eq],shape:[integer])" – An Erlang distribution with equation for mean and fixed positive integer shape.
- "log-normal(mean:[eq1],cv:[eq2])" – A log-normal distribution with equations for mean and coefficient of variation.

	• "weibull(scale:[eq1],shape:[eq2])" – A Weibull distribution with equations for scale and shape. • "period(time:[eq])" – For when the event happens after a certain prescribed period. Note, source transitions can only take the "exp" option. Population-based models are only valid for the "exp" or "erlang" options. <i>bp</i> (optional) – This sets the equation for the branching probability. This is only used if more than one transition leaves the initial compartment. <i>x, y</i> (optional) – In the case of a source or sink transitions, this positions the '+' or '-' symbol in the workspace (in "cartesian" coordinates). <i>lat, lng</i> (optional) – In the case of a source or sink transitions, this positions the '+' or '-' symbol in the workspace (in 'latlng' coordinates). <i>mid-x, mid-y</i> (optional) – Can be used to add extra points (comma separated) on the line from the initial to final compartments (in "cartesian" coordinates). <i>mid-lat, mid-lng</i> (optional) – Can be used to add extra points (comma separated) on the line from the initial to final compartments (in 'latlng' coordinates).
transition-all / trans-all	Adds a list of transitions to a classification, as specified in a data file (if there are numerous transitions, this is more concise than using many separate 'transition' commands). <i>E.g.</i> trans-all file="trans-all-data.csv" <i>file</i> – The name of the file that contains the transition data table. This table must contain at least the following columns: "name" and "value" (see 'transition' for formatting details). Optionally, additional columns can have headings given by other properties in 'transition', i.e. "bp", "x", "y", "lat", "lng", "mid-x", "mid-y", "mid-lat", "mid-lng".
trans-diag-inf	This command is created by the BICI core code and provides diagnostic information about different transitions in the model. <i>E.g.</i> trans-diag-inf chain=1 file="trans-diag-data.txt" <i>chain</i> (optional) – Denotes the MCMC chain from which the samples were generated. <i>file</i> – Store information. <i>compress</i> (optional) – See 'param-sim'.
view	This determines the position and scaling used when viewing the model in the BICI interface. This command ensures that when the model is saved and reloaded the workspace view is preserved. <i>E.g.</i> view x=4 y=0 scale=2 <i>x,y</i> (optional) – The <i>x</i> and <i>y</i> position at the centre of the workspace view (in "cartesian" coordinates). <i>lat,lng</i> (optional) – The latitude and longitude at the centre of the workspace view (in 'latlng' coordinates). <i>scale</i> – Determines how zoomed in the view is. <i>grid</i> (optional) – Plots the grid in the visual interface. Can take the values "off" and "on" (set to "off" by default).

	<i>comp-scale</i> (optional) – Scales the size of compartments as they appear on the screen. This can be used to tackle cases in which compartmental labels overlap each other (can take values between 0.1 and 10, by default set to one).
warning-sim / warning-inf / warning-post-sim /	Stores run-time warning messages for simulation, inference or posterior simulation. <i>E.g.</i> warning-inf text="This is a run-time warning message!"
(see Appendix G)	<i>text</i> – The warning message.

Appendix C: BICI-script command examples

To help understand the various possibilities, this appendix provides some illustrative examples for the most used BICI-script commands (please refer to Appendix B for a comprehensive description):

‘simulation’ command

1) simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5

Simulates from time 0 to time 100 using a timestep of 0.5 (see §3.3.1 for a discussion on how to choose the time-step). Results from simulation are placed into newly created ‘param-sim’ and ‘state-sim’ commands, which store parameter values and the system state, respectively (see §7.4).

2) simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 number=10

As (1), but 10 simulations are performed.

3) simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 seed=5

As (1), but the random number generator starts with a different random “seed”. This means that the stochastic outcome of the simulations will be different.

4) simulation start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 indmax=1000000

As (1), but here the maximum allowable number of individuals is increased from its default value of 2×10^4 to 10^6 (for individual-based models only).

‘inference’ command

1) inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 nchain=3

Performs inference on the system from time 0 to time 100 using a timestep of 0.5 (see §3.3.1 for a discussion on how to choose the time-step). This uses the default inference algorithm DA-MCMC (see §4.3.1.1) with three MCMC chains.

2) inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 nchain=3 update=100000

As (1) but perform 10^5 updates instead of the default 5,000 (increasing the number of updates may be necessary to obtain sufficiently representative samples from the posterior).

3) inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 nchain=3 param-output=100 state-output=50

As (1) but the number of parameter samples output is 100 (instead of the default 1000) and the number of state samples output is 50 (instead of the default 200). Reducing the number of output samples can be a way to reduce the size of the output files. On the other hand, increasing this number can make distribution plots smoother.

4) inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 algorithm="PAS-MCMC" npart=10

As (1) but uses an alternative inference algorithm particle anneal sampling MCMC (see §4.3.1.2) with 10 particles.

5) inference start=0 end=100 timestep=0.5 algorithm="ABC-SMC" gen=5

As (1) but uses an alternative inference algorithm Approximate Bayesian Computation using Sequential Monte Carlo (see §4.3.1.4) with 5 generations.

‘post-sim’ command

1) **post-sim start=0 end=100**

Performs a posterior simulation from time 0 to time 100 (typically coinciding with the time range used under inference). When run, this command randomly draws state samples from the defined ‘state-inf’ command (previously generated under inference) and uses the parameter values and initial conditions to simulate new states. These results are stored in the commands ‘param-post-sim’ and ‘state-post-sim’.

2) **post-sim start=0 end=200**

As (1), but here the simulation time is extended into the future (note, any splines take a constant value taken from the last time point under inference).

3) **post-sim start=100 end=200**

As (1), but here the simulation time goes from the end of the inference time to some point in the future. This is a way in which future prediction can be performed.

4) **post-sim start=0 end=100 number=1000**

As (1) but generates 1000 samples instead of the default 200.

5) **post-sim start=0 end=100 resample="G_g"**

When parameters are set as distributions (see ‘param’ command (11) below), the ‘resample’ option tells BICI to resample values from the model specified distribution (rather than take them from the posterior). Multiple resampled parameters are comma separated.

‘species’ commands

1) **species name="People" type="population"**

Adds a species to a model with the name ‘People’, which is defined to be a population-based model (see §2.1.1).

2) **species name="People" type="individual"**

Adds a species to a model with the name ‘People’, which is defined to be an individual-based model.

3) **species name="People" type="individual" trans-tree="on"**

As (2) but defines a transmission tree that determines who acquires infection from whom. This requires one or more of the compartmental states in one of the classifications to be set as ‘infected’. Note, this option slows down simulation and inference but is necessary for incorporating pathogen genetic data into analyses.

‘class’ / ‘classification’ command

1) **class name="DS" index="a"**

This sets up a new classification with name ‘DS’ and mathematical index a .

2) **class name="DS" index="a" coord="latlng"**

As (1), but here coordinates of compartments are defined by longitude and latitude (by default they are Cartesian). Coordinates are important if the distance matrix is used within the model.

3) **class name="DS" clone="People"**

This copies the classification with name 'DS' from another species (such that it contains the same set of compartments, although any transitions may be different).

'comp' / 'compartment' command

1) **comp name="S" x=0 y=1 color="#ff0000"**

Adds a compartment with name 'S' in location $x=0$, $y=1$ with colour "#ff0000".

2) **comp name="S" lat=47.442 lng=-4.753 color="#ff0000"**

As (1), but here longitude and latitude are specified.

3) **comp name="S" x=0 y=1 color="#ff0000" branch-prob="true"**

As (1), but this specifies that a branching probability exists for transitions leaving this compartment (only applicable when there are two or more exponentially distributed transitions leaving the compartment).

4) **comp name="S" x=0 y=1 color="#ff0000" infected="true"**

As (1), but this specifies that the compartment is 'infected'. This is used to inform transmission trees.

5) **comp-all color="#00ff00" file="comp-all-data.csv"**

This specifies multiple compartments within a file (useful if there are many). Tags can be specified which apply to all compartments ('color' in this case). The file contains a table with headings 'name', 'x', and 'y'.

'trans' / 'transition' command

1) **trans name="S->I" value="exp(rate: β *{I})"**

Sets up a transition between compartments S and I. The time between an individual entering S and leaving to go to I is sampled from an exponential distribution with rate β times the population in compartment I.

2) **trans name="I->R" value="gamma(mean:m,cv:c)"**

Sets up a transition between compartments I and R. The time between entering I and leaving to R is sampled from a gamma distribution with mean m and coefficient of variation c .

3) **trans name="+->P" value="exp(rate:a)"**

Sets up a source transition that allows for individual to enter the system into compartment P (e.g. this could represent births in an ecological model). The value specifies a global rate of individual entering the system.

4) **trans name="I->" value="log-normal(mean:m,cv:c)"**

Sets up a sink transition that allows for individual to leave the system from compartment I (e.g. this could represent deaths).

5) **trans-all file="trans-all-data.csv"**

Sets up multiple transition through a file. This contains a data table with headings 'name' and 'value'.

'param' command

1) **param name="β" value="0.001" prior="uniform(0,0.01)"**

A parameter β has a value 0.001 under simulation and a uniform prior between 0 and 0.01 under inference (§4.2.2 provides details for other prior specifications).

2) **param name="N" constant="10000"**

A parameter N has a constant value 10000 (under simulation or inference).

3) **param name="β_s" value="value-beta.csv" prior="uniform(0,1)"**

A parameter vector β_s has its value set in the file 'value-beta.csv'. This file may look something like this (as displayed in Excel):

	A	B	C	D	E	F	G	H
1	s	Value						
2	M	0.6						
3	F	0.4						

4) **param name="β_s" value="[[**

s,Value

M,0.6

F,0.4

]]" prior="uniform(0,1)"

This is the same as (3), but with the data table stored inline.

For brevity, this format is subsequently written as:

param name="β_s" value="[[s,Value | M,0.6 | F,0.4]]" prior="uniform(0,1)"

5) **param name="K_s,l" value="[[s,,l.Value | M,A,0.1 | M,B,0.2 | F,A,0.15 | F,B,0.22]]"**

prior="uniform(0,1)"

A parameter matrix $K_{s,l}$ has a specified value under simulation and a uniform prior under inference.

6) **param name="β(t)" value="[[t,Value | start,1 | 50, 1.5 | end,1.2" prior="uniform(0,2)" knot-times="start,50,end"**

Parameter $\beta(t)$ represents a piece-wise linear spline with knot points at the start, 50 and end times (where "start" and "end" are determined from the time range of the simulation or inference). The vector determined in 'value' sets the values for $\beta(\text{start})$, $\beta(50)$ and $\beta(\text{end})$. Under inference a uniform prior between 0 and 2 is used for these parameters.

7) **param name="β(t)" value="[[t,Value | start,1 | 50, 1.5 | end,1.2" prior="uniform(0,2)" knot-times="start,50,end" smooth="log-normal(0.5)"**

The same as (6), but with a smoothing prior applied under inference (see §2.2.4).

8) **param name="f(t)" constant="[[t,Value | start,0.25 | 50, 0.21 | end,0.22" knot-times="start,50,end"**

Parameter $f(t)$ represents a constant piece-wise linear spline (e.g. this could represent some time-varying data).

9) **param name="q^D_s" value="[[s,Value | M,1.2 | F,1.5]]" prior="uniform(0,1)"**

Like (4), but here parameter q_s^D has a superscript (superscripts can be used to differentiate related parameters).

10) **param name="M_l,l'" reparam="1/(1+pow(D_l,l'/Δ|α))"**

Here the matrix $M_{l,l'}$ is reparameterised as $1/\left(1 + \left(\frac{D_{l,l'}}{\Delta}\right)^\alpha\right)$, which represents is a spatial kernel between different locations separated by distance $D_{l,l'}$. Reparameterisations can involve any number of indices, but they cannot contain populations or splines.

11) **param name="G_g" dist="normal(0,σ^G)"**

Parameter vector G_g is sampled from a normal distribution with zero mean and standard deviation σ^G (distributions take the same options as the priors in §4.2.2, but can contain hyper-parameters).

Appendix D: Derived functions for epidemiological problems

This appendix outlines some functions that are particularly useful when BICI is applied to epidemiological problems. These functions can be set as the right-hand-side of a derived equation. For example,

$$R(t) = RN(E, I) \quad (4)$$

sets the parameter $R(t)$ to be the time-varying reproduction number (see below for a definition).

All the infected (though not necessarily infectious) compartments are specified within the brackets of the function. The example in Eq.(4) is appropriate for an SEIR model, because here E and I are infected compartments and S and R are uninfected. Such a definition is only valid provided at least one transition with a population-dependent rate causes individuals to become infected and none of the infected compartments are terminal⁴⁵.

Below are further functions that can be derived:

Function	Description	Requirement
RN(...)	Time-varying reproduction number $R(t)$. This is the expected number of cases from an infected individual in an otherwise susceptible population.	Cannot account for individual or fixed effects. Approximate when non-Markovian.

⁴⁵ If an individual indefinitely remains in an infectious state its reproduction number becomes infinite. Consequently, a reproduction number cannot be defined for the SI model.

RNE(...)	Effective reproduction number $R^e(t)$. This characterises the number of cases from an infected individual in the current population.	As RN(...).
RNC(...)	Computational reproduction number $R^c(t)$. This numerically calculates the average number of infections caused by an infected individual.	Must be an individual-based model.
GT(...)	Generation time $G(t)$. This is the mean time between when an individual becomes infected and when it infects other individuals.	Cannot account for individual or fixed effects. Approximate when non-Markovian.
GTE(...)	Effective generation time $G^e(t)$. As GT, but uses the current demographic composition.	As GT(...).
GTC(...)	Computational generation time $G^c(t)$. This numerically calculates mean time between when an individual becomes infected and when it infects others.	Must be an individual-based model.

Definitions

Generation – An epidemic starts with a single infected individual. We refer to this as “generation 1”. That individual then goes on to infect other secondary infections which make up generation 2. Those individuals subsequently infect generation 3, and so on and so forth.

Basic reproduction number R_0 – This is often defined to be the expected number of cases directly caused by the individual in generation 1 (*i.e.* in contact with an otherwise completely susceptible population). However, for models that include different demographic classifications, *e.g.* age and/or sex, or complex compartmental structures, careful consideration needs to be given to precisely how R_0 is calculated. Just averaging over the demographic possibilities for the initially infected individual is not enough. One must also consider what happens in subsequent generations in the early phase of an epidemic to get a meaningful estimate for R_0 (because it typically takes several generations for the distribution in demographic groups that cause the bulk of disease transmission to manifest).

Calculations

RN(...) Time-varying reproduction number $R(t)$ – This sets the value R_0 would have taken if the initial rates of mixing between individuals in the population are taken to be the same as that at time t . As such, $R(t)$ should be interpreted as a quantity proportional to the rate at which individuals come into contact with each other (with each contact allowing for the possibility of disease transmission). So, for example, when $R(t)$ goes down it indicates that either individuals are meeting less frequently, or disease controls are blocking transmission somehow (*e.g.* mask wearing). Note, disease transmission only actually occurs from contacts between infected and susceptible individuals. It is important to remember, therefore, that R_t *does not* account for the reduction in the susceptible fraction of the population as the epidemic progresses (this is incorporated into the effective reproduction number, as discussed below).

We outline the approach taken by Diekmann *et al.* to calculate $R(t)$. First, a set of compartments Ω for which individuals are infected (but not necessarily infectious) is identified. For the purposes of explanation, we refer to the example of an SEIR compartmental model with sex:



Here $\Omega=\{E_d, I_d\}$, where d goes over demographic possibilities (male M and female F).

A vector $\mathbf{v}=(E_M, E_F, I_M, I_F)^T$ is defined⁴⁶ to be the number of individuals in each of the infected compartments in Ω . In the deterministic case, the time evolution in $\mathbf{v}$ is given by

$$\frac{d\mathbf{v}}{dt} = (\mathbf{F} - \mathbf{\Sigma})\mathbf{v}, \quad (5)$$

where $\mathbf{F}$ is a matrix accounting for the rate of individuals *entering* compartments contained in Ω , and $\mathbf{\Sigma}$ is a matrix accounting for transitions *between* and *leaving* compartments within Ω .

From the model above we see that individuals enter Ω through the exposed E_M and E_F compartments, caused by infectious individuals in the I state:

$$\mathbf{F} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & N_{S,M}\beta_M & N_{S,M}\beta_M \\ 0 & 0 & N_{S,F}\beta_F & N_{S,F}\beta_F \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad (6)$$

where $N_{S,M}$ and $N_{S,F}$ give the number of susceptible males and females in the population at the start time.

The matrix $\mathbf{\Sigma}$, representing transitions between and leaving the infected compartments Ω , is given by:

$$\mathbf{\Sigma} = \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_M & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & \lambda_F & 0 & 0 \\ -\lambda_M & 0 & \gamma_M & 0 \\ 0 & -\lambda_F & 0 & \gamma_F \end{bmatrix}, \quad (7)$$

where λ_s and γ_s are transition rates going between the E and I compartments for the two sexes. This matrix is constructed by considering each transition in the model in turn. Denoting the initial and final infected compartments to be i and j , matrix element Σ_{ii} gets a positive contribution given by the individual rate (because individuals are leaving compartment i) and Σ_{ji} gets a corresponding negative contribution (because those individuals are entering compartment j). Note, if j is not one of the infected compartments in Ω , this second contribution is ignored.

The inverse of the matrix in Eq.(7) is given by

$$\mathbf{\Sigma}^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{\lambda_M} & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{\lambda_F} & 0 & 0 \\ \frac{1}{\gamma_M} & 0 & \frac{1}{\gamma_M} & 0 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{\gamma_F} & 0 & \frac{1}{\gamma_F} \end{bmatrix}. \quad (8)$$

This has a simple interpretation: If an individual enters compartment i , Σ_{ji}^{-1} gives the time, on average, that individual is expected to (eventually) spend in compartment j . For example, inspecting the first column in

⁴⁶ The superscript “T” stands from transpose, and this converts a row vector into a column vector.

Eq.(8) we see that if an individual enters compartment E_M (at the top) it will stay in E_M for time $1/\lambda_M$, spend no time in E_F , time $1/\gamma_M$ in compartment I_M , and no time in compartment I_F .

We now construct the next generation matrix $\mathbf{K}$. We denote $\mathbf{w}_g$ to be a vector giving the number of individuals entering the different compartments in Ω in generation g . The equivalent vector for the next generation is given by⁴⁷

$$\mathbf{w}_{g+1} = \mathbf{K}\mathbf{w}_g \quad \text{where} \quad \mathbf{K} = \mathbf{F}\mathbf{\Sigma}^{-1}. \quad (9)$$

The reasoning behind this expression is as follows: Suppose we consider an individual in generation g that enters compartment i . As described above, during its infected lifetime this individual spends on average Σ_{ji}^{-1} in each compartment j . But in doing so, Eq.(6) tells us that through its own infectiousness it will generate F_{kj} new infected individuals in each of the compartments k . This means that $w_{g+1,k}$ gains a contribution $F_{kj}\Sigma_{ji}^{-1}$ for each of the $w_{g,i}$ individuals in generation g that enter compartment i . Summing over all the possible values for i and j gives the relationship in Eq.(9).

Next, we ask the question what happens when we iterate Eq.(9) over many generations? It turns out that this equation can be solved⁴⁸, as shown in Appendix E. In summary, as the generations increase, so $\mathbf{w}_g$ becomes proportional to the normalised eigenvector $\mathbf{e}$ of the matrix $\mathbf{K}$ which has the largest eigenvalue. The value of this eigenvalue provides an estimate for $R(t)$ (by definition, this is the average number of infections an individual in one generation causes in the next).

The eigenvector $\mathbf{e}$ itself has an intuitive explanation. Supposing that certain demographic groups come into contact more often, *e.g.* younger age groups. Irrespective of the age of the person who initiates an epidemic, eventually those driving disease progression will be the young and so $\mathbf{e}$ will have proportionately larger values associated with entering the exposed compartment for young individuals.

RNE(...) Effective reproduction number $R^e(t)$ – The effective reproduction number is the expected number of cases directly caused by an infected individual as a function of time t . Note, this *does* take into account the fact that as the epidemic progresses the fraction of susceptible individuals reduces (causing effective transmission upon contact of individuals to become less and less common). $R^e(t)$ is always less than $R(t)$ and if it reduces below 1, herd immunity is reached (*i.e.* the disease will naturally die out over time).

$R^e(t)$ is calculated using the same method as above, except the population of susceptible individuals (*i.e.* $N_{S,M}$ and $N_{S,F}$ in Eq.(6)) are taken at the given point in time t (rather than at the start time).

RNC(...) Computational reproduction number $R^c(t)$ – This numerical approach takes each infection event in turn and apportions it between all the individuals that could have caused that infection⁴⁹. This leads to each individual potentially having a period over which it is infected⁵⁰ and an estimate for the number of

⁴⁷ In fact, because individuals usually only enter Ω through a limited number of states (E_M and E_F in our example), then, without loss of generality, $\mathbf{w}$ and $\mathbf{K}$ can be defined for just these states. This is a commonly used technique to increase computational efficiency.

⁴⁸ We assume the timescale of the initial phase of the epidemic is slow compared to time variation in other model parameters.

⁴⁹ In cases in which individual or fixed effects are used for the infectious population, this apportioning is done in proportion to the relative infectivity of individuals.

⁵⁰ Or in cases in which individuals can become reinfected, there may be more than one infected period for an individual.

infections it “caused”. Consequently, a reproduction number can be calculated on an individual basis. This is then converted onto a continuous distribution by means of averaging over all individuals infected at a given time. When no individuals are infected, a nominal value of zero is used to represent undefined.

GT(...) **Generation time $G(t)$** – This is the time interval between when an individual becomes infected and the average time that individuals transmit their infection to others. This quantity is important because it specifies how fast infections are spreading within the system with the passing of each generation.

Using the SEIR example above, the generation time is calculated as follows. The fraction of individuals entering compartment i is given by the corresponding element in the eigenvector e_i . Equation (8) shows a matrix Σ_{ji}^{-1} giving the average time those individuals then go on to spend in compartment j . Whilst in compartment j they initiate new infections in each of the compartments k at a rate given by F_{kj} (see Eq.(6)). The average timing of those new infections is given by the elements of the following vector:

$$\boldsymbol{\tau} = \left(\frac{1}{2} \frac{1}{\lambda_M}, \frac{1}{2} \frac{1}{\lambda_F}, \frac{1}{\lambda_M} + \frac{1}{2} \frac{1}{\gamma_M}, \frac{1}{\lambda_F} + \frac{1}{2} \frac{1}{\gamma_F} \right)^T. \quad (10)$$

Combining these contributions yields the final result:

$$G(t) = \frac{\sum_{k,j,i} F_{kj} \tau_j \Sigma_{ji}^{-1} e_i}{\sum_{k,j,i} F_{kj} \Sigma_{ji}^{-1} e_i}. \quad (11)$$

GTE(...) **Effective generation time $G^e(t)$** – This is the same as above, except here the population of susceptible individuals (*i.e.* $N_{S,M}$ and $N_{S,F}$ in Eq.(6)) is taken at the given point in time t (rather than at the start time).

GTC(...) **Computational generation time $G^c(t)$** – This numerical approach takes each infection event in turn and apportions it between all the individuals that could have caused that infection along with the infection time. This leads to each individual potentially having a period over which it is infected and an estimate for the mean time it “caused” other infections. Consequently, a generation time can be calculated on an individual basis. This is then converted onto a continuous distribution by means of averaging over all individuals infected at a given time. When no individuals are infected, a nominal value of zero is used to represent undefined.

Appendix E: Solving iterative matrix equations

This appendix outlines the solution to the matrix equation in Eq.(9).

We refer to $\mathbf{e}$ as an “eigenvector” and λ as an “eigenvalue” of a matrix $\mathbf{K}$ if it solves the equation

$$\mathbf{K}\mathbf{e} = \lambda\mathbf{e}. \quad (12)$$

In general, a square matrix of size N will have N eigenvectors $\mathbf{e}_j$ and eigenvalues λ_j , ordered such that λ_1 is the highest and λ_N is the lowest. These can collectively be written as

$$\mathbf{KU} = \mathbf{U} \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_1 & 0 & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & \lambda_2 & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & 0 & \lambda_3 & \dots \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots \end{bmatrix}, \quad (13)$$

where $\mathbf{U}=[\mathbf{e}_1, \mathbf{e}_2, \mathbf{e}_3, \dots]$ is a matrix made up of the eigenvectors. Multiplying both sides of Eq.(13) by the inverse matrix $\mathbf{U}^{-1}$ and substituting this expression for $\mathbf{K}$ into Eq.(9) gives

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{w}_g &= \mathbf{K}^{g-1} \mathbf{w}_1 \\ &= \left(\mathbf{U} \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_1 & 0 & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & \lambda_2 & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & 0 & \lambda_3 & \dots \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots \end{bmatrix} \mathbf{U}^{-1} \right)^{g-1} \mathbf{w}_1 \\ &= \mathbf{U} \begin{bmatrix} \lambda_1^{g-1} & 0 & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & \lambda_2^{g-1} & 0 & \dots \\ 0 & 0 & \lambda_3^{g-1} & \dots \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots \end{bmatrix} \mathbf{U}^{-1} \mathbf{w}_1. \end{aligned} \quad (14)$$

A key feature of this relationship is that as the generation number g increases, so the diagonal element that corresponds to the largest eigenvalue λ_1 dominates over all the others (which also means that $\mathbf{w}_g$ become proportional to the eigenvector $\mathbf{e}_1$). Because the overall number of individuals in $\mathbf{w}_g$ goes up by a proportion λ_1 each generation, so λ_1 provides an approximation to $R(t)$.

Appendix F: Further information about priors

This appendix provides some further details about the use of priors in BICl.

Uninformative priors

In many cases nothing *a priori* is known about a model parameter. In such cases an “uninformative” prior would want to be used. There are, however, several different candidate distributions that can be used for this purpose:

Flat prior – The most intuitively obvious approach is to use an entirely flat prior spanning all of parameter space⁵¹. However, because such a distribution is improper it can’t be sampled from, and so isn’t implemented in BICl.

Uniform prior – Here the prior distribution takes a constant value over all realistically possible values the parameter can take.

Jeffreys prior – This prior is relatively weak and, by construction, is invariant under reparameterisation. It has a different functional form, depending of the distribution used in the model, that must be derived (see below).

Example

Consider an exponential distribution with rate r . One simple option would be to give this a uniform prior in the range between $r_{\min}$ and $r_{\max}$:

$$\pi(r) = \begin{cases} c & \text{if } r_{\min} < r < r_{\max} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}, \quad (15)$$

where $c = 1/(r_{\max} - r_{\min})$ is a constant value. However, an exponential distribution can also be parameterised in terms of a mean μ , which is functional related to the rate through $\mu = 1/r$. Reparameterising Eq.(15) leads to a new prior:

$$\pi(\mu) = \begin{cases} d / \mu^2 & \text{if } \mu_{\min} < \mu < \mu_{\max} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \quad (16)$$

where d is a constant and $\mu_{\min} = 1/r_{\max}$ and $\mu_{\max} = 1/r_{\min}$. The important point to notice about Eq.(16) is that this prior is no longer uniform. What appear to be uninformative when thought of as a rate, has suddenly become informative in a mean. This discrepancy is somewhat unsatisfactory, given the original intention was to be “uninformative”.

An alternative is to use the Jeffreys prior (see the next section for how this is derived). When the exponential distribution is defined by a rate, the Jeffreys prior is given by:

$$\pi(r) = \begin{cases} c / r & \text{if } r_{\min} < r < r_{\max} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}, \quad (17)$$

⁵¹ That is from 0 to ∞ for positive parameter, otherwise from $-\infty$ to ∞ .

with constant $c = 1/\log(r_{\max}/r_{\min})$.

When the exponential distribution is defined by a mean the Jeffreys prior is given by:

$$\pi(\mu) = \begin{cases} d / \mu & \text{if } \mu_{\min} < \mu < \mu_{\max} \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases} \quad (18)$$

with constant $d = 1/\log(\mu_{\max}/\mu_{\min})$.

A simple change of variable shows that Eqs.(17) and (18) are identical (so an analysis performed with one would give the same result as with the other). Because of this independence of reparameterisation, it is recommended that Jeffreys priors are used for key parameters associated with transition distributions.

Deriving Jeffreys priors

This section shows Jeffreys priors for a variety of different distributions. In Bayesian statistics, the Jeffreys prior is a non-informative prior distribution with density function proportional to the square root of the determinant of the Fisher information matrix:

$$\pi(\theta) \propto \sqrt{|I(\theta)|}. \quad (19)$$

Given some probability distribution $f(x|\theta)$, the Fisher information matrix is defined by

$$I(\theta)_{i,j} = E \left[\frac{\partial^2 \log(f)}{\partial \theta_i \partial \theta_j} \right], \quad (20)$$

where $E[\dots]$ is the expectation⁵². Below we go through the derivation of the Jeffreys prior for an exponential distribution with a rate.

Exponential distribution with rate

The probability distribution function for sampling a time t given a rate r is given by

$$f(t|r) = \frac{1}{r} e^{-rt}. \quad (21)$$

The log of this is given by:

$$\log(f) = -\log(r) - rt. \quad (22)$$

The first derivative is:

$$\frac{\partial \log(f)}{\partial r} = -\frac{1}{r} - t. \quad (23)$$

The second derivative is:

⁵² The expectation is calculated by integrated the function multiplied by the distribution $f(x|\theta)$ over all x .

$$\frac{\partial^2 \log(f)}{\partial r^2} = \frac{1}{r^2}. \quad (24)$$

The Fisher information matrix is given by:

$$I(r) = E \left[\frac{\partial^2 \log(f)}{\partial r^2} \right] = \int_0^\infty \frac{1}{r^2} \frac{1}{r} e^{-rt} dt = \frac{1}{r^2}. \quad (25)$$

By using Eq.(19), the prior is:

$$\pi(r) \propto \frac{1}{r}. \quad (26)$$

Note, this prior is improper, so in practice limits must be placed on the range over which the rate r can extend (*i.e.* a plausible range), as shown in Eq.(17). This is implemented in BICI using the “inverse” prior option.

Jeffreys priors for transition distributions

Jeffreys priors for distributions with one parameter are relatively easy to derive. When two (or more) parameters are involved, the results depend on whether one of the parameters is being fixed or not. Table F1 goes through all the possibilities for the different transition distributions used in BICI.

Note, some of the analytical expressions for the exact Jeffreys prior are somewhat complicated. In these instances, we have also simplified in the limit of small coefficient of variation (using the $\approx$ symbol). To test this approximation, Fig. F1 shows a comparison, for each of the distributions, between a numerical evaluation of Eq.(19) (red lines), the analytical expressions (black lines) and any potential approximations (red lines). Because distributions are only known up to a constant factor, so any displacement between the curves is unimportant⁵³. The key point to note is whether the lines have the same slope or not. We find that generally there is very good agreement (apart from for the Weibull distribution, but this may be because of numerical inaccuracies in evaluating the Weibull function). This justifies us in making use of the approximations in any analysis in BICI.

Jeffreys priors are implemented in BICI either using the “inverse” option, typically for means and rates, or the “power” option, *e.g.* for non-inverse priors such as cv^{-2} .

Distribution	pdf	Jeffreys prior
$exp(r)$	$\frac{1}{r} e^{-rt}$	$\pi(r) \propto \frac{1}{r}$
$exp(\mu)$	$\mu e^{-t/\mu}$	$\pi(\mu) \propto \frac{1}{\mu}$
$gamma(\mu, cv)$	$\frac{1}{\Gamma(k)} \mu^{-k} t^{k-1} e^{-t/\mu}$	$\pi(\mu, cv) \propto \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{\sqrt{\psi'(\frac{1}{cv^2}) - cv^2}}{cv^4} \approx \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{1}{cv^2}$
$gamma(\mu, cv)$ (fixed cv)	$\frac{1}{\Gamma(k)} \mu^{-k} t^{k-1} e^{-t/\mu}$	$\pi(\mu) \propto \frac{1}{\mu}$

⁵³ Note, these plots are logarithmic in the x and y axes.

$gamma(\mu, cv)$ (fixed μ)	$\frac{1}{\Gamma(k)} \mu^{-k} t^{k-1} e^{-t/\mu}$	$\pi(cv) \propto \frac{\sqrt{\psi'(\frac{1}{cv^2}) - cv^2}}{cv^3} \approx \frac{1}{cv}$
Erlang(μ, k) (fixed k)	$\frac{1}{\Gamma(k)} \mu^{-k} t^{k-1} e^{-t/\mu}$	$\pi(\mu) \propto \frac{1}{\mu}$
$log-normal(\mu, cv)$	$\frac{1}{x\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(\log(x)-\log(\mu)+\frac{1}{2}\sigma^2)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$ where $\sigma^2 = \log(1+cv^2)$	$\pi(\mu, cv) \propto \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{cv}{(\log(1+cv^2))^{3/2} (1+cv^2)} \approx \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{1}{cv^2}$
$log-normal(\mu, cv)$ (fixed cv)	$\frac{1}{x\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(\log(x)-\log(\mu)+\frac{1}{2}\sigma^2)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$ where $\sigma^2 = \log(1+cv^2)$	$\pi(\mu) \propto \frac{1}{\mu}$
$log-normal(\mu, cv)$ (fixed μ)	$\frac{1}{x\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(\log(x)-\log(\mu)+\frac{1}{2}\sigma^2)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$ where $\sigma^2 = \log(1+cv^2)$	$\pi(cv) \propto \frac{cv}{\log(1+cv^2)(1+cv^2)} \approx \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{1}{cv}$
$weibull(\lambda, k)$	$\left(\frac{k}{\lambda}\right) \left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^{k-1} e^{-\left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^k}$	$\pi(\lambda, k) \propto \text{compiled} \approx \frac{1}{\lambda} \frac{1}{k^2}$
$weibull(\lambda, k)$ (fixed k)	$\left(\frac{k}{\lambda}\right) \left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^{k-1} e^{-\left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^k}$	$\pi(\lambda) \propto \frac{1}{\lambda}$
$weibull(\lambda, k)$ (fixed λ)	$\left(\frac{k}{\lambda}\right) \left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^{k-1} e^{-\left(\frac{x}{\lambda}\right)^k}$	$\pi(k) \propto \text{compiled} \approx \frac{1}{k}$

Table F1: Jeffreys priors for transition distributions –The following notation is used: t =time, r =rate, μ =mean, k =shape, λ =scale, σ =standard deviation, cv =coefficient of variation. The coefficient of variation cv is related to the shape parameter through $k = 1/cv^2$.

Distribution	pdf	Jeffreys prior
$normal(\mu, \sigma)$	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(x-\mu)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$	$\pi(\mu, \sigma) \propto \frac{1}{\sigma^2}$
$normal(\mu, \sigma)$ (fixed σ)	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(x-\mu)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$	$\pi(\mu) \propto \text{constant}$
$normal(\mu, \sigma)$ (fixed μ)	$\frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-(x-\mu)^2/(2\sigma^2)}$	$\pi(\sigma) \propto \frac{1}{\sigma}$
$mvn(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$	$\frac{1}{(2\pi)^{d/2} \boldsymbol{\Sigma} ^{1/2}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})^T \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1} (\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})}$	$\pi(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}) \propto \boldsymbol{\Sigma} ^{-\frac{d}{2}-1}$
$mvn(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$ (fixed $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}$)	$\frac{1}{(2\pi)^{d/2} \boldsymbol{\Sigma} ^{1/2}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})^T \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1} (\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})}$	$\pi(\boldsymbol{\mu}) \propto \text{constant}$
$mvn(\boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma})$ (fixed $\boldsymbol{\mu}$)	$\frac{1}{(2\pi)^{d/2} \boldsymbol{\Sigma} ^{1/2}} e^{-\frac{1}{2}(\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})^T \boldsymbol{\Sigma}^{-1} (\mathbf{x}-\boldsymbol{\mu})}$	$\pi(\boldsymbol{\Sigma}) \propto \boldsymbol{\Sigma} ^{-\frac{d}{2}-\frac{1}{2}}$

Table F2: Jeffreys priors for other distributions –The following notation is used: x =value, μ =mean, σ =standard deviation, $\mathbf{x}$ =vector value, $\boldsymbol{\mu}$ =vector mean, $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}$ =covariance matrix, $|\boldsymbol{\Sigma}|$ =determinant, d =dimension.

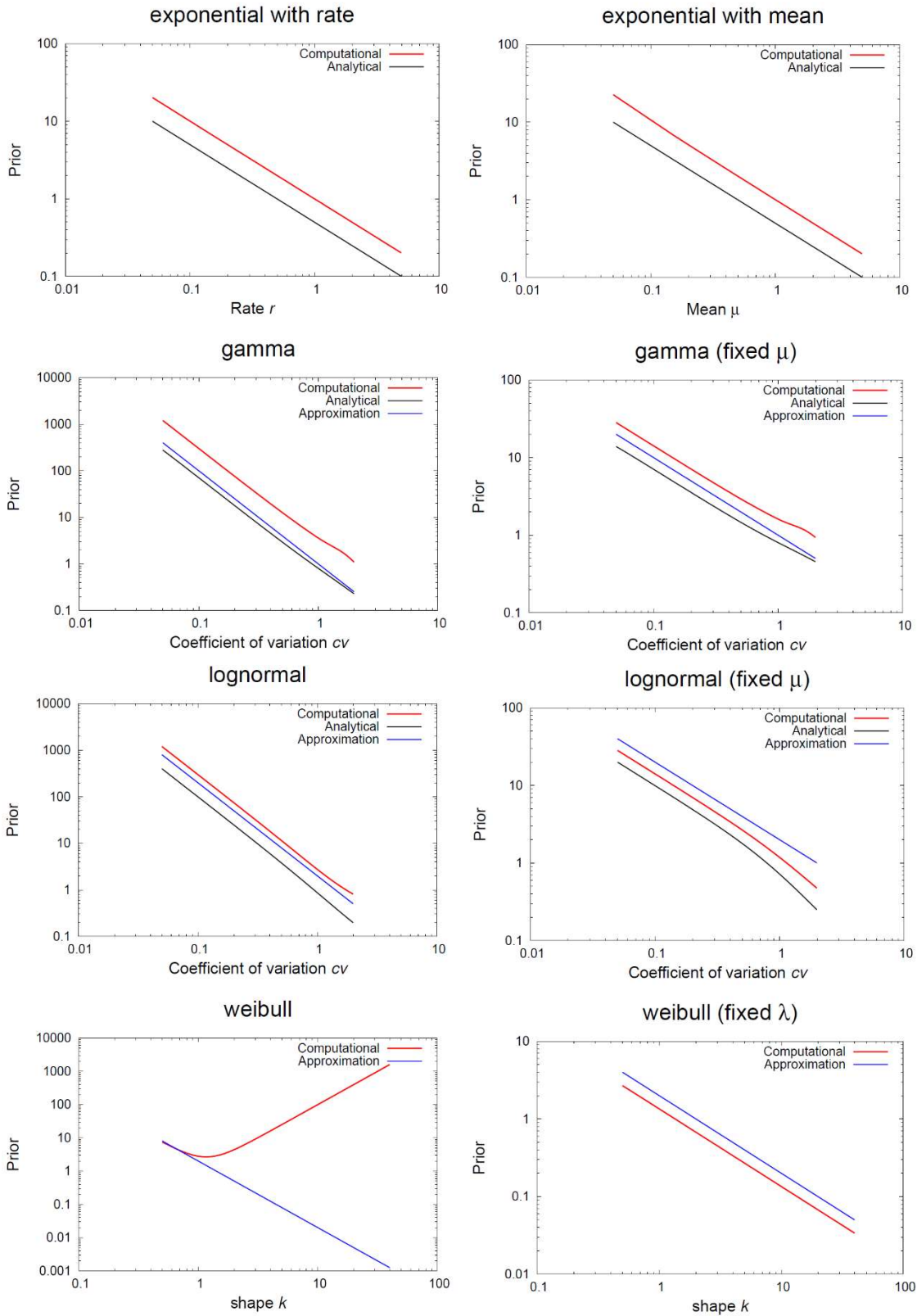


Figure F1 – Jeffreys priors for transition distributions. This graph shows Jeffreys priors for the distributions in Table F1. The red lines are generated by numerically integrating Eq.(19). The black curves represent the analytically derived expressions in the right-hand column of Table F1. The blue curves show any approximations (denoted by $\approx$). Note, because curves are only known up to a constant value, so vertical displacement is unimportant.

Jeffreys priors for normal distribution

Table F2 shows Jeffreys priors for normal and multivariate normal distributions. In contrast to those shown in Table F1, we find that these are independent of the mean. Numerical verification of the scaling relationships is given in Fig. F2.

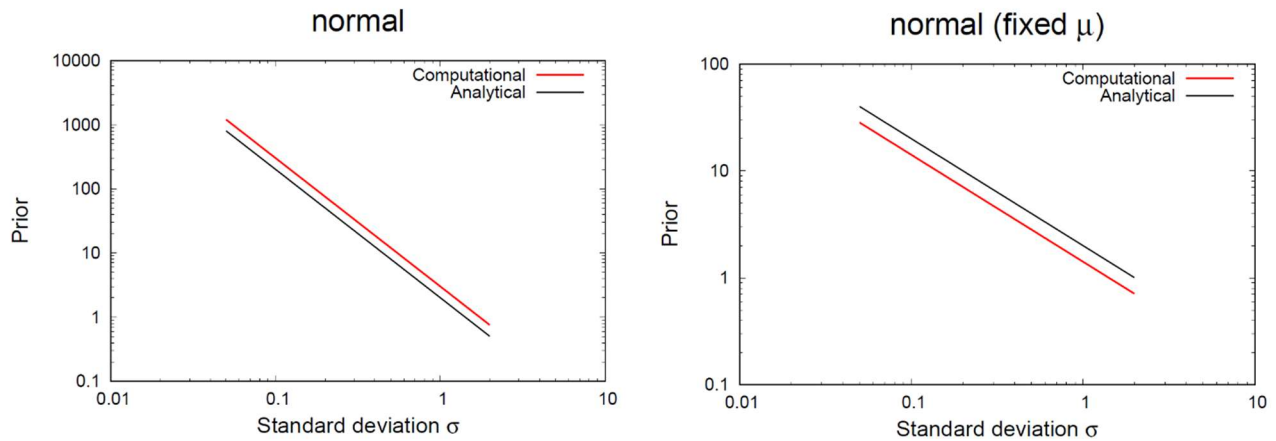


Figure F2 – *Jeffreys priors for normal distributions.* This graph shows Jeffreys priors for the distributions in Table F2. The red lines are generated by numerically integrating Eq.(19). The black curves represent the analytically derived expressions in the right-hand column of Table F2. The blue curves show any approximations (denoted by $\approx$). Note, because curves are only known up to a constant, so vertical displacement is unimportant.

Covariance matrix priors for individual effects

Four possible prior distributions can be used for the covariance matrices of individual effects:

- “covar-default()” – This is the recommend uninformative prior. It consists of a half-normal distribution with $\sigma = 2$ for the diagonal variance components of the covariance matrix and a LKJ(1.2) distribution for correlations (see below). Note, this normal distribution refers to the prior for the variances and must not be confused with the (potentially multivariate) normal distribution for the individual effects themselves.
- “covar-normal-lkj(σ, η)” – A half-normal distribution with specified standard deviation σ for the and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations
- “covar-uniform-lkj(min,max, η)” – A uniform distribution for variances and LKJ(η) distribution for correlations.
- “covar-inv-wishart(S, ν)” – An inverse Wishart distribution with scale given by S times the identity matrix and ν degrees of freedom (an integer that must be greater than the number of dimensions of the matrix plus one). This distribution was historically used due to it being easy to incorporate into Gibbs sampling algorithms (because it is a conjugate prior to the multivariate normal distribution). Recently, however, it has become less popular due to its tendency to select against small variances.

In combination with the above priors, there is also a strict requirement that variances must be less than 5 and greater than 0.0001 and that correlations must be between -0.99 and 0.99 (for reasons of numerical stability).

LKJ Distribution – The LKJ(η) probability distribution is used to characterise correlations in the covariance matrix. Specifically, the probability distribution of matrix $\mathbf{R}$ (which has 1 along the diagonal and correlation parameters off diagonal) is given by:

$$p(R) \propto |R|^{\eta-1}. \quad (27)$$

For $\eta = 1$, the distribution is uniform over the space of all correlation matrices (*i.e.* the space of positive definite matrices with unit diagonal). Generally, the marginal distribution is given by a beta distribution shifted from $\{0,1\}$ to $\{-1,1\}$:

$$\frac{1}{2}(R_{i,j} + 1) \sim \text{beta}(\eta - 1 + \frac{1}{2}N, \eta - 1 + \frac{1}{2}N). \quad (28)$$

Values of η slightly larger than one suppress high correlations (that can cause problems during MCMC). Consequently, the default value is set to $\eta = 1.2$.

Modified Dirichlet prior for factors

The modified Dirichlet prior “mdir(σ)” is used for parameter factors (see §2.2.9). We take f_i to represent the value of a parameter element i ⁵⁴. This element can also have a weight w_i associated with it (by default set to one). For a factor the weighted average of the parameter value must be one:

$$\sum_i (f_i w_i) / \sum_i w_i = \sum_i f_i \phi_i = 1, \quad (29)$$

where

$$\phi_i = w_i / \sum_i w_i. \quad (30)$$

To ensure the condition in Eq.(29), each term $f_i \phi_i$ is set to have a Dirichlet prior $\text{Dir}(\alpha_i)$ with

$$\alpha_i = \left(\frac{N-1}{\sigma^2} - 1 \right) \phi_i, \quad (31)$$

where N is the total number of elements in f . This choice leads to the prior for f_i having a mean of one and a variance

$$\sigma^2 \frac{\frac{1}{\phi_i} - 1}{N-1}. \quad (32)$$

Note, when all elements have equal weight, *i.e.* $\phi_i = 1/N$, this simplifies to a variance of σ^2 (or equivalently a standard deviation of σ).

In the general case, those elements with a smaller weight will have a larger variance than average, and *vice-versa*. The choice $\sigma=0.5$ represents a relatively uninformative prior choice (allowing for a large ~50% variation in factor value).

⁵⁴ Note, parameter factors are usually vectors and so i represents elements of the vector. In principle, however, parameter factors can also be matrices or tensors, and here i simply iterates through each element.

Appendix G: Run-time warnings

This appendix outlines various run-time warnings can be generated after BICI has been executed. These do not prevent results from being generated but rather are designed to inform the user about the potential unreliability of the results.

Time-step – This warning is generated if the time-step is either chosen to be too large (leading to discretisation errors) or too small (becoming computationally inefficient).

Typical messages are as follows:

“High transition rates mean that there is a potential for a finite time-step discretisation error. It is recommended that this model is run with a time-step below '0.5'. The following transitions are affected: $S \rightarrow I$.”

“This is being run with a relatively small time-step. Analysis suggests it could be reliably run up to a time-step '10'.”

Execution time – These warnings are used to indicate when inference hasn't been run for sufficiently long.

This estimates how many MCMC updates would be needed for convergence:

“MCMC diagnostics suggests it has not been run for long enough. An estimated 16000 updates are required.”

Note, if this estimated number of updates is much larger than that used to run the analysis (for example if here only 1000 updates had been used), this value may not be particularly reliable.

This indicates which parameters are not converging based on being less than an effective sample size statistic of 200 (see §4.4.7 for details):

“Parameter below the 200 ESS threshold: β ”

This indicates which parameters are not converging based on exceeding a Gelman-Rubin statistic of 1.01 (see §4.4.7 for details):

“Parameter above the 1.01 GR threshold: β ”

Data outside range – Sometimes it is convenient to only run inference on a subset of the data. In particular setting the time range as smaller than provided by the data. This means that some of the data is not used, which generates the warning:

“Data outside of time range is ignored in source 'Infections'.”

Unexpected added individuals – In individual-based models typically the user specifies individuals which are added to the system (through the 'Add Ind.' data type) and then various observations made on those individuals. It's important to note, however, that BICI will automatically create individuals which are observed but not added. There are many circumstances when this is valid (such as in the ecological setting where trapped animals are *a priori* unknown). Sometimes, however, the IDs on the observations are accidental errors, and they should really reference the added individuals (*e.g.* resulting from a spelling mistake). To guard against this possibility a warning message is generated:

“The following individuals are not explicitly added to the system (is this correct?): ‘Ind-1’, ‘Ind-2’...”

Derived functions – Derived functions allow for the estimation of important quantities such as the reproduction number (see Appendix D). This warning shows that the calculation of the derived quantity is only approximate, because it replaces any non-Markovian transitions with exponential distributions with an equivalent rate:

“Calculation of ‘R’ is approximate due to non-Markovian transitions”

Internal BICI warnings – These warnings indicate potential problems with the code execution. They are of a technical nature and are aimed at improving code reliability. The message given is:

“This run has generated algorithm warnings. Please check the diagnostic file(s) for details.”

Appendix H: Parameter visualisations

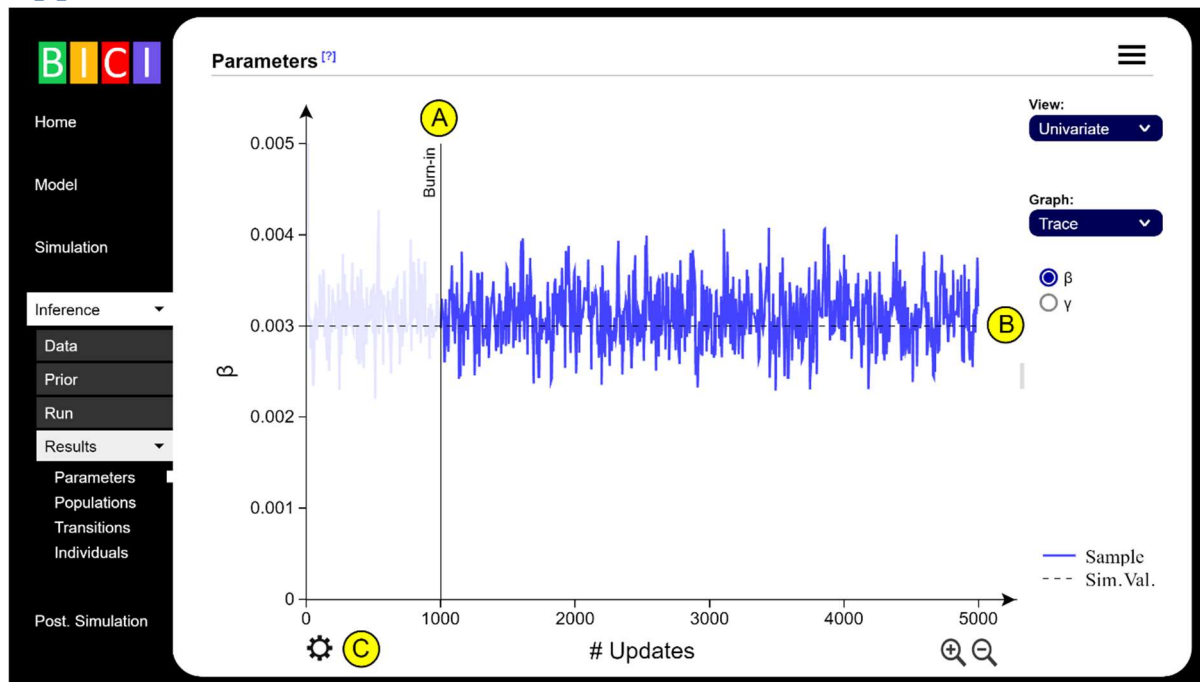


Figure H1 – Trace plot. MCMC works by iteratively performing “updates” and drawing posterior samples. The number of updates is shown on the x-axis and a selected parameter on the y-axis. Ideally, samples would be randomly sampled from the posterior, but they are correlated (which manifests itself as structure within these trace plots). This example is for just a single MCMC chain, but multiple chains can be represented by lines with different colours. A: This vertical line represents the end of the burn-in period, B: The horizontal dashed line indicates the parameter value used to simulate the data (if applicable), C: Under settings, the burn-in period can be altered or the dashed line removed.

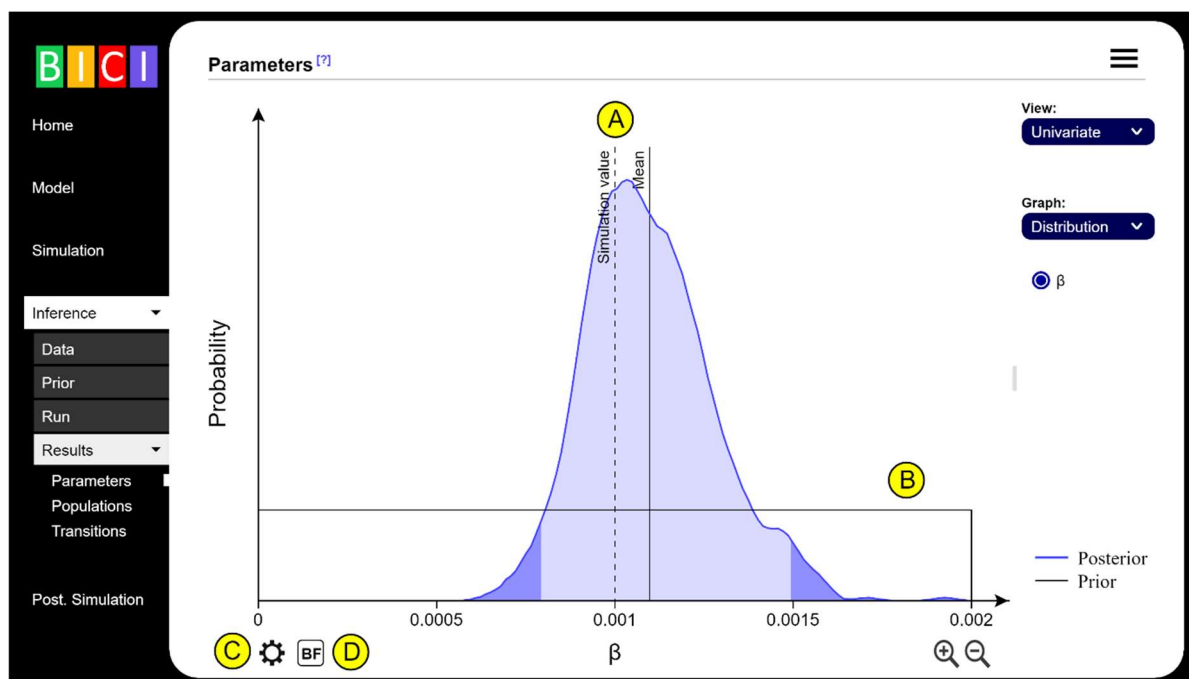


Figure H2 – Distribution plot. This shows a posterior distribution plot for a selected parameter (the darker blue areas indicate the 2.5% tails). A: The value used to simulate the data (if applicable), B: The prior distribution (solid black line), C: Under settings, either kernel density estimation (with a triangular kernel of specified size), or binning (with specified bin number) can be selected, D: Calculate the Bayes factor (see §4.4.6).

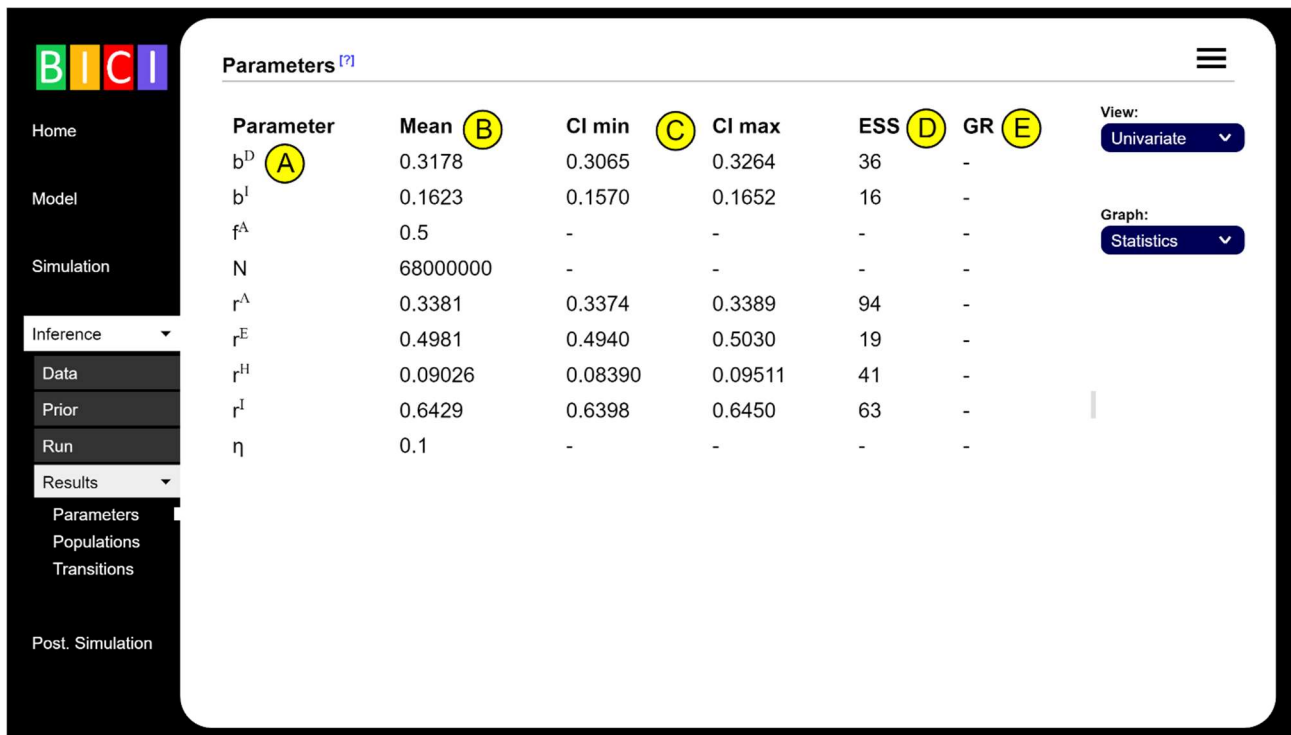


Figure H3 – Statistics. Provides posterior statistics for model parameters. A: Parameter name (this example shows univariate parameters, but for multivariate parameters different rows correspond to different elements), B: Posterior mean, C: 95% credible interval (note, this is unspecified for constant parameters), D: Effective sample size (ESS), E: Gelman-Rubin statistic (GR), not shown in this particular case because only a single MCMC chain was run. See §4.4.7 for details on ESS and GR.

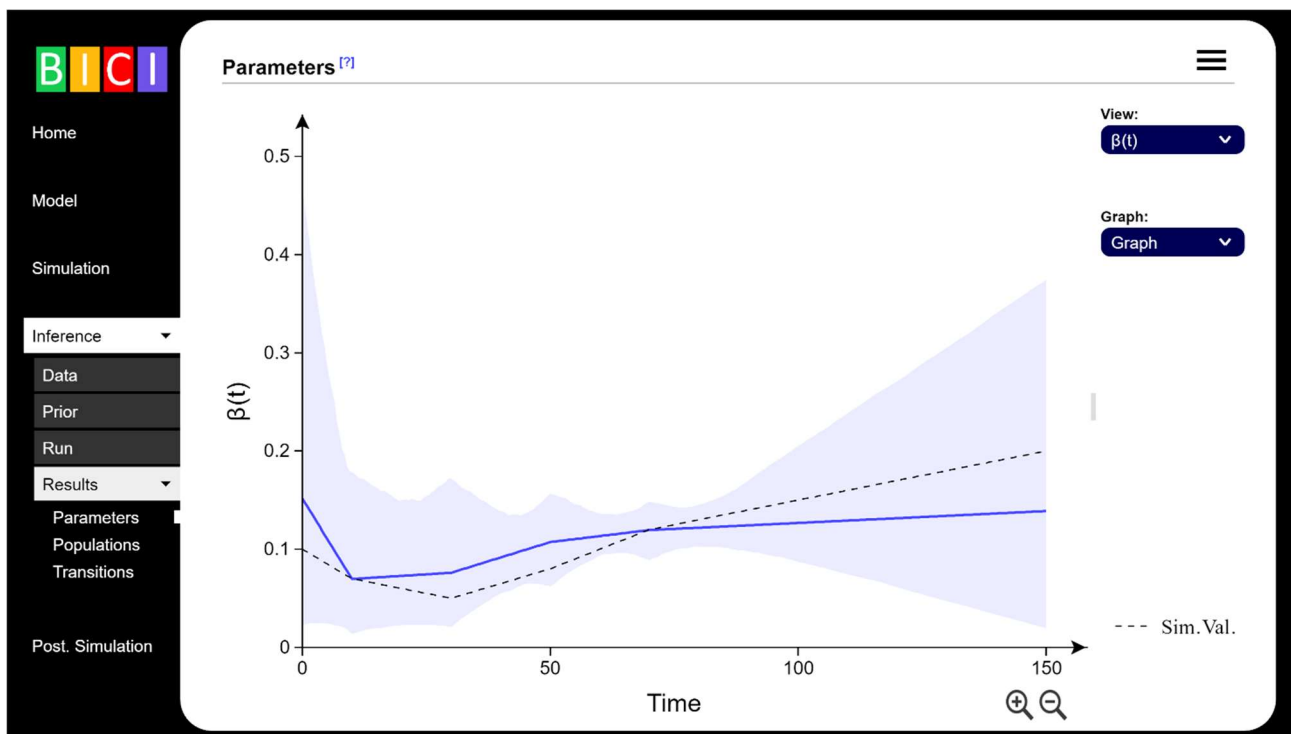


Figure H4 – Graph. This shows a graph representing time variation in spline parameter $\beta(t)$. The dashed line gives the values used for simulation. The blue line provides the posterior mean (with shading representing 95% credible intervals).

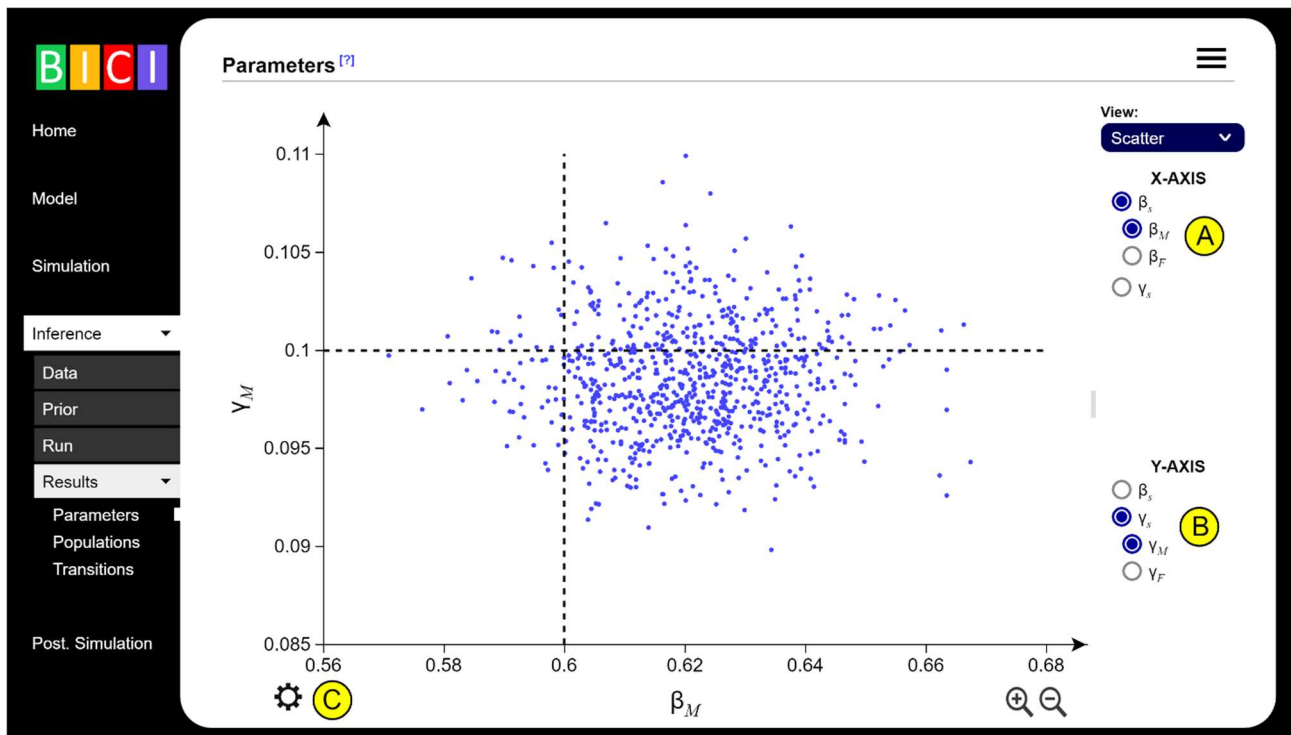


Figure H5 – Scatter plot. This shows a scatter plot for two model parameters, based on different posterior samples. A: Select one parameter on the x-axis, B: Select another parameter on the y-axis, C: Under settings, the simulated values (shown by the dashed lines) can be switch on or off.

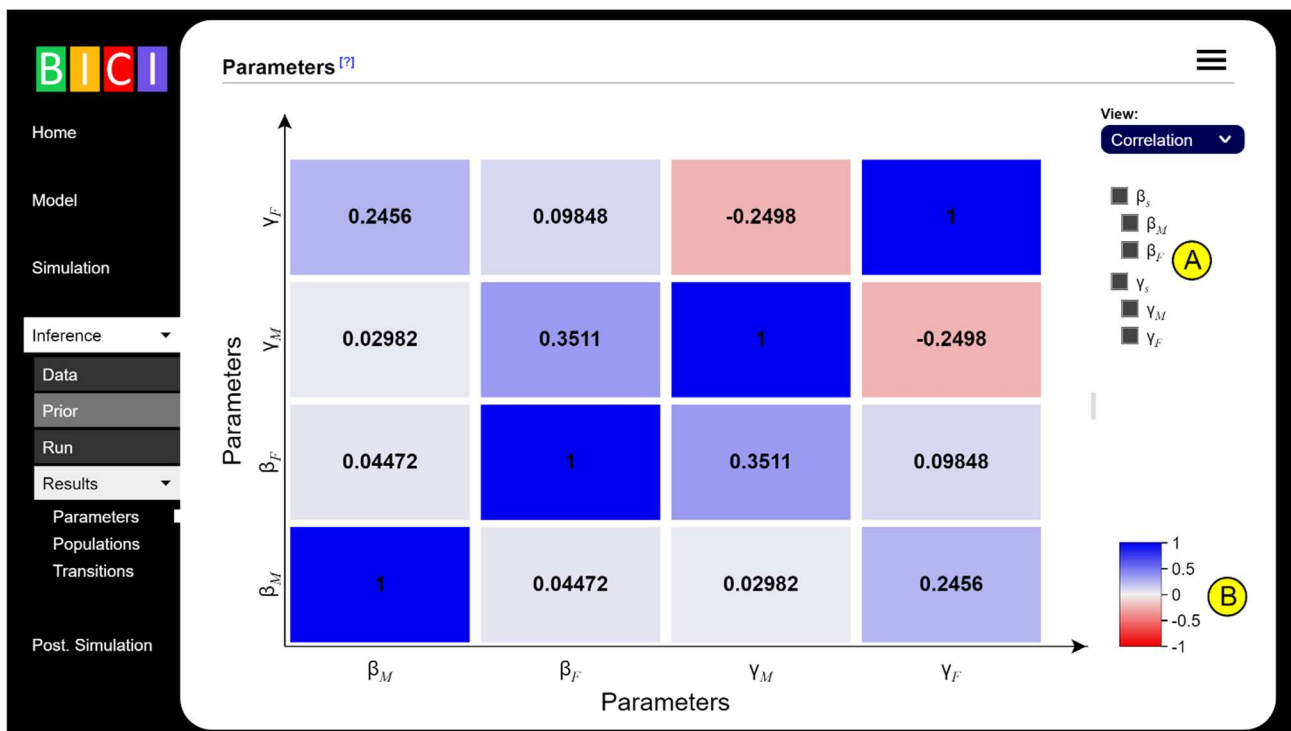


Figure H6 – Correlation matrix. This shows posterior correlations between different parameters in the model (as measured by the Pearson correlation coefficient) 1=completely correlated, -1=completely anti-correlated. A: Select which parameters appear in the matrix, B: Key indicating level of correlation (blue for correlated and red for anti-correlated).

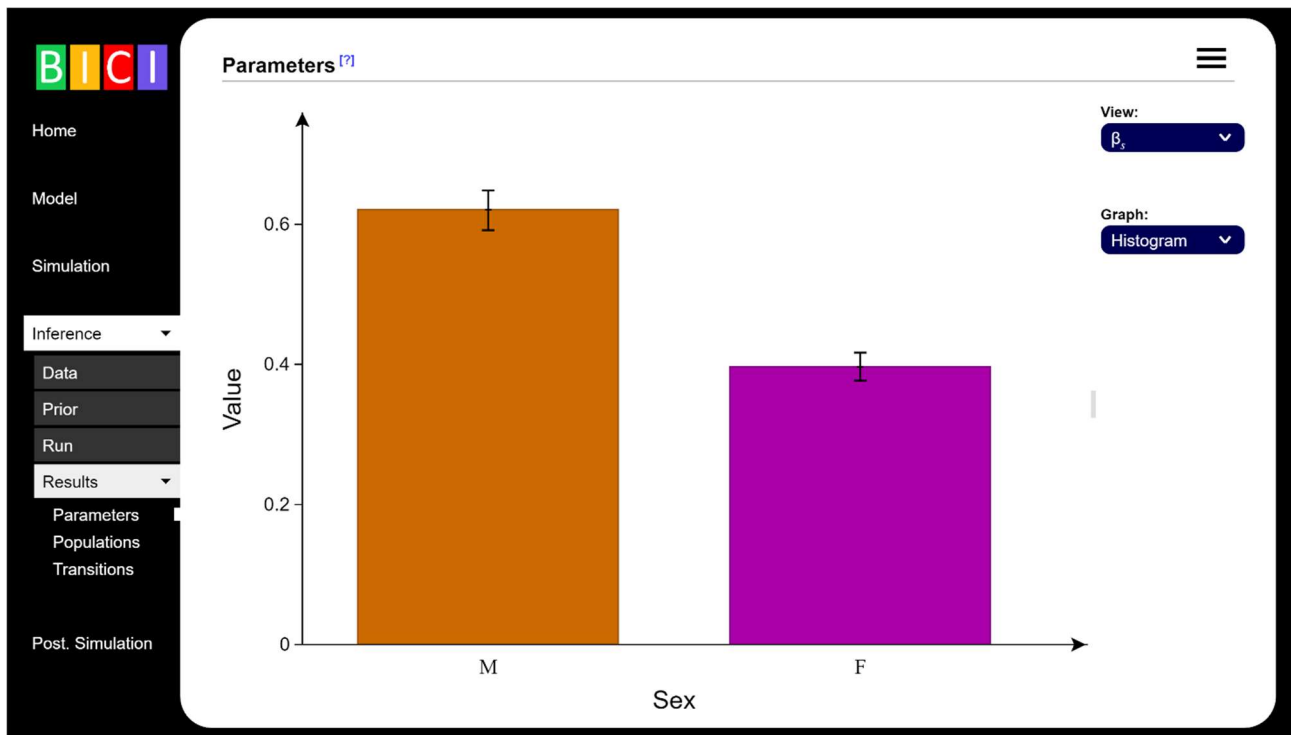


Figure H7 – Histogram. This can be used to visualise vectors, where each bar corresponds to a compartment within a classification. The error bars represent 95% credible intervals in the posterior. Time-varying histograms can also be plotted, with animation controls as in Fig. D3.

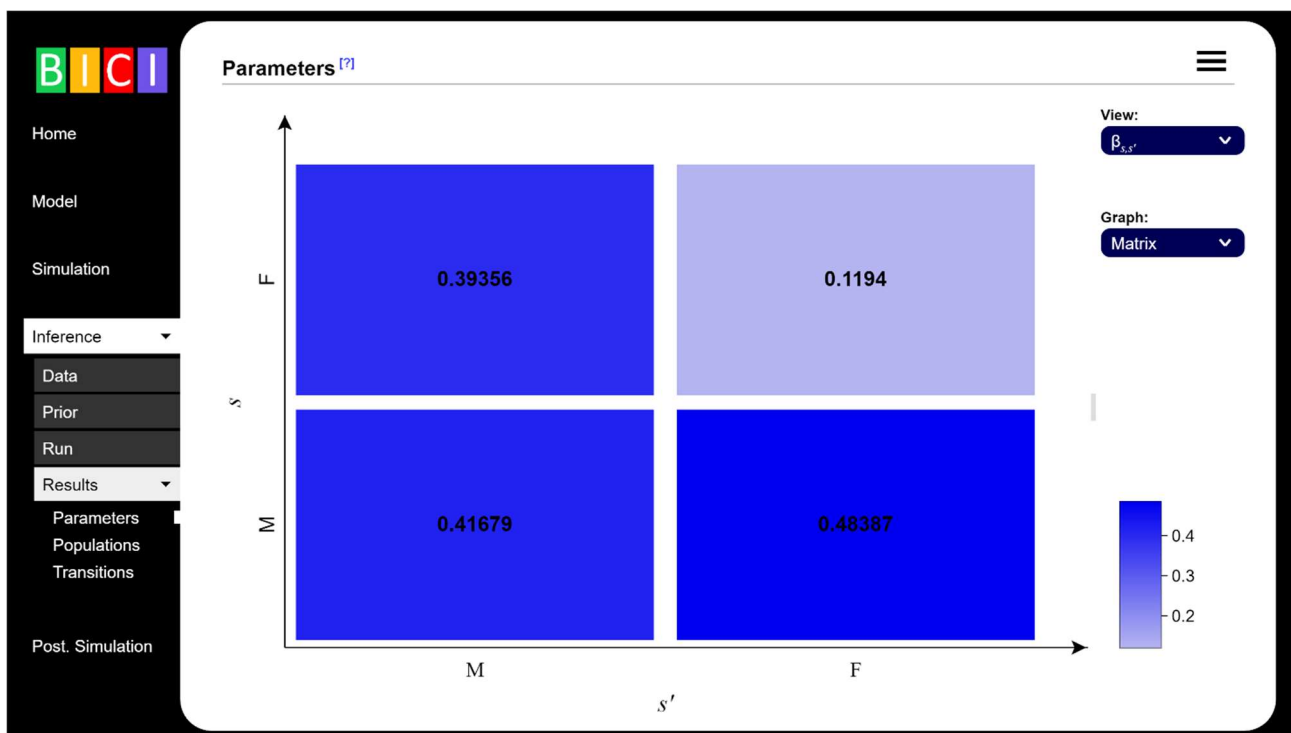


Figure H8 – Matrix. This shows the posterior mean for elements of a matrix. Time-varying matrices can also be plotted, with animation controls as in Fig. D3.

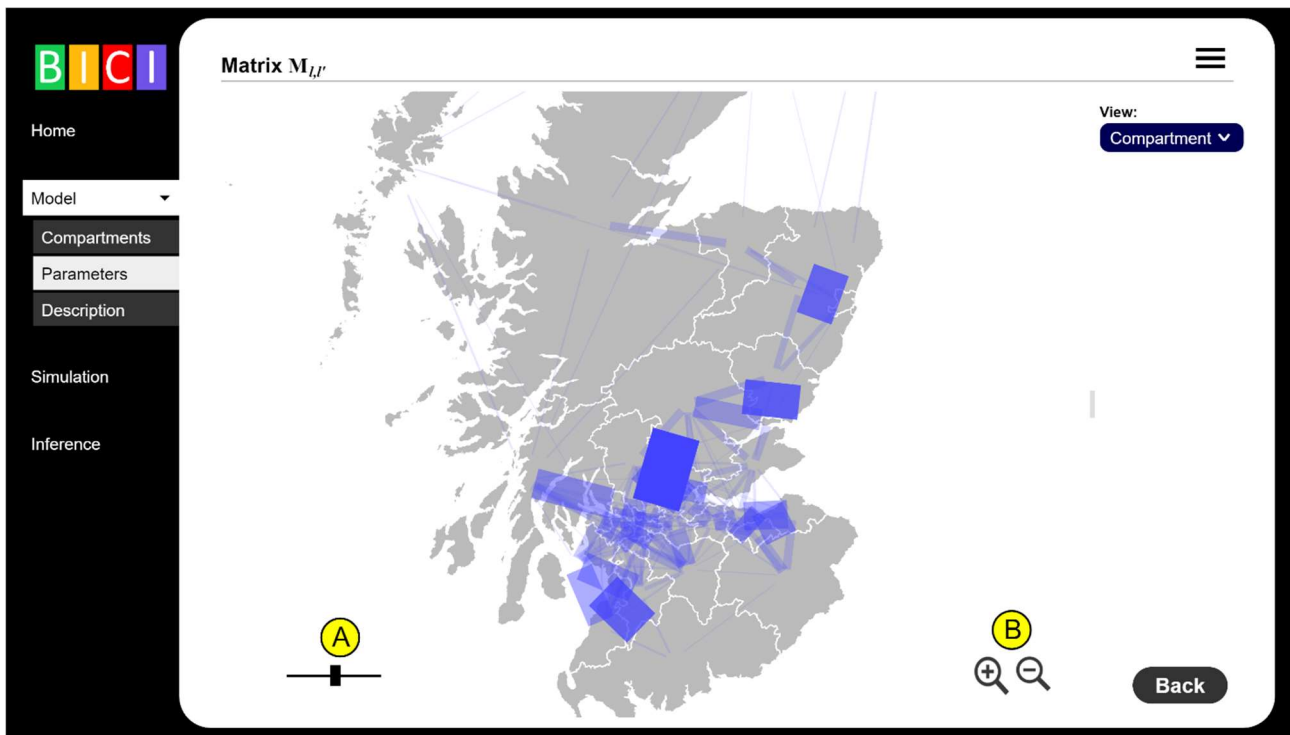


Figure H9 – Geographical matrix. When both matrix indices correspond to a geographical classification, the matrix can be plotted on the map. Here the strength of the bars indicates the size of the corresponding matrix elements. A: A slider can be used to vary the size of the bars (to help clarity) , B: The map can be zoomed in or out to see fine details. Time-varying matrices can also be plotted, with animation controls as in Fig. D3.

Appendix I: Population visualisations

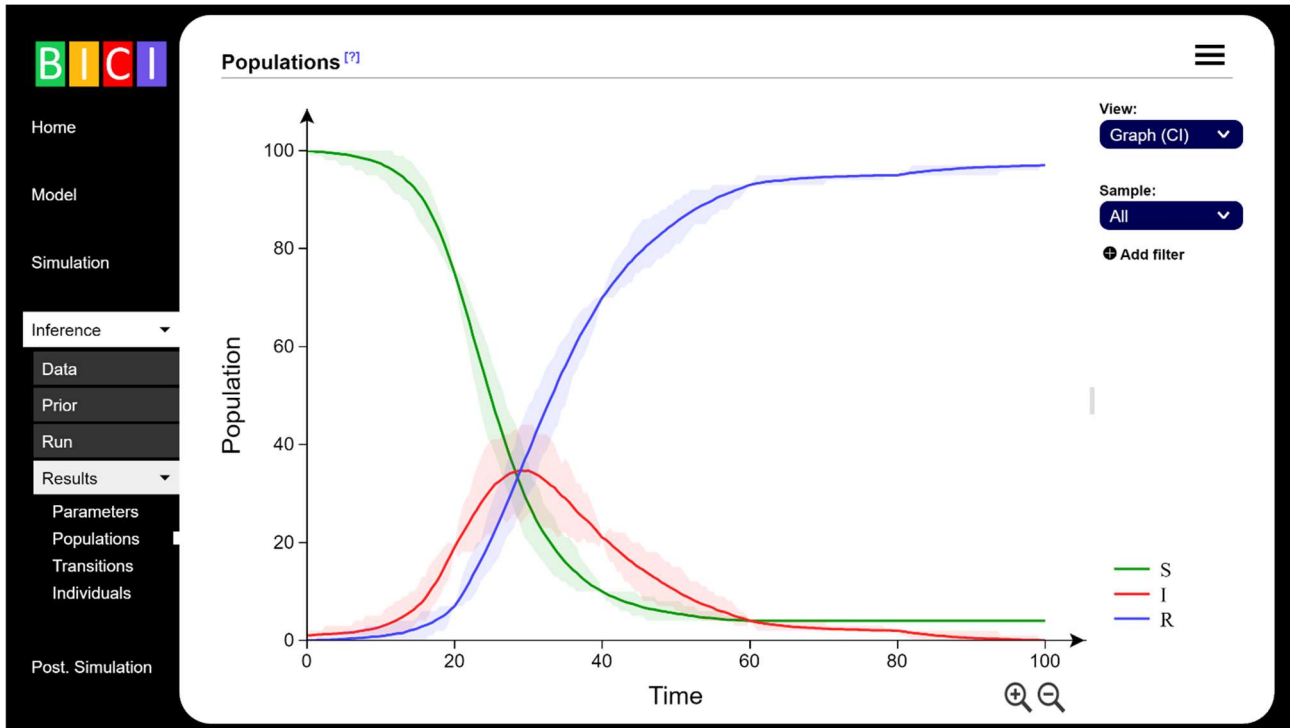


Figure 11 – *Population graph*. Shows the posterior distribution for the populations in different compartments as a function of time (solid lines give posterior means and shading gives 95% credible intervals). Various options on the right-hand menu are described in §4.4.2.

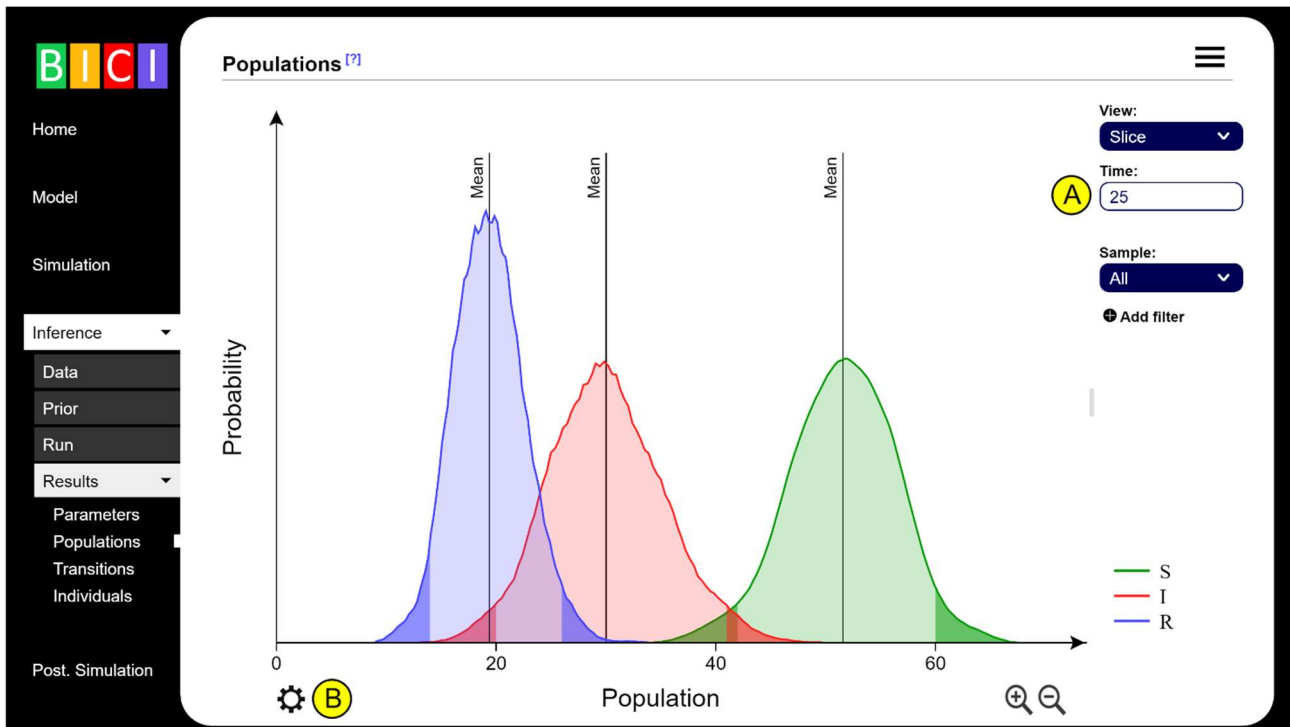


Figure 12 – *Time slice*. Provides the posterior distribution for populations at a specified time slice. A: Select the time, B: Under settings, either kernel density estimation (with a triangular kernel of specified size), or binning (with specified bin number) can be selected. Various options on the right-hand menu are described in §4.4.2.

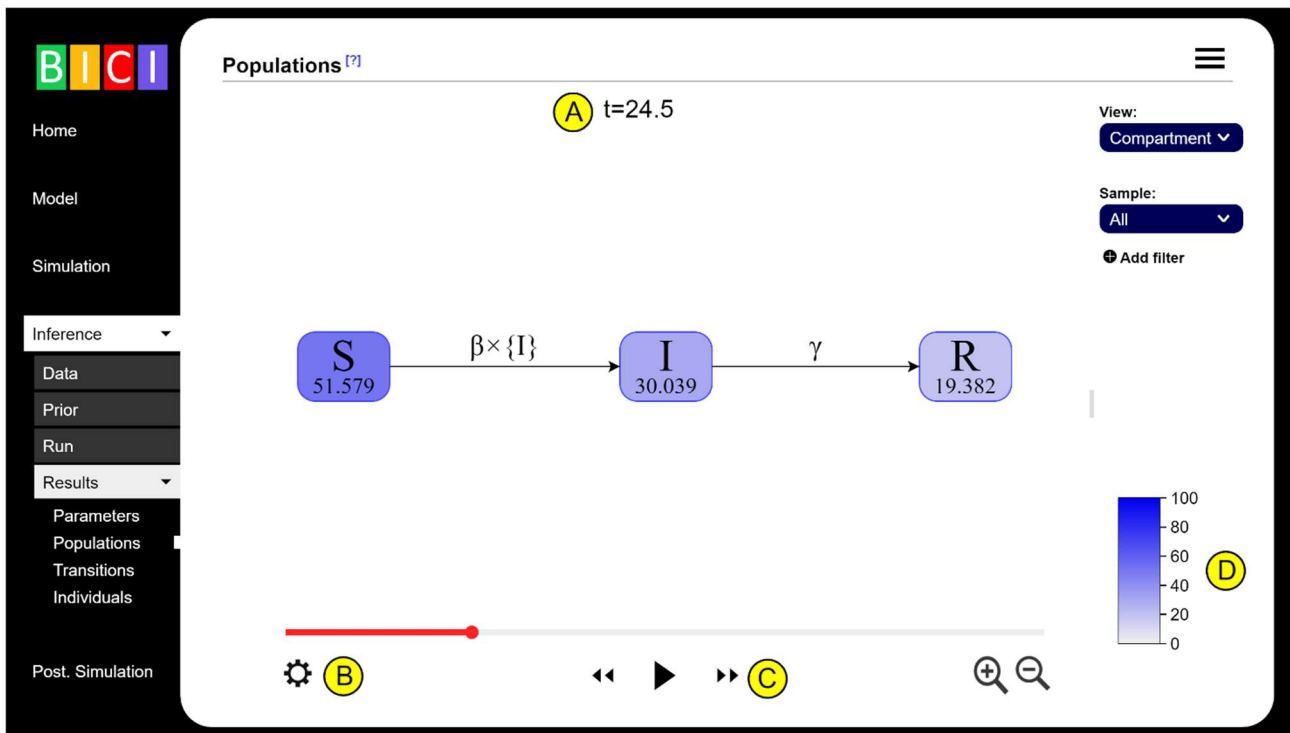


Figure 13 – *Compartment plot*. Shows an animation giving the posterior mean for the compartmental populations as a function of time. A: Shows the current time, B: Settings allow for the animation speed to be altered, C: The animation can be played, or stepped forwards or backwards, one frame at a time, D: Key for colour on compartments. Various options on the right-hand menu are described in §4.4.2.

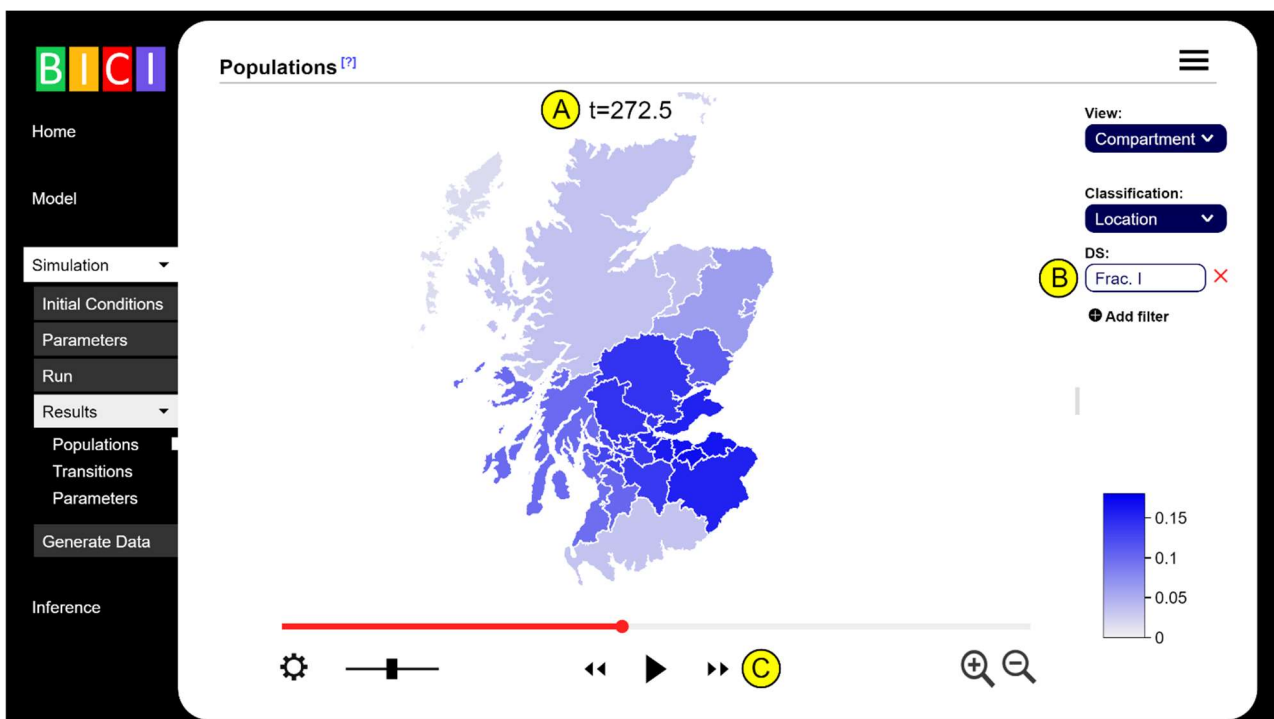


Figure 14 – *Geographical compartment plot*. When compartmental plots are made using geographical coordinates, they can be shown on maps. This shows an animation giving the posterior mean for the compartmental populations as a function of time. A: Shows the current time, B: This filter shows the fraction of infected individuals (*i.e.* the prevalence), C: The animation can be played, or stepped forwards or backwards, one frame at a time. Various options on the right-hand menu are described in §4.4.2.

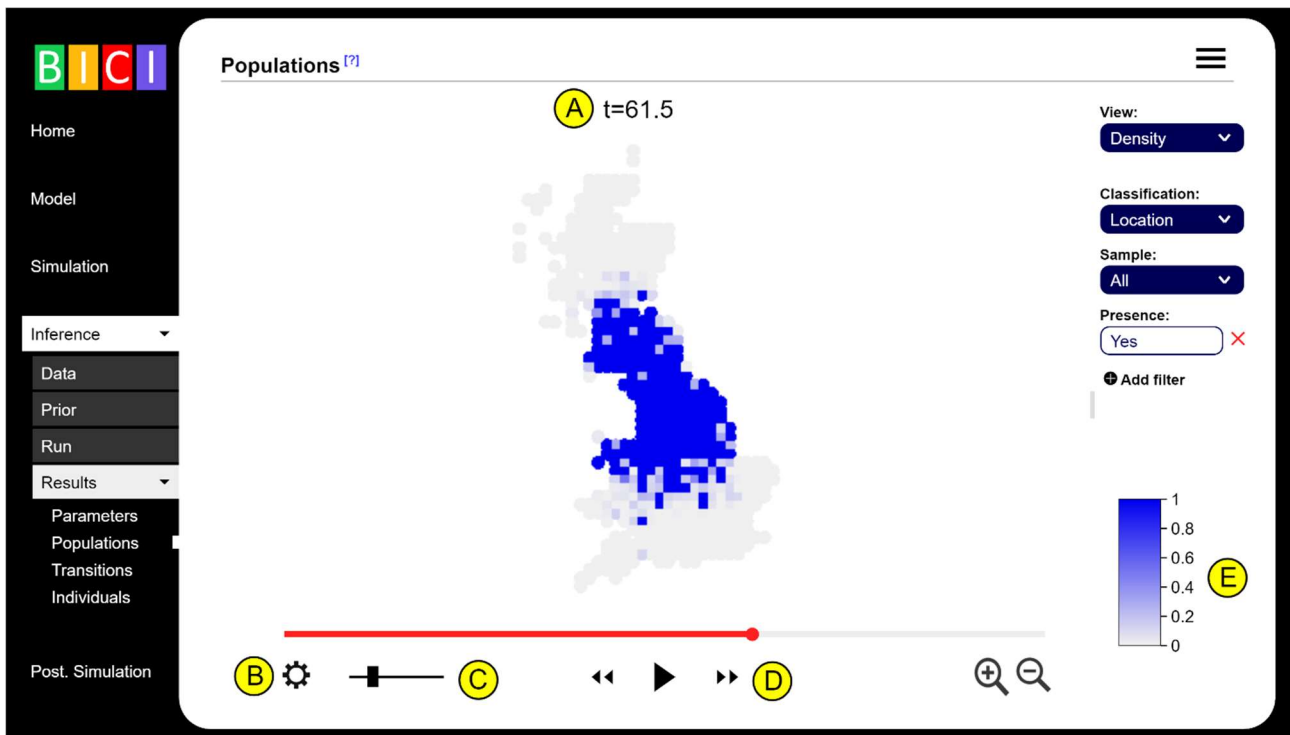


Figure 15 – Density plot. A density plot is like a compartment plot, but here circles are used (when overlapping they are clipped using Voronoi tessellation). This type of plot can be good for viewing the spread of disease over geographical points (e.g. farms). A: Shows the current time, B: Under settings the animation speed can be changed, C: This slider changes the size of the circles (which can be useful to improve the spatiotemporal visualisation), D: The animation can be played, or stepped forwards or backwards, one frame at a time, E: Key which relates the circle colours to population size. Various options on the right-hand menu are described in §4.4.2.

Appendix J: Transition visualisations

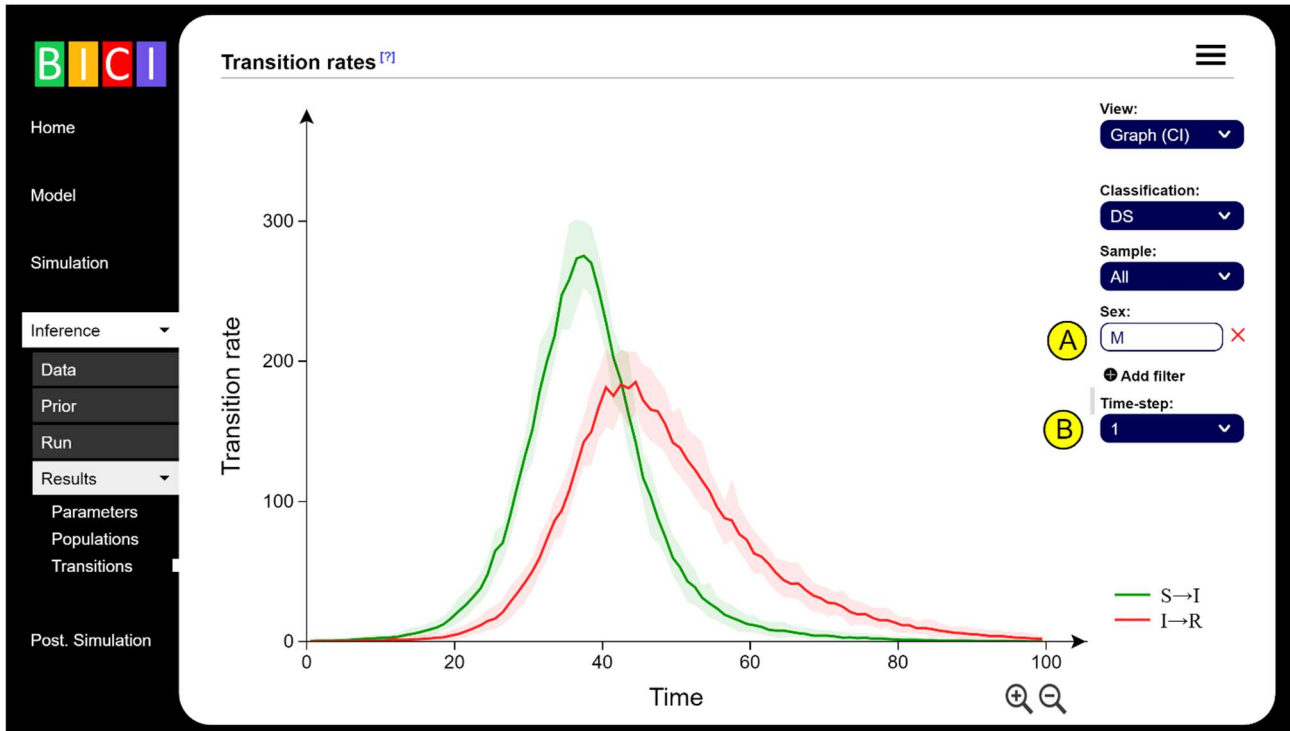


Figure J1 – *Transition rate plot*. This plots transition rates as a function of time (solid lines represent posterior means and shading represents 95% credible intervals). A: Population filters can be applied, in this case specifying males only (see §4.4.2 for details), B: The time-step can be altered (increasing this results in smoother plots but reduces temporal resolution).

Appendix K: Individual visualisations

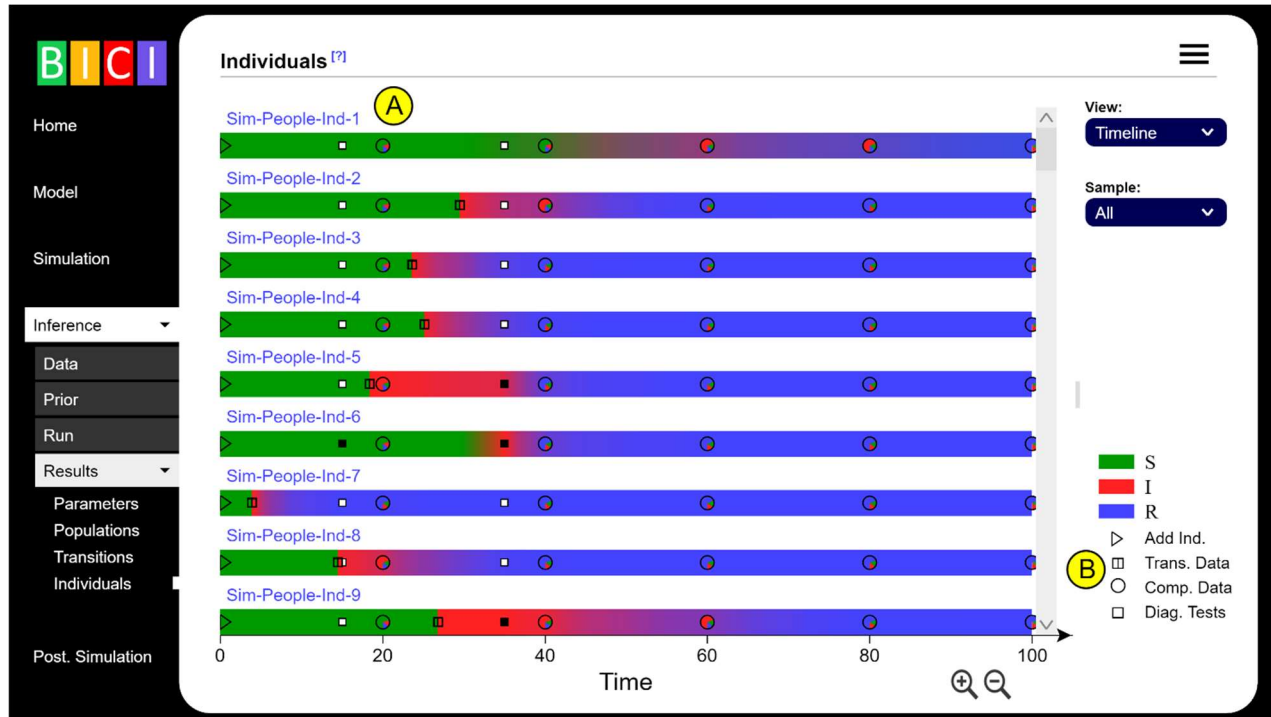


Figure K1 – Individual timelines. This summarises individual posterior state information. Each individual in the system has its own timeline. Compartments are colour coded (S=green, I=red and R=blue) according to a key. The gradations in colour reflect the mixing of compartmental colours in proportion to the posterior mean (e.g. a strongly red colour indicates that the individual is highly likely to be in the ‘I’ compartment). A: Timeline for individual with ID “Sim-People-Ind-1”, B: Different symbols represent different individual data types: right triangles show the addition of an individual, double rectangles denote transition data, circles represent compartmental data (where the small pie chart indicates the probability of being in the different compartments) and squares represent diagnostic test results (black/white indicating +ve/-ve).

ID	Add Ind.	Compartment: DS	Diag. Test: DS I Sc
Sim-People-Ind-1	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-2	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-3	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-4	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-5	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:+
Sim-People-Ind-6	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:++ t=35:+
Sim-People-Ind-7	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-8	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-9	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:+
Sim-People-Ind-10	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-11	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-12	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:+
Sim-People-Ind-13	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-14	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-15	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-
Sim-People-Ind-16	t=0	t=20 t=40 t=60 t=80 t=100	t=15:- t=35:-

Figure K2 – Table. All individual data and properties are collected into a table.

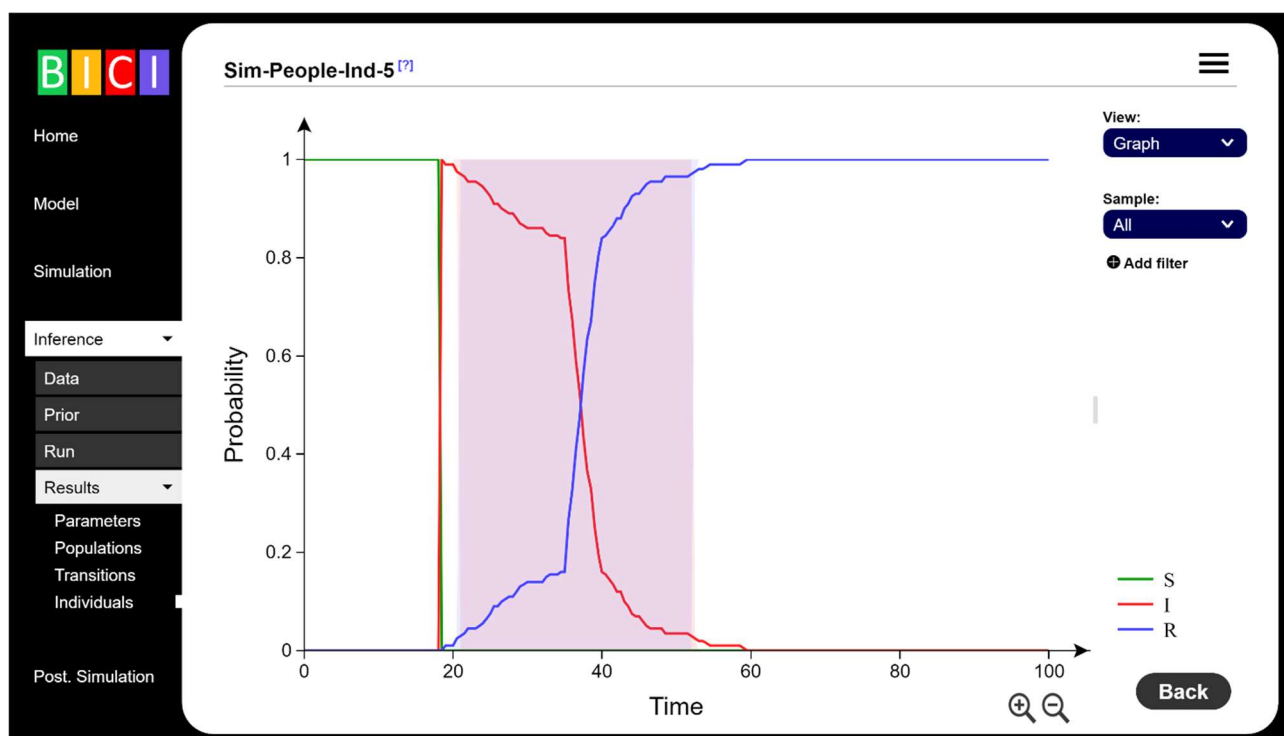


Figure K3 – *Graph of individual compartmental probabilities.* After an individual has been selected (Fig. F1A), this graph shows how the probability the individual is in the different compartments changes as a function of time (solid lines represent posterior means and shading represent 95% credible intervals).

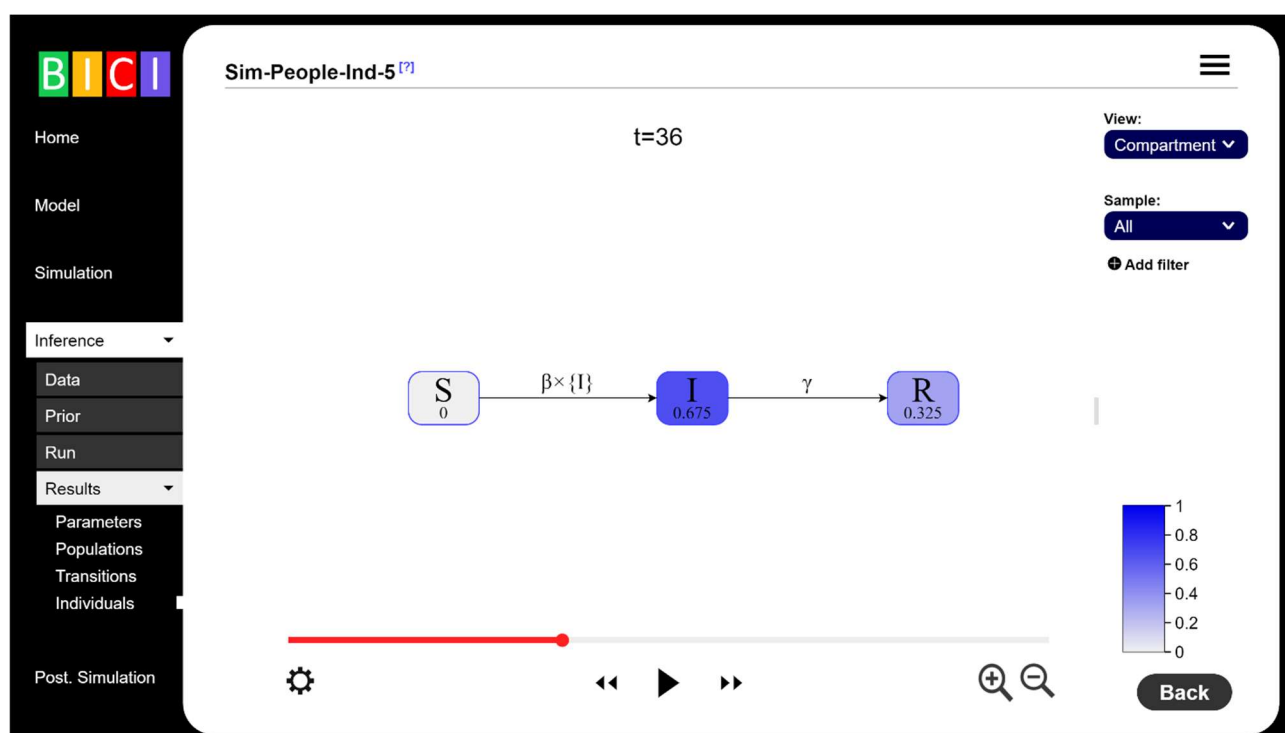


Figure K4 – *Individual compartment probabilities.* After an individual has been selected (Fig. F1A), this animation shows how the mean posterior probability that the individual is in the various compartments changes as a function of time. An analogous “density” plot is also available (see Fig. D5).

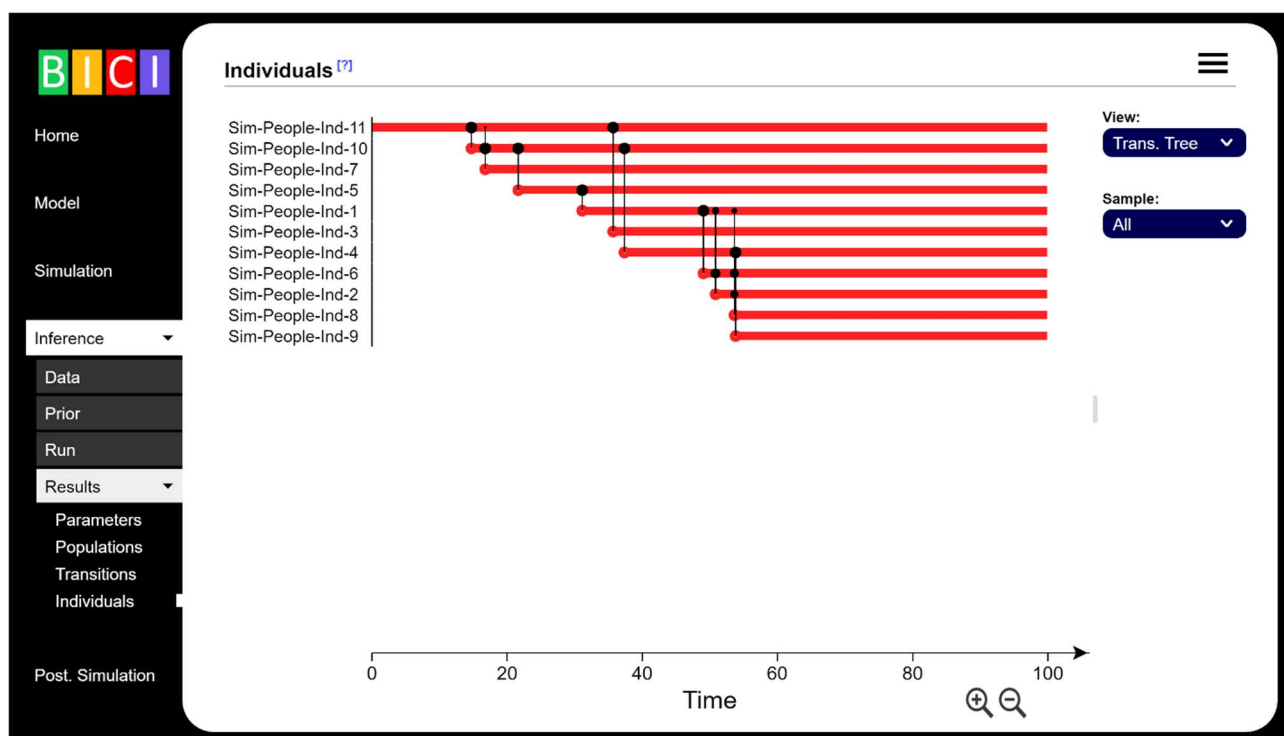


Figure K5 – Transmission tree. This shows who infects whom. Each individual has a timeline. The red lines indicate the period over which individual are infected. The black bars indicate the most likely individual and timing that caused the infection (with the size of the black circles indicating certainty).

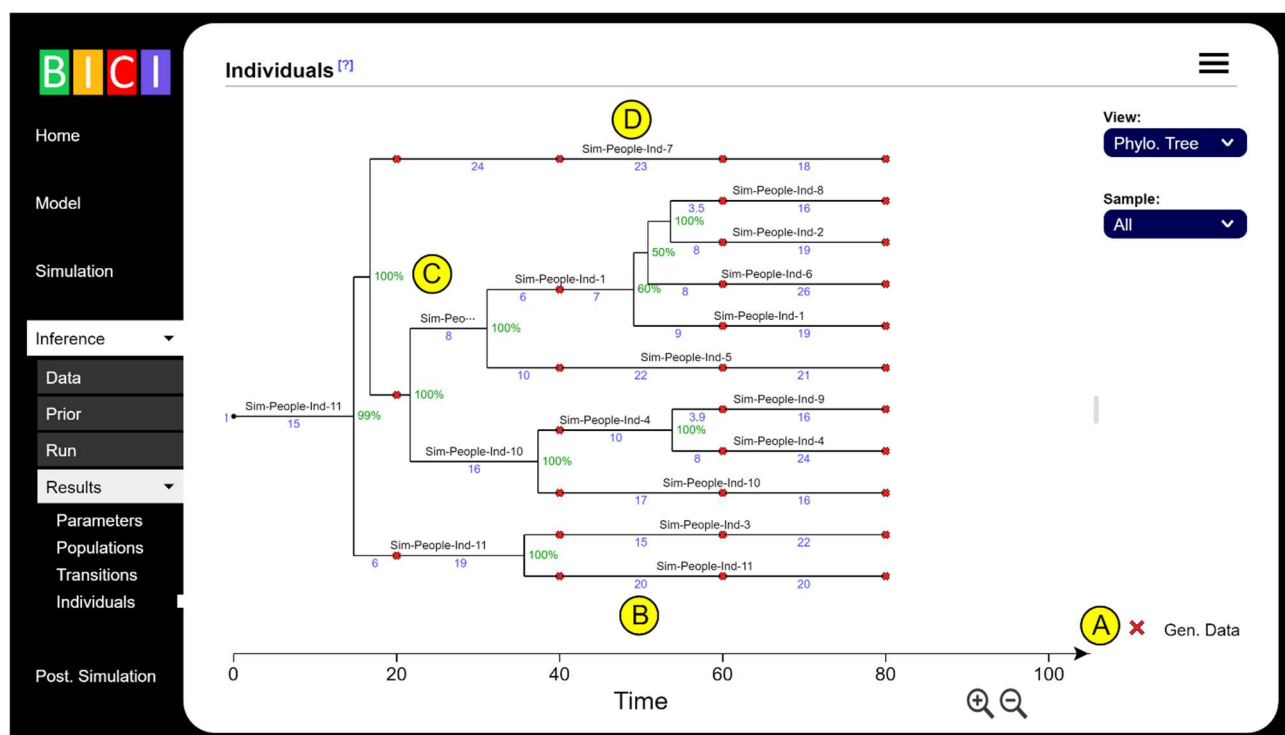


Figure K6 – Phylogenetic tree. This shows the relationship between the observed genetic data. A: The red crosses indicate the genetic observations of the pathogen, B: The blue figures represent the mean posterior number of mutations down a line segment, C: Green percentages show the posterior probability that this particular branching point occurs, D: Labels indicate the most likely pathogen host individual.

Appendix L: Specifications for simulating data

This appendix provides details for all the commands that can be used to simulate data through the 'data-sim' operation (note, properties under the "simulation tags" title are simulation-specific, whereas other properties are shared with the equivalent BICI-script command).

Command	Description
init-pop-inf	Sets the initial population for inference (note, focal and type are not specified here because this information is obtained from the simulated state). <i>E.g.</i> <code>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'init-pop-inf name="init. pop." '</code> <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Initial population"). SIMULATION TAGS: <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
add-ind-inf	Adds individuals to the system at specified times and into specified compartments. Note, this command is used for individual-based models only. <i>E.g.</i> <code>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'add-ind-inf name="Individuals" '</code> <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (by default set to "Added individuals"). SIMULATION TAGS: <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
remove-ind-inf move-ind-inf add-pop-inf remove-pop-inf	All these commands simply copy any information from the equivalent simulation command (<i>e.g.</i> 'add-ind-sim' data becomes 'add-ind-inf' data). <i>E.g.</i> <code>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'add-ind-inf name="individuals" '</code> <i>name</i> (optional) – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings (gets set by default). SIMULATION TAGS: <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
comp-data	Provides information about the compartment individuals are in at specified time points. <i>E.g.</i> <code>./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'comp-data name="DS obs." class="DS" dt="10" '</code> <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>class</i> – The name of the classification on which compartmental information is taken (not required if only one classification). SIMULATION TAGS: <i>dt</i> – Sets the periodicity of measurements. <i>times</i> – Sets a list of times over which measurements are made. <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present). <i>frac</i> (optional) – The fraction of observations actually made (by default set to 1).

	<i>ac</i> (optional) – Sets the accuracy of observations (by default set to 1). This specified value represents the probability p of observing the correct compartment. The remaining probability $1-p$ is equally distributed across all other compartments. For example, in an SIR model if $p=0.9$ and the true compartment is I, the simulated output would be 'S:0.05 I:0.9 R:0.05'.
trans-data	Provides information about the timings of observed individual transitions. <i>E.g.</i> ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'trans-data name="Male infections" trans="S->I" filter="Sex=M" obsrange="all" ' <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>trans</i> – The name of the transition being observed, which is made up of the initial compartment name, followed by '->' and the final compartment name. Source transitions use the '+' character, <i>e.g.</i> "+->S". Sink transition use the '-' character, <i>e.g.</i> "R->-". Multiple transitions can be observed, <i>e.g.</i> "E->A E->I" would imply that the observed transition would be one of these two possibilities. A probability can be assigned to observing the transitions, <i>e.g.</i> "S->I:0.3" would mean only a 30% probability of observing S→I transitions. <i>filter</i> (optional) – Filters the population being observed (this can apply to any classification apart from the one in which the transition occurs). In the example above, the measured sub-population contains only individuals in the 'M' compartment in classification 'Sex'. Multiple compartments are separated using the ' ' character, <i>e.g.</i> "Location=A C" would mean that the subpopulation includes those in either the A or C locations. The probability of observing the transition can also be given a factor, <i>e.g.</i> "Sex=M:0.4" means that the S→I transitions in M individuals are only observed with a 40% probability. Filtering can be done on more than one classification by comma separating, <i>e.g.</i> "Location=A, Sex=M" would mean that only transitions on male individual at location A are observed. <i>obsrange</i> (optional) – Determines how the observation period for the transition is specified ('all' by default). It can take the following possibilities: • "all" – This means that the transition is observed over the entire inference period. • "specify" – The start and end of the observation period are specified (see below). <i>start/end</i> (optional) – Used to specify the observation period when 'obsrange' is set to "specify". SIMULATION TAGS: <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
test-data	Adds disease diagnostic test data. <i>E.g.</i> ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'test-data comp="E[Se:0.3], I[Se:0.6]" Sp="0.99" dt="10" ' <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>comp</i> – Sets the compartment(s), comma separated, the test is sensitive to. After each compartment the test sensitivity is given in square brackets (this is a number between 0 and 1). <i>Sp</i> – The specificity of the test. This is a number between 0 and 1.

	<i>pos/neg</i> (optional) – Sets the text value in the data file used to represent a positive/negative test result (1/0 by default). SIMULATION TAGS: <i>dt</i> – Sets the periodicity of measurements. <i>times</i> – Sets a list of times over which measurements are made. <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present). <i>frac</i> (optional) – The fraction of observations actually made (by default set to 1).
genetic-data	Incorporates genetic sequence data into the analysis. <i>E.g.</i> ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'genetic-data name="Genetic data" type="snp" mut-rate="1.5" seq-var="3.2" dt=10 root="SNP" ' <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>type</i> – Provides the type of genetic data. There are two possibilities: • "matrix" – This makes use of a matrix of base-pair differences for a set of pathogen genetic observations. • "snp" – This makes use of raw SNP data for a set of pathogen genetic observations. <i>mut-rate</i> – Defines the mutation rate along the entire pathogen genome. <i>seq-var</i> – Defines the variation in SNP difference for pathogen strains entering the system. <i>root</i> (optional) – Gives the root name for the SNP in the file if 'type' is set to "snp". SIMULATION TAGS: <i>dt</i> – Sets the periodicity of measurements. <i>times</i> – Sets a list of times over which measurements are made. <i>data-times</i> – Uses a set of times from one (or more) data sources, <i>e.g.</i> data-times="deaths" where there is a data source with the name deaths. Multiple comma-separated data sources can be provided. <i>frac</i> (optional) – The fraction of observations made (by default set to 1). <i>nbp</i> (optional) – Sets the number of base pairs if 'type' is set to "snp".
pop-data	Adds population data to the analysis. <i>E.g.</i> ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'pop-data name="Infected population" filter="DS=I" error="normal:10%" ' <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>filter</i> (optional) – Filters subpopulation. In the example above, the measured subpopulation contains only individuals in the 'I' compartment in classification 'DS'. Multiple compartments are separated using the ' ' character, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=E I" would mean that the subpopulation includes those in either the E or I states. The fraction of individual observed can also be set, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=E:0.4 I:0.9" means that 40% of E individuals and 90% of I individuals are observed. Note, fractions can be larger than one because observations could represent something proportional to the number of infected individual (<i>e.g.</i> environmental pathogen concentration). Filtering can be done on more than one classification by comma separating, <i>e.g.</i> "DS=I, Sex=M" would mean that only male individual in the infected I state are observed. A filter can

	be placed into the data file using the 'file' keyword, <i>e.g.</i> "Location=file". In this case the file would contain a column with heading "Location" containing the filter. <i>error</i> (optional) – The observation error captures noise in the measurement process itself. This assumes that the observed value is drawn from a distribution with mean given by the true underlying value. There are three possibilities for this distribution: • Poisson – 'error' is set by "poisson". This has a variance equal to the mean. • Normal – This distribution can be chosen to have a variance less than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of two different ways: 1) As a percentage, <i>e.g.</i> "normal:10%" implies the standard deviation (SD) is 10% the mean, 2) As a SD, <i>e.g.</i> "normal:2.5" implies a fixed SD of 2.5. • Negative binomial – This distribution has a variance greater than the Poisson. It can be defined with a fixed p value, <i>e.g.</i> "neg-binomial:0.5" where $p=0.5$. SIMULATION TAGS: <i>dt</i> – Sets the periodicity of measurements. <i>times</i> – Sets a list of times over which measurements are made. <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
pop-trans-data	Adds aggregated population-level transition data to the analysis (<i>e.g.</i> the number of cases per week). <i>E.g.</i> ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'pop-trans-data name="Male infections" trans="S->I" filter="M" ' <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. <i>trans</i> – The name of the transition. Multiple transitions can be specified in the same classification, <i>e.g.</i> "E->A E->I" would mean that both 'E→A' and 'E→I' transition would both be counted in the observation. The fraction of observed transitions can also be applied, <i>e.g.</i> "S->I:0.5" would imply that only 50% of transitions are observed. <i>filter</i> (optional) – Filters subpopulation. This uses the same specification as 'filter' for 'pop-data'. Note, filtering cannot be performed on the classification in which the transition occurs. <i>error</i> (optional) – The observation error captures noise in the measurement process itself. This assumes that the observed value is drawn from a distribution with mean given by the underlying value. There are three possibilities for this distribution: • Poisson – 'error' is set by "poisson". This has a variance equal to the mean. • Normal – This distribution can be chosen to have a variance less than the Poisson. It can be defined in one of two different ways: 1) As a percentage, <i>e.g.</i> "normal:10%" implies the standard deviation (SD) is 10% the mean, 2) As a SD, <i>e.g.</i> "normal:2.5" implies a fixed SD of 2.5. • Negative binomial – This distribution has a variance greater than the Poisson. It can be defined with a fixed p value, <i>e.g.</i> "neg-binomial:0.5" which has $p=0.5$. SIMULATION TAGS: <i>dt</i> – Sets the periodicity of measurements. <i>times</i> – Sets a list of times over which measurements are made. <i>species</i> – Sets the species (if more than one species present).
ind-effect-data	Adds individual effect data.

	<i>E.g. ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'ind-effect-data name="True ind. eff." ie="g" '</i> <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, used for when generating errors or warnings. <i>ie</i> – The name of the individual effect.
ind-group-data	Defines a grouping of individuals. Note, this is not used in simulation or inference but rather allows for visualisation of specified groupings of individuals (<i>e.g.</i> sires, progeny) in the interface, as well as estimates of prediction accuracy for individual effects. <i>E.g. ./bici-core.exe file.bici data-sim 'ind-group-data name="Progeny" id="sire*" '</i> <i>name</i> – The name of the data source, as used when generating errors or warnings. SIMULATION TAGS: <i>id</i> – This defines an id what contains wildcards '*' within it. The grouping is defined by all individuals that match this description.

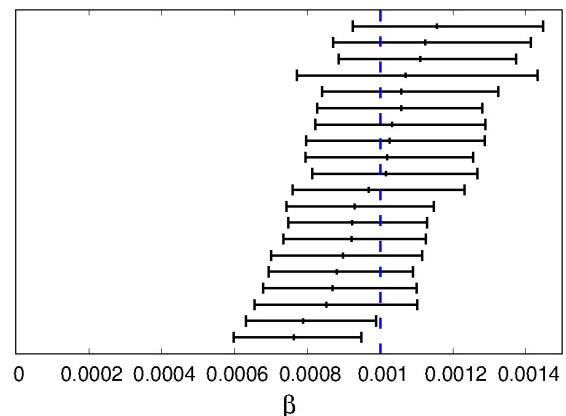
Appendix M: Simulation studies and validation

BICI provides two simple tools for generating different types of output:

Tornado plots

These are plots that assess how well model parameters are estimated given a certain type of data.

Twenty stochastic simulations are generated from the model, and each is used to create simulated data. Inference is then performed on these datasets (just as if they were real data) such that posterior estimates (means and 95% credible intervals) for each model parameter are generated. These estimates are then stacked, one on top of another, ordered by posterior mean, to generate the final plot (see right for an example). The name “tornado plot” is derived from the characteristic shape.



Here the blue dashed line represents the true value used to generate the data. Because the error bars represent 95% credible intervals, so it is expected that one, on average, is expected not to encompass the blue line (there are two instances in this example, at the bottom of the plot).

If large numbers of error bars are missing the blue line, or there is a notable systematic bias one way or another, this indicates that inference is not being performed reliably. This is usually due to a lack of MCMC convergence, which may be solved by running the inference algorithm for longer. This, however, may still not resolve the problem. For example, it is possible that the model being fit to the data is too complex, such that many completely different sets of parameter values are consistent with the data. This can lead to a fragmentation of the posterior space, such that MCMC chains easily become stuck in metastable states. Such a predicament is difficult to overcome. In this situation it is recommended that the model complexity is somehow reduced.

To generate tornado plots the following steps need to be followed:

- **Setup** – Set values for all model parameter in the ‘Simulation’ tab (as if a simulation is being performed). Select the inference algorithm in the ‘Inference’ tab along with the number of chains and updates (as if inference is being performed, but no data needs to be added and any existing data is ignored). Save the .bici file onto the Linux device (in the interface this is done by clicking on the menu icon in the top right-hand corner).

- **Initialisation** – This is done using the ‘tornado’ command. For example:

```
./bici-para dir/file.bici tornado 'ic' 'pop-data name="pop" filter="DS=file" dt=10 error="poisson"
```

Expressions after ‘tornado’ relate to what data is generated (this uses the same format as for the ‘data-sim’ command, details of which can be found in Appendix L). In this example, the initial condition is copied from the simulation, and population data is simulated with periodic time-step 10, stratified by classification DS and with a Poisson observation model.

Once run, this generates a new directory ‘dir/file_tornado/’ that stores the results from the analysis. Within this directory, the “run/” folder stores the 20 BICI-script files for each of the simulated runs.

- **Run** – Inference on each of the simulated datasets is performed by running the script file ‘file_script.sh’ (note, it may be necessary to make this executable using the command ‘chmod +x file_script.sh’). This simultaneously starts up 20 BICI runs in parallel. Inference must be completed before going to the next step (this can either be determined using the ‘top’ command or viewing the progress in the “op/” directory).
- **Results** – The ‘tornado-res’ command is used to gather information from the different runs to generate the final results. For example:

```
./bici-para dir/file.bici tornado-res
```

The following results are generated in “dir/file_tornado/”:

- *results.csv* – A table showing sorted runs (by posterior mean) with true parameter values, posterior means and 95% credible intervals.
- *ESS.csv* – The effective sample size for each parameter within each run (see §4.4.7). Values below 200 can indicate a lack of convergence, helping to explain potential problems with the tornado plots.
- *GR.csv* – The Gelman-Rubin statistic for each parameter within each run (see §4.4.7), if more than one MCMC chain is used. Values above 1.05 can indicate a lack of convergence, again helping to explain potential problems.

Furthermore, files are generated in the ‘gp/’ directory that allow for plots to be generated in gnuplot. Go to this directory and type ‘gnuplot gp.txt’ and ‘ps2pdf gp.ps gp.pdf’ to generate a pdf that can be viewed⁵⁵.

Tornado options

Two options can be changed:

Number of runs – Rather than running 20 replicates, the number of runs can be changed, e.g. to 10:

```
./bici-para dir/file.bici tornado: 'n=10' 'ic' 'pop-data name="pop" filter="DS=file" dt=10 error="poisson"
```

⁵⁵ Note, this generates plot in a 2x3 layout on the page (as might be suitable for a publication). Alternatively, one plot per page can be generated using ‘gnuplot gp_single.txt’ and ‘ps2pdf gp_single.ps gp_single.pdf’.

Parallel/serial – By default, all runs are done in parallel. This, however, can be too memory intensive for the computer. An alternative option is to run in series:

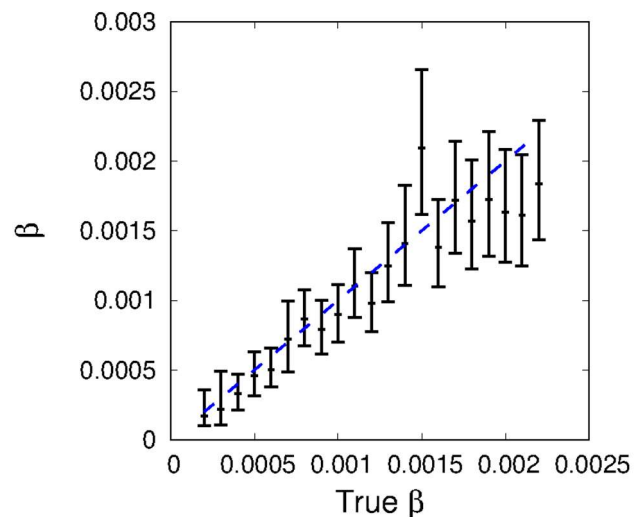
```
./bici-para dir/file.bici tornado:'series' 'ic' 'pop-data name="pop" filter="DS=file" dt=10 error="poisson"'
```

Parameter scan plots

These are plots that assess how well model parameters are estimated given a certain type of data over a range of values for a specified parameter.

A minimum and maximum are set along with a total number of points, and whether they are distributed equally on a normal or a logarithmic scale.

The details for scanning are much the same as for the tornado plots in the previous sections. Here we briefly account how these plots are generated:



- **Setup** – Set simulation parameter values and inference algorithm and save the .bici file.
- **Initialisation** – This is done using the ‘scan’ command. For example:

```
./bici-para dir/file.bici scan:'\beta range=0.0005,0.002 n=20 log=false' 'ic' 'pop-data name="pop" filter="DS=file" dt=10 error="poisson"'
```

Immediately following ‘scan:’ is a specification of the single parameter to be changed, the range of values scanned, the number of runs (by default $n = 20$) and whether a logarithmic scale is used (by default ‘log=false’). Expressions after ‘scan’ relate to what data is generated (this uses the same format as for the ‘data-sim’ command, details of which can be found in Appendix L). Note, this example is for a univariate parameter, but a single element of a multivariate parameter can also be scanned (*e.g.* in a sex dependent model β_M would scan over the transmission rate for males). As above, the ‘series’ option can be used to run different replicates in series rather than in parallel (to save computer memory).

Once run, this command generates a new directory ‘dir/file_scan_param/’ that stores the results from the analysis. Within this directory, the “run/” folder stores the BICI-script files for each of the simulated runs.

- **Run** – Inference on each of the simulated datasets is performed by running the script file ‘file_param_script.sh’ (note, it may be necessary to make this executable using the command ‘chmod +x file_param_script.sh’). This simultaneously starts the BICI runs in parallel. Inference must be completed before going to the next step (this can either be determined using the ‘top’ command, or viewing the progress in the “op/” directory).
- **Results** – The ‘scan-res’ command is used to gather information from the different runs to generate the final results. For example:

```
./bici-para dir/file.bici scan-res:'\beta'
```

Results are generated in “dir/file_scan_param/” with gnuplot files in the ‘gp/’ directory.